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# Talking Trojan: The poetics of the *Iliad*'s others

Mackie, Hilary Susan, Ph.D.

Princeton University, 1993

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# TALKING TROJAN: THE POETICS OF THE ILIAD'S OTHERS

Hilary Susan Mackie

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OF PRINCETON UNIVERSITY

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*To Mary Margaret McCabe*

## ABSTRACT

Talking Trojan: The Poetics of the Iliad's Others

Hilary Susan Mackie

Advisor: Professor Richard Martin

This dissertation explores the representation of the Trojans in Homer's Iliad. The argument is that Trojan language is anomalous from the viewpoint of Achaean discourse. Their rhetoric and the ethnographical organisation of speech in Trojan society characterise the Trojans as cultural "others", in some sense of the term. Achilles, an "other" amongst the Achaeans, displays an affinity for the Trojans, and his "misuse" of the genres of blame poetry and wisdom poetry formally parallel the Trojans' anomalous usages.

Achaean and Trojan discourse are each associated with a specific kind of social organisation. The types of speech-act and speech-genre used by the Trojans reflect the themes which the poet himself uses to depict the Trojans: praise poetry, the *oikos* and *xenia*. Trojan culture embodies an aristocratic lifestyle, linked with the Trojans' use of language which is "poetic" in the Jakobsonian sense. But the Achaeans make extensive use of the language of blame poetry, and the Achaean army, which is represented as a single cohesive community, is kept in order by the ritual use of blame.

Chapter 1 contrasts the representations of Achaean and Trojan assembly meetings and meetings of the elders, and compares the ways in which Trojan and Achaean warriors use language *en masse*.

Chapter 2 focusses on the face-to-face encounters between pairs of individual warriors. In one-on-one conversations too, Achaeans and Trojans are differentiated by style and choice of speech-genre. Trojans tend not to engage in traditional heroic fighting talk ("flyting"), although they sometimes use this genre in idiosyncratic ways. They also deploy other genres - supplication, genealogical narrative and the wonder tale - to distract their Achaean opponents from fighting.

Chapter 3 considers the language of Hektor in conjunction with the sociological structure of the Trojan army. Hektor's language is particularly "poetic", formal and introspective. His abstracted conversational style represents iconically his relationship with the allies.

The fourth chapter describes the representation of the Achaean community, and explores the ways in which Achilles' language is anomalous and subversive. The problematics of the poem's closure, or lack of closure, are discussed at the end of the chapter.

# INTRODUCTION

## *HOMER AND THE TROJANS*

### *The Humanists and the Barbarians*

It has frequently been claimed that the greatness of Homeric poetry resides in its sublimely impartial perspective on the Trojan War. The poet's lofty point of view collaborates with his deep humanity to transcend the conflict between the Greeks and the Trojans. Simone Weil writes that the poet of the Iliad was so fair-minded that one could hardly guess whether he was Greek or Trojan;[1] Jaeger, that Homer gives some of the noblest lines of the poem to Hektor, who appears "all the more deeply human just because he dies fighting for Troy".[2] Similarly, the encounter and exchange between Glaukos and Diomedes in Iliad 6 provokes a contemporary critic to assert: "The scene posits and at the same time proves the existence of a universal humanity, characterised by a reverence for fatherhood and all that is implied by genealogy, which places the Trojan War in perspective. Like the individuals that may be referred to by Glaukos' leaf simile, nations too will pass away; man, however, will prevail".[3] The unspoken implication seems to be that a Homeric ethos of universal humanity not only diplays an unwillingness to "take sides", but has, furthermore, no interest in the representation of cultural difference.

The Iliad has not always been read this way. In one place, one of the Alexandrian scholiasts notes: ἀεὶ φιλέλλην ὁ ποιητής -[4] "the poet always displays a Greek bias".[5] It has

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[1]Weil 1989 (1940-41) p. 250:"L'extraordinaire équité qui inspire l'Iliade a peut-être des exemples inconnus de nous, mais n'a pas eu d'imitateurs. C'est à peine si l'on sent que le poète est grec et non troyen".

[2]Jaeger 1939 pp.43-44.

[3]Atchity 1978 p.6.

[4]Schol. BTK14.

[5]Eustathius too; - cf. 800.45:"Εκτωρ μεγαλιζόμενος διὰ τὸ βαρβαρικὸν καὶ τύραννον.

been argued that the Alexandrian commentators display a tendency to project a highly exaggerated and also completely anachronistic concept of the "barbarian" onto the Homeric texts.[6] And it has been pointed out that the nineteenth-century reading of the Iliad's Trojans as disorderly, untrustworthy barbarians in need of discipline tells us more about contemporary European imperialism than about Homer.[7] But must we conclude from these examples of biassed quests for bias by others that there is *no* sense and *no* manner in which the Trojans of the Iliad are perceived as different from their Greek opponents, and that the Greeks of the archaic period, before the Persian Wars, entirely lacked the opposed concepts of self *versus* "other" ? Can we really believe, especially given the *tradition* of a war against Troy, that the Persian Wars suddenly brought into Greek consciousness a novel conception of their Eastern neighbours as at once alien and also, perhaps, potentially threatening ?

More recently than Simone Weil and Jaeger, scholars have tended to use the supposedly innocent and undifferentiated representation of the Trojans in the Iliad, as an effective contrast to the systematic stereotyping of the Persians as barbarians in the period after the Persian Wars. One of the most recent books on the subject is Edith Hall's *Inventing the Barbarian.* The author, like many other contemporary scholars, argues that non-Greeks from the East only began to construe Asiatic non-Greeks as "others" in the fifth century. The rise of Persia caused a heightening of Hellenic self-consciousness which caused the idea of the barbarian to emerge as the polar opposite in terms of which Greek identity could be defined. A wealth of cultural phenomena, especially in the realm of contemporary art, does indeed attest to the prevalence of this ideology in the later period. Sara Morris accounts for certain trends in early classical painting, poetry and history by

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[6]Hall 1989 p.24. Cf. Van der Valk 1953. He notes the way Ajax's moderateness is opposed to Hektor's "vainglorious" attitude by the BT scholia at 7.192; 227, at 13.810 and at 14.502, and that the depiction of Paris is even more unfavourable in the scholia than in the text.

[7]Hall 1989 p.21.

describing them as "responses to a new historical experience [the aftermath of the Persian Wars] that demanded new cultural expressions".[8] And William Tyrrell, writing on the development of the Amazon myth, notes that although Amazons first enter Athenian history at some point after 575 BC,[9] the myth takes on a new life in an atmosphere of antipathy towards the Persians and other foreigners the Greeks call *barbaroi* . Through the assimilation of Persians to Amazons, the former are characterised as a soft nation, emasculating their men and virilifying their women.[10]

Edith Hall, too, provides a fascinating and informative discussion of the ways in which Persians were represented in Athenian tragedy. But in her preliminary overview of pre-Classical ideology she leaps too hastily to the conclusion that the Iliad depicts Trojan civilisation as an exact replica of Greek, because in the earlier period there was no Greek bias against foreigners. The only real difference she finds between Achaeans and Trojans in the Iliad is that the poet is more interested in the domestic life of the Trojans.[11] Her general view is that "the heroic world remains homogeneous, its inhabitants of more or less uniformly heroic status".[12] It is this notion that I wish to contest. It also seems worth pointing out that a lack of bias and a "homogenous" representation of foreigners are not mutually exclusive alternatives - the representation of cultural difference does not *necessarily* entail bias or chauvinism. On the other hand, against the implicit conception of Homeric poetry as apolitical, I would like to point out that arguments have been made to the effect that Homeric poetry had a political and social role to play in the archaic period which might well influence its viewpoint with reference to non-Greek culture. Most people still agree that the Homeric poems were achieving the form in which we have them some time in

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[8]Morris 1992 p.286.
[9]Tyrrell 1984 p.2.
[10]Ibid. p.63.
[11]Hall 1989 pp.30-31.
[12]Hall 1989 p.19.

the eighth century B.C.,[13] a period in which archaeologist Anthony Snodgrass connects the evolution of the Greek *polis* with evidence of widespread exchange of precious objects amongst the élite of various city-states.[14] Gregory Nagy takes up Snodgrass' conclusions, and suggests that both Homeric poems are imbued with an ***ethos*** of Panhellenism - a spirit of Greek interstate organisation evident in eighth century institutions like the Olympic Games and the Delphic Oracle.[15] If this is so, it can hardly be irrelevant that the Iliad depicts a host of Greek forces, from numerous cities, and assembles them at Troy to confront the enemy in the East. Nagy's idea is that the Iliad is a poem which simultaneously incorporates and transcends the diverse traditions of individual Greek states. The ethos Nagy calls the "Panhellenic nature" of Homeric poetry seems only too likely to prompt a characterisation of Eastern non-Greeks as alien and different. In the chapters which follow, I demonstrate the results of my exploration of this possibility.

### *Constructing "Otherness"*

If the Iliad represents Trojans from the East as "others", its method is plainly more subtle than that of Herodotus. For while the Herodotean mirror openly reflects the Scythians' (and the other others') cultures as a reversed image of Greek culture,[16] the Iliad - as Hall perceives - constructs its Trojans on a framework which makes them look at first

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[13]Some, however, are finding favour again with the notion of a sixth century recension of the text by Pisistratus, and with the alleged decree of Pisistratus that the poems be recited at Panhellenic festivals by rhapsodes in relays. The earliest source for this view are some lines (controversially) attributed to the Megarian historian Dieuchidas *apud* Diogenes Laertius (1.57). Plato (Hipparchus 228B) tells the same story of Hipparchus. Another view follows the extant text of Diogenes more closely in attributing the establishment of the rhapsodic recitations to Solon. Much later Cicero (De Or. 3.137) refers to Pisistratus "assembling the previously scattered songs of Homer". For discussion see Pfeiffer 1968 pp.6-7, Merkelbach 1952 and Davison 1955. The recension and the recitations would constitute another manifestation of the political and ideological role played by the Homeric poems.

[14]Snodgrass 1971 pp.421; 435.

[15]Nagy 1979 p.7.

[16]Cf. Hartog 1988. To describe cultural difference, Herodotus sets up an opposition which is then immediately expressed as a reversal, and this strategy is applied even on the geographical or meteorological level. Scythian winters are different (separate: *kechôristai* ) from the winters in other countries; the difference is expressed in terms of the opposition dry / wet (pp.27-28).

sight like the Achaeans. But of course there are many different ways of defining oneself in opposition to "others". Geertz draws our attention to the way an ethnographer is constantly working with his or her own "constructions of other people's constructions of what they and their compatriots are up to".[17] When we examine the way one culture views and represents another, we are inevitably, in Geertz's words, "already explicating: and worse, explicating explications".[18] Greenblatt's studies, for example, demonstrate that European voyagers to the New World tended to find there "others" who provoked *wonder* in those who discovered them - "- thrilling, potentially dangerous, momentarily immobilising, charged at once with desire, ignorance, and fear - ".[19]

An analysis of the Iliad in terms of "self" and "other" cannot fail to take into account, both the great significance of language in Greek culture,[20] and the context of representation: the medium in which the representation of the Trojans is fashioned. The Iliad is a product of verbal art which bears many stylistic resemblances to poetic works from other traditions which we know are composed at public performances. I think it follows from this that such a work is likely to privilege language as a representational mode. Compare Simon Goldhill's work on "self-reflexivity" in Greek poetry, and his discription of the Odyssey "highlighting the role of and functioning of language itself".[21] In the same way the Iliad, an act of oral communication composed in performance, foregrounds the oral performances of its heroes.[22] Richard Martin demonstrates that in the

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[17]Geertz 1973 p.9.

[18]Geertz 1973 p.9.

[19]Greenblatt 1988 p.20.

[20]Hall notes that the fifth-century Greeks were exceptional in the extent to which they privileged language in the establishment of their own identity in opposition to the "barbarians" (Hall 1989 pp.4-5). I think that even in a text as early as the Iliad, the representation of Trojan "otherness" focusses on Trojan language.

[21]Jakobson 1960 p. 356; Goldhill 1991 p.1. Goldhill also discusses the representations of bards in the Odyssey and the ways in which Odysseus is repeatedly likened to a poet.

[22]But see Martin 1989 pp.91ff. for argument that the Iliad's emphasis on speech is not simply poetic; some traditional cultures place great emphasis on speech-performance in everyday life.

culture of the heroes of the Iliad, "style is the man": construction of character is located in the individual heroes' idiosyncratic uses of formulaic language.[23]

My working principle is that the same poetic technique operates on the level of culture as well as on the level of the individual. Homeric poetry foregrounds Trojan "otherness" by foregrounding Trojan verbal performances as strange and different, in terms of their genre as well as in terms of their style. The Trojans use language in ways which are bizarre and anomalous, from the viewpoint of Achaean discourse. Speech-contexts are also differently organised. Hall sees only that the institutions of civic debate are common to both sides (Hektor and Agamemnon both hold general assemblies and have advisory councils of elders).[24] But I shall demonstrate first of all that when we investigate the elaboration of Greek and Trojan assemblies, the two cultures start to look quite different. In fact, the organisation of speech at mass gatherings of Trojans might tempt us to let the Trojans fall into Greenblatt's first broad category of cultural "otherness" : "that which is unformed or chaotic (the absence of order)".[25] However, I hope that in the course of my demonstration it will become clear that the representation of the Trojans in the Iliad is more subtle and more complicated than an initial likeness of that kind suggests.

### *Character and Homeric Style*

The Homeric poems were originally oral works composed in performance. This must affect our critical approach to the style of verbal performances represented in the poetry. The most recent extended discussion of the question of style in oral literature is John Foley's. Critical of scholars who rigidly advocate either a "mechanistic" or an "aesthetic" approach to oral poetry, he argues that the dichotomy is false:"formulaic"

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[23]Here and in what follows, I use the phrase "Trojan [or Achaean] society" to refer to the group formed by the Trojan [orAchaean] *army*, and to refer to the *whole* of Trojan or Achaean society interchangeably. This is because I understand the poet of the Iliad to be presenting the army on each side as a microcosm of the civilisation to which it pertains.

[24]Hall 1989 p.15.

[25]Greenblatt 1980 p.9.

should not imply "without style". But the nature of style in oral works does differ from literary style. The difference is located in the generation of meaning. The formulas of oral works have "conferred" meaning, while words in a literary work have "inherent" - referential - meaning. Traditional formulas acquire complex sets of connotations from the traditional tales they are used to tell. The same formulas, when used in new contexts, "confer" meaning metonymically through the sets of connotations associated with them.[26] As an example, Foley argues that the formula πυκιν ὸν ἔπος - "a stout word of wisdom" - implies at its every appearance that a message is being contemplated of import great enough, were it properly delivered, to change the present course of events.[27]

Certain formulas are appropriate to certain kinds of context: Holoka demonstrates that the formula ὑπόδρα ἰδών - "looking from beneath the brow" - conventionally introduces a speech which constitutes an angry reaction on the part of a social superior to a subordinate's infraction of propriety. The speech-situation can be categorised as a traditional Homeric confrontation in which insult provokes response.[28] Formulas can distinguish different types of speech-act,[29] and, as Richard Martin demonstrates, shared diction - shared formulaic language - can indicate common genre.[30] Discussion of the Trojans' use of formulas will play a crucial role in determining whether their style and genre-use match or contrast with those of the Achaeans.

In other words, the positioning and recombining of individual words at the microcosmic level creates an impression of difference at the macrocosmic level. Characterisation in oral poetry is not static and unsophisticated, as some have tried to suggest - an opinion which seems to originate in Milman Parry's idea that the function of traditional language was a rather simple one: to conjure up the general atmosphere of a lost

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[26]Foley 1991 pp.2-9.
[27]Foley 1991 pp.154-156
[28]Foley 1991 p.143 on Holoka 1983 p.4.
[29]Foley 1991 p. 28 on Parry 1933.
[30]Martin 1984.

heroic culture. Even William Whallon's modification of Parry's conclusion is only that: certain epithets are used most often of certain characters because: "the epithets describe the *essential* and *unchanging* [italics mine] character of the men whose names they augment".[31] There seems to be a sturdy resistance to assigning oral poetry anything but the crudest facility for the construction of character. Dickson, in an otherwise subtle analysis of Mediation in the Iliad, issues the *caveat* that we should not be tempted to grant priority to *ethos* in oral poetry (which he sees as a flexible set of contextual constraints), over *context.* [32] In other words, he is somewhat reluctant to ascribe oral poetry even the broad category of character-type which he himself identifies,[33] preferring to highlight a more basic scheme of Proppian functions such as Crisis, Mediation and Response. The general assumption is that dictional repetitions result in broad uniformity and universalisation of character.[34] I trust that my investigation will expose this as a fallacy. The creative medium of Homeric poetry has a huge capacity for the expression of difference. The Iliad uses this capacity to express and portray difference to emphasise *ethnic* difference, representing the conflicts and confrontations *between* different cultures as well the quarrels which occur within them.

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[31]Whallon 1969. Whallon is countering Parry's claim that the epithets are not used for their own sake, but to bring nouns to standardised lengths.

[32]Dickson 1990.

[33]By "character-type", Dickson seems to mean something like "type-character", as understood on the analogy of "type-scene".

[34]Cf. Gill 1990 p.10, of characterisation in the Odyssey: "The placing of figures in an ethical framework is promoted by the use of approbatory stock epithets on the one hand.....and disapprobatory adjectives on the other".

# CHAPTER 1

## *KOSMOS AND CLAMOUR: ASSEMBLING THE TROOPS*

### *Trojan Assemblies and the Skêptron*

It is a striking feature that Hektor is not holding a sceptre when he addresses the Trojan assembly at 8.496. The poet's choice of wording when he describes Hektor's stance at the Trojan assembly of 8.496ff. is extremely suggestive. τῷ ὅ γ' ἐρεισάμενος is the phrase which reproduces Hektor's attitude as he leans on his spear; but an identical half-line in Book 2 accounts for Agamemnon's stance as he leans on a *sceptre* (2.109). The poet makes conspicuous Hektor's want of a sceptre, and the fact that he relies upon a spear where a sceptre should have been.

Jasper Griffin cites the scholiast's comment - "It is effective that he speaks not holding a sceptre but the symbol of valour". Effective, yes, but not in the good and glorious way the scholiast's comment implies. When he leans on a spear instead of a sceptre, Hektor's careless stance betrays his speech as ill-founded - based on a misplaced authority. And this is just what Poulydamas' criticism at 18.726 also implies.[1] Poulydamas accuses Hektor of entertaining the misguided belief that because he is a superior warrior, that makes him the best of the Trojans at speech and counsel too. Poulydamas' criticism clarifies the significance of what Jasper Griffin notices at this point in Book 8: that Hektor does not give a speech of counsel, but issues a series of military orders which are obeyed without discussion.[2]

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[1]Cf. Moreau 1893 p.224:"Hector parle appuyé sur la lance de onze coudées. Par contre, Télémache, qui est allé à l'*agora* sa lance à la main (B 10) reçoit le sceptre pour parler. On a déja aperçu la difference entre les deux cas. L'assemblée troyenne est purement militaire, inopinée de plus; elle ne saurait suivre le cérémonial ordinaire. L'*agora* ithacienne est normale; il n'y a pas de raison pour que Télémache garde la lance au lieu de prendre le sceptre."

[2]Griffin 1980 p.13.

Although there are many references to sceptres in the Iliad, very few of the sceptres referred to turn up in the hands of Trojans.[3] Yet the sceptre clearly has tremendous significance as a motif in the poem. In Book 1, Achilles devotes six lines to an account of the Achaeans' sceptre, and its origins as a leafy bough, before he swears his oath by it. And the object is a prop which enjoys centre-stage in Book 2 as the implement Odysseus wields and crushes the *demos* with.

If the sceptre is a significant motif in the Iliad, that is because of its social import. The sceptre sanctions the king's right of speech, which is buttressed by the ***themistes*** of Zeus. Without a sceptre, Trojan speech, and especially Hektor's, is dangerously unsanctioned. And under Hektor, the Trojans transform the assembly - a forum for counsel, strategy, speeches and above all argument - unrecognisably: at a Trojan assembly, conflict resolution, decision-making and argument yield to the brusque issuing of military commands.

### *Hektor's Nocturnal Assemblies*

The want of a sceptre symbolises speech at Hektor's assemblies as ill-founded and unsound at the centre. The instability extends to the timing and location of Trojan assemblies. Here too, Hektor, calling his men to the gatherings, breaks all the proper conventions. For the most part, Achaean assemblies, like those of the Athenian democracy, meet shortly after dawn (cf. Book 2 and Book 9).[4] But the Trojans more than

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[3] All *unidentified* references are to Achaean heroes holding, wielding or talking about sceptres. Book 1:15; 28; 234; 245; 374. Book 2:46; 101; 186; 199; 206; 265; 268; 279. Book 3: 218 (the Trojan elders say Odysseus holds the sceptre like an ἀϊδρεϊ φωτὶ. Book 6. 159. Book 7.277(the Trojan and Achaean heralds meet; both hold sceptres to speak). Book 9.38; 99; 156; 298. Book 10.321 (Dolon asks Hektor to swear by the sceptre); 328 (Hektor does so). Book 18. 416 (Hephaistos supports himself with a staff); 505 (the heralds in the city on Achilles' shield hold sceptres). Book 23.568. We only once see Hektor holding a sceptre, in Book 10, and here he only uses it at the request of one of his subjects. Dolon makes Hektor swear that he will truly administer the reward of a pair of horses, promised to the Trojan warrior prepared to go as a spy to the Achaean ships. With what could be a telling gesture, Hektor raises the sceptre only to swear an "empty oath" : "Ως φάτο καί ῥ' ἐπίορκον ἐπώμοσε (10.332).

[4]Finley (1977 p.80) points out that assemblies in the Odyssey are held right after dawn. At 8.1ff. Zeus holds an assembly of the gods at dawn.

once hold an assembly after sunset, in Books 18 (18.241: ἠέλιος μὲν ἔδυ) and 8 (8.485: ἐν δ' ἔπεσ' Ὠκεανῷ λαμπρὸν φάος ἠελίοιο, / ἕλκον νύκτα μέλαιναν ἐπὶ ζείδωρον ἄρουραν ).[5]

An evening assembly is marked as such by the formula with which it is dismissed. In Book 18, Hektor tells his assembled soldiers: νῦν μὲν δόρπον ἕλεσθε κατὰ στρατὸν ἐν τελέεσσι (18.298); Priam, similarly in Book 7, tells the Trojans: νῦν μὲν δόρπον ἕλεσθε κατὰ πτόλιν, and the poet recaps: δόρπον ἔπειθ' εἵλοντο κατὰ στρατὸν ἐν τελέεσσιν, as he also does in Book 18 (18.314 = 7.380). Amongst the Achaeans, however, the early morning meetings are dispersed with instructions for the troops to make ready the *deipnon*, - "breakfast" - not *dorpon*, the evening meal (2.381; 19.171).[6] In addition, Trojan nocturnal assemblies are characterised by complete abandonment of orthodox procedure. The warriors do not meet at the proper assembly-place, a space set aside for such meetings, but haphazardly in the middle of the battlefield, "in a place where the ground is clear of falling corpses".[7] No-one dares sits down, though sitting is the Greek norm.[8] In the account of the assembly in Book 8 too, where the conventions of the assembly type-scene lead us to expect a line which reports that the soldiers sat down for the meeting,[9] we get instead a line which describes the Trojans leaping from their horses to the ground. In other words, they must remain standing, to hold the horses.

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[5]The Trojans hold one early morning assembly, paired with the Achaean gathering of Book 2. But unconventional Trojan assemblies are more fully elaborated.

[6] The exception is the Achaean assembly of Book 9, held while the Trojans keep watch by the fires and wait till dawn (cf. 8.553-565). Here the Achaeans are seized by panic, and Agamemnon grief-stricken; the assembly concludes like a Trojan one, with Nestor's injunction that the troops disperse to prepare *dorpon* (9.65-66).The full formula also occurs in one of Nestor's tales: δόρπον ἔπειθ' ἑλόμεσθα κατὰ στρατὸν ἐν τελέεσσι. - 11.730.

[7]Griffin (1980 p.13) says that there is an Achaean parallel for this in Book 10 (cf. line 199), but this is not an assembly; - it is a meeting of the elders.

[8]Kirk worries about what the Achaeans sit *on* for the assembly of Book 1 (Kirk 1985 p.60) ; but the question of whether or not sitting is feasible is irrelevant: the formulaic language captures the traditional practice of sitting at the assembly. Compare the formulaic lines which describe speakers rising to speak and sitting down again when they have finished: Ἦ τοι ὅ γ' ὣς εἰπὼν κατ' ἄρ' ἕζετο· τοῖσι δ' ἀνέστη (1.68 and passim); τοῖσι δ' ἀνιστάμενος μετέφη (1.58 and passim). I suggest that Agamemnon effaces his own apology toAchilles by remaining seated when he speaks in the assembly of Book 19 (19.77: αὐτόθεν ἐξ ἕδρης, οὐδ' ἐν μέσσοισιν ἀναστάς).

[9]Contrast 19.50 (Achaean); κὰδ' δὲ μετὰ πρώτῃ ἀγορῇ ἵζοντο κιόντες.

A glance through our texts of the Iliad and the Odyssey will suffice to show that the gathering of an assembly is a typical scene in Greek epic: the same elements regularly occur, accounted for each time in lines of similar diction. There is, for example, a poetic formula which refers to the assembly newly gathered, waiting for the speeches to begin: αὐτὰρ ἐπεί ῥ' ἤγερθεη ὁμηγερέες τ'ἐγένοντο. It occurs three times in the Odyssey[10] and appears at the beginning of the Achaean assembly-scene in Iliad 1 (1.57: οἱ δ' ἐπεὶ οὖν ἤγερθεν ὁμηγερέες τ'ἐγένοντο ). But the poet never opens a Trojan assembly-scene with a line of this kind. Furthermore, Trojan assemblies are never introduced with the typical detail of the "shrill-voiced heralds'" rounding up the *demos* and driving them to the assembly-place. In the Iliad, Achaean assemblies are twice introduced this way: αὐτὰρ ὁ κηρύκεσσι λιγυφθόγγοισι κέλευσε/ κηρύσσειν ἀγορήνδε κάρη κομόωντας Ἀχαιούς· (2.50-51); φοίτα κηρύκεσσι λιγυφθόγγοισι κελεύων / κλήδην εἰς ἀγορὴν κικλήσκειν ἄνδρα ἕκαστον (9.10-11).[11]

In other words, in Greek oral poetics, a particular set of dictional and thematic elements are typically associated with the assembly theme. These elements are conspicuously absent from the passages in the Iliad which represent Trojan assemblies. Constructing the Trojan assembly-scene like this, the poet manages to imply that a Trojan assembly is a somewhat less than true assembly. The lack of the appropriate events in the appropriate sequence reflects the disordered nature of Hektor's gatherings. While certain inappropriate features are positively present at his gatherings of Trojans, other expected features are missing, and missing from the poetic representation of the scene too.

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[10]Odyssey 2.9; 8.24; 24.421.

[11]Compare Odyssey 2.6-7: αἶψα δὲ κηρύκεσσι λιγυφθόγγοισι κέλευσε / κηρύσσειν ἀγορήνδε κάρη κομόωντας Ἀχαιούς.

### *Poulydamas and Hektor*

In Homeric poetry, the character of the advisor - like the theme of the assembly - constitutes something of a type. But Hektor's advisor, and the should-be consultant of all the Trojans, is Poulydamas. Poulydamas corresponds structurally to Nestor on the Achaean side. He stands by Hektor much as Nestor stands by Agamemnon, and issues warnings and suggestions.[12] And the wisdom and clarity of vision which might have helped the Trojans had they been heard, reside with Poulydamas. But unlike Nestor's amongst the Achaeans, Poulydamas' suggestions are recklessly disregarded, except when they happen to fall in with Hektor's wishes. And in general, while Poulydamas is poetically set up in the role of the wise elder, he has at the same time specific character features which make him a highly unusual example of such a figure. In short, Poulydamas is as untypical, as out of place, and as inappropriately treated as Hektor's assemblies are.

In Book 18, Poulydamas' speech is introduced as if it were the speech of an elder, with the formula ὅ σφιν ἐϋφρονέων ἀγορήσατο καὶ μετέειπεν. Poulydamas is designated πεπνυμένος[13]; the implication is that he has the " 'wisdom' or 'compactness of mind'" which Dickson's research reveals to be "a trait most often associated with maturity".[14] This is strange, because Poulydamas is actually a younger man. He is of the generation of Hektor and Paris - in fact, the same age as Hektor to a day. We learn this in the very section of the poem in which he is characterised as an elder. Poulydamas is Hektor's *hetairos*, which would tend to make him of the same generation as Hektor (18.251).[15] As

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[12]Schadewalt (1938 p.106) likens Poulydamas' warnings to a series of "landmarks" which point out the route to Hektor's death.

[13]18.249; Antenor: 7.347.

[14]Dickson 1990 p.42. In general, Dickson writes that Poulydamas "approaches the paradigm of the Elder more closely than do any of the younger men associated with the address-formula".

[15] Cf. Odyssey 8.583-584, where Alkinous voices the piece of wisdom that a *hetairos* need be of no less worth than a brother, if he knows *pepnumena* .

a *hetairos*, Poulydamas could advise Hektor with a πυκινὸν ἔπος[16] - as Nestor tells Patroklos at 11.793, the advice of a *hetairos* is good -ἀγαθὴ δὲ παραίφασις ἐστιν ἑταῖρος. But usually, when a *hetairos* gives such advice to another of his generation, he still gives it as an older man to a younger. Nestor reminds Patroklos of Menoitios' words: "you are older than Achilles, but less than he is when it comes to strength; nevertheless you can speak to him and direct him with a stout word of wisdom" (11.786-789). We are told that Poulydamas surpasses Hektor at μῦθοι, while Hektor is better than he is with the spear (ἀλλ' ὁ μὲν ἄρ' μύθοισιν, ὁ δ' ἔγχεϊ πολλὸν ἐνίκα - 252). Given that with Achilles and Patroklos the same themes are presented and correlated with a significant difference in age, it is a surprise to be told right here that Poulydamas and Hektor were born on exactly the same day: Ἕκτορι δ' ἦεν ἑταῖρος, ἰῇ δ' ἐν νυκτὶ γένοντο (251).[17]

Furthermore, Poulydamas does not speak with the assurance and authority of a typical elder. As Geoffrey Kirk points out, Poulydamas addresses the assembly publicly only once, in Book 18.[18] The rest of the time, he gives Hektor advice in speeches framed by the formula εἶπε παραστάς.[19] The εἶπε παραστάς-speech appears to be the "message-form" normally adopted by one who gives a *hetairos* or a brother advice. Such speeches appear more intimate in tone and in persuasive methods than are speeches made publicly to a whole assembly. The speaker will take his addressee aside and talk to him quietly in private. This is παραίφασις - the participle παρειπών denotes the activity of a hero who

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[16]Cf. Martin 1989 p.35: a word "dense with meaning and filled with urgency"; such words have the special quality of enduring through time and are unassailable like the well-constructed, solid, dense-packed objects called *pukinon* ; "the best kind of *epos* , which has become a lasting possession for its hearer".

[17] Perhaps this closeness in age encourages Redfield to call Poulydamas "the warning voice in Hektor's ear" and understand him as Hektor's *alter ego* (Redfield 1975 p.143). Edwards 1991 p.176 suggests that this makes it easier for Hektor to reject Poulydamas' advice, and Solmsen (1954 p.2), that Poulydamas' equality with Hektor in age *emphasises* the surprising truth that he is wiser.

[18]Edwards 1991 p. 176.

[19]There are seven occurrences of this formula in the poem. Three of these introduce speeches made by Poulydamas to Hektor. The speeches of Nestor, Talthybius and Idaeus are never introduced by εἶπε παραστάς , although these elders are sometimes described ἀγχοῦ δ' ἱστάμενος. Nestor once speaks to his son Antilochus ἄγχι παραστάς; use of this last formula in the Odyssey suggests that it conveys an atmosphere of privacy and secrecy appropriate for Nestor's administering his son the guidance he needs to win the chariot race.

"turns" the wits of his brother; Agamemnon does this twice to Menelaus (6.61-62 and 7.120-121- αἴσιμα παρειπών). On the second occasion, he takes his brother by the hand before he speaks. Gentle words are conventional in such situations: in the Odyssey the formula μειλιχίοισ' ἐπέεσσι παρασταδὸν ἄνδρα ἕκαστον - occurs three times. Usually a speech of the εἶπε παραστάς type will contain advice which only pertains to the technical addressee.[20] But when Poulydamas stands by Hektor and speaks to him in Book 12, he makes a suggestion that the whole army needs to hear: that the horses be left behind and the trench crossed on foot.[21] The proposal would more fittingly have been made at a public assembly. And in fact, even though Poulydamas has gone to stand next to Hektor, he explicitly addresses his speech to the whole army: **Ἕκτορ τ' ἠδ' ἄλλοι Τρώων ἀγοὶ ἠδ' ἐπικούρων** (12.61).[22] In his second speech, Poulydamas explains that it is not worth his while to speak in the Trojan assemblies. For Hektor always chides him at public gatherings (ἀεὶ μέν πώς μοι ἐπιπλήσσεις ἀγορῃσιν - 12.211-212), and scorns the value of his counsel (ἐσθλὰ φραζομένῳ - 212).

Poulydamas goes on to make another suggestion which would conventionally be made in public (that the Trojans should not fight the Achaeans at the ships). Like a good prophet-elder, he backs up his proposal with an omen;[23] in Book 2 Odysseus refers to an occasion when Calchas did exactly the same thing at a *public* gathering: Κάλχας δ' αὐτίκ' ἔπειτα θεοπροπέων ἀγόρευε. In a third speech, Poulydamas gives an explanation for his anomalous mode of advice-giving. Hektor is intractable in the face of persuasive words

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[20] At 6.74-75 Helenus stands by Aeneas and Hektor and gives them both instructions to go among the fighters, and tells Hektor to go to the city. The other εἶπε παραστάς speeches which contain advice specific to the individual addressed are at 13.724-725 (Poulydamas suggests calling a meeting of the best warriors to discuss strategy); 20.374-375 (Apollo tells Hektor to stand back and wait for Achilles in the crowd); 23. 154-155 (Achilles advises Agamemnon to make the Achaeans disperse from Patroklos' pyre) and 23. 616-617 (Achilles takes Nestor aside to give him a special prize at the funeral games).

[21] In Hymes' terms, Poulydamas here uses mixed "message-forms" (cf.Hymes 1974 pp.54-55).

[22] Very like the way Achaeans address the assembly: Ἀτρεϊδαι τε καὶ ἄλλοι ἐϋκνήμιδες Ἀχαιοί / Ἀτρεΐδη τε καὶ ἄλλοι ἀριστῆες Παναχαιῶν .

[23] Calchas also explains an omen to the assembly in Book 1 in response to Achilles' request for a seer.

("Εκτορ, ἀμήχανος ἐσσι παραρρητοῖσι πιθέσθαι - 726);[24] and warns him that no man can be all things. Hektor should not think, just because he is gifted in πολεμήϊα ἔργα (727) that he can surpass others at counsel too: (καὶ βουλῇ ἐθέλεις περιίδμεναι ἄλλων· - 728). We know from this that Hektor slights regularly a speaker who has the faculty of "circumspection", and therefore, the right to make authoritative speeches. As the organisation of his assemblies showed, Hektor has no respect for what is proper in the realm of speech and counsel.

Hektor's treatment of Poulydamas in the assemblies has apparently taken its toll. Poulydamas' diction at times characterises his speeches as hesitant and uncertain. At the end of his first speech, after proposing a course of action, he makes a qualification: "so would a soothsayer interpret, having a clear knowledge of omens, in whom the *laos* had confidence": ὥδε χ' ὑποκρίναιτο θεοπρόπος, ὃς σάφα θυμῷ/ εἰδείη τεράων καί οἱ πειθοίατο λαοί (12.228-229). The indefinite mood of the potential optative bears no resemblance to the determined note of exhortation on which the prophet Kalkhas ends his speech in Book 1 (1.100: τότε κέν μιν ἱλασσάμενοι πεπίθοιμεν). The phrase πειθοίατο λαοί occurs only in one other place in the poem. At 14.93 Odysseus, who disapproves of Agamemnon's latest μῦθος, utters a wish for a new king with the intelligence to issue true counsel (ᾗσι φρεσὶν ἄρτια βάζειν), in whom the *laos* trusts (πειθοίατο λαοί ). On these separate occasions, Odysseus and Poulydamas both use the phrase πειθοίατο λαοί when they wistfully allude to a hypothetical world; Odysseus, to a world in which speakers are better; Poulydamas, to a world in which things are better for good speakers like himself. Poulydamas' seer would "know clear things in his heart" ( σάφα θυμῷ ). In the Odyssey, Penelope accuses her maids of concealing Telemakhos' departure even though they knew of it clearly in their hearts : σάφα θυμῷ.[25] The formula has specific associations: it resonates a lack of fit

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[24]Martin (1983 pp.12-13) classifies this use of ἀμήχανος with other examples in which someone "unable to be dealt with face-to-face" is reproached at a crisis point in the action.

[25] This is the only other occurence of this formula in the extant traditional texts.

between knowledge and its disclosure; Poulydamas, like Penelope's maids *has* knowledge; but Hektor's responses to his speeches in the assembly force him to obfuscate what he knows clearly.

At times Poulydamas self-consciously emphasises his advisory status; for example, in his third speech (13.725-748). At 13.735 he says: αὐτὰρ ἐγὼν ἐρέω ὥς μοι δοκεῖ εἶναι ἄριστα. This is a standard declaration for an advisor: Nestor makes it as he introduces his counsel to Agamemnon in the council of elders - that Achilles should be appeased with gifts and mild words (9.103).[26] Poulydamas is using the phrase to confirm the gnomic lines in which he advises Hektor that the gods dispense different gifts severally to men of diverse talents (13.729-734). Poulydamas is urging Hektor as a teacher would, not to ignore his words. Significantly, Poulydamas allots the most lines in his description to the man of wise intelligence; the warrior only gets one line (730), and the dancer, only a line and a half.

Traditional phrases including the form ἐρέω are conventional in advice-giving contexts. Formulas involving ἐξερέω are not. ἐρέω occurs three times in Hesiod's Works and Days, whereas ἐξερέω occurs nowhere in this instructional poem. The uses of ἐξερέω in the Iliad and Odyssey make plain its association with threats and promises: when a speaker says ἐξερέω, he or she declares openly that the ensuing speech will effect a world-to-words fit. The most frequently-found formulation is ὧδε γὰρ ἐξερέω.[27] With these words Athena promises Achilles as compensation for Agamemnon's ὕβρις three times the gifts he has lost (1.212); - clearly something Athena is promising to bring about herself. When Zeus sends Iris scurrying down to Athena and Hera, he deploys the same opening phrase as a prelude to his angry threat to lame their horses (8.401).[28] So when

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[26] Achilles uses the same line pointedly at 9.31 when he rejects Agamemnon's offer outright.

[27] Five times in the Iliad and three times in the Odyssey; never in Hesiod.

[28] Compare Iliad 8.454 (threat); 23.410 (threat); 23.672 (threat); Odyssey 16.440 (promise); 19.487 (threat); 21.337 (promise). The phrase σοὶ δ' ἐγὼ ἐξερέω occurs once in the Iliad and nowhere else: at 8.286, Agamenon promises Teucer a gift if Zeus will let him raze Troy. Presumably he uses the σοὶ δ' ἐγὼ prefix rather than the ὧδε γὰρ one because a private agreement is being made between the two men, and the

Poulydamas at 12.215, in his second speech, uses the unique phrase νῦν αὖτ' ἐξερέω, he is actually making a more forceful statement than if he had used the form ἐρέω. He implies that he by his speech alone can bring about a change in the course of events, and the linking phrase νῦν αὖτ' brings out his determination to crack the old pattern of simply enduring Hektor's attacks (12.211).[29] The aggressive response arises out of his recognition that his status as advisor is threatened. The aggressive approach continues. Poulydamas begins ὧδε γὰρ at line 217, usual when a speaker announces the way things will turn out as a consequence of his threat or promise: Athena and Zeus, in the examples given above, declare: ὧδε γὰρ ἐξερέω, τὸ δὲ καὶ τετελεσμένον ἔσται·, as do Epeius at 23.672 and Penelope at Odyssey 21.337; compare ὧδε γὰρ ἐξερέω, τὸ δέ κεν τετελεσμένον ἦεν (8.454); ὧδε γὰρ ἐξερέω, καὶ μὴν τετελεσμένον ἔσται (23.410 = Odyssey 16.440 and 19.487).

Hektor responds to Poulydamas' advice-speech in Book 18 with an angry attack. Hektor's choice of language when he attacks Poulydamas is quite remarkable. Only here in the Iliad does one speaker call another in the assembly νήπιε.[30] At other times, it appears when enemies mock their distressed or dying enemies;[31] it belongs with Hektor's previous rebuke of Poulydamas in Book 12: 12.231-234: Πουλυδάμα, σὺ μὲν οὐκέτ ἐμοὶ φίλα ταῦτ' ἀγορεύεις· / οἶσθα καὶ ἄλλον μῦθον ἀμείνονα τοῦδε νοῆσαι· / εἰ δ ἐτεὸν δὴ τοῦτον ἀπὸ σπουδῆς ἀγορεύεις, / ἐξ ἄρα δή τοι ἔπειτα θεοί φρένας ὄλεσαν αὐτοί.

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context is very personal: Agamemnon has just addressed Teucer as φίλη κεφαλή at 281. "Hesiod" addresses Perses in the same confidential tone at Works and Days 286, where he tells him: "I have your best interests at heart": **σοὶ δ' ἐγὼ** ἐσθλὰ νοέων ἐρέω, μέγα νήπιε Πέρση.

[29]For use of νῦν αὖτε to introduce a description of an altered state of affairs cf. Iliad 1.237; 3.67; 3.241; 4.321; 5.117; 5.279; 10.280; 11. 363; 12.215; 13.628; 20.450; 21.160; 22.172; 22.285; 22.303; 23.604; 23.643.

[30]Although Nestor likens the *whole* assembly to παισὶν...../νηπιάχοις at 2.336-337. In general the adjective is used in taunts to imply that a person lacks the intelligence needed for debate (cf. above p.24). But Hektor's insult is especially effective since Poulydamas is a seer; cf. Edmunds p.60: the term sometimes characterises a person as out of touch with the wishes or plans of the gods. Compare Hektor's speech - also directed against Poulydamas - denoucing bird-signs:12.231-250.

[31]Hektor to the dying Patroklos at 16.833, Achilles to Lycaon when he refuses his supplication at 21.99 and to Hektor, dying, at 22.333.

Hektor's practices abuse the conventions which make for an assembly held in good order. One of his failings is his refusal to acknowledge that others are better qualified counsellors than he, and his refusal to let such people speak in the Trojan assemblies. Poulydamas himself is such a character. From Hektor's exchanges with Poulydamas, we learn that he is persistent in articulating abuse against a character who seems to have some kind of official capacity for giving advice and explaining oracular signs to the Trojans. The poet derides the Trojan army for a group of νήπιοι when they enthusiastically follow Hektor's bad advice instead of Poulydamas' good counsel.

Something is clearly awry when a Trojan prince has nothing but scorn and abuse for the wisdom of his counsellors. But even the authority Poulydamas has been officially assigned looks somewhat irregular. Evidently the traditional Greek adage that wisdom and advice are the prerogative of the old does not hold good amongst the Trojans. For while Poulydamas has the circumspection of an elder, his youth stands out oddly in a group composed of characters like Nestor, Calchas, Halitherses and Talthybius. And it is odd to see that he advises Hektor like an elder *hetairos*, even though the two are identical in age.

### *Kosmos and Klaggê*

Technically, Hektor takes charge of Trojan assemblies and manipulates them to such an extent that we might call them οὐ κατὰ κόσμον; the right people are not allowed to speak in turn; the meetings are held at irregular times and in inauspicious places. One of the descriptions in Book 18 (line 245) reads: "The Trojans held an assembly before they even remembered to eat". This suggests an atmosphere of disarray and confusion. At another point in the narrative, a Trojan assembly is labelled δεινή τετρηχυῖα - "in a confused and violent uproar". The underlying notion seems to be that in situations which revolve around speech, the Trojans are subject to a generalised disorder. In two other places in the poem this problematic aspect of the Trojan speech, or sound, is made explicit.

At the beginning of Book 3 the Greek and Trojan armies approach each other, ready for the attack. The Trojans are threatening through disarray: they surge forth like screaming birds (Τρῶες μὲν τε κλαγγῇ τ' ἐνοπῇ τ' ἴσαν, ὄρνιθες ὥς - 3.2) exuding a din like the screeching of cranes flying over the ocean, as a prelude to bearing death down on the Pygmies (3.6). Clamour - κλαγγή - is a key word here, used to denote the racket they make; the word echoes through the lines of the simile:

> Τρῶες μὲν **κλαγγῇ** τ' ἐνοπῇ τ' ἴσαν, ὄρνιθες ὥς,
> ἠΰτε περ **κλαγγὴ** γεράνων πέλει οὐρανόθι πρό,
> αἵ τ' ἐπεὶ οὖν χειμῶνα φύγον καὶ ἀθέσφατον ὄμβρον,
> **κλαγγῇ** ταί γε πέτονται ἐπ' Ὠκεανοῖο ῥοάων,
> ἀνδράσι Πυγμαίοισι φόνον καὶ κῆρα φέρουσαι·
> ἠέριαι δ' ἄρα ταί γε κακὴν ἔριδα προφέρονται·
>
> 3.2-7

The approach of the Achaeans is a stark contrast: they march forward silently breathing fury: οἱ δ ἄρ' ἴσαν σιγῇ μένεα πνείοντες Ἀχαιοί (3.8). The cohesion of the Greek troops is evoked by the brevity of the two lines which account for them (3.8-9), counterweighing the developed, divergent simile which represents the Trojans' multitude and movement (3.2-7).

The same contrast is made at 4.422-438, where the Achaeans march forward relentlessly like waves which break on a beach, but in silence. Only the commanders speak, when they issue commands to their troops. But on the other side, the Trojans emit a wailing like the incessant (ἀζήχες) bleating of sheep. The Achaean silence signs their obedience, which is made explicit in the text - οἱ δ ἄλλοι ἀκὴν ἴσαν,...../σιγῇ δειδότες σημάντορας (4.429-431)[32] - and is so marked that the soldiers seem simply to lack the

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[32]Cf. Kirk 1985 on the Book 3 passage: the Achaean silence betokens "discipline and resolve"; this is suggested by the phrases μένεα πνείοντες and ἐν θυμῷ μεμαῶτες. The scholiast at 3.2 refers to the poet's characterisation of the two armies: ἄμφω δὲ τὰς στρατιὰς διατυποῖ καὶ μέχρι τέλους οὐκ ἐξίσταται τοῦ ἤθους. A comment at 4.437 refers to τὸ βάρβαρον θορυβῶδες of the Trojans. Plutarch, in an exposition of the use of poetry in moral education excerpts the phrase σιγῇ δειδότες σημάντορας and contrasts the Trojans' shouting, which he interprets as overly bold and confident. He comments: "fearing the commanders when at close quarters with an enemy is a sign of bravery and obedience" and cites Plato on fearing blame and disgrace as opposed to trouble and danger, and Cato's preference for people who blush over people who blench (De Aud. Poet. 10). Cf. also Philodemus Περὶ Ἀγ. βασιλείας 7.27.

faculty of speech (4.429-430: οὐδέ κε φαίης / τόσσον λαὸν ἔπεσθαι ἔχοντ ἐν στήθεσιν αὐδήν) But the Trojans bleat like ewes for their lambs at milking-time (4.433-436). A reason is given: the Trojans have no common language; - οὐ γὰρ πάντων ἦεν ὁμὸς θρόος οὐδ' ἴα γῆρυς,/ ἀλλὰ γλῶσσ' ἐμέμικτο. They are πολύκλητοι - called from many lands - and their language is "mixed": ἀλλὰ γλῶσσ' ἐμέμικτο, πολύκλητοι δ' ἔσαν ἄνδρες (437).

This second passage emphasises the vast size of the Achaean army. In the face of the numbers involved, its silence is especially striking. The invocation to the Muse at the beginning of the Catalogue also effects a digression on the large number of Greek soldiers present at Troy (2.484-493) and similes in this book frequently bring out the sheer multitude of the Achaean troops. In one they pour from the ships like bees from a hollow rock (2.87-88: ἠΰτε ἔθνεα εἶσι μελισσάων ἀδινάων, / πέτρης ἐκ γλαφυρῆς αἰει νέον ἐρχομενάων); the mass itself consists of multiple masses - ἔθνεα πολλὰ - and the impression of myriad insects is enhanced by the detail that the bees fly here, there and in every direction.[33] At 2.467-468, the simile which compares the troops to leaves and flowers makes number its explicit point of comparison: "As many as the leaves and flowers etc." (ὅσσα τε 'φύλλα καὶ ἄνθεα γίγνεται ὥρῃ - 468).

The mustering which follows proves that while the Greek army is composed of different ἔθνεα, it can still be unified. Nestor tells Agamemnon to organise the army by tribes and by phratries - κατὰ φῦλα, κατὰ φρήτρας - so that good leaders will be discriminated from bad.[34] The division means that phratry can help phratry and tribe help tribe (2.362-363). Nestor is proposing a *kosmos* of the army. Following his instructions,

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[33]The idea that the army consists of numerous ἔθνεα keeps recurring in this section; cf. 2.459: τῶν δ' ὥς ὀρνίθων πετεηνῶν ἔθνεα πολλά and 2.469: ἠΰτε μυιάων ἀδινάων ἔθνεα πολλά . The notion of movement ἔνθα καὶ ἔνθα is ever-present too; cf.2.462:ἔνθα καὶ ἔνθα ποτῶνται ἀγαλλόμενα πτερύγεσσι; at 2.476 not the troops themselves but the leaders moving amongst them go ἔνθα καὶ ἔνθα , and at 2.394-397 the Argives shout like a wave against a cliff, a crag assailed by waves from all kinds of winds which come from this side and that: παντοίων ἀνέμων, ὅτ' ἂν ἔνθ' ἢ ἔνθα γένωνται.

[34]Cf. κρῖν ' at 2.362.

the commanders (who are on other occasions given the traditional title **κοσμήτορε λαῶν**)[35] separate the troops like goatherds grouping their flocks at pasture: Τοὺς δ' ὥς αἰπόλια πλατέ αἰγῶν αἰπολοι ἄνδρες ῥεῖα διακρίνωσιν, ἐπεὶ κε νομῷ μιγέωσιν, / ὣς τοὺς ἡγεμόνες **διεκόσμεον** ἔνθα καὶ ἔνθα / ὑσμίνην δ ιέναι. After being ranked by tribes and by phratries the Achaeans are, as Nestor predicted, inclined to march in silent cohesion, ready to cooperate and defend one another: ἐν θυμῷ μεμαῶτες ἀλεξέμεν ἀλλήλοισιν (3.9). Despite the huge size of the army, the Achaeans are unified in purpose and their silence is a symptom of their solidarity. It is significant that it is just after the mustering, when a κόσμος has been imposed on the army, that the silent, disciplined march to confront the Trojans is described. The Catalogue is a poetic *mimesis* of the mustering: the poet creates a poetic *kosmos* - a catalogue - [36] by dividing the army company by company according to the soldiers' provenance. The Catalogue is iconic: the poet is mirroring the activity of the commanders.

The Achaean Catalogue is a celebration of Panhellenism. In the Catalogue, the numerous Greek states are listed not randomly but in an order which roughly reflects their geographical location relative to one another. As Kirk notes, 2.108, which describes Agamemnon as "king of all Argos and many islands", makes one think of the Aegean generally, even if not all the Greek states are accounted for in the Catalogue.[37] The numerous epithets - πετρήεσσαν, ἐϋκτιμενον, ποιήενθ' , πολυτρήρωνά, πολυστάφυλόν, ἐρατρεινὴν, κητώεσσαν etc. - exalt the Greek states by paying tribute to their various natural and artificial qualities and resources. The Catalogue of Ships is by no means an inorganic interpolation.[38] The Trojan and Achaean Catalogues are thematically related to the rest of

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[35] 1.16; 1.375; 3.236. The chief magistrate at Crete had the title κόσμος - "ruler, regulator", the verb κοσμέω / κοσμίω meaning "to hold the office of κόσμος. κοσμητήρ was the title of the eponymous magistrate at Itanos. At Athens and elsewhere the κοσμητής was the magistrate in charage of the ephebes.

[36] Apparently the theme of *kosmos* is conventionally tied to the genre of catalogue poetry; the Theogony too presents a cosmogony in catalogue form.

[37] Kirk (1985 p.168ff.) determines that most of the Greek world is accounted for in the Catalogue, but with some omissions: the central Aegean islands; the Aegean coastline of Asia Minor; Samos, Khios, Lesbos, the Megarid and much of Thessaly.

[38] Leaf (1971 pp. 86-87) in true analyst tradition claims that the Catalogue is an interpolation; it cannot have been composed for its present place in the poem, but was adapted to it; its phraseology suggests a

the Iliad in so far as they constitute a poetic rendering of the processes of arranging the respective armies in *kosmos*. This creates a context in which the Trojans can collectively be foregrounded as a disharmonious set of tongues.

The Trojan army also has social *kosmos* imposed on it at the end of Book 2, according to the directions of Iris (Polites),[39] and this is announced at the beginning of Book 3 just before the simile which compares the Trojans to huge screaming birds: Αὐτὰρ ἐπεὶ **κόσμηθεν** ἄμ ἡγεμόνεσσιν ἕκαστοι (3.1). But as the simile shows, the Trojans are still indulging in raucous clamour even *after* order should have been instilled in them - whereas the Achaeans are not. The Trojan mustering is for some reason less effective than the Achaean one. A Trojan catalogue reflects the Trojan mustering and parallels the Achaean catalogue (2.815: ἔνθα τότε Τρῶες τε **διέκριθεν** [cf.362: κρῖν' ἄνδρας κατὰ φῦλα etc.] ἠδ' ἐπίκουροι ). But the Trojan catalogue is surprisingly short. If the Achaean army is large, the Trojan army including the allies is larger - as even Agamemnon concedes.[40] But the Trojans are afforded only 62 lines of mustering, while the Achaeans have 292.

This must be a deliberate strategy on the poet's part. The effect is that the Trojan army *seems* scanty and inferior to the Achaean. Even so, the Trojans cannot achieve a

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description of the assembly of the host at Aulis rather than a review of the army before Troy; phrases like ἄγε νῆας, νέες ἐστιχόντο are not used appropriately of ships which have been drawn up for ten years on land. He also objects that the Catalogue disagrees with the Iliad in the names of its heroes and tribes, and that the whole perspective is different, with Boeotia taking first place among the Greek cities. All of Leaf's objections can be accounted for if we recognise that the Catalogue is a traditional episode, not put together for any specific place in any specific poem, but thematically appropriate to the mustering scene in so far as it is an exposition of Greek and Trojan *kosmos*. Bowra (1930,p.71) thinks that the Catalogue is earlier than the rest of the poem, and was incorporated "at some loss to the narrative". Bassett and Allen defend its position, Allen by understanding it as a *Dramatis Personae* of the Iliad and Bassett by pointing out that it is prepared for by lines 130 and 363. But these defenders of the Catalogue do not perceive the *thematic* connection I advocate; on the other hand see Lowrie (1991 p.126) on the "ordering of the army as expressed in the catalogue". Standard studies include Burr 1944, Van der Valk 1954, Jachmann 1955, and Simpson and Lazenby 1970. Moulton (1977 p.33) comments on the series of land and sea similes which precede the Catalogue: "There can be no doubt that this group of successive similes powerfully emphasises the appearance of the army *en masse*, and its effect is to draw attention to this picture before the poet turns to enumerating the individual contingents. That the catalogue was more significant in poetic terms for the original audience than for us is extremely probable, and the simile group may have lent an additional fillip to this *tour de force* ".

[39]2.798-806; corresponding to Nestor's instructions to Agamemnon at 2.362-362.

[40]Cf.2.123-133, especially 130-131.

unity which approximates the Achaeans', as their clamour at the opening of Book 3 suggests. The abbreviated character of the Trojan catalogue not only undersells the Trojan army in terms of magnitude;[41] it simultaneously conveys an impression that the Trojan commanders cannot lead and order.

Tellingly, the proposal to separate the Trojan army into contingents comes not from a genuine Trojan, but from Iris, sent from Zeus with instructions for Hektor. Making herself look and sound like Priam's son Polites, Iris advises Hektor on proper military organisation: because all the contingents of his army speak different languages (2.804: ἄλλη δ' ἄλλων γλῶσσα πολυσπερέων ἀνθρώπων·), the individual captains should give commands (σημαινέτω - 805 ) only to their own contingents, who understand their speech. This is the first reference to the disseminated speech of the Trojan army, reiterated in the passage from Book 4, the latter being one of the contexts which juxtaposes Achaean silence to Trojan clamour (4.422-438). Iris' πολυσπερέων corresponds to πολύκλητοι at 4.437.

The thought is that the Trojans, for want of a common language, are blocked from attaining a real *kosmos*. Panhellenic Greek means that the unity of the Achaean army exists above and beyond the individual social and military units of the tribes and the phratries. The same is true of Panhellenic poetry: in Nagy's view, Homeric poetry is a unitary voice which speaks for all the Greek states, transcending the diversity of local poetic traditions.[42] The Trojans are being opposed not merely to a random group of Greeks, but to the complex unity of an entire Panhellenic host. But the Trojan contingents, speaking different languages, cannot emulate Greek cohesion. Yet again, the Trojans suffer from a

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41 Page (1959 p.137) says that the Trojan catalogue "has a lean and hungry look". Edwards (1980 pp.82-83) thinks that it is shorter because of a lack of Ionian knowledge. See Martin 1989 p.138 on the way quantity of lines encodes status in the Iliad.

42 Nagy 1979 p.7: "Such institutions as the Olympic Games and the Delphic Oracle, both stemming from the eighth century, are of course monumental feats of intersocial organisation and also of intercultural synthesis. Significantly, the same can be said of Homeric Epos itself. From the internal evidence of its contents, we see that this poetic tradition synthesises the diverse local traditions of each major city-state into a unified Panhellenic model that suits most city-states but corresponds exactly to none".

lack of order and regularity associated with their speech. In the arena of speech, everything the Trojans do is οὐ κατὰ κόσμον. When the heralds manage to restrain the Achaean assembly so that Agamemnon can talk, the soldiers finally settle down and grow quiet, leaving off their clamour: παυσάμενοι **κλαγγῆς** (2.100). Discipline means the cessation of clamour: at this point, Agamemnon stands, raises his sceptre and speaks. The Trojans lack discipline even after they are mustered; their irrepressible disorder is represented in their use of voice, still characterised as κλαγγή at the beginning of Book 3.

***Keklute; Klute Philoi***

Even the formulas with which Trojan commanders address the Trojan army suggest that to speak to the Trojan army is to confront a disorderly mass. The formulas in question are never used by Greek commanders facing the army of the Achaeans. The Trojans and their allies constitute a chaotic, unmanageable audience. Every time the imperative κέκλυτε is used, the group addressed includes the Trojan army; - no Achaean leader uses this form of κλύω when addressing the Achaeans. In other words, only someone confronting an audience of Trojans and allies finds it necessary, regularly and as a matter of course, to exhort the audience to "listen".[43]

The opener κέκλυτέ μευ Τρῶες καὶ Δάρδανοι ἠδ' ἐπίκουροι occurs four times in the poem. Hektor uses it twice to address his army.[44] Priam uses it once (7.368), and Hektor once uses the variant κέκλυτε, μυρία φῦλα περικτιόνων ἐπικούρων (17.220). The modified

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[43]As do the people of Ithaka when Odysseus is absent: cf. the formula κέκλυτε δὴ νῦν μευ' Ἰθακήσιοι, ὅττι κεν εἴπω: (2.25; 161; 229; 443; 24.454); Aigyptius says that until Telemakhos calls the assembly in Book 2, no assembly had been held since Odysseus' departure. The Phaiakians are also addressed with κέκλυτε, but I think that this can be explained in terms of their characterisation, rather similar to that of the Trojans. I am grateful to Tony Grafton for this suggestion. The Phaiakians are similarly "frivolous" - they occupy themselves with song and dance, games and sensuality. They are also unusual in that it is the judgements of a woman, Arête, which are feared and respected throughout the land - evidence of a political topsy-turviness which resembles the confusion besetting Trojan assemblies. In the Iliad, the Achaeans are usually addressed with the formula: Ἀτρεϊδαι τε καὶ ἄλλοι ἐϋκνήμιδες Ἀχαιοί / Ἀτρείδη τε καὶ ἄλλοι ἀριστῆες Παναχαιῶν .

[44]7.348;8.497. Agamemnon uses it to address the Trojan army at 3.456.

form κέκλυτε μευ Τρῶες καὶ ἐϋκνήμιδες Ἀχαιοὶ, contrived for occasions when the Greek and Trojan armies are addressed *ensemble*, occurs three times. It is only used by Hektor and Priam.[45] The only time an Achaean says κέκλυτε is as a mere echo of Hektor's usage: Hektor has just made a speech which he introduced with the phrase κέκλυτε μευ Τρῶες καὶ ἐϋκνήμιδες Ἀχαιοὶ. Menelaus now follows up on Hektor's speech, and he begins by saying "and now, listen to me too": **κέκλυτε** νῦν καὶ ἐμεῖο (3.97). No-one, whether Greek or Trojan, ever says κέκλυτε to a group which does not at least *include* the Trojan army.

On the other hand, Agamemnon, who is about to describe the dream Zeus sent him in Book 2, addresses his exclusive council of kings with the words κλῦτε φίλοι (2.56). κλῦτε and κέκλυτέ are morphologically and syntactically related. But they differ pragmatically: they are conventionally associated with different speech-situations. This only becomes clear through an investigation of all of the speeches in which characters in the Iliad and Odyssey address a group with the opening imperative κλῦτε. Once the investigation is made, it turns out that κλῦτε is only ever said to a very small and select group of close friends. Thetis, Penelope and Nausikaa use the form when they speak to their maids; Penelope's κλῦτε φίλαι is analogous to Agamemnon's and Odysseus' κλῦτε φίλοι. Even when the φίλοι / φίλαι are not explicitly addressed as such, it is quite clear that the word κλῦτε alone introduces a type-scene in which a central character addresses a small group of close friends. Helen says κλῦτε to Menelaus and Telemachus in the Odyssey, and Odysseus adopts the diction to impersonate himself talking to his companions in one of his Cretan tales.[46]

Trojan warriors, though they urge the main group to listen - κέκλυτέ - never have occasion to use the form κλῦτε, since they do not frequently seem to address groups of warriors within the army as φίλοι. Trojan speakers never address the rest of their group

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[45] Hektor: 3.86; Priam: 3.304.

[46] Thetis Iliad 18.52: κλῦτε κασίγνηται Νηρηίδες; Penelope Odyssey 4.722: κλῦτε, φίλαι; Nausikaa Odyssey 6.239: κλῦτε μοι, ἀμφίπολοι λευκώλενοι; Odysseus Odyssey 14.495: κλῦτε φίλοι ; Helen Odyssey 15.172: κλῦτε μευ.

with the phrase ὦ φίλοι, although Achaean soldiers are constantly including this interjection in their speeches to one another. Of this formula's twenty occurrences in the Iliad, only one refers to the talk of a Trojan soldier to the other Trojans, and this is in a "τις-speech" - the words are assigned to the double of the anonymous Achaean soldier in Book 17 (414-415 and 419-421): ὣδε δέ τις εἴπεσκεν Ἀχαιῶν χαλκοχιτώνων· (414).....Ὣς δέ τις αὖ Τρώων μεγαθύμων αὐδήσασκεν (420). But ὦ φίλοι is an exclamation often used by Achaean soldiers in flyting-contexts - situations in which they urge their friends on to greater efforts.[47] Trojan warriors evidently are less ready than the massed Achaeans to conceive of one another as φίλοι. This fits with the noisy lack of cohesion with which the descriptions in Book 2 and 3 credit them.

Sometimes Agamemnon and Nestor address the Achaean whole army, saying ὦ φίλοι. But Hektor never does so when he talks to the Trojans. He does *call* the soldiers φίλοι, in the flyting formula he repeatedly uses: ἀνέρες ἔστε, φίλοι, μνήσασθε δὲ θούριδος ἀλκῆς.[48] But this has a rather different tone. Hektor never accompanies the term with the emotive or expressive interjection ὦ. And the vocative φίλοι has a less than genuine ring when Hektor uses it, because he confines its use to the one formula, which is always yelled out to the army in the middle of the battle ( ἐκέκλετο μακρὸν ἀΰσας precedes the flyting formula in every case). This gives φίλοι a stylised, artificial tone.[49] The Achaean usage is different: Achaean soldiers use ὦ φίλοι in varied contexts and in speeches of various tones; this fluidity suggests a spontaneity belied by the language in which Hektor's use of the word is couched.

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[47]The formula occurs at 2.78; 2.110; 5.529; 5.601; 6.67; 7.191; 9.17; 10.533; 10.204; 11.276; 11.587; 12.269; 15.561; 15.661; 15.733; 17.248; 17.415; 19.78; 22.378 and 23.457.

[48]6.112; 8.174; 11.287; 17.185.

[49]In Hymes' terms, Hektor's utterances are in a different "key" (Hymes 1974 pp.57-58).

### *Thersites and the Metron*

Despite the impression which may have been given by the silent, ordered marching of the Achaeans in Books 3 and 4 , the massed Achaeans are by no means always characterised by respectful silence and discipline. Throughout Book 2, in the building up to the Catalogue of Ships, the Achaeans are as unruly and clamorous as the Trojans at the beginning of 3. Like the Trojans, the Achaeans are compared with cranes:[50] the soldiers assembling by the ships are likened to vast flocks of birds - geese, cranes and swans which wheel around on every side, exulting in the strength of their wings and the power of flight (ἀγαλλόμενα πτερύγεσσι - 462), before alighting with loud cries - **κλαγγηδόν** (463) - all over the banks of the Cayster (2.459ff.). The noise created by the soldiers *en masse* is constantly being impressed upon an audience in this section. Other similes in this section of the poem have the massed soldiers exuding a noise like a wave crashing on the beach (2.209-210) or against the cliffs in a high wind (2.394-397).[51] The end of the first sea-simile is echoed in the simile which compares the Achaeans to cranes: compare σμαραγεῖ δέ τε λειμών (2.463) with σμαραγεῖ δέ τε πόντος (2.210).[52]

Noise at a gathering is at once an index of and a symbol for social disorder. The heralds with difficulty quell the Achaean troops as they are being gathered for the first assembly of Book 2 (2.86ff.); the soldiers are said finally to "leave off their clamour" so that Agamemnon can speak: παυσάμενοι κλαγγῆς (2.99-100). The heralds have been urging the troops to be silent and listen to the kings (2.97-98), just as a little later, Odysseus admonishes the individual members of the demos, telling them: "be still, and

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[50]Muellner 1990 discusses this parallel; he also points out that the details of the crane simile have precise analogues in the narrative, and observes dictional similarities between the bee and crane similes. Suggesting that the year-round group dance of cranes, and the γέρανος-dance associated with the Theseus story are relevant to the Book 3 simile, he see the Trojans represented as dancing-birds engaged in battle, and connects this with places in which Paris is characterised as a dancer trying to do battle.

[51]Although this is best understood as the sound of the soldiers' marching feet. It is used of the Achaeans' voiceless march in Book 4, and in Book 2 there are two references to the groaning of the earth under the soldiers' feet; - cf. 2.95; 784.

[52]See Moulton 1977 pp. 38-42 for discussion of 2.87ff.: "a string of similes based on the motifs of land and sea".

listen to the *muthos* of others; we cannot all be king" (2.200-206). Kings, on whom the sceptre and *themistes* have been bestowed by Zeus, have the prerogative of speech. When a community is in good order, they are able to exercise their prerogative. At the beginning of Book 2, the noise and unruly chaos which ensue after Agamemnon's speech are an index of his troops' mutinous failure of his test of loyalty. After Agamemnon's first speech, in which he pretends to believe that they should all give up and go home, the assembly is stirred like waves on the sea by Ikaria, shaken up by southerly and south-east winds, or like deep grain nodding on its ears when moved by the west wind (2.144-149). The soldiers then rush to their ships yelling (2.149: ὣς τῶν πᾶσ ' ἀγορὴ κινήθη · τοὶ δ ' ἀλαλητῷ / ἐσσεύοντο ); their shouting hits the sky (2.153-154:ἀϋτὴ δ ' ουρανὸν ἶκεν / οἴκαδε ἰεμένων· ).

Odysseus' task now is to restrain the troops; he is told to do so by Hera. [53] As Odysseus' attempt to hold back the unruly mass of soldiers is described, the main point made is that he has to stifle the noise they make. A member of the *demos* shouts (2.198:ὃν δ ' αὖ δήμου τ ' ἄνδρα ἴδοι βοόωντα τ ' ἐφεύροι ) . In response, Odysseus tells the offender: "be still, and listen to the *muthos* of others (2.200:δαιμονί ' ἀτρέμας ἧσο καὶ ἄλλων μῦθον ἄκουε). His treatment of Thersites at 2.212ff. is the show-piece of Odysseus' performance as he silences the mutinous troops and restores order at the assembly. Thersites continues talking even after the rest of the troops have been persuaded to sit still in their places. Thersites' aim is to stir up the other troops again, and he succeeds: his speech, which looks like a parody of the exchange between Achilles and Agamemnon,[54] provokes the hostility of the troops towards their commanders again, and they break out

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[53] Agamemnon had already directed the kings who attended the council to fulfill this function; see Knox and Russo 1989 for comparison of the same theme at Deuteronomy 20.8: cowards are dismissed from the army before engagement in the Holy War.

[54] Thalmann (1988 pp.19-21) sees Thersites parodic use of language as a form "indirect discourse" (in Bakhtin's sense) which liberates him and his audience from the unified verbal and ideological world of epic diction.

into laughter and talk (2.270; 278). They then have to be silenced again by Athena who, in the guise of a herald, holds up a sceptre to speak.

Thersites "shouts out piercing insults" (ὀξέα κεκλήγων λέγ' ὀνείδεα) and "yells long and loud" (2.224:μακρὰ βοῶν). His speech is excessive in terms of volume. He goes too far in his words, which are "ummetrical" or "unmeasured" (212:ἀμετροεπής). At 2.214 we are told that his speech lacks *kosmos* - good order: he speaks οὐ κατὰ κόσμον and his words are ἄκοσμά τε πολλά (213). Thersites' speech is excessive, both in volume and in quantity. Martin demonstrates that Thersites' speech, described as "ἀμετροεπής" is literally unmetrical: it is full of correption and consequently lacks aesthetic appeal.[55] Looking at the feature from new angle, unmetrical diction selects and combines words that cannot be accomodated by the relevant metre. The excessively high incidence of correption in Thersites' speech shows that he keeps using words that exceed the boundaries *kosmos* dictates; for in Greek poetics metrical boundaries are metaphors for social limits. Solon complains about the leaders of the people who do not know how to κοσμεῖν and restrain their excessive appetites, and thus spoil the εὐφροσύνη of a banquet: οὐ γὰρ ἐπίστανται κατέχειν κόρον οὐδε παρούσας / εὐφροσύνας **κοσμεῖν** δαιτὸς ἐν ἡσυχίηι (Frag. 4 (West).7-10).[56]

Thersites is a blame poet. He is singled out for individual treatment because he takes to the very worst extreme the kind of misbehaviour Odysseus has been trying to subdue right through the *demos* ; as the poet says, he is "the most blameworthy of all the Achaeans who had come to Troy" (2.216). Lowrie translates φολκός, which characterises Thersites at line 217, as "squinting" and explains that squinting and abusive language precede cosmogonies in Apollonius' Argonautica and the Homeric Hymn to Hermes. In other words, this is a traditional scene in which disorderly wrangling of the kind which

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[55]Martin 1989 pp.112-113.

[56]Cf. Nagy 1979 pp.224-226: praise poetry programmatically refers to blame as greed (*phthonos* ); cf. Pythian 2. 55-56 on Archilochus "having fattened himself on beavy-worded hatreds" (βαρυλόγοις ἔχθεσιν / πιαινόμενον).

occurs between Thersites and Odysseus precedes and is foil for the imposition of social order. Thus the demise and humiliation of Thersites by Odysseus form a traditional and conventional prelude to the arrangement of the army by the commanders. For the commanders, by separating the army into tribes and phratries, achieve a perfect *social* ordering.[57]

Social disorder, then, is the condition of a society in which the speech of the members of the λάος goes beyond the pale.[58] The yelling soldiers of the *demos* indulge in more speech than is their due. The army has to be reminded by Odysseus that one king is best because each man of the *demos* is making more use of his voice than society allots him. Common language is only one of the prerequisites for κοσμός; even given that, each member of the society must be put in his place in the linguistic hierarchy. Social position is defined by a person's right to exercise the common language; it determines the size of his portion of the shared language.[59] The section of Book 2 which leads up to the Achaean catalogue brings out some of the ways in which misuse of speech can make a society come apart at the seams: the irrepressible din the *laos* makes and the shrill insults of Thersites have to be quelled before each man can be said to have taken his rightful place in the social *kosmos*. Only when this has been achieved is the army prepared for unified, coherent action.

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[57]Lowrie 1991 pp.123-129. Lowrie challenges the traditional reading of Thersites as a political agitator. For the sake of comparison, cf. Feldman 1979. Thalmann (1988) reminds us that a Homeric audience was probably drawn from all levels of society, and reads Thersites as a marginal figure, a comic scapegoat whose detached and ironic perspective focusses social tensions and contradictions.

[58]Cf. Theognis 479-483 on overstepping the πόσιος μέτρον, which leaves a person without control of his tongue; and 677-678 on the destruction of κόσμος as the end of equal (proportionate ?) division of goods: κόσμος δ' ἀπόλωλεν, / δασμὸς δ' οὐκέτ ' ἴσος γίνεται ἐς τὸ μέσον. See Prier 1976 for the notion of μέτρον as a noetic entity in archaic Greek thought, related to the internal and external structures which establish regularity in the universe.

[59] Compare the Athenians' conception of *isêgoria* (the right of every citzen to speak on matters of state importance in the assembly), which they saw as the cornerstone of democracy. See Ober (1989) pp. 78-79. Rauflaab (1980 ) argues that the origins of *isêgoria* are to be found in the intra-élite competition of the pre-Cleisthenic period, the notion being that all nobles had an equal right to speech.

### *Nestor and the Popular Rhetoric of Odysseus and Diomedes*

However, without the wrangling of Thersites, it would not be possible for *kosmos* to be imposed. The demise of Thersites is an essential and indispensable part of the process by which order is achieved. The thought, familiar from Greek cosmogony, and appearing again in the ideas of the Greek cosmologists, is that order can only come out of a prexisting chaos. Social order can only come out of pre-existing disorderly talk and behaviour, which is in due course suppressed and replaced by *kosmos*. In the Iliad, the Achaean assemblies regularly follow a pattern which conforms to this model. For even in the passage we have been considering in Book 2, Odysseus' struggle with Thersites does not complete the task of disciplining the Achaean *laos*. Instead, the whole cycle is repeated, with Odysseus taking over from Thersites the role of the unruly rabble-rouser. The soldiers are not put in their places until the angry intervention of Nestor, who eventually breaks in and tells them that they are holding their assembly like witless children (2.336-337: ὦ πόποι, ἦ δὴ παισὶν ἐοικότες ἀγοράασθε / νηπιάχοις).

Before this, there is an interlude during which Odysseus plays Thersites' role. Thersites was faulted for "reviling the kings". But in fact, Odysseus' activity parallels this: Odysseus, rounding up the army and suppressing the *demos* and Thersites, has in effect been usurping Agamemnon's status and supremacy. In other words, Odysseus too has been competing and contending with the king. That Odysseus was at fault for doing this is clear from Nestor's angry intervention. Nestor reproaches all for "wrangling with words", and tells Odysseus to let the supreme commander keep ἀστεμφέα[60] βουλὴν as before, and lead the Argives (2.344-345). Odysseus, who silenced Thersites, is in turn suppressed by Nestor and put back in his place. Agamemnon appreciates Nestor's intervention and tells him :"once again, old man, you defeat the sons of the Achaeans in the assembly" (2.370: ἦ

[60]The adjective is elsewhere used of the immovable bronze threshold of Zeus - Theogony 812.

μὰν αὖτ' ἀγορῇ νικᾷς, γέρον, υἷας Ἀχαιῶν). [61] It remains for Agamemnon to appease Nestor with the overwhelming praise of lines 370-374 ("I wish I had ten such counsellors"), and to rebuff Odysseus, who is invited in last place to his sacrificial feast of 402ff., while Nestor is a prominent first. Odysseus is placed even after his junior Diomedes in the order of invitees.[62]

The sceptre with which Odysseus quashed the unruly warriors of the *demos* was not his own; he had taken it from Agamemnon. When Odysseus seizes Agamemnon's sceptre, the gesture is poetically nuanced as faintly hostile: Odysseus goes up to Agamemnon: ἀντιος ἐλθών; - a phrase only attested elsewhere at 20.352, where Achilles is trying the Trojans in battle. The very similar ἀντιος ἦλθεν is used twice in connection with Agamemnon in Book 11,[63] to describe a Trojan warrior's hostile approach. Odysseus confronts Agamemnon as an enemy does when he takes the sceptre from him. This makes for a pointed irony in the earlier depiction of Odysseus remonstrating with the soldiers, telling them that there can only be *one* "sceptre-bearing king". As Odysseus goes about with his borrowed sceptre, he admonishes the men - οὐκ ἀγαθὸν πολυκοιρανίη· εἷς κοίρανος ἔστω - "it's a bad state of affairs when there's more than one king" (204); as if to underline the irony the poet echoes Odysseus' πολυκοιρανίη when he describes Odysseus as κοιρανέων - "ruling like a king" (207).

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[61]Kirk calls Nestor's outburst "an apparently ill-timed rebuke.....out of place after Odysseus' speech and its favourable reception" (Kirk 1985 pp.150-151). But in this assembly, Odysseus is trying to compete for authority against Nestor's age and experience. This is suggested by the way his speech is introduced; - with the formula ὅ σφιν ἐὺ φρονέων ἀγορήσατο καὶ μετέειπεν, which is usually reserved for much older speakers; cf. Dickson 1990 pp.38ff..

[62]Kirk (1985 p.157) writes: "The bT offered various explanations, none particularly persuasive, for the postponement of Odysseus until sixth". For example: "not because Odysseus is more lowly than the others (B273), but because Agamemnon just doesn't notice him as he does his other *philoi* ; for he does not even invite his brother" (b(BCE3E4)T; "so that the ends of the table will be occupied with the two wisest men - Odysseus and Nestor" (b(BCE3E4)-T). The poet makes a point of recounting the order of the invitees: Νέστορα μὲν καὶ πρώτιστα καὶ Ἰδομενῆα ἄνακτα, / αὐτὰρ ἔπειτα Αἴαντε δύω καὶ Τυδέος υἱον, / ἕκτον δ' αὖτ ' Ὀδυσῆα, Διὶ μῆτιν ' ἀτάλαντον.

[63]11.218; 231.

Thersites is in the habit of stirring up the mutinous laughter of the troops (2.214-216). In the exchange with Odysseus in Book 2, the noisy laughter the troops would have vented against Agamemnon and Achilles, in sympathy with Thersites, ends up being at Thersites' own expense when Odysseus nips his performance in the bud, strikes him with the sceptre and turns him into a figure of mockery and blame. But both Thersites and Odysseus appeal to the *demos* - the masses - in this scene, and not to the kings. If the troops are unquiet after Thersites' speech, they are positively raucous after Odysseus': they all shout aloud and the ships echo with the sound (2.333:"Ως ἔφατ ' Αργεῖοι δὲ μέγ' ἴαχον, ἀμφὶ δὲ νῆες/σμερδαλέον κονάβησαν ἀϋσάντων ὑπ' Αχαιῶν When Odysseus gets the troops to laugh at Thersites, he steals Thersites' audience, for before Odysseus' entrance, the troops were laughing with Thersites at the commanders.[64] Odysseus' attack on Thersites softens up the mass audience, preparing them to shout with enthusiasm in response to his encouraging speech at 284-332 (2.333: Ὣς ἔφατ' Αργεῖοι δὲ μέγ' ἴαχον).

This is the ulterior purpose behind a feature of Odysseus' speaking style which Richard Martin defines as "inclusive".[65] The strategy is especially prominent in his speech to the troops at 284-333, telling them: "endure, friends" - τλῆτε, φίλοι .The phrase τλῆτε, φίλοι is unique, but is structurally equivalent to Agamemnon's κλῦτε φίλοι at 2.56. Since κλῦτε φίλοι is used to address an intimate group,[66] we can surmise that Odysseus' phrase τλῆτε, φίλοι is contrived to convey a sense of fellowship which bonds the soldiers hearing his speech and encompasses him as well. He reminds them that all were witnesses of the portent of the serpent and sparrows which Calchas interpreted for them so favourably. Again, he allies himself with the rabble against Calchas, the seer with superior knowledge,

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[64]On other occasions Odysseus is a victim of Thersites' complaints; cf. 2.220-221.

[65] Describing Odysseus' stance towards the audiences of his speeches, Martin writes: "In commands.....he is inclusive, using a first-person plural - .....where others use an imperative.....And the same strategy forms a common ground even between Odysseus and the common men he commands: "We Achaeans cannot all act as king here'(2.203)". Odysseus uses the plural in the same "inclusive" way at line 194 when he addresses the kings:"did *we* not all hear what he [Agamemnon] said in the *boule* ?". (Martin 1989 pp. 123-124).

[66]See above, p.26.

saying: "wait, so that *we all* may find out - ὄφρα δαῶμεν - whether or not what Calchas says is true" (299-300). And he ends the speech with the exhortatory ἔλωμεν (2.332) in the first person plural.[67]

Another example of the whole sequence occurs in a more concise form in Book 9. At this Achaean assembly, the young Diomedes is (just like Odysseus) rewarded with the ecstatic approval of the troops when he impertinently corrects Agamemnon in the assembly in Book 9: Ὣς ἔφατ οἱ δ' ἄρα πάντες ἐπίαχον υἷες Ἀχαιῶν - 9.50-51.[68] Here again, Nestor takes over: he acknowledges that the content of Diomedes' speech is prudent, but reminds him that his skill in speaking has not yet flowered to perfection; - he has not yet reached his τέλος.....μύθων (9.56). Nestor tries to quell the troops' enthusiasm for Diomedes as he did their noisy and favourable response to Odysseus in Book 2.[69] Mass enthusiasm for Diomedes is endangering the authority of Agamemnon.

Diomedes' speech in 9 is, like the mockery and ridicule of Thersites, and the "inclusive" strategy of Odysseus, constructed with a view to popular appeal. The speech is

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[67]Martin understands Odysseus' "inclusive" strategy as a sign of special respect for speech: Odysseus is, according to Martin, especially concerned with communication. But at the same time, notice the specific nature of Odysseus' *mode* of communication: he identifies with his audience. At 10.249 Odysseus recommends that Diomedes not praise him excessively before an audience of "knowing Argives" (εἰδόσι γάρ τοι ταῦτα μετ' Ἀργείοις ἀγορεύεις). Martin reads this as a demand from Odysseus that speech always be proportionate (Martin 1989 p.123); I think it also contains a hint about Odysseus' attitude to performance: Odysseus is always very aware of the people who will listen to a speech, and how they are likely to react to it When he is rounding up the army Odysseus alters the tone and volume of his voice depending on his addressee. When he admonishes a king or another noble, he speaks with gently persuasive words - ἀγανοῖς ἐπέεσσιν (2.189), but when he speaks to an ordinary member of the *demos* , he strikes him with the sceptre and loudly calls out his *muthos* (2.199: ὁμοκλήσασκέ τε μῦθῳ); - the resounding echo of his voice is conveyed in the repeated phonemes: τὸν σκήπτρῳ ἐλάσασκεν ὁμοκλήσασκέ τε μύθῳ· Odysseus is highly conscious of his audience; in the Odyssey he is "like a poet". See Goldhill 1991 pp.1-68.

[68]Other instances of the verb forms ἴαχον, ἐπίαχον are not in assembly scenes but describe shouting as part of the din of war; cf. 4.506; 5.860=14.148; 11.463; 13.835. See also: 18.28-29 (Achilles' handmaidens shriek in mourning for Patroklos) and 21.10; 23.766 (the Achaeans cheer Odysseus on in the foot-race at Patroklos' funeral games). At 2.394 the Achaeans shout in response to Agamemnon's concluding speech, but this is in the chaotic section running up to the Catalogue.

[69]Others focus more on Nestor's praise for Diomedes' words, spoken κατὰ μοῖραν (9.59), than on the criticism implicit in what he says. See, for example, Martin 1989 p.25 and Donlan 1979.

popular because it insults Agamemnon. Diomedes challenges the chief king,[70] and labels him ἀφραδέοντι (9.32). Telling Agamemnon that he has the *timê* that accrues to a sceptre-bearing king, without *alkê* (9.37-39), he contends with Agamemnon, (cf. 9.329: Ἀτρεΐδη, σοὶ πρῶτα μαχήσομαι αφραδεόντι), like Thersites (compare Odysseus' warning to the latter: ἴσχεο, μηδ' ἔθελ' οἷος ἐριζέμεναι βασιλεῦσιν - 2.247) and Odysseus. But by the end of Book 9, perhaps as a result of Nestor's conciliatory lecture, Diomedes has changed his tune. He addresses Agamemnon "Ἀτρεΐδη κύδιστε, ἄναξ ἀνδρῶν Ἀγάμεμνον", and offers his opinion and directions without insults and complaints. This time the troops are quiet - the hierarchy has been reinforced. Instead of arousing the fanatical appreciation of the troops - the *demos* - , he is rewarded this time with the approval of the kings, who praise him as they acclaimed Nestor in Book 7: Ὣς ἔφαθ' οἱ δ' ἄρα πάντες ἐπῄνησαν βασιλῆες (9.710).

Diomedes plays the same role in Book 7. 402-403 in Book 7 are identical with lines 49-50 of Book 9 (Ὣς ἔφατ οἱ δ' ἄρα πάντες ἐπίαχον υἷες Ἀχαιῶν, / μῦθον ἀγασσάμενοι Διομήδεος ἱπποδάμοιο· ). Here too, Diomedes has contravened Agamemnon's authority. When all the other Achaeans respond with an indecisive silence to Idaeus' announcement of Paris' offer to return the treasure he took from Greece to Troy, Diomedes fills the vacuum, piping up with a refusal of Paris' offer and the inspiring declaration that now the Trojans are truly set for destruction. It falls to Agamemnon only to affirm Diomedes' answer lamely: "There you hear the answering *muthos* of the Achaeans" (406-407). Line 412 underlines the impropriety of Diomedes' reply. This line describes Agamemnon raising his sceptre to the gods; Agamemnon, the chief "sceptre-bearing king" should have been the one to reply on behalf of the Achaeans. Diomedes wasn't even holding the sceptre when he spoke.[71] Despite - or possibly because of - this, the troops enjoy his answer, as their

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[70]Diomedes here as before seizes the opportunity to speak when everyone else is at a loss; an exchange between Diomedes and Nestor at 7.145-158 exposes Diomedes' ambitious streak.

[71] Combellack 1948 cites the explanations of the scholiasts that public speakers hold sceptres, and is unusual in maintaining that this was not in fact the case, but that a speaker only held a sceptre to make remarks of a peculiar solemnity and importance. He points to the paucity of instances where it is explicitly said that a speaker holds the sceptre. But a Homeric audience would not have to be told that a speaker was

noisy approval makes manifest.[72] Like Odysseus, and like Thersites, Diomedes is rebellious and a ring-leader. In sum, the scene in which a ring-leader reviles the king, usurping the king's prerogative by arousing the mutinous hysteria of the masses, is an episode which recurs ritually in the Achaean assemblies. *Kosmos* has been attained when the episode of wrangling is over, and a conciliator has restored the king to his position of authority. *Kosmos* seems always to depend upon a prior period of strife.

### *The Trojan Elders*

The Trojan elders do not control Trojan assemblies as Nestor does the Achaean gatherings. The Trojan mustering is preceded by a scene which mirrors the quashing of Thersites by Odysseus. Iris, likening herself to Polites, intervenes in the Trojan assembly at 2.787ff. to instruct Hektor about the division and ordering of the army. Before she does so, she insults Priam using the same diction with which Odysseus rebuked Thersites. Iris tells Priam that his *muthoi* are endless and unmeasured: αἰεί τοι μῦθοι φίλοι ἄκριτοί εἰσιν (2.796), and implies that his fondness for indiscriminating patter is a symptom of senility - she begins: ὦ γέρον, αἰει τοι μῦθοι. Odysseus labels Thersites ἀκριτόμυθε (2.247) in a context in which, as we have seen, Thersites bears the brunt of the blame for the community's disorder.[73] It is curious that the Trojan king should be a structural double for Thersites here, given that in Book 2 Odysseus was admonishing the Achaean *demos* to hearken to the *kings*. Thersites threatens the social hierarchy which determines the right to speak, both by the content of his speech and in the very act of speaking out. Moreover, his age should give Priam precedence over his sons and the other members of the younger generation. As Nestor declares in Book 4 (318-325), the advisory capacity is the

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holding the sceptre since they could simply assume it; in a few cases, like the present one, the gesture is explicitly described in order to make a special point.

[72]In this episode, there is no intervention on Nestor's part .

[73]Lowrie notes the similarity between Odysseus' and Iris' diction (Lowrie 1991 pp.126-127). See Leaf 1970 p.66 and Martin 1989 pp.110-113 for discussion of the precise meaning of ἀκριτόμυθε.

prerogative of the old: τὸ γὰρ γέρας ἐστι γερόντων. When Euripides assigns the practice of giving advice to the old (frag. 115.5), he is drawing on a much older tradition. Solon too, in his division of the life of man into seven-year periods, describes the years from 42-56 as being those in which a man is at his peak in speaking and deliberation.[74]

Polites' (Iris') dismissal of Priam's speech is, then, a transgression of the Greek norm. Nestor, who has already seen two generations of men grow up and fade, is generally accepted as the voice of wisdom in the Achaean camp.[75] Polites is himself a son of Priam, and therefore of the same generation of Hektor and Paris. It is a nice touch that Iris talks this way to Priam to present herself convincingly as a Trojan youth. The notion that this is the typical response of Trojan youth to older speakers is confirmed by Hektor's criticism of the elders' cowardice and bad advice (κακότητι γερόντων) at 15.721.

A second Trojan assembly (7.345ff.) is described as δεινὴ τετρηχυῖα - in a confused, violent uproar.[76] The formula ἦμὲν νέοι ἠδὲ γέροντες , used uniquely here to describe the composition of an assembly,[77] seems to have the purpose of emphasising the relative ages of the speakers involved. At this assembly , Antenor speaks first. He is an older speaker, of the generation of Priam and of Nestor,[78] so it is appropriate that he be

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[74]Kirk, however, thinks that Jung's "wise old man" is not a regular feature of Greek myth; he relies partly on Hesiod fragment 321 (Merkelbach-West):"Deeds belong to the young, advice to the middle-aged, *prayers* to the old (Kirk 1971 p.128). But cf. Dickson 1990 on what he calls "the paradigm of the Elder".

[75]Querbach 1976 argues that in fact Nestor's advice is sometimes not taken, and that Diomedes openly competes with Nestor for the role of adviser, and even once contradicts his advice outright. But the younger soldiers of the Achaean army do not use abusive language when speaking to elders; young Trojans do.

[76]There is an Achaean antecedent for this: at 2.94, when the kings are set to arm their troops, who rush out from the ships to the assembly place like bees pouring from a hollow rock (86-93), the gathering they form is all in confusion: τετρήχει δ ἀγορή. The diction was used to describe the social confusion of the Achaean troops before the mustering; once again, we see that such disorder persists and is ever-present in the Trojans' social groupings even after the mustering of their army.

[77] At 9.258 it is not connected with any assembly: Odysseus simply is advising Achilles to accept Agamemnon's terms and offer, and thus seek τιμή both from the young and the old. And at 9.36, Diomedes says that both the young and the old know that Agamemnon insulted him for a coward and a weakling (34-36) in front of the Achaeans. There are no other uses of this formula in the Iliad.

[78]Antenor is one of the Trojan elders who sits with Priam on the Skaean gates in the *teikhoskopia* scene in Book 3.

assigned the epithet πεπνυμένος.[79] But the wisdom and experience of Antenor are immediately and rudely dismissed by Paris, who upbraids him with the traditional taunt that if he really believes what he is saying then the gods have taken his wits away: εἰ δ' ἐτεὸν δὴ τοῦτον ἀπὸ σπουδῆς ἀγορεύεις, / ἐξ ἄρα δή τοι ἔπειτα θεοὶ φρένας ὄλεσαν αὐτοί - 7.360.

The charge of witlessness is one repeatedly made by those who contend with others for the right of speech; Diomedes calls Agamemnon ἀφραδέοντι when he opposes his counsel with his own. Compare 2.258, where Odysseus calls Thersites ἀφραίνοντα. And in Book 18, the poet criticises the Trojan audience. He says that Athena stole their wits so that they were unable to discriminate good from bad counsel, following Hektor when Poulydamas' advice was better (18.310-311); the Trojans are νήπιοι. People who try and oppose Zeus are at once νήπιοι and ἄφρονέοντες.[80] A formulaic link in this case reflects a conceptual association. A person is νήπιος when he puts his trust in the wrong things; [81] children are called νήπιος because they are ephemeral, disconnected from the past and the future.[82] A young girl is called "undiscerning": ἄφρονα κούρην (5.875); ἄφρων is apparently interchangeable with νηπίη in terms of meaning. Nestor disparages Odysseus and his audience, calling them νήπιοι when he tries to reassert himself as chief counsellor.

The diction Paris uses when speaking to Antenor flies in the face of the latter's role as a πεπνυμένος , and implies that he is in fact the opposite, a νήπιος - like a baby. Paris "means", when he uses such diction, that he himself is better qualified as an advisor, despite Antenor's maturity. Paris uses here the same language his brother Hektor used when he dismissed Poulydamas' advice in Book 12. They are the only two speakers in the poem to use these words. Hektor and Paris accuse their elders of wanting intelligence using the same language with which Odysseus taunted Thersites, Nestor Odysseus and the

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[79]The epithet is associated with maturity in a speaker. Cf. Dickson 1990 pp.42-43.

[80]15.104: νήπιοι οἳ Ζηνὶ μενεαίνομεν ἀφρονέοντες.

[81]Cf. Edmunds 1990 pp.89ff.

[82]Ibid. pp.59-60. This is to be contrasted with the "circumspection" (cf. Dickson 1990 pp.39f. ) of Poulydamas (18.250), Priam (3.108-110) and Halitherses in the Odyssey (24.451-452).

Achaean λάος, Iris-Polites Priam and Diomedes Agamemnon; - language which connotes the speaker's assertion that he is better qualified to offer counsel than the addressee he insults.

Hektor's and Paris' shared diction is interesting, and the present case is not an isolated phenomenon. The brothers often share phrases which are never assigned to any other speakers in the poem, phrases which highlight the Trojan brothers' hubristic confidence in their own ἔπεα. Paris, in the tumultuous and confused assembly of Book 7, scoffs at Antenor's speech and then says: αὐτὰρ ἐγὼ.....ἀγορεύσω (7.361). Paris' ἀγορεύσω has a twin in Hektor's speech to the assembly in Book 8 (line 525) in a context in which Hektor focusses on his competence as a speaker in an arrogant and highly self-conscious way; the repeated phonemes in Hektor's speech foreground the self-referential dimension: ὧδ' ἔστω.....ὡς ἀγορεύσω.....ἔστω...../ἀγορεύσω. Only Paris and Hektor build boastful, defiant promises on the word ἀποδώσω (7.84; 362). Paris declares: "I refuse to return Helen to the Greeks": γυναῖκα μὲν οὐκ ἀποδώσω. Hektor, challenging the Achaean *aristoi* to a duel, says: "when I win, I will return ( ἀποδώσω ) my opponent's corpse to the well-benched ships"; Hektor subtly implies that the warrior's tomb will paradoxically reflect Hektor's *own* glory.[83] Paris and Hektor share diction and the notion that they, as Trojans young enough to fight, are the speakers who deserve to dominate the assemblies.

In Book 7, both the Trojan elders open their speeches by saying ὄφρ' εἴπω τά με θυμὸς ἐνι στήθεσσι κελεύει (7.349; 369). Other uses of this line suggest that this diction is specialised, used when a speaker anticipating obstruction speaks in boastful and challenging tones. For the words are spoken by Hektor when he addresses both armies, challenging an individual Achaean to a duel (7.67-68) and by Zeus to the gods and goddesses assembled on Olympus with the adjunct "let no-one try to thwart my word"

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[83] 7.86-91: σῆμα τε οἱ χεύωσιν ἐπὶ πλατεῖ Ἑλλησπόντῳ...../.....ὥς ποτέ τις ἐρέει· τὸ δ' ἐμὸν κλέος οὔ ποτ' ὀλεῖται.

(8.5-8).[84] In other words, the diction is used by a speaker who addresses an audience from whom he expects hostility. In the present scene, the poet enhances the expectation of conflict on the narrational level. The formulaic introduction to Antenor's speech is only used in one other place in the Iliad: πεπνυμένος ἦρχ' ἀγορεύειν describes Poulydamas addressing the Trojan assembly in Book 18 (18.249). Poulydamas' advice, like Antenor's in Book 7, is sharply criticised and rejected. πεπνυμένος ἦρχ' also introduces the speech of Hephaistos in Book 1, and Hephaistos is another speaker who is not taken seriously; the gods laugh at his limp (1.599-600), although his attempt to soothe the quarrel between Zeus and Hera is effective to a degree.

There is an Achaean assembly preceding the Trojan one in Book 7.[85] Here, Nestor's suggestion that there be a suspension of fighting at dawn for the cremation of the corpses meets with the praise of the kings (in the formulaic phrase :Ὣς ἔφαθ' οἱ δ ἄρα πάντες ἐπήνησαν βασιλῆες, (9.710). ). In the Trojan assembly, Priam's advice is taken, but is not met with nearly the same enthusiasm as Nestor's is: Ὣς ἔφαθ' οἱ δ ἄρα τοῦ μάλα μὲν κλύον ἠδ' ἐπίθοντο.[86] To conclude, in the Trojan assemblies, generational discord seems to substitute for the Achaean practice of quarrelling with the king. Whereas Nestor oversees the younger Achaeans' contention for status and for audience attention, and is eventually heeded in his capacity as conciliator, at Troy, the old are afforded no particular respect, and assigned no such authoritative positions.

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[84] At 19.102 Agamemnon puts the same words into Zeus' mouth, narrating his boast of the imminent birth of Heracles; Zeus speaks εὐχόμενος (100) and immediately falls for Hera's trickery; Hektor too, in the same speech in which he uses this diction ends his speech with a boast (τὸ δ' ἐμον κλέος οὔ ποτ' ὀλεῖται - 7.91)

[85] Both occur after the duel between Aias and Hektor, and seem deliberately placed together to give a sense of the contrast between Trojan and Achaean meetings. But it isn't altogether clear that the Achaean gathering is an assembly, as opposed to a meeting of a select group of elders; it resembles meetings of Agamemnon's council of elders in that Agamemnon makes a sacrifice of a bull with Nestor giving his counsel first after the feast; - cf. 2.402, especially 433ff..

[86] Although on other occasions Nestor's speech receives the more moderate response Priam gets here - eg. 9.79.

### *Agamemnon's Elders and Hektor's Pantas Aristous*

Twice, Agamemnon calls special meetings of a group technically referred to as "elders".[87] These advisers discuss strategy with Agamemnon before the whole body of the troops is addressed in the assembly . The first meeting of the "elders" comes after Agamemnon wakes from the evil dream sent by Zeus. He arms himself, and tells the heralds to call the Achaeans to the *agorê*; but first he holds a preliminary council of the elders by Nestor's ship (2.53). At this meeting of the *boule*, he describes his dream and airs his intention to test the soldiers' loyalty; Nestor approves his speech and only then do the elders go forth to join the troops. Secondly, at 2.404, Agamemnon sends the troops to make their meal and feed their horses in preparation for battle (2.381-385). They obediently disperse to the ships to make their individual sacrifices (2.398-399). But Agamemnon makes a separate sacrifice of a bull, and invites the elders, beginning with Nestor and Idomeneus; after they have eaten, Nestor begins the *muthoi* (432-433: αὐτὰρ ἐπεὶ πόσιος καὶ ἐδητύος ἐξ ἔρον ἔντο,/ τούς ἄρα μῦθων ἦρχε Γερήνιος ἱππότα Νέστωρ), and advises Agamemnon to make the heralds assemble the host.

The sacrificial meal is an important part of the gathering of elders; Agamemnon invites his council to eat special food with him as a mark of honour, in exchange for which they offer him their counsel. Agamemnon responds to Odysseus' usurpation of his own and Nestor's prerogatives by inviting him in last place to the feast. When the Achaean elders meet, their "weaving the web of counsel" is often preceded, in a seemingly ritual

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[87]This group of "elders" includes as well as Nestor, men as young as Diomedes. Kirk (1985 A p.120) translates "senior commanders"; Murray (1980 p.59) uses the Homeric poems as evidence for a Dark Age council of elders comprised by the heads of all the noble households. But "Homeric Society" is a mirage. The Homeric poems do not record the civic practices of any one historical period, but present an amalgam reflecting the various archaeological strata of the poems' composition. Snodgrass (1974) argues that in the Homeric poems practices are described which were never found in combination in any one historical period. He is contesting the view of Finley (1977) that the Odyssey represents Mycenean society of the tenth and ninth centuries. "Amalgam" is Kirk's term: Chapter 9 of Kirk 1962 is entitled "The Cultural and Linguistic Amalgam". But since the subject of our investigation is representation, it does not matter what historical reality lies behind the "Homeric" *boule*. The interesting point is that Agamemnon calls meetings of the "elders" to discuss strategy and the most prominent participant in these meetings is Nestor, the person who most deserves the literal title "elder".

manner, by a sacrifcial meal they share. Just as in the Odyssey, a banquet is the prelude for the telling of stories, in the Iliad a debate in which strategy is devised is preceded by a feast. Symposiastic poetry records the way drinking and dining would anticipate the recitation and the impromptu composition of poetry. Words are offered as compensation for food.[88] Agamemnon reproaches Idomeneus in Book 4, telling him that he should be more eager to fight because at the feast he is given portions equal to Agamemnon's own. The social principle of division which applies to deeds applies to words as well: those who eat equal portions with the king must repay the honour by giving him advice. The elders, who form the king's special council, are separated from the troops to eat special food with the king. "The sacrificial meal is particularly subject to sacred laws that regulate social interaction in distributing, giving, and taking".[89]

Hektor never gives a sacrifice for a select group of Trojan counsellors. He doesn't value any of his φίλοι - whom he never addresses ὦ φίλοι - enough to do so.[90] Moreover, as his exchanges with Poulydamas indicated, Hektor is little inclined to take advice from others, since he thinks that he himself surpasses others both at counsel as well as at warfare. Nevertheless, in Book 13, Poulydamas bravely advises Hektor to call a meeting of the πάντας ἀρίστους (13.740). Then, he says, the Trojans can consider all kinds of counsel (ἔνθεν δ' ἄν μάλα πᾶσαν ἐπιφρασσαίμεθα βουλήν - 75) and decide whether or not to attempt the attack on the ships. The meeting never transpires: when Hektor, uncharacteristically pleased with Poulydamas' suggestion, goes to search for the ἀρίστους,

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88 The inverse of this is that the starveling poets of the Theogony (26)- γάστερες οἶον - must beg for food as compensation for their song. Cf. line 494 of the Homeric Hymn to Demeter: πρόφρονες ἀντ' ᾠδῆς βίοτον θυμήρε' ὄπαζε; also Odyssey 8.477ff.

89Burkert 1983 p. 37, where he also writes: "A sacrificial community is a model in miniature of society as a whole; it is divided according to the occupation and rank of its members". Thus the ritual of sacrifice re-inforces the hierarchies of a society.

90 In Book 10 Hektor does once call together the πάντας ἀρίστους, hoping to bribe one of them to go as a spy to the Achaean ships (10.300). This parallels Nestor's gathering of a select group of Achaean kings (also πάντας ἀρίστους) at 10.273. I do not think this tells against the argument at all. The status of Book 10 has often been considered spurious. Anomalies like this seem to support that suggestion.

he can only find Paris, who informs him that the Trojan princes he is looking for are all killed or wounded (13.780ff.). Paris persuades Hektor to go ahead as the troops' leader; Poulydamas' council is forgotten.

Moreover, even if Poulydamas' council had been called, its composition would have been very different from that of Agamemnon's *boulê*. While Agamemnon's councils are explicitly said to be composed of the γερόντες,[91] the Trojan counterpart to Agamemnon's *boulê* would have excluded the old. Hektor was to select are "all the best ones" - πάντας ἀρίστους - and call them to council. A look at the rest of the poem shows that this phrase refers to "all the best *fighters* " - in other words, the *young* men. πάντας ἀρίστους occurs in ten places in the Iliad. Its most frequent use is in duelistic challenges: Paris challenges "all the best" warriors of the Achaeans at 3.19; compare 7.150 and 7.285 (Paris and Ereuthalion προκαλίζετο πάντας ἀρίστουw; Hektor προκαλέσσατο πάντας ἀρίστους), while at 11.258 Coön calls upon all his comrades, πάντας ἀρίστους to help him drag his brother's body away from Agamemnon.[92] Poulydamas, himself curiously young for a counsellor, advocated a meeting of the young warriors. Not even Poulydamas thinks of consulting the Trojan elders or handing over discussion of strategy to them. It is not surprising that at the Achaean camp - a community of young warriors - there are no old men other than Nestor to participate in a council of "elders". Nevertheless, the council is still called a council of "elders". The Achaeans, as their respect for Nestor also indicates, retain a respect for the old and maintain a special position of authority for them. The Trojans do not recognise the conventional advice-giving capacity of the old. This a transgression, akin to their badly run assemblies. The curious position of Poulydamas has already been discussed.

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[91]Cf. 2. 53: βουλὴν δὲ πρῶτον μεγαθύμων ἶζε **γερόντων**; 2.21: Νέστορι, τόν ῥα μάλιστα **γερόντων** τῖ' Ἀγαμέμνων; 9.70: δαίνυ δαῖτα **γέρουσιν**: 9.89: Ἀτρεΐδης δὲ **γέροντας** ἀολλέας ἦγεν Ἀχαιῶν/ ἐς κλισίην.

[92]The remaining occurrences are at 13.740 and 751, where Hektor and Poulydamas discuss the gathering Poulydamas proposed, and in Book 10 (See n. 90).

### *The Teikhoskopia*

While the young men fight, the Trojan elders - γήραϊ δὴ πολέμοιο πεπαυμένοι - (3.150) sit on the city walls and watch. We have seen that the Trojans have no council of elders. But the *teikhoskopia* scene of Book 3 is usually thought to depict such a council in session. The Trojan kings are literally "elders"; - they are the contemporaries of Priam, and like Nestor are past fighting. The poet calls them δημογέροντες which according to Leaf, means simply γέρων and refers to a member of the council of elders of the *demos* or community.[93]

But the *teikhoskopia* does not at all resemble a council meeting. We do not see the elders forming any strategic plans in this scene, or even discussing the course of the battle at all. Instead, they have an air of curious detachment and seem almost like impartial spectators of the war.[94] The diction with which the poet constructs the scene enhances the sense of detachment: the old men sit exchanging talk: ἦκα πρὸς αλλήλους ἔπεα πτερόεντ' ἀγόρευον· (3.155). The only other use of this complete phrase is at Iliad 24.142, when Thetis and Achilles sit apart to engage in personal conversation (cf. line 126 ἡ δὲ μάλ' ἄγχ' αὐτοῖο καθέζετο πότνια μήτηρ), self-contained and absorbed in each other even in the middle of the crowded ships: Ὣς οἵ γ' ἐν νηῶν ἀγόρει μήτηρ τε καὶ υἱος / πολλὰ πρὸς ἀλλήλους ἔπεα πτερόεντ' ἀγόρευον (24.141-142).

Priam and Antenor do not issue μῦθοι to meetings of kings as Nestor does. When they speak in the assembly, their μῦθοι are scorned by the younger Trojans. In the *teikhoskopia* scene, Priam and his contemporaries sit apart from the battle and seem

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[93]Leaf 1971 p.130. Leaf notes that the only recurrence of the term in the Iliad is at 11.372, where it is applied to Ilos.

[94]The location of the *teikhoskopia* has been a perennial source of anxiety, for unitarians, analysts and new-analysts alike. Tsagarakis (1982), however, opposes the view that such a scene only makes sense at the beginning of the war, not in its tenth year. Tasagarakis and his opponents base their arguments on the exigencies of plot. I am claiming that the *teikhoskopia* is an essential feature of the representation of Trojan culture.

unconcerned by it. In a leisurely manner, Priam and his cronies idly size up the Achaean kings and their remembered speeches. While Helen is questioned about the identity of the Greek commanders, Antenor reminisces about a more peaceful occasion on which Menelaus and Odysseus came as an embassy to negotiate for Helen's return, and were graciously entertained by him (207: τοὺς δ' ἐγὼ εξείνισσα καὶ ἐν μεγάροισι φίλησα). The *teikhoskopia* itself has the atmosphere of an Odyssean visit; for Helen replies to Priam's first question conversationally,[95] adopting the diction conventionally associated with the genre of talk customary on a peace-time visit: in the Odyssey, when a guest is asked about who he is and where he has come from, the standard reply begins with words identical to Helen's: "since you ask: ἀνείρεαι ἠδὲ μεταλλᾷς .[96]

The Trojan elders speak "like cicadas" (3.151). Falkner notes that the simile suggests the myth of Tithonus,[97] recounted in the Homeric Hymn to Aphrodite. Eos asks Zeus to give Tithonus immortality but forgets to request eternal youth for him. Tithonus eventually loses the strength of his limbs to old age (237-238), while his voice babbles on endlessly (ῥέει ἄσπετος - 237).[98] This suggests that the Trojan elders are compared to cicadas because their talk is unceasing. Each of them is like Tithonus and has a voice which flows ἄσπετος.[99] The idea that cicada-talk is neverending speech fits well with the

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[95]This is also a nice touch of characterisation: Helen, abducted by Paris, whether unwilling or willingly, and the cause of all the trouble at Troy, preserves her dignity by assuming the manners of a guest when she sits among the elderly Trojan men.

[96]Nowhere else in the Iliad. Odyssey 1.231; 7.243; 15.390; 15.402; 19.171.

[97]Falkner 1989 p.58 n.38. Some commentators have supposed that the version of the myth in which Tithonus is transformed into a *tettix* is a late one, but King (1986 pp.27-28) counters their argument convincingly.

[98] In an alternative version of the myth, alluded to by the scholiast at Iliad 11.1 (Hieronymus fr. 15 We = Erbse 3 p.123). Tithonus himself asks for immortality but forgets to ask for youth; when he then asks Eos for death she is unable to give it to him, but transforms him into a cicada so that she can still hear his voice. Eustathius says that Tithonus begs to become an animal because he wants to be without speech or reason; but that he is made into a cicada instead - an animal which *does* have *logos*.

[99]Van Eck (1978 at line 237) suggests that ἄσπετος means "powerful"; Maxwell-Stuart (1977 p.160), that it means "inarticulacy, a groping for words". I do not find Maxwell-Stuart's parallels very persuasive. Chantraine (1968 sv) gives the basic meaning "infini, immense" and derive from *sekw- with a-privative; - "unsayable". Aphrodite tells her beloved Anchises that she would not have him suffer the same fate as

Myth of the Cicadas told by Plato in the Phaedrus. Cicadas were men before the birth of the Muses; when the Muses were born, and with them, song, some men were so overwhelmed that they sang without ceasing, and eventually died, forgetting, in their enthusiasm for song, to eat or drink. The race of the cicadas was then reborn from them, with a new gift from the Muses: cicadas need no sustenance, but sing continuously from their birth to death.[100] In general, senile loquacity is a motif in Homeric poetry.[101] In Book 2, Iris-Polites chastises Priam's *akritoi muthoi*. Nestor's speeches are notable for their length.[102] The Trojan elders are marked out as especially long-winded speakers, and this lends Antenor's criticism of Menelaus' speech ironic appeal. A lengthy speaker himself, Antenor likes Menelaus' speech less than Odysseus' because Menelaus is οὐ πολύμυθος (3.214).[103]

And yet the poet calls the Trojan elders ἀγορηταὶ ἐσθλοί (150-151); and they display a confidence in their own ability to assess speech and style; they have many critical comments to make about the performances of their Achaean visitors.[104] Their speech can be positively evaluated, according to *some* standard. Pertinent here is the observation that "a language represents a system of interconnected subcodes; each language encompasses

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Tithonus (239-240). This suggests that ἄσπετος is pejorative, and does not have a positive meaning like Van Eck's "powerful".

100 Phaedrus 259A-D.

101 Cf. Mugler 1980.

102 Eustathius comments at Odyssey (ad. Od.1527.64ff.) on the practice of mocking very old men by calling them "Tithonoi".

103 But see Martin 1989 p.110 for the different interpretation of οὐ πολύμυθος as an admiring description.

104 Given the notable absence of the sceptre from Trojan accoutrements, it is interesting to find the Trojan elders discussing Odysseus' use of the sceptre in the session in which they analyse Achaean performance style. They say that they were surprised to note that he did not move the object about much when he spoke, but stood with it fixed in one spot on the ground. It is true that one raises the sceptre to swear an oath and also that one can throw it to the ground to express utter rejection of the authority it symbolises (as Achilles does - 1.245), or despair of one's competence as a speaker (as Telemakhos does - Odyssey 2.80). But Odysseus was presumably not making an especially passionate speech. Is it really so surprising that he held the sceptre still while he spoke ? Antenor's comment provokes memories of Plutarch's condemnation of the wild and theatrical style Cleon and the other "demagogues" adopted when they spoke in the Athenian assembly (Nicias 8.6; compare Pericles' decorum: Pericles 5.1). Trojan approval of a dramatically expressive style hints at the traditional barbarian vice of emotionalism (Hall 1989 p.80).

several concurrent patterns which are each characterised by a different function".[105] The talk of the Trojan elders is not politically effective. They are not concerned with the conative function of language.[106] But they have an interest in the *aesthetic* dimension of speeches - as well as of the speakers who make them: Menelaus has a more impressive stature than Odysseus, who holds his sceptre stiffly and unstylishly; but Odysseus' words float out naturally like snow.

There is a distinction to be drawn between politically effective and aesthetically effective performances. Nestor, for all his storytelling and geographical detail,[107] makes speeches which are heard by the young kings. Therefore he can be termed a "political" speaker. For the Trojan elders, significant speech is speech characterised by the poetic function.[108] They emit an ὄπα λειριόεεσαν; the same epithet is used of the voices of the Muses at the beginning of the Theogony (41).[109] The cicadas in the Phaedrus enjoy a close relationship with the Muses, and are the first mortal poets. If Plato's version of the myth is a traditional one, the Trojan elders, preoccupied with discussion about the formal aesthetics of speech and the physical form and self-presentation of speakers, can be said to resemble the cicadas, busy with song. The Trojan elders - τεττίγεσσιν ἐοικότες - are without political weight. Their speech can only be poetic, for their detachment leads them to speculation about linguistic and poetic style, purely for the sake of style.

In Greek culture, the old are respected as wise counsellors. But in the Iliad's depiction of Troy, the domination of arrogant young Trojans relegates the Trojan elders to speculative talk about aesthetics on the Trojan Walls. The *Teikhoskopia* is a mere palimpsest of the typical and traditional council of elders. The dismissal of the wise

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[105]Jakobson 1960 p.352.

[106]Ibid. p.355: orientation towards the addressee, finding its purest expression in the vocative and the imperative. In other words, the function characteristic of persuasive speeches in the assembly.

[107]Kirk 1971 p.30.

[108]Jakobson 1960 p.356: the poetic function, the set towards the message itself, "promotes the palpability of signs".

[109]Noted by Leaf 1971 pp.130-131.

counsel of elders in Trojan assemblies is but one aspect of the unseemliness which governs these Trojan gatherings. There is no *kosmos* at the Trojan assemblies. They are held at the wrong times, and in the wrong places. Speech is not sanctioned by the holding of a sceptre.

The Trojan army *en masse* does not resemble a well-ordered community. As in the Old Testament story of the Tower of Babel, the Trojan allies' various and disseminated languages go hand in hand with a failure of social cohesion. The Trojans do not form a community of φίλοι: Hektor never holds a sacrifice for the other leaders of his army, at which food would be apportioned as an outward demonstration of each man's status and entitlement to speech within the community. At Trojan assemblies, the advice of those who count for nothing - the old men and the seers - is brusquely dismissed without discussion. There is no quarreling and strife, as there is amongst the Achaeans, to sort the members of the *demos* from the kings, as a ritualised enactment of social tensions. The Achaeans are perpetually beset by verbal and physical conflict. Amongst the Achaeans, the appropriate division of speech, status and food - *kosmos* - emerges from the perennial state of strife which dominates the assembled troops.

## CHAPTER 2

### *FACE-TO-FACE: FIGHTING TALK AND TALKING TROJAN*

Turning from the representation of massed gatherings of Achaeans and Trojans, I will now explore the ways in which Trojans behave when they encounter Achaean warriors one-on-one. I would like to be able to say, "the ways in which Trojans behave verbally", but unfortunately, Trojan warriors have various ways of avoiding conversation with their Achaean opponents face-to-face. Fighting from a hidden spot with a bow and arrow is one of them.

#### *Trojans and their Bows*

Agamemnon calls his men ἰόμοροι - usually translated "arrow-fighters".[1] The word is a Homeric *hapax*. Judging by the context - Ἀργεῖοι ἰόμοροι, ἐλεγχέες, οὔ νυ σέβεσθε· "Argives, base arrow-fighters, have you no shame ?" - the epithet is being used as a term of abuse (4.242). I think that the representation of warriors in the Iliad who fight with bows and arrows, an account of which I will now give, supports the translation "arrow-fighters". Diomedes also uses the term τοξότα - bowman - as an insult; he puts it upfront in a string of terms of abuse he throws out at Paris: he calls him τοξότα, λωβητήρ, κέρα ἀγλαέ, παρθενοπῖπα (11.385): "bowman, reviler, wearer of pretty love-locks,[2] ogler of girls". This is when, in Book 11, Paris leaps out from a "hiding-place" or "ambush" after he shoots his arrow at Diomedes: **ἐκ λόχου** ἀμπήδησε (11.379).[3] Paris makes his shot while

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[1]Cf. Chantraine (1968) sv. The scholiasts associate the epithet with the noun "arrow" (ἰος ). The difficulty with this idea is that the iota is long in the word for "arrow" and short in ἰόμοροι.

[2]In support of this translation, see Nussbaum (1986).

[3]Edwards (1985) analyses the strategy of λόχος (ambush) as it appears in Homer. He finds that it is viewed as cowardly (p.26), involves crouching down (p.121) and is associated with δόλος (trickery - p.19). The ambush is not associated with κράτος and βίη, and πόλεμος and λόχος form an exhaustive opposition (p.18).

leaning against the *stêle* of Dardanus' tomb: στήλῃ κεκλιμένος (371). The participle κεκλιμένος in this position used with a dative noun seems to have a special association with people in hiding: at 21.549 Apollo is represented "leaning against an oak" - φηγῷ κεκλιμένος. In this scene the god is concealed in mist, standing secretly at Agenor's side to assist him.

The postures of other archers in the poem who shoot out from hiding-places are described with precision. Pandaros cowers behind the shields of his friends as he prepares to shoot at Diomedes: πρόσθεν δὲ σάκεα σχέθον ἐσθλοι ἑταῖροι (4.113). And Teucer is sheltered under Aias' shield except when he darts out to shoot an arrow at the Trojans. Aias protects him as a mother her child: αὐτὰρ ὁ αὖτις ἰὼν πάϊς ὣς μητέρα δύσκεν / εἰς Αἴανθ' · ὁ δέ μιν σάκεϊ κρύπτασκε φαεινῷ (8.271-272). Agamemnon, in the same flyting episode in which he calls his men ἰόμοροι, ἐλεγχέες , accuses them of cowering (340; 371) like scared animals.[4] All archers, like Pandaros, Teucer and Paris, crouch like frightened hares or scared children as they exercise their skill.

To crouch and cower is to avoid exchanging a direct and hostile look with your opponent. Agamemnon, again in the flyting episode, demands of Diomedes: τί **πτώσσεις**, τί δ' **ὀπιπεύεις** πολέμοιο γεφύρας; - "Why do you cower and peep out at the bridges of war?" (4.371). Hektor uses the same vocabulary to contrast open fighting - fighting ἀμφαδόν - with "peeping out" at someone covertly - λάθρῃ **ὀπιπεύσας** (7.243). Teucer too, peeps out from behind cover while he selects his victims: παπτήνας (8.269).[5]

Diomedes insults Paris for a bowman and in the same breath calls him παρθενοπῖπα - "leerer at girls". παρθενοπῖπα echoes λάθρῃ **ὀπιπεύσας/ὀπιπεύεις** - the words share a root as well as a base meaning. The semantic link between the words connives with the fact that Diomedes uses παρθενοπῖπα in a context similar to that in which Agamemnon used

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[4]Martin (1989) pp.69-70.

[5]Lonsdale (1988) p.326 argues that the verb παπταίνω has in Homer two antithetical meanings. It can mean either "to look for escape", or "to glare, glower" - at an opponent.

ὀπιπεύεις, to suggest that a παρθενοπῖπα is a person who makes flirtatious, sidelong glances. Like an archer, he does not meet a person's eyes openly. Leering at girls is a skill involving surreptious looks, not looking candidly and directly. Archery and seduction are related arts; Paris is expert at both. Both require evasion of the open (ἀμφαδόν) face-to-face confrontation. Both arts involve deception, not *alkê*. Hektor, like Diomedes, taunts his brother, calling him a "seducer" - **ἠπεροπευτά** (3.39). At 3.399 Helen angrily asks Aphrodite: δαιμονίη, τί με ταῦτα λιλαίεαι **ἠπεροπεύειν**; "Why must you *beguile* me ?", and at 5.349 Diomedes challenges Aphrodite, "Surely you are content beguiling women without *alkê* ?": ἦ οὐχ ἄλις ὅττι γυναῖκας ἀνάλκιδας **ἠπεροπεύεις**; - seduction is fit for someone so soft that he or she only fights with women.

Moreover, the archer is a treacherous cheat: he does not fight straight.[6] Pandaros' "bent" bow - καμπύλα τόξα - (5.97) is *inclined* - **ἀγκλίνας** - against the ground. Paris himself is "inclined" - **κεκλιμένος** - as he leans against the *stelê* of Dardanos to shoot his arrow. There is a detailed and careful description of Pandaros' gestures and his posture as makes ready his bow and arranges himself into a shooting position (4.105-126).[7] He puts the bow down on the ground carefully (εὖ κατέθηκε - 112) after bending it (τανυσσάμενος - 112); then, having fitted the arrow to the bowstring (118), he draws the bow until it is circular (αὐτὰρ ἐπεὶ δὴ κυκλοτερὲς μέγα τόξον ἔτεινε - 124).

The Trojans have two notable archers - Pandaros and Paris - fighting on their side, and Apollo the archer is prominent amongst the gods who stand by and defend the Trojans. Archery, like seduction, is a typically Trojan skill. The only notable Achaean archer is Teucer, and there is clearly something amiss with both his pedigree and his warrior identity

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[6]The archer is not quite "straight". The moral dimension of the metaphor is to be found in Greek thought too; compare the contrast between straight and crooked *dikai* throughout Hesiod's Works and Days (*passim*).

[7]Not everyone agrees that the detailed account of Pandaros' preparations have great significance. Kirk (1990) pp.341-342 cites Lorimer (1950) p. 290 on the poet's representation of Pandaros' bow. She says the description "has a specious appearance of detailed precision which does not survive examination". She also explains that Pandaros' "composite" bow is of the Asiatic style, not the "European" type. See also Wace and Stubbings (1962) p.319.

- at least as he is described in this section.[8] To be likened to a child with its mother is hardly high praise in the warrior-code's system of images. This infantilisation of Teucer can be aligned with Diomedes' feminisation of Paris (κέρα ἀγλαέ - "with your pretty love-locks"[9]) as he taunts him for being an archer. Teucer's status of disadvantage as the illegitimate child of Telamon, while Aias is the true-born son, is brought out symbolically in the fact that he depends on Aias for protection. Agamemnon points out that Teucer is illegitimate in a speech right after the poet's account of Teucer's antics as an archer. This is probably a meaningful juxtaposition; for a warrior's genealogy is a proof of his martial worth. Teucer's lineage is impaired; the faulty disconnection in his fatherhood means that he cannot fight straight and true. Like the effeminate Paris, he is not a real man; real men don't fight with bows.[10]

The cowering archer shrinks from a face-to-face encounter with the enemy. To engage in a face-to-face encounter is an assertion of equality with your opponent. But archery, involving artful deception, is a *mêtis* - skill, and *mêtis*-skills are the province of the disadvantaged. There is a linguistic analogue to this. A modern theorist argues that in conversation, indirectness is "the only way a subordinate person can manipulate within a relationship without redefining [it]".[11]

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[8]For a more favourable account, see 13.313-314.

[9]On the translation of this phrase, see Nussbaum (1986).

[10]See Kirk 1990 p.64 on the "ultimate failure of an archer" as a typical motif of the poem. He cites Erbse (1961) p. 177, and refers us to Helenos at 13. 593-597 and Teukros at 15. 458ff. as well as 8.292 ff.

[11]Tannen 1985 A p.16, citing Dreyfus 1975.

### *Trojans Turning Tail*

Fighting with a bow and arrow is one typical evasive Trojan tactic. A different way to avoid a face-to-face encounter with your enemy is to turn round and flee him. Warriors who do this often gets spears in their backs - a shameful way to go, according to Tyrtaeus.[12] In the Iliad, only Trojan warriors turn away from an encounter like this; a whole type-scene, albeit a miniature one, is built around the gesture. The gesture is formulaically represented by the participle (μετα)στρεφθέντι. This form of behaviour is the cowardly alternative to looking steadily ahead - ἄντα ἰδών - as you avoid the spear of the enemy facing you.

There are five such occurrences of (μετα)στρεφθέντι.[13] Agamemnon fixes a spear in Odios' back as he turns to escape (5.40); Diomedes wounds Agelaos as he turns his horses to escape (8.258); Odysseus wounds Sokos in the back as he turns to walk off (11.447); Antilochus watches Thöon as he turns round, and wounds him (13.545); Patroklos casts at and strikes Areïlykos as he turns round (16.308).

There are other dictional similarities between these contexts. 5.40-42 (πρώτῳ γὰρ στρεφθέντι μεταφρένῳ ἐν δόρυ πῆξεν /[14] ὤμων μεσσηγύς, διὰ δὲ στήθεσφιν ἔλασσε, / δούπησεν δὲ πεσών, ἀράβησε δὲ τεύχε' ἐπ' αὐτῷ ) are identical with 8.258-260, except for the slight variation in line 258: τῷ δὲ μεταστρεφθέντι μεταφρένῳ ἐν δόρυ πῆξεν. 11.447-449 are the same again,[15] except that ἀράβησε δὲ τεύχε' ἐπ' αὐτῷ is replaced by ὁ δ' ἐπεύξατο δῖος

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[12]Frag. 1.19-20: αἰσχρὸς δ ἐστι νέκυς κατακείμενος ἐν κονίῃσι / νῶτον ὄπισθ' αἰχμῆι δουρὸς ἐληλάμενος. Compare Diomedes to Odysseus at 8.94-95: πῇ φεύγεις μετὰ νῶτα βαλὼν κακὸς ὣς ἐν ὁμίλῳ; / μή τίς τοι φεύγοντι μεταφρένῳ ἐν δόρυ πήξῃ

[13]5.40 = 8.258 = 11.447: πρώτῳ γὰρ στρεφθέντι μετφρένῳ ἐν δόρυ πῆξεν / ὤμων μεσσηγύς, δία δὲ στήθεσφιν ἔλασσεν 13.545-546: Ἀντίλοχος δὲ Θόωνα μεταστρεφθέντα δοκεύσας / οὔτασ' ἐπαίξας, ἀπὸ δὲ φλέβα πᾶσαν ἔκερσεν ; 16.308: αὐτίκ' ἄρα στρεφθέντος Ἀρηϊλύκον βάλε μηρὸν / ἔχεϊ ὀξυόεντι, διαπρὸ δὲ χαλκὸν ἔλασσε· The only other uses of (μετα)στρεφθέντι are at 12.428: "and many were wounded in the flesh by thrusts of pitiless bronze, both whensoever any turned and his back was left bare, as they fought" (ἠμὲν ὅτεῳ στρεφθέντι μετάφρενα γυμνοθείη / μαρναμέμων), and at 17.732: the two Aiases wheel round to stand and face the Trojans (ἀλλ' ὅτε δή ῥ' Αἴαντε μεταστρεφθέντε κατ' αὐτοὺς / σταίησαν).

[14]Compare 8.95: μή τίς τοι φεύγοντι μεταφρένῳ ἐν δόρυ πήξῃ· Diomedes has just asked Odysseus where he is running with his back turned like a coward: πῇ φεύγεις μετὰ νῶτα βαλὼν κακὸς ὣς ἐν ὁμίλῳ; (8.94).

[15]11.447=5.258.

'Οδυσσεύς· 13.545 ('Αντιλοχος δὲ Θόωνα μεταστρεφθέντα δοκεύσας ) and 16.308 (αὐτίκ' ἄρα στρεφθέντος 'Αρηϊλύκου βάλε μηρὸν ) are a little different from this group, but similar to each other: compare 13.548-549 (ὁ δ' ὕπτιος ἐν κονίῃσι / κάππεσεν ) with 16.310-311 (ὁ δὲ πρηνὴς ἐπὶ γαίῃ / κάππεσ' ). The recurrence of similar dictional elements in each case allows us to conceive of the gesture of turning in flight as the focal point of a brief typical scene. The scene always occurs in the course of a catalogue of killings. The action is a recurring theme, the central element in a scene which tends to be constructed from similar dictional pieces.

The gesture has particular social significance. It is like the images on the vases of which Frontisi-Ducroux and Lissarague write "the gesture itself can become the object of the composition".[16] The gesture of turning and getting a spear in the back is the central image in a type-scene which frames the Trojans as warriors who avoid standing their ground and fighting face-to-face.

### *Face-to-Face*

I have described two ways in which Trojans avoid fighting face-to-face. The notion is very important, given the centrality of face-to-face fighting and talking in the Iliad - as in other heroic epics. To encounter and withstand someone in battle, fighting with him one-on-one, is to go "to meet" - ἀντιον - him. Diomedes and Achilles tell their opponents: δυστήνων δέ τε παῖδες ἐμῷ μένει **ἀντιόωσι** (6.127; 21.151). Menelaos says that there will be much disgrace - λώβη - if none of the Achaeans will go and confront Hektor: "Εκτορος **ἄντιος** (7.98). Later he warns Euphorbus against opposing him: εἴ κε μευ **ἄντα** / στήῃς , advising him: μηδ' **ἀντιος** ἵστασ' ἐμεῖο (17. 29-30; 31). Apollo challenges Aeneas to fight with Achilles: **ἀντία** Πηλεΐωνος ὑπερθύμοιο μάχεσθαι (20.89); but Aeneas protests that no man can withstand the son of Peleus: τῷ οὐκ' ἔστ' 'Αχιλῆος **ἐναντίον** ἄνδρα μάχεσθαι

[16]Frontisi-Ducroux and Lissarague (1991) p.36.

(20.97). In the end, Apollo inspires Aeneas to face Achilles: **ἀντιον** ἐλθέμεναι **μεγαλήτορος** Αἰνείαο (20.175). Finally, Hektor, planning to confront the war at 13.752, says: **ἀντιόω** πολέμοιο.[17]

Confronting your enemy - going ἀντιον him - is meeting him face-to-face. Face-to-face means eye-to-eye. Glaukos scorns Hektor for not standing his ground against Aias; Hektor did not "stand over against him and *look him in the eye* in the din of the enemy": στήμεναι ἄντα **κατ' ὄσσε ἰδὼν** δηΐων ἐν ἀϋτῇ (17.167). Only a coward avoids eye-contact with his enemy. Achilles jeers at Agamemnon because the latter shrinks from coming to talk to him in person, *looking him in the face*: οὐδ' ἂν ἐμοι γε / τετλαίη κύνεός περ ἐὼν **εἰς ὦπα ἰδέσθαι** (9.372-373). The formula **ἄντα ἰδὼν** - "looking directly" occurs as part of a more complex gesture with which a warrior looks steadily at his opponent to guage the flight of his spear, then crouches to avoid it; -(without turning his back and running): καὶ τὸ μὲν **ἄντα ἰδὼν** ἠλεύατο φαίδιμος Ἕκτωρ· - just what the Trojans who turn and get spears in their backs are too cowardly to do. Archers also avoid looking directly at their victims. The Trojans have various ways of evading direct confrontation with their enemies; they do not like to meet them face-to-face and eye-to-eye.

The one-on-one encounter is especially prominent in the Iliad, as it is in other oral texts.[18] In fact, ritual exchanges which resemble stylised conversation are a prominent feature of folk poetry of all genres. They include, as well as competitive battles of words (flyting) between warriors in epic, terse dialogue in Greek tragedy and the antiphonal choral laments of ancient and modern Greece. In the study of linguistic pragmatics, conversation is often referred to as "face-to-face conversation".[19] The participants confront one another; conversational conflict may result in "loss of face". Because

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[17]Richard Martin and Brent Vine both observe that the root of these words literally means "face". Cf. Chantraine (1968) sv. - *ant = "en face". Compare Hittite hant - "face".

[18]Alexiou (1974) identifies swiftly-interchanging dialogue and catechistic questions as "well-defined features of folk style" (p.90).

[19]Though "face" has a technical sense here, it is clearly analogous to the literal meaning.

conversational speech-acts are situated in social contexts, paralinguistic features like the gestures and postures of the speakers involved will alter the dynamic of an exchange, and be part of its pragmatic analysis.[20] Such features as gesture and posture are clearly related to issues of social status. A suppliant, for example, kneels and looks down as an expression of his own humility. An analysis of a "face-to-face" conversational exchange will take into account the way gesture and posture disclose truths about the participants' "face" vis-à-vis one another.

The diction of a poem like the Iliad has systematic ways of describing the gestures involved in characters' conversations. Certain formulas account for the way in which participants in a verbal or physical exchange look at one another: ὑπόδρα ἰδών, ἄντα ἰδών and παπτήνας belong to this class.[21] Details of this kind are foregrounded when characters in the poem encounter and talk to one another. Aphrodite makes Helen sit in a chair opposite Paris , but she refuses to look straight at him when she addresses him; instead she glances aside: ὄσσε πάλιν κλίνασα (3.427) and scolds him. Other formulas, like ἐγγύθεν ἦλθε (ἄγχι) παρίστατο and εἶπε παραστάς represent the conversationalists' physical stance relative to one another. These details show that the Iliad has an interest in the social context and the social dynamics of conversation.[22] Consequently, the representation of "face-to-face" conversations is likely to be an important vehicle for the characterisation of Trojans in comparison with Achaeans.

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[20]See most recently on this topic, Lateiner (1992).

[21]Holoka (1983) demonstrates that ὑπόδρα ἰδών is the gesture of a superior who deplores an infraction of propriety by a subordinate.

[22]The representational system of the Iliad thus resembles another contemporary or near-contemporary art form which foregrounds gestures for the sake of their social meaning - Athenian vase-painting. Frontisi-Ducroux and Lissarague (1991) describe the way in which in some images on vases "the gesture itself can become the object of the composition". Often the representation of a gesture will be the focal point of an image, linking the other elements - altars and columns, human-beings or animals, vegetation - to give the image its spatial organisation. Images on vases are "based on choices from the continuum of gestures that inform social existence" (p.36). In these two semiotic systems we see parallel representations of an oral culture's expression of the people's confrontations of one another and the community.

### *Close Encounters*

Deborah Tannen sees conversation as a mode of behaviour which plays out a basic paradox of human existence: people wish to be at once social beings and separate individuals. In some cultures, social involvement is viewed less positively than in others; Tannen cites Ronald Scollon's quotation of a native Alaskan who talked of "the development of hostility that people feel when they are close".[23] The obverse of the paradox is the closeness that arises in situations of hostility; Thornton is struck by this when she describes Achilles' rejection of Lycaon's supplication: as he kills Lycaon, Achilles exclaims: ἀλλά, φίλος, θάνε καὶ σύ (21.106), and draws him into what Thornton calls "a community of death".[24] The metaphor of love as war is age-old and practically universal; in archaic Greek poetry the verb μιγνύμι is used formulaically to refer to erotic and martial encounters interchangeably. MacCary, in his discussion of these uses of μιγνύμι, refers to the "curious mixture of intimacy and hostility" which characterises encounters between warriors .[25]

While the paradox is implicit in the traditional language of the poetry, one character in the Iliad - Hektor - articulates the metaphor aloud, and explores the social problematics of human encounters - their intrinsic mixture of vulnerability and hostility. Hektor twice figuratively refers to the war as amorous dalliance - ὀαριστύς. At 17.228 he says that to turn straight against the enemy, whether you die in the act or live (τῶ τις νῦν ἰθὺς τετραμμένος ἢ ἀπολέσθω / ἠὲ σαωθήτω - 17.227), is the "amorous dalliance of war": ἡ γὰρ πολέμου ὀαριστύς. But to put down his spear and negotiate with Achilles "stripped naked" (*gumnos* ) would be to encounter him "like a woman": γυμνόν ἐόντα / αὔτως ὥς τε γυναῖκα (22.124-

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[23]Tannen (1985 A) p.18.

[24]Thornton 1984 p.159.

[25]Angela Carter (Carter 1969) recognises this in her novel Heroes and Villains. Marianne, a "Professor girl" living in one of the "civilised" outposts scattered across an atomic wasteland, remembers watching as a small girl her elder brother fighting a Barbarian boy during one of the periodic invasions of brightly painted Barbarians: "she saw them staring at one another, both oddly startled, as if this was the last thing they expected to happen, this embrace to the kill" (p.7).

125). To negotiate with him instead of fighting would be to flirt like a girl instead of flyting like a warrior: τῷ ὀαριζέμεναι, ἄ τε παρθένος ἠΐθεος τε, / παρθένος ἠΐθεος τ' ὀαρίζετον ἀλλήλοιν (22.127-128). Hektor resists a style of encounter which, strictly speaking, would ill-befit his present situation; but at the same time, choosing his words as he does, he manages to suggest that in the final analysis there is no real disjunction between the different contexts he envisages.

The Iliad ends with a startling encounter. Priam enters the enemy camp to kiss the hands of "the man who has killed so many of his sons".[26] He likens himself to this man's father. The poem ends with a scene the mood of which is dominated by a paradoxical mixture of intimacy and hostility. If such a paradox is intrinsic to conversation itself, it is unsurprising that the Iliad, perhaps even more than other oral texts, should throw conversations into relief when elaborating on the story of the Trojan War - a conflict between Greeks and Trojans which puts pairs of warriors into combative conversational encounters on the battlefield.[27]

### *Fighting Talk*

The speech genre typical of one-on-one encounters on the battlefield is "flyting": competitive talk in which young males engage. Its purpose is either to antagonise and intidimidate an opponent from another the other side, or to encourage solidarity through in-group rivalry with the members of the speakers' own group.[28] Flyting-speeches are aggressive and challenging, and are constructed out of ritual abuse combined with vows, threats and boasts.[29] Achaean soldiers frequently engage in this kind of talk both with one

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[26]24.478-479.

[27]Cf. Alter and Kermode (1987) pp.19-20: "The biblical writers repeatedly use dialogue not merely to define political positions with stylised clarity, as Thucydides does, but also to delineate unfolding relations, nuances of character and attitude".

[28]Flyting-matches are typical of epic poetry of all cultures; Martin (1989) compares the Afro-American genres of "dozens" and "sounding" (pp.66-67). See Ong (1981).

[29]Clover (1981). Her focus is on Beowulf and the Icelandic Sagas.

another and with their Trojan enemies. But the Trojans' attempts to deploy this kind of aggressive rhetoric often seem out of character. Trojans do not successfully counter their opponents' challenges when they encounter Greek warriors in the field; instead, they tend to quail and lapse into defensive talk, apologies and protests.[30] When Trojans "flyte" with one another, they tend to be either excessively vicious, as is Hektor when he attacks his brother Paris, or excessively mild, as is Aeneas when he finds Pandaros in despair in the midst of the fighting. Or, like Sarpedon when he addresses his cousin Glaukos, they may imaginatively extend the boundaries of the genre and turn it inside out, by crafting a flyting speech which seems to question and undercut the very warrior code it represents.

While some Trojans merely make strange-sounding attempts to engage the enemy in flyting-talk, others evade "battling with words" altogether. These Trojan warriors use the battlefield as a forum for a variety of quite different types of verbal performance: supplicatory prayers, genealogical recitations and wonder tales. These genres are simply not appropriate to the type of speech-situation which arises in the midst of the fighting.[31] Trojans who do depart from the flyting-talk which is expected are behaving in a way which is startingly unconventional. Their speeches are curious, not to be expected on a battlefield. Nevertheless, the speeches they make are well-formed performances and good examples of the genres they represent. Like the Trojan elders of the *teikhoskopia* , these Trojans are "good speakers". In fact, their deftness with language is a skill they rely on; their speeches, intended to procrastinate, or to disarm and distract their opponents, give them a reprieve from the fighting. The Trojans are "speakers of words" - though not usually of fighting words - rather than "doers of deeds".[32]

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[30]I am indebted to Brent Vine for some suggestions and a discussion which helped me begin to conceive of these deviations in a positive rather than an unfavourable light. This ultimately helped me to find a more satisfactory way of aligning these "misuses" with the impressive poetic performances made by certain Trojan speakers which I discuss in the latter part of the chapter.

[31]Achaean warriors, when they encounter Trojans and duel with them, never deviate from the threats and challenges expected in the heat of the moment.

[32]Compare Hektor's words at 20.367: καί κεν ἐγὼν ἐπέεσσι καὶ ἀθανάτοισι μαχοίμην - "I too could fight the immortal gods if the issue were words".

### *Irregular Episodes*

Speeches are evaluated in various places as κατὰ κόσμον, κατὰ μοῖραν or κατὰ καίρον - as well as befitting the status of a speaker, a speech must be "timely"; it must befit the present moment, the καιρός. Saying the wrong kind of thing at the wrong moment betrays a lack of κόσμος ; when Nestor approves Diomedes' speech as appropriate for the present situation, he calls it κατὰ κόσμον. Upon occasion, Trojan warriors manage to use flyting language, but apparently mistime their claims. Paris and Pandaros both yelp out premature boasts upon shooting and casting at Diomedes. The very similar diction of their two utterances and the fact that both are addressed to Diomedes suggest that they are to be classed together as markedly inappropriate. Pandaros says, after he has thrown his spear: βέβληαι κενεῶνα διαμπερές, οὐδε σ' ὀΐω / δηρὸν ἔτ' ἀνσχήσεσθαι ἐμοὶ δὲ μέγ' εὖχος ἔδωκας (5.284-285); Paris' words are: βέβληαι, οὐδ' ἄλιον βέλος ἔκφυγεν· ὡς ὄφελον τοι / νείατον ἐς κενεῶνα βαλὼν ἐκ θυμὸν ἐλέσθαι (11.380-381). In both cases, Diomedes responds witheringly, taunting Pandaros - ἤμβροτες οὐδ' ἔτυχες - and claiming that Paris has merely "scratched the sole of his foot". At 5.102-105, Pandaros had already made a boast about the arrow he shot at Diomedes; this boast too is patently premature, and Diomedes is by no means overwhelmed by the blow - Ὣς ἔφατ' εὐχόμενος· τὸν δ' οὐ βέλος ὠκὺ δάμασσεν (5.106).[33]

It is perfectly conventional to yell out a boast over an opponent who is really dead. *Variatio* within the passages of battle narrative is achieved in part through periodic use of a type-scene which consists of a series of exchanges: one man is killed; his grief-stricken friends respond by eliciting threats to others in response to the victor vaunting over the corpse. One of the conventional markers of such a scene is the phrase ἔκπαγλον ἐπεύξατο μακρὸν ἀΰσας.[34] Of Idomeneus it is also said (when he boasts over Othryoneus): ἐπεύξατο

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[33]Kirk 1990 points out that elsewhere in the poem, τῳ (τῃ) δ' ἐπὶ μακρὸν ἄϋσε is used of shouting over a victim in triumph, rather than addressing one's own side, as Pandaros is doing here (p.65).

[34]13.43; 13.445; 14.453; 14.478.

φώνησέν τε· (13.373); and Peneleos gloats over the head of Peneleos - εὐχόμενος ἔπος ηὔδα (14.500). Such scenes occur at 13.361-454 and 14.442-507. But in these scenes, only the Trojan Poulydamas boasts over a victim who actually turns out not to be dead. Aeneas, too, in Book 16, tries to taunt a victim he has *not* succeeded in hitting with his spear, claiming: "*if* I had hit you, Meriones, I would have stilled your nimble dancing for ever" (617-618). Aeneas' boast, just like those of Pandaros, Poulydamas and Paris, is oddly timed and oddly placed.

In the paradigmatic flyting exchange, the challenger begins with a speech containing the Claim. The challenged follows up with a Defense and Counterclaim.[35] The contestants then proceed to physical fighting. But the Trojans introduce irregular features into exchanges of this type. When Sokos encounters Odysseus, the ordering of speeches and throws is disorganised and odd. Sokos makes a speech (11.430-433) and throws immediately (434); this is followed by a counter-challenge from the wounded Odysseus (441-445), who then makes his throw (447-448) as Sokos turns to run, and finishes the encounter with a boast (450-455). Finally, when Odysseus does threaten Sokos, the latter neither returns a speech nor waits to perpetuate the physical fighting, but turns and runs in the way we have seen that only Trojan soldiers do: πρώτῳ γὰρ στρεφθέντι μετφρένῳ ἐν δόρυ πῆξεν / ὤμων μεσσηγύς, δία δὲ στήθεσφιν ἔλασσεν (447-448).

### *Self-defeating Statements ?*

Archery and seduction, the favourite skills of the Trojan prince Paris, involve "peeping out" at an enemy from a covert, defensive spot, rather than going to meet (ἀντιον) him and, looking him in the eye, fighting with him openly. Fighting openly is complemented by "flyting" - facing the enemy and speaking directly to him in an exchange of aggressive speeches. Flyting is a conversational situation in which directed, forceful

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[35]Clover (1981)p.452.

speech is typical. And in an exchange of this type, the warriors stand facing one another directly. But regardless of the stance and gestures of he speakers, a speech in itself may be either direct or oblique in its presentation, depending on its mode of expression and its use of language. For example, an archaic poet can deflect his criticism of a king by recasting it as an animal fable told in the third person.[36] The poet puts his criticism in this form as an acknowledgement of his humble status.

Clearly a flyting speech ought not to be oblique in this way; its competitive "key"[37] requires that the speaker lay claim to a status which is at the very least equal to his opponent. Such a speech should be direct, pointed and aggressive. This is why such speeches frequently open with questions, and questions, moreover, which attack the addressee's martial or genealogical credentials. The Trojans on the whole do not utter flyting speeches which are effective in this way. A conspicuous feature of the speeches they make in flyting situations is a marked disinclination to direct the speech, from its opening, in such a way as to focus on the opponent. It is a curious feature of Trojan examples of the genre, that Trojans frequently open their speeches by defensively anticipating taunts they might expect from their assailants. Hektor opens his speech to Achilles with the declaration: "I will no longer run in panic from you *as I did before* " (οὔ σ' ἔτι, Πηλέος υἱέ , φοβήσομαι, ὡς τὸ πάρος περ / τρὶς περὶ ἄστυ μέγα Πριάμου δίον, οὐδέ ποτ' ἔτλην / μεῖναι ἐπερχόμενον· νῦν αὖτε με θυμὸς ἀνῆκε / στήμεναι ἀντία σεῖο (22.250-253).[38] Elsewhere, Achilles insults an opponent (Aeneas) by reminding him of a time when he ran in panic (20.188-190). Hektor, drawing attention to his own panic and flight, might almost be said to invite the kind of insult Achilles is likely to make. Hektor's flyting-stance here is defensive rather than competitive. Instead of making cutting remarks, he provides his opponent with foil to taunt him.

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[36] The poet makes his speech"cognitive", in Jakobson's terminology (Jakobson 1960), instead of a "conative" attack addressed to the king in the second person.

[37] Hymes (1974) pp.57ff.

[38] Later in the same speech, Hektor says: οὐ μέν μοι φεύγοντι μεταφρένῳ ἐν δόρυ πήξεις (22.283).

Hektor does the same thing when he confronts Aias. A standard insult in the warrior's repertoire compares his opponent to a woman, or to a child.[39] But Hektor warns Aias "do not test me as though I were a child or a woman" (μή τί μευ ἠΰτε παιδὸς ἀφαυροῦ πειρήτιζε, / ἠὲ γυναικός, ἣ οὐκ οἶδεν πολεμήϊα ἔργα - 7.235-236) - inviting the comparison before his opponent has had a chance to make it. Aeneas takes the same defensive position when he says to Achilles: "don't hope to frighten me as though I were a child" (Πηλεΐδη, μὴ δή μ'ἐπέεσσι γε νηπύτιον ὣς / ἔλπεο δειδίξεσθαι - Aeneas, 20.200-201). With these remarks the Trojans seem to disclose a consciousness of the possibility of defeat.[40]

Even as they repeatedly insist upon their knowledge of war, the Trojans seem to expose a similar awareness of the possibility of defeat. Hektor "protests too much" when he insists that he *knows* how to fight : μή τί μευ ἠΰτε παιδὸς ἀφαυροῦ πειρήτιζε, / ἠὲ γυναικός, ἣ οὐκ **οἶδεν** πολεμήϊα ἔργα. / αὐτὰρ ἐγὼν **εὖ οἶδα** μάχας τ' ἀνδροκτασίας τε./ **οἶδ'** ἐπὶ δεξία, **οἶδ'** ἐπ' ἀριστερὰ νωμῆσαι βῶν / ἀζαλέην, τό μοι ἔστι ταλαύρινον πολεμίζειν· / **οἶδα** δ'ἐπαΐξαι μόθον ἵππων ὠκειάων· / **οἶδα** δ'ἐνὶ σταδίῃ δηΐῳ μέλπεσθαι Ἄρηϊ (7. 235-241).[41] The other claims which Hektor makes under duress - whether the duress be due to the criticism of his friends or to the threats of his enemies - could also only serve to undermine an audience's confidence in their author.[42] At 17.175 he says to Glaukos, in response to the latter's scolding him for his cowardice: "I do not shudder at battle or the pounding of horses", and

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39 Diomedes, pouring scorn on Paris' arrow-shot, assures him: "it's like being hit by a woman or a silly boy" (οὐκ ἀλέγω, ὡς εἴ με γυνὴ βάλοι ἠ πάϊς ἄφρων· - 11.389). At 5.349 women are described as γυναίκας ἀναλκιδας.

40 These remarks are to be distinguished from what Odysseus says when Sokos wounds him in Book 11: "you have delayed my fighting with the Trojans" (ἦ τοι μέν ῥ' ἔμ' ἔπαυσας ἐπὶ Τρώεσσι μάχεσθαι - 11.442). Odysseus is responding to a local and self-evident set-back, not gratuitously reminding his opponent of a previous error.

41Duban is surely right to suggest that Hektor's repeated and insistent claims that he "knows" *polemeia erga* do not convince: "on sent qu'il en dit trop.....Ces accents rhétoriques et stylistiques constituent un système de défense....." (Duban 1981 pp.106-107).

42Cf. for example, Hektor at 20.434, speaking to Achilles: οἶδα δ' ὅτι σὺ μὲν ἐσθλός, ἐγὼ δὲ σέθεν πολὺ χείρων.

at 20.431-433, preparing to meet Achilles: "I too know how to utter deadly insults" - ἐπεὶ σάφα οἶδα καὶ αὐτὸς / ἠμὲν κερτομίας ἠδ' αἴσιμα μυθήσασθαι . These same lines are used by Aeneas, trying to convince Achilles of the same thing at 20.201-202.[43]

Other Trojans actually refer back to earlier losses. Pandaros says, before he casts his spear at Diomedes: "my swift, stinging arrow didn't vanquish you" (καρτερόθυμε, δαΐφρον, ἀγαυοῦ Τυδέος υἱε, / ἦ μάλα σ' οὐ βέλος ὠκὺ δαμάσσατο, πίκρος ὀϊστος· - 5.277-278). He compounds the effect by stressing the role of chance in his next effort. Telling Diomedes: "Now I will *try and see if* I can hit you with my spear" (νῦν αὖτ' ἐγχείῃ **πειρήσομαι, αἴ κε τύχωμι** 5.279) is not the kind of thing Achaeans say. Only Hektor and Pandaros use the phrase αἴ κε τύχωμι - "if - perchance - I may hit you". Pandaros follows up his reference to his erstwhile failed arrow with an oddly detached threat: "I will *try* and hit you - αἴ κε τύχωμι - with my spear" (5.279). Compare Hektor to Aias: "I don't want to strike you by peeping out secretly, but openly *if I can hit you* - αἴ κε τύχωμι (7.243). These detached statements should be contrasted with hard-line Achaean threats like Odysseus' to Sokos at 11.443-443:" *I'm telling you*, etc." σοὶ δ' ἐγὼ ἐνθάδε φημὶ φόνον καὶ κῆρα μέλαιναν / ἤματι τῷδ' ἔσσεσθαι, ἐμῷ δ' ὑπὸ δουρὶ δαμέντα / εὖχος ἐμοὶ δώσειν, ψυχὴν δ' Ἄϊδι κλυτοπώλῳ.

This distant kind of threat is made by an Achaean soldier only once. The utterance causes the speaker to be severely reprimanded by his commander. The culprit is the Achaean Meriones, who says (talking like a Trojan) to Aeneas:"you would give me a boast, *if I managed to hit you* with my bronze spear" - **εἰ καὶ ἐγώ σε βάλοιμι τυχὼν** μέσον ὀξέϊ χαλκῷ (16.623). Patroklos intervenes at this point and reproaches Meriones: "In war we want strength, not words; words belong in the council; - τῷ οὔ τι χρὴ μῦθον ὀφέλλειν, ἀλλὰ μάχεσθαι (631). Patroklos implies more than his actual words say; is telling Meriones not

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[43]Of the Achaeans, only Aias does this; he does so in mockery of Hektor: *we* are not μάχης ἀδαήμονες. In any case, has begun his speech with a threat: δαιμόνιε, σχεδὸν ἐλθέ· τίη δειδίσσεαι αὔτως / Ἀργείους; (13.811).

to waste time with *empty* threats, but to get on with the task of fighting. It is the context (or "co-text"[44] )of the remark which prompts me to claim that Patroklos means more than meets the eye. For Meriones' words were spoken in response to Aeneas' regretful claim: "*If I had hit you* with my spear, I would have stopped your nimble dancing for ever" - Μηριόνη, τάχα κέν σε καὶ ὀρχηστήν περ ἐόντα / ἔγχος ἐμὸν κατέπαυσε διαμπερές, **εἴ δ' ἔβαλον περ** (16.617-618).

Aeneas' claim is reflective rather than strategic. Why tell an enemy that *if* you had hit him you would have put a stop to his antics ? Vows and threats - claims which look to the future - are the staples of flyting fare.[45] Hektor's and Pandaros' αἴ κε τύχωμι "threats" are untypical of flyting [46] because they make no definite, determined reference to the outcome (contrast Odysseus' time-specific vow with its future infinitive: **σο ὶ δ' ἐγὼ ἐνθάδε φημὶ** φόνον καὶ κῆρα μέλαιναν / **ἤματι τῷδ' ἔσσεσθαι**). Aeneas, on the other hand, is not looking to the future at all, but brooding on a past he cannot change.

In other words, Meriones' indirect reply was in response to Aeneas, who began the indirect mode of talk at line 617. Patroklos intervenes sharply to correct Meriones because he has seemingly picked up from Aeneas the Trojan habit of issuing empty threats - threats which are as fruitless and vague as the flight of Aeneas' own weapon, described as ἄλιον - a term which is also used of aimless words - at 615. The Trojan Euphorbus is similarly non-committal when he attempts to threaten Menelaus with death in Book 13. He says: the struggle won't be be long untried or unfought, whether it be for victory *or for flight* (οὐδ' ἔτ' ἀδήριτος ἢ τ' ἀλκῆς ἢ τε φόβοιο - 42) . While a disjunctive phrase often ends a flyting-speech, the cowardly option of flight is not usually the one of the alternatives

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[44]Yule and Brown (1983) pp.46-50.

[45]Clover (1981).

[46]Note that Hektor can speak in strong language when he is yelling at an enemy from a distance - cf. 8.161-166: he shouts at Diomedes, calling him κακὴ γλήνη and says he is like a woman (163); this is a speech introduced with the phrase μακρὸν ἄυσε (160). He also makes a flyting speech to his horses (8.184-197).

expressed; contrast with Euphorbus' words, Idomeneus' to Meriones in Book 13 = Sarpedon's to Glaukos in 12: εἴδομεν ἠέ τῳ εὖχος ὀρέξομεν, ἦε τις ἡμῖν (13.327; 12.328).

### *Odysseus and Sokos*

A close analysis of the flyting-exchange between Odysseus and Sokos in Book 11 (428-458) demonstrates that Sokos' speech is much less direct and more introverted than Odysseus' reply. This is true from the beginning of the encounter. The diction which describes Sokos approaching Odysseus is not usually followed by a phrase introducing a speech; it conventionally goes with a half-line in which someone throws a weapon. στῆ δὲ μάλ' ἐγγὺς ἰὼν occurs four times in the Iliad; on three of these occasions it is followed by καὶ ἀκόντισε δουρὶ φαεινῷ - "and he cast his shining spear" (4.496 - Odysseus; 5.611 - Aias; - 17.347 - Lycomedes). The other time it occurs it refers to Hektor and is followed by καὶ ἐρεισάμενος βάλε μέσσας (12.457) - Hektor stands close to the Achaean wall to break it with a boulder. This means that, in the exchange between Sokos and Odysseus, an audience familiar with the regular pattern would be surprised by the way Sokos makes a speech when they would expect him to make a throw with a δουρὶ φαεινῷ - a shining spear. Sokos' misplaced speech is striking because it interrupts the action; it seems to delay the expected sequence of events.

Displaying the same defensive and non-committal tendency seen in the speeches of Pandaros, Hektor and Aeneas, Sokos puts upfront the possibility that he himself will *lose* the present duel, opening his speech with the words: "Today, Odysseus, either you will boast of having killed *two* sons of Hippasus[47].....(or you will die, marked by my spear)" (11.430-433). This contrasts markedly with Odysseus' speech: Odysseus opens

[47]Once again a Trojan starts with something an enemy could use to taunt him. Clover (1981) notes that one of the standard insults used in flyting-matches is the accusation that one has failed to avenge a father or a brother (p.453).

with the blunt assertion that disaster is heading straight for his victim: ἆ δείλ' ἦ μάλα δή σε κιχάνεται αἰπὺς ὄλεθρος (441); he gets this in *before* acknowledging that Sokos has stayed him temporarily (442: ἦ τοι μέν ῥ' ἔμ' ἔπαυσας ἐπὶ Τρώεσσι μάχεσθαι ).[48] In general, there is a linear psychological strategy in Odysseus' speech: he zooms in from the indeterminate threat "your death is coming" - κιχάνεται αἰπὺς ὄλεθρος - to the emphatic statements about time and place and his own agency in the death - σοὶ δ' ἐγὼ **ἐνθάδε** φημὶ - ἦματι **τῷδ'** - **ἐμῷ** δ' ὑπὸ δουρὶ .

The verb of Odysseus' death-threat is in the indicative (κιχάνεται); Sokos' is in the subjunctive (θυμὸν ὀλέσσῃς). The whole phrase used by Sokos - ἐμῷ ὑπὸ δουρὶ τυπείς ἀπὸ θυμὸν ὀλέσσῃς - occurs in three other places, in one of which ὀλέσσῃς is modulated to the optative form ὀλέσσαι to express Hektor's indefinite statement: "Who knows but that Achilles....may first lose his life, marked by my spear" (16.860-861). At 12.250 the verb is in the indicative: Hektor tells Poulydamas αὐτικ' ἐμῷ ὑπὸ δουρὶ τυπείς ἀπὸ θυμὸν ὀλέσσεις. But once again the force of the phrase is hypothetical, indefinite, in so far as it is part of a conditional: "*If* you try and talk anyone else out of fighting, you will die, struck by my spear". And at 18.92 Achilles declares: "I don't want to live among men *unless* Hektor dies first, struck by my spear: ἐμῷ ὑπὸ δουρὶ τυπείς ἀπὸ θυμὸν ὀλέσσῃ. This time a subjunctive verb fills out the mood of αἴ κε μὴ - "unless". In all these cases, whether the verb be optative, subjunctive or indicative, the state of affairs described - that the addressee will fall at the speaker's spear - is either conditional or otherwise hypothetical. The speaker does not commit himself to its fulfilment.[49]

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[48]Cf. Clover's Counterclaim: "That may be, but:" (Clover (1981)p.452).

[49]As a *caveat* to this approach see Palmer (1962) on Homeric language. He argues that the future indicative, the subjunctive and the optative are used interchangeably in subordinate clauses referring to the future. I do not think the issue is pellucid. Different constructions can be grammatically interchangeable and still have different nuances when used in conversation. The function of the study of pragmatics is to take into account the effect of *context* on (otherwise conceived of as purely logical) implicature, inference etc. (cf. Yule and Brown (1983) pp.27-67)

The persuasive forcefulness of Sokos' death-threat is qualified by other factors too. Odysseus' description of Sokos' impending destruction is emphatic: Odysseus used three different words to refer to the death: αἰπὺς ὄλεθρος at line 441; φόνον and κῆρα μέλαιναν in line 443. Notice the pleonasm in this line (σοὶ δ' ἐγὼ ἐνθάδε φημὶ ) φόνον καὶ κῆρα μέλαιναν - Odysseus is employing repetition to express powerful conviction. To balance this threat, Sokos has only the relatively weak τυπείς and θυμὸν ὀλέσσῃ.[50] The difference in terms of force also comes out in a comparison of lines 433 and 444. Both lines include the phrase : ἐμῷ (δ' ) ὑπὸ δουρὶ ; but while Sokos concludes τυπείς ἀπὸ θυμὸν ὀλέσσῃ, Odysseus' ending is stronger - his line finishes: δαμέντα. The similarity of Odysseus' diction to Sokos' indicates his conversational "involvement"; but he goes one better than Sokos and "caps" his speech by returning the threat with interest.

The two speakers distribute their subject-matter differently, which gives the speeches different weighting. Odysseus' talk of Sokos' death occupies four of the five lines of his speech, and he only spends one line acknowledging that, temporarily, Sokos has put him at a disadvantage. Sokos spends only the last line of his speech speculating on Odysseus' death at his hands; he has spent the previous two dwelling on a non-strategic but thoughtful visualisation of the possibility that Odysseus might kill and despoil both his brother and himself: σήμερον ἢ δοιοῖσιν ἐπεύξεαι Ἱππασίδῃσι, /τοιῶδ' ἄνδρε κατακτείνας καὶ τεύχε' ἀπούρας (432-433). Finally, it is a curious touch that Sokos devotes an entire line to addressing Odysseus with his traditional epithets: ὦ Ὀδυσεῦ πολύαινε, δόλων ἆτ' ἠδὲ πόνοιο.[51] Odysseus, by contrast, only addresses his opponent with the address ἆ δείλ' . A survey of the other places where this vocative form is used, shows that its use connotes pity.[52] Odysseus' tone of contempt and condescension are juxtaposed to an address-

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[50] Diomedes' words to Pandaros were more like Odysseus' here: αἵματος ἆσαι Ἄρηα, ταλαύρινον πολεμιστήν (5.289).

[51] Richard Martin suggests that these are praise epithets; cf. Leaf (1971) p.496, at 11.430: "Sokos speaks in admiration, not in blame".

[52] The expression occurs seven times in the Iliad. Odysseus addresses Sokos with it twice in this episode (11.441 and 452). At 11. 816, Menelaus exclaims ἆ δείλ', pitying (ὤκτειρε - 11.814) Eurypylus when he

formula which perhaps suggests that he himself receives respect, or even praise, from Sokos. It is my opinion that for this reason, Sokos comes out rather the better. The praise epithets, and his willingness to address Odysseus with them at the beginning of the duel, lend his speech a certain dignity.

### *Tlepolemus and Sarpedon*

Tlepolemus and Sarpedon also encounter one another, and once again the speech of the Achaean warrior is directly and aggressively focussed on his victim, while that of the Trojan is focussed sometimes on himself and sometimes projected elsewhere. Tlepolemus opens with a question directly attacking his opponent: "Why are you cowering on the field like somone who knows nothing about war ?" - Σαρπῆδον, Λυκίων βουληφόρε, τίς τοι ἀνάγκη πτώσσειν ἐνθάδ' ἐόντι μάχης ἀδαήμονι φωτί; (5.633-634). He goes on to threaten by reminding Sarpedon of his own father Herakles who came to Troy, totalled the city and stripped its streets: Ἰλίου ἐξαλάπαξε πόλιν, χήρωσε δ' ἀγυιάς· (642). But the subtext of the tale Tlepolemus relates consists in a subtler attack. It is insidiously suggestive of Sarpedon's own plight, as an ally who has come far to do service for Hektor. The resemblance between Sarpedon and the Herakles story is brought out in the theme of "coming to Troy", which dominates this speech-exchange.

Tlepolemus speaks first of Herakles ὅς ποτε δεῦρ' **ἐλθὼν** (640) and contrasts Sarpedon disparagingly: although he too has come, from Lycia - **ἐλθόντ'** ἐκ Λυκίης (645), he is failing where Herakles succeeded. Sarpedon picks the theme up in his answering speech, saying of Herakles τηλόθεν **ἦλθε** (651). Despite Herakles' long journey, according to Sarpedon Laomedon did not return Herakles' favour, abusing their friendship

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comes upon him wounded; at 16.837 Hektor taunts Patroklos by reminding him that Achilles was of no help to him; at 17. 201, Zeus uses the expression of Hektor, watching him put on Achilles' armour, remarks that death is not in Hektor's thoughts, and decides to give him might for the time being, as compensation for the fact that Andromache will never receive him back from the battle (17.206-208); at 17.443 Zeus pities (ἐλεησε - 441) Achilles horses as they mourn Patroklos, and at 24. 518, Achilles says ἆ δείλ' to Priam, pitying (οἰκτείρων - 516) his hoary head and chin.

(ὅς ῥά μιν εὖ ἔρξαντα κακῷ ἠνίπαπε μύθῳ - 650). Sarpedon seems to be developing Tlepolemus' suggestion that the experiences of Herakles and Sarpedon are analogous. For the theme τηλόθεν ἦλθε in the Iliad is associated above all with the Lycians: mainly with Sarpedon, and to a lesser extent with his cousin Glaukos. In the Trojan Catalogue, Sarpedon and Glaukos have this theme as their distinguishing mark: Σαρπηδὼν δ' ἦρχεν Λυκίων καὶ Γλαῦκος ἀμύμων / **τήλοθεν ἐκ Λυκιης,** Ξάνθου ἄπο δινήεντος (2.876-877). Sarpedon describes himself to Hektor in exactly the same way in a speech which closely precedes his encounter with Tlepolemus: καὶ γὰρ ἐγὼν ἐπίκουρος ἐὼν μάλα **τηλόθεν ἥκω·** / **τηλοῦ γὰρ Λυκίη, Ξάνθῳ ἔπι δινήεντι** (5.478-479). And when Zeus sheds bloody rain drops in honour of his son, the poet says of Sarpedon: φθίσειν ἐν Τροίῃ ἐριβώλακι, **τηλόθι πάτρης.** [53]

When Sarpedon reminds Hektor that he has come τηλόθι πάτρης, he is complaining that Hektor does not take on a fair share of the fighting, and does not bother to exhort his troops to fight. Later, Glaukos reproaches Hektor for leaving Sarpedon, his ξείνον καὶ ἑταῖρον (150) as prey and spoil - ἕλωρ καὶ κύρμα (151) - for the Greeks (exactly what Sarpedon fruitlessly begged Hektor *not* to do: Πριαμίδη, μὴ δή με ἕλωρ Δαναοῖσιν ἐάσῃς / κεῖσθαι, ἀλλ' ἐπάμυνον - 5.684-685). Glaukos observes that "there is no χάρις.[54] Hektor exhibits no gratitude for the Lycians who have come to Troy to fight as his allies, and none of the appropriate respect for his guest and comrade Sarpedon. Glaukos' speech is introduced with the phrase χαλεπῷ ἠνίπαπε μύθῳ (17.141). It is interesting that Sarpedon, in the speech to Tlepolemus, describes Laomedon's response to Herakles' request for the

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53 Asteropaeus (21.154) tells Achilles he has come from Παιονίης ἐριβώλου, **τηλόθ' ἐούσης.** Hektor can hardly be said to be τηλόθι πάτρης , but as if in compensation for this, he is described as τῆλε λοετρῶν - 22.445 (See Griffin 1976 pp.165-166). Achilles speaks of Patroklos who "perished far from his native land" : ὁ μὲν μάλα **τηλόθι πάτρης** / ἔφθιτ' (18.99), and both of Achilles and Sarpedon it is said that: ὅς οἱ ἔμελλε / φθίσεσθ' ἐν Τροίῃ ἐριβώλακι, **τηλόθι πάτρης·** (Sarpedon: 16. 461; Achilles: 24.86). Achilles also talks of being separated from his father while he stays at Troy: ἐπεὶ μάλα **τηλόθι πάτρης** / ἦμαι ἐνὶ Τροίῃ (24.541-542). At the beginning of the poem, Achilles complains of the mountains and sea which extend between Troy and Phthia: ἐπεὶ ἦ μάλα πολλὰ μεταξὺ / οὔρεα τε σκιόεντα θάλασσα τε ἠχήεσσα· (1.156-157). On the phrase and the theme in the Iliad, see Griffin (1976).

54 17.147. Compare Achilles' complaint of Agamemnon at 9.316. Pandaros says that he is φέρων χάριν Ἕκτορι δίῳ (5.211).

horses in an almost identical way: κακῷ ἠνίπαπε μύθῳ (5.650). Does this suggest that Sarpedon, like Achilles, is honoured with a poetic awareness of what will follow, an "authorial knowledge" ?

Sarpedon focusses on the fact that Laomedon refused Herakles' request for the proper gratitude. He describes Herakles' situation in a such a way as to suggest that it is similar to his own. He and Herakles both came to Troy to provide χάρις for a Trojan leader. Both of them were disappointed of the χάρις they expected in return. Sarpedon balances Tlepolemus' accusation thematically: he counters the accusation that he is μάχης ἀδαήμονι with talk of a different kind of ignorance: Laomedon's failure to understand the social mechanism underlying promises, favours and guest-friendship, which Sarpedon puts down to ἀφραδίῃσιν (649). In other words, Sarpedon's speech suggests that he is preoccupied, involved as much with his relationship to Hektor, as with his present engagement with Tlepolemus. Sarpedon is distracted from the task at hand - flyting - by his involvement in the thought of the χάρις he never receives from Hektor, his ξείνος καί ἑταιρος.

### *Winged Words and Windy Arrows*

Words are conceived of as concrete entities which have a target to reach, as a weapon does; they "escape the barrier of a person's teeth"; they are either dense and solid or vague and "windy".[55] In Greek poetry, arrows and words stand in for one another metaphorically, and share certain attributes. Both are described as "winged".[56] In Book 4 Pandaros wounds Menelaus with an arrow which resembles a word. It pierces through Menelaus' μίτρη which is described as a ἕρκος ἀκόντων, echoing the more familiar ἕρκος ὀδόντων used of the potential barrier a person's teeth form to the words which escape his or

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[55]Compare words described as "not ἀπόβλητον" (2.361).

[56]Martin (1989) restricts this property to the class of directives between members of the same social group (p.33).

her mouth. Arrows and words in epic are alike in being winged movers with a direction.[57]

Words which don't hit their target are described as "windy"; Odysseus, complaining that Agamemnon's insulting words aren't applicable, tells him: ἀνεμώλια βάζεις (4.355).[58] Bows which are ineffective are bitterly described as ἀνεμώλια - "windy". Pandaros says that when he gets back to Lycia he will break his bow in two and throw it into the fire because; - ἀνεμώλια γάρ μοι ὀπηδεῖ (4.216); Artemis sharply criticises her brother Apollo for having a τόξον.....ἀνεμώλια (21.474) - the arrows he shoots from it get tossed off-course by the wind and fail to reach their target.[59] Words which are ἀνεμώλια are the opposite of πεπνυμένα; words which reach their target are πεπνυμένα. Such words are dense and well-packed. I suggest that it is the density of these well-packed words which makes them especially good at targetting their addressee: their density gives them the momentum to fly through the air straight to their destination like an arrow.

The term ἄλιον is also used both of words and of weapons - arrows and spears too. Paris says of his arrow βέβληαι, οὐδ' ἄλιον βέλος ἔκφυγεν· and the poet of Aeneas' spear-cast at Meriones: ᾤχετ', ἐπεί ῥ' ἄλιον στιβαρῆς ἀπὸ χειρὸς ὄρουσεν (16.615). At 18. 324, Achilles reproaches himself for having uttered a ἄλιον ἔπος when he promised Menoitios that he would bring Patroklos back home, enriched by spoils after the sack of Troy. The use of ἄλιον suggests that the words themselves were not intended merely to reflect future events descriptively; Achilles had an aim in talking this way, intending to make reality turn out according to his words: he was giving Menoitios an assurance or guarantee, making a promise or a vow.[60] Achilles means that his promise to Menoitios will never be fulfilled; the words, like a weapon that misses, did not achieve their end.

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[57]Martin 1989 pp.26ff.

[58]By contrast, when Nestor approves Diomedes' counsel he tells him: πεπνυμένα βάζεις (9.58).

[59]Cf. 20.123

[60]In other words, Searle's world-to-world fit (Searle 1976).

Jakobson, in his analysis of linguistic functions, takes as his basic hermeneutic principle the question of where the focus of the message lies. A message may be focussed on its addressee, or on its sender; it may focus on the channel of contact, (metalingually) on its own code, or on its referent; finally, a message may focus (poetically) on itself, on its own form. An imperative is an archetypal addressee-focussed message. Typical flyting is verbal assault; the words strike the person they are aimed like a weapon. Typical flyting, full of threats and vows, is aimed at a second person. In Jakobson's terminology, it is "conative". But Trojan flyting is unusual. Trojans often talk and think of themselves, or of topics, time and places other than the duel and the person with whom they are immediately engaged.

### *Litai and Laments*

However, the situation becomes more complex when we take into account the possibility of making indirect assaults on the second person. In a formal, Jakobsonian analysis of an indirect request of the kind Tannen describes, we would say that the message was focussed not so much on the second person as on the third: it is cognitive. Nevertheless, the message is pragmatically oriented towards the addressee. Tannen argues that in certain contexts, such a request may be all the *more* persuasive for being formed in this way.[61] Subtlety can be a more effective mode of persuasion than blunt directness. Many encounters between Greeks and Trojans show the Trojans manipulating their Achaean opponents by using language in a way at once skillful and poetic, to persuade them or to distract them from fighting. The most obvious occasions on which the Trojans adopt persuasive language in order to save themselves from the battle are the supplication scenes.

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[61]What this shows us is that the formal composition of a message may bear a more subtle relationship to its pragmatic function than is immediately apparent. In other words, though Trojans may appear to evade the conative function just as they avoid face-to-face contact, this does not mean that their speeches are intended to have no effect, or affect.

Only Trojan warriors supplicate their opponents on the battlefield, asking to be taken alive in return for a ransom. These supplications (Adrastos to Menelaus in Book 6: [Dolon to Odysseus and Menelaus in Book 10]; the sons of Antimachus to Agamemnon in Book 11; Tros to Achilles in Book 20; Lycaon to Achilles in Book 21) constitute a series of type-scenes which culminates in Priam's supplication of Achilles in Book 24. Adrastos, [Dolon], and the sons of Antimachus promise their opponents that their fathers will bestow countless treasure (ἀπερείσ' ἄποινα) if they learn that their sons have been spared and taken alive to the Achaean ships. Priam brings Achilles Trojan treasure in exchange for Hektor's dead body; Hektor begs Achilles to make an agreement with him that each will return the other's body to his parents, instead of leaving the body to be torn apart by dogs and crows. All these stress treasure as the reward for the supplicated Achaean. The sons of Antimachus and Adrastos describe to Agamemnon and Menelaos their father's houses, full of treasure.[62]

In the first two of these supplication scenes, the Trojans do not actually assume the traditional posture of a supplicant. Nevertheless, they are in positions which express physical disadvantage.[63] In both cases, the horses of the Trojan soldiers are in

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[62]The supplications to Achilles deviate slightly from these. Little or no emphasis is placed on the material remuneration Achilles would receive for sparing the Trojan. Instead, Lycaon and Tros both hope to persuade Achilles by suggesting that he must feel some kind of kinship with them. Tros hopes that Achilles will be moved by the fact that they are of an age, and spare him ὁμηλικίην ἐλεήσας (20.465); Lycaon reminds Achilles that he has eaten at his table when he was taken captive by Achilles the first time, and therefore deserves to be respected as his suppliant: γουνοῦμαι σ' Ἀχιλεῦ· σὺ δέ μ' αἴδεο καί μ' ἐλέησαν· / ἀντί τοί εἰμ' ἱκέταο, διοτρεφές, αἰδοίοιο· (21.74-75). He also tells him that he is destined for a short life: μινυνθάδιον δὲ με μήτηρ / γείνατο Λαοθόη (21.84-85) - a phrase which obviously suggests affinity with Achilles himself. Finally, Priam pleads likeness to Achilles' father Peleus in order to engage his sympathy. The deviant quality of the supplications addressed to Achilles can be explained in terms of Achilles' special relationsbip with the Trojans, which I describe in Chapter 4 (pp. 194-196).

[63]Tros and Lycaon both attempt to assume the tradition posture of the suppliant: Tros is intercepted as he is about to do so by Achilles sword, and consequently does not get a chance to utter his intended prayer: ὁ μὲν ἥπτετο χείρεσι γούνων / ἱέμενος λίσσεσθ' (20.468-469); Achilles raises his spear over Lycaon, who stoops underneath it to clasp Achilles' knees, - ὁ δ' ὑπέδραμε καὶ λάβε γούνων / κύψας· (21.68-69) - so that the spear gets fixed in the ground behind him.

confusion;[64] the charioteers have lost control of the reins. In Book 6, Adrastos' horses run startled across the plain: ἵππω γάρ οἱ ἀτυζομένω πεδίοιο (6.38), while he himself rolls out of his chariot: **ἐξεκυλίσθη** (42); in Book 11, the same vocabulary describes the way the reins slip out of the hands of the sons of Antimachus: τὼ δὲ **κυκηθήτην**. The suppliant Trojans entice their opponents with talk of other places and other times:[65] the palaces of their fathers' piled with treasure: πολλὰ δ' ἐν Ἀντιμάχοιο δόμοις / ἀφνειοῦ πατρὸς κειμήλια κεῖται / χαλκός τε χρυσός τε, πολύκμητις τε σίδηρος / τῶν κέν τοι χαρίσαιτο πατὴρ ἀπερείσι' ἄποινα / εἴ κεν ἐμὲ ( or εἰ νῶϊ ) ζωοὺς πεπύθοιτ' ἐπὶ νηυσὶν Ἀχαιῶν . The phrase κειμήλια κεῖται is to be found only in two other places in Homeric poetry, in the Odyssey, where Menelaus (in two separate places) promises Telemachus the gift of a mixing-bowl from his treasure store (Odyssey 4.613 and 15.113). It conjures up a setting entirely different from the bloody din of the battle. The Trojans talk of the treasure lying peacefully in their father's house. But Agamemnon opposes this vision with a phrase about Menelaos coming to (ἀγγελίην ἐλθόντα - 140) the hostile environment of the Trojan assembly (ἐνὶ Τρώων ἀγορῇ - 139). Agamemnon tells the sons of Antimachus that their father's history is not so pretty as they would like to make out. He suggests that Antimachus repay, with the death of his sons, the "ugly disgrace" - ἀεικεα .....λώβην - inflicted on Menelaos when he came to Troy as a member of an embassy. The sons of Antimachus address him with sweet and gentle words, but only hear harsh ones in reply: μειλιχίοις ἐπέεσσιν· ἀμείλικτον δ' ὄπ' ἄκουσαν· (11.137).[66]

One of the main themes in the speeches of Trojan suppliants is the one of *têlothi patrês*. At other points in the narrative (in the speeches of Achilles), the theme is associated with the theme of the absent father. In particular, it comes up in connection with fathers

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[64]Compare Lycaon: ἐκ ποταμοῦ φεύγοντι (35); γυμνόν, ἄτερ κόρυθος τε καὶ ἀσπίδος, οὐδ' ἔχεν ἔγχος. To be accused of fleeing death is an insult: ἐξ αὖ νῦν ἔκφυγες θάνατον, κύον· (20.449); Lycaon is trying to do this· περὶ δ' ἤθελε θύμῳ / ἐκφυγέειν θάνατόν τε κακὸν καὶ κῆρα μέλαιναν (65-66).

[65]Compare Glaukos' tale, told to Diomedes in Book 6.

[66]Compare 21.98: λισσόμενος ἐπέεσσιν, ἀμείλικτον δ' ὄπ' ἄκουσε· (Achilles and Lycaon).

who learn that their sons are dead, and sons learning that their fathers have died.[67] At 24.541 Achilles says that he will not carry his father when his father grows old, because he himself is far from his fatherland: τηλόθι πάτρης. In his lament for Patroklos, he says that the death of Patroklos gives him greater grief even than would the news of the death of Peleus: οὐδ' εἴ κεν τοῦ πατρὸς ἀποφθιμένοιο πυθοίμην (19.322); at 337 he uses similar diction to speak of Peleus' hearing of Achilles' own death: ἀποφθιμένοιο πύθηται.

One thing that makes the Trojan suppliants' speech unusual is the way they talk of their father "hearing" (πεπύθοιτ' ) that they are alive, and rejoicing, instead of weeping upon receiving the news of their death: ὅς που νῦν Φθίηφι τέρεν κατὰ δάκρυον εἴβει / χήτει τοιοῦδ' υἷος (19.322-323). For this reverses one of the poem's minor themes. On several occasions, the things people "learn" in the Iliad provoke weeping rather than joy. When Achilles asks Patroklos if he has heard some ἀγγελίην, Patroklos is weeping. At 17.427 the horses of Patroklos weep (κλαῖον ) when they learn (πυθέσθην ) that Patroklos has fallen at Hektor's hand. At 17.685 Menelaos tells Antilochus that he will tell him the news about Patroklos, ὄφρα πύθηαι / λυγρῆς ἀγγελίης, and Antilochus' eyes fill with tears: δακρυόφι πλῆσθεν; as he goes off, his feet carry him δάκρυ χέοντα (700).[68] But Adrastos in Book 6 and the sons of Antimachus in Book 11 say that their fathers would "rejoice" - χαρίσαιτο - if they learnt - πεπύθοιτ' - that their sons were alive at the Achaean ships. Making such a connection between "finding out" and "rejoicing" is an original departure from the pattern:[69] these Trojans display a especial talent for "deviance" in its technical

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[67]The theme of news from abroad is a recurrent one in the Iliad. At 16.13 Achilles asks Patroklos: ἦε τιν' ἀγγελίην Φθίης ἐξ ἔκλυες οἷος; People "learn" things through messages and messengers: at 11. 652 Patroklos says he is ἔπος ἐρέω πάλιν ἄγγελος to Achilles, who, he says at 649: ὅ με προέηκε πυθέσθαι.

[68]Compare Odyssey 4.494: οὐδέ σέ ἄκλαυτον ἔσεσθαι, ἐπὴν ἐὺ πάντα πύθηαι.

[69]The messenger's role is that of a person who brings either grief and tears, or joy - χάρις. The words of the messenger at the beginning of the Agamemnon focus on his role as such a person. Towards the beginning of his speech, he insists that the news he brings is joyful, full of χάρις. He says: χαίρω τεθνᾶναι δ' οὐκέτ' ἀντερῶ θεοῖς (539); he follows this up in line 541, saying: ὥστ' ἐνδακρύειν, γ' ὄμμασιν χαρᾶς ὕπο and at 508 he had already said: νῦν χαῖρε μὲν χθών, χαῖρε δ'ἥλιος φάος. Later in his speech he confesses his reluctance to tell the bad news he brings: εὔφημον ἦμαρ οὐ πρέπει / κακαγγέλῳ / γλώσσῃ μιαίνειν (636-637) and especially at 638-640: ὅταν δ' ἀπευκτὰ πήματ' ἄγγελος / πόλει στυγνῳ προσώπῳ πτωσίμου στρατοῦ φέρῃ, / πόλει μὲν ἕλκος ἐν τὸ δήμιον τυχεῖν.

sense of poetic creativity. The unusual talk seems to be ironic in tone; this is suggested by the fact that the brothers themselves are weeping (κλαίοντε - 136) even as they talk of the joy they impute to their fathers.

Their tears and the subject-matter of their speeches also suggest that in these Trojans' prayers another genre is embedded, one as inappropriate for the field as supplication itself: the genre of lament. I suggest that these supplication speeches can be read as the suppliants' lament for their own lives and the livelihood they have left behind them. When Achilles laments Patroklos, he remembers Patroklos' home and father as well as his own, and the other Achaeans mourn, remembering too the goods they have left at home: Ὣς ἔφατο κλαίων, ἐπὶ δὲ στενάχοντο γέροντες, / μνησάμενοι τὰ ἕκαστος ἐνὶ μεγάροισιν ἔλειπεν (338-339).[70] The lament is usually the prerogative of women. Supplication too, which is here used as a frame for the lament, is a type of speech-act which has certain features which make it "effeminate". Like archery, which I argued above was simultaneously Trojan and "effeminate", supplication is an activity which only Trojan soldiers, never Greek, participate in in the middle of the fighting.[71]

The "key",[72] of supplication, which is clearly distinct from that of flyting: flyting is aggressive in tone and provokes an antagonistic response, while supplication elicits pity from the addressee - asks the addressee to turn his attention to the *supplicans* and pity him. This is why the *supplicans* tells the *supplicand* the story of his own life. Suppliants ask no questions of their *supplicands*; instead, they tell their own story. The gesture of turning aside one's glance is part and parcel of the *Litai* 's personification as women, not men. Phoenix says that the *Litai* or Prayers are παραβλῶπές τ' ὀφθαλμώ (9.503) -they keep their

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[70]Compare the women at the end of Briseis' lament who weep and remember each their own troubles: Ὣς ἔφατο κλαίουσ' , ἐπὶ δὲ στενάχοντο γυναῖκες, / Πάτροκλον πρόφασιν, σφῶν δ' αὐτῶν κ'ηδε' ἑκάστη (19.301-302).

[71]At 6.45 - Ἄδρηστος δ' ἄρ' ἔπειτα λαβὼν ἐλίσσετο γούνων - the T scholiast remarks: "No Hellene does this".

[72]In Hymes' sense (Hymes 1974 pp. 57ff.).

eyes cast down, or askance, in recognition of their humility. Women in Greek culture (ancient and modern) do not encounter males they meet in public eye-to-eye, but modestly lower their gaze. This is why, when Aphrodite makes Helen sit with Paris, Helen slides her eyes askance. Helen has been complaining that Aphrodite forces her to behave in improper ways that earn her the hatred of the Trojan women; in the *thalamos* -scene, Aphrodite wants to make Helen's attitude outrageous and bold by putting a chair for her directly opposite Paris. But Helen resists, and refusing to meet Paris face-to-face she looks aside: ὄσσε πάλιν κλίνασα (3.427). A *supplicans* resembles a woman in that he is looked at before he looks. He offers up his life story for scrutiny, too, rather than demanding geneaological credentials or other information from his addressee. Lycaon gives Achilles a detailed version of how Achilles captured and sold him on the esrtwhile occasion, and of how, having bought his freedom back, he returned to Troy and had been there eleven days before this second ecounter with Achilles (77-84). He also gives his personal geneaological narrative (84-89). In the same way Andromache tries to win Hektor's sympathy (although hers is not a supplication speech) by reminding him of her past and the things which have befallen her family.

I argued above that archery is foregrounded as a specifically Trojan skill, and the gestures and posture bowmanship demands preclude fighting ἄμφαδον - face-to-face as a spearman does in a duel. Only Trojans turn in battle; and only Trojans expect to turn others *from* battle by talking. Supplication too involves the imagery of "bending", rather than favouring the straight and direct encounter between equals. Supplication involves "turning your enemy with words" just as it involves literally bending down to encounter your enemy from position of lowered status: stooping down, as the archer and the hare-like coward do, and not meeting him eye-to-eye. Thus, although a supplication speech makes a direct

request, it is figuratively indirect of expression in a way which parallels the indirect *metis*-tactics of the archer.[73]

### *The Disarming of Diomedes*

The Trojan suppliants try to soften their Achaean opponents, persuading them to spare and pity them. They make an open plea. But on other occasions, the attempt to pacify the aggressor is more subtle. In the following interpretation of the well-known scene from Book 6, I argue that Glaukos tactically deploys soothing rhetoric - in place of antagonistic threats - to steal away Diomedes' will to fight him.

At 6.119-121 Glaukos and Diomedes come face to face with one another on the battlefield. The language which describes their approach to one another is so constructed as to create an impression of their similarity and parallelism: every word in 120 refers equally and in the same respect to both, and the duals (συνίτην, μεμαῶτε, ἰόντε) enhance the effect. Trojan meets Greek, and in the beginning it looks as though there is little to distinguish the two of them. Diomedes is the one to break the constructed parallelism by speaking first, and the focus shifts temporarily to him. Diomedes is ἀγαθός, and his ἀρετή lies, at least in part, in the kind of speech appropriate for war: he is βοὴν ἀγαθός (122). His challenge to Glaukos is short and to the point: he follows a question about his opponent's identity with a threat: the warriors who come face to face with me are the παῖδες of ill-fortuned men.[74] He elaborates on his unwillingness to fight the gods by recounting the exploits of Lykourgos. The account is brief, though pertinent and evocative.

Diomedes' question about Glaukos' identity is one of the standard introductions to a warrior's challenge. Glaukos responds oddly to this, with the question: τίη γενεὴν ἐρεείνεις; (145), and continues with a digression on the nature of the γενεή of men, and

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[73]Tannen (1985 A) p.16 : indirect requests are made by subordinates, who don't have the upper hand in a relationship.
[74]6.127

how they are like the γενεή of leaves. He does not take up Diomedes' challenge, which could be disconcerting for a challenger. His first step is to turn over Diomedes' question thoughtfully, wondering aloud why he would to ask about γενεή in the first place. The Trojan is evasive, takes a roundabout way of answering the threat, and even pretends not to understand it *as* a threat. Glaukos now begins to talk about γενεή in two ways, digressing on the generation of men and its likeness to the generation of leaves. The two speakers have chosen very different subject-matter. Diomedes' version of a nature-focussed scene is as violent as a battle. But Glaukos responds with a quieter picture which draws its force not from the shock of impact on the nerves, but from its peace-inducing effect. Glaukos is speaking a speech designed to soothe.

He then expands for two lines on the way leaves sprout and thrive in spring. Glaukos then returns (already making use of ring-composition, with which Diomedes brought his speech to a close at 141) to the question of his own γενεή. But even now, he does not answer the question in the way Diomedes would have expected. The speech is over three times as long as Diomedes' own, and it does not threaten or challenge in the way that Diomedes' speech did. Instead, it tells a story which takes the hearer right out of the present context of the battle, and the story-telling begins by taking him away to a city in a tiny corner of Argos : ἔστι πόλις Ἐφύρη μυχῷ Ἄργεος ἱπποβότοιο . [75]

Glaukos' account displays some story-telling features. He starts out by setting the scene: the beginning of his story - ἔστι πόλις Ἐφύρη μυχῷ Ἄργεος ἱπποβότοιο (6.152) resembles in its diction a passage in which Nestor sets the scene for a personal narrative: ἔστι δέ τις Θρυόεσσα πόλις, αἰπεῖα κολώνη (11.710), and one in which the poet, who has been following Poseidon's movements like a cinematic camera, shifts to the place where, having descended with his horses from the peaks of Samothrace, he rests his horses at a cavern in the deep between Tenedos and Imbros: Ἔστι δέ τι σπέος εὐρύ βαθείης βένθεσι

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[75] 6.152

λίμνης (13.32). Also at 2.811 we have a change to a new place and a new episode (the Trojan Mustering, after the Trojan assembly) is marked by: Ἔστι δέ τις προπάροιθε πόλιος αἰπεῖα κολώνη. These examples suggest that the phrase Ἔστι δέ τις is a narrative marker which corresponds to the camera's shift to a new frame in cinematic narrative.[76] Glaukos, who is aware of his task as a story teller, begins his tale by carrying his listener away to a new scene.

His unexpected story resembles a wonder or "fairy" tale: Bellerophon, like Diomedes' Lykourgos, fights the gods a chimaera; the listener is above all invited to contemplate the spectacle of the strange and marvellous creature (181 πρόσθε λέων, ὄπιθε δὲ δράκων, μέσση δὲ χίμαιρα - gives a complete and organised visual picture of the animal). The strange and the marvellous are characteristic features of the wonder tales still told in modern Greece and indeed of the folk tales of all countries, especially those of the "quest" variety.[77] Glaukos seems proud to have come from a family about which such a story can be told, combining themes of love and intrigue, encounters with mythological monsters and reversals of happiness; and this pride is implied by what he says before he embarks on his story at 151-151: ὄφρα εὖ εἰδῇς/ ἡμετέρην γενεήν, πολλοὶ δέ μιν ἄνδρες ἴσασιν. After a detailed account of how Bellerophon's children were killed, all except for Hippolochus, because of divine anger, Glaukos recounts his father's injunction that he should always ἀριστεύειν and ὑπείροχον ἔμμεναι ἄλλων (208). This seems rather ironic; Glaukos has delayed fighting by extending the length of his speech.[78] .

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[76]It may even introduce a miniature type-scene. Brent Vine points out that in two of the passages cited, there is a reference to a πόλις, and that in two out of the three, the city is named, with an associated locative.

[77]Cf. Kirk 1990 p.182 on "the offer of a bride if successful, as often in folk tale".

[78]The Trojan tendency towards longwindedness has not been altogether unnoticed by scholars: Duban notes Hektor's preoccupation with his own κλέος - the fact that he seems to talk about it rather than *act* in such a way as to earn it (1981 p.103). Basset (1938 p.78f.) has noticed the expressive "feeling" in Hektor's language; this seems to concur with my notion that in general, Trojan speech is emotional as well as lengthy and circuitous.

Diomedes is delighted by the tale (γήθησεν).[79] Not only does he fail to notice that Glaukos has inadvertently answered his question (191); his whole attitude has been transformed by it, and he now fixes his spear on the ground - Trojan speech is disarming. Although he is βοὴν ἀγαθός, he now replies to Glaukos with words which are μειλιχίοισι. He remembers the meeting and exchange of gifts between his grandfather and Glaukos', Oeneus and Bellerophon: a bright crimson belt for a gold cup (215-221). Diomedes wants to follow up this ancestral meeting with another gift-exchange between the two of them. This shows how much Glaukos' story has disoriented him. Such an exchange, appropriate for a peace-time visit between aristocrats, is completely misplaced on a battlefield. Glaukos, telling a tale unfit for a battlefield, has persuaded Diomedes to think and act in a way equally unsuited to their surroundings. Diomedes' tongue betrays him when he points out that the two of them can enjoy this relationship of ξενίη in places other than Troy: in Argos and in Lycia (224-225) - his geographical disorientation is apparent.

Glaukos distracted Diomedes with a story about γενεή. Diomedes is delighted because he has now found a ξεῖνος *πατρώϊός* . This is highly significant. At 4.400ff. Agamemnon incites Diomedes to action with a taunt, accusing him of being inferior to his father, who went to Thebes, defeated every single Theban in athletic contests, and then killed every member of the ambush set for him on his way home. Diomedes' response to this taunt is an apparently obedient, submissive silence, until his charioteer Sthenelus protests at the taunt with indignation. Then Diomedes, telling him to be silent, breaks out with some sharp words, suggesting that Agamemnon's words provoked him more than was at first apparent. Diomedes still makes no reference either to Sthenelus' father or his own, and does not do so when Athena repeats Agamemnon's taunt at 5.800. But after Glaukos' speech, Diomedes does make a reference to Tydeus: " I do not remember Tydeus

[79]The formula seems to have a special use in this section of the poem; it is the alternative, for Agamemnon, to νείκεσσεν. When he sees Idomeneus, for example, instead of engaging him in a "flyting" (Martin) match, he praises him. Cf. 4.282-283;310-311; 8.277-278. So γήθησεν aptly expresses Diomedes' change of attitude after listening to Glaukos' speech. Kirk 1990 writes: "Diomedes' joy is unexpected, and the emphatic γήθησεν δέ seems designed to show that" (p. 187 at 6.212-214).

at all, since I was only small when he left".[80] The thought is that Diomedes has a "chip on the shoulder" with reference to Tydeus; people find it easy to taunt him with comparisons to a father he never knew. I am suggesting that Glaukos, talking at length about lineage, when Diomedes only asked whether he was fighting a mortal or a god, and thus revealing himself to be Diomedes' ξεῖνος πατρώϊός , has made a subtle verbal attack specifically aimed at Diomedes' psychological "Achilles' heel". And Glaukos, unlike Diomedes, already knew who his opponent was when he came face to face with him: he addresses him as Τυδεΐδη at 145. The Trojan calculates his strategy from the start.

Moreover, Glaukos' story merits comparison with the tale Phoenix recounts from the κλέα ἀνδρῶν, the story of Meleager, to Achilles, hoping to persuade him to fight (9.524-605). These stories are told as *exempla* by older men to the young, especially by men who might be seen as father figures. Phoenix, addressed by Achilles as ἄττα γεραιέ (9.607),[81] identifies Achilles as a substitute for a son of his own, of which his father's curse deprives him (9.485-495), and says that Peleus sent him to Troy as Achilles' instructor, to school him in words and deeds (9.438-443). Nestor tells one of his narratives about his own youth (11.670-793) in front of Patroklos; but the intended audience is Achilles. At the end of Nestor's tale, he reminds Patroklos that Peleus appointed him to be Achilles' instructor. The implication is that when Glaukos tells Diomedes the story of Bellerophon, he is taking advantage of Diomedes' youth to speak to him in the tone of an instructor or a father-figure; - again an unusual, but clearly in this case highly effective, way to talk to an opponent on the battlefield.

There is a strange and startling contrast between Glaukos' narrative and Diomedes' energetic "flyting"[82]. Glaukos' opening lines resemble poetry of the kind we know best

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[80]Maftei (1976) p.51 cites Schol. T on Diomedes words at 6.222-223: ἄτοποι οἱ δύο στίχοι. Kirk 1990, unlike me, agrees with the scholiast:"The mention of Tydeus does seem rather forced, an interruption of the argument" (p.189).

[81]i.e. "Father".

[82]Martin 1989 pp.68-75 and passim.

from lines attributed to the lyric poets Simonides and Mimnermus. We expect this kind of maudlin reflection on human frailty and the limitations of mortality in the later stages of a symposium. Simonides 19 and Mimnermus 2 (West's numbering in both cases) resemble the opening of Glaukos' speech in their diction and theme, and show how such talk is associated with a mood of despair and hopelessness.[83] But this kind of talk is unusual. It is a sign of Glaukos' independent stance in the middle of the furious fighting.

The second part of Glaukos' speech develops into a story reminiscent of travelers' tales about distant places of the kind told in the Odyssey. The content of this part of the speech, together with the style in which it is told, conspire to fill the listener with wonder; it distracts him from his present surroundings and makes the war seem irrelevant. The first, lyrical, section, associated in Greek poetry with the theme of mortal helplessness, indicates his ability to distance himself psychologically from the thick of the fighting.

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Simonides Frag. 19 (West)
ἓν δὲ τὸ κάλλιστον Χῖος ἔειπεν ἀνήρ
οἵη περ φύλλων γενεή τοίη δὲ καὶ ἀνδρῶν·
παῦροι μιν θνητῶν οὔασι δεξάμενοι
στέρνοις ἐγκατέθεντο· πάρεστι γὰρ ἐλπὶς ἑκάστωι
ἀνδρῶν,, ἥ τε νέων στήθεσιν ἐμφύεται

The finest utterance of the man of Chios is "the generation of men is no different from the generation of leaves". But few who hear this take it to heart. For the hope which plants itself in *youthful* hearts is ever-present.

11.Mimnermus Frag. 2 (West)
ἡμεῖς δ οἷα τε φύλλα πολυάνθεμος ὥρη
ἔαρος, ὅτ αἶψ αὐγῆις αὔξεται ἠελίου,
τοῖς ἴκελοι πήχυιον ἐπὶ χρόνον ἄνθεσιν ἥβης
τερπόμεθα, πρὸς θεῶν εἰδοτες οὔτε κακὸν
οὔτ ἀγαθόν· Κῆρες δὲ παρεστήκασι μέλαιναι,
ἡ μὲν ἔχουσα τέλος γήραος ἀργαλέου,
ἡ δ ἑτέρη θανάτοιο · μίνυνθα δὲ γίνεται ἥβης
καρπός, ὅσον τ ἐπι κίδναται ἠέλιος.
αὐταρ ἐπὴν δὴ τοῦτο τέλος παραμείψαται ὥρης,
αὐτικα δὴ τεθνάναι βέλτιον ἢ βίοτος·
πολλὰ γὰρ ἐν θυμῶι κακὰ γίνεται· ἄλλοτε οἶκος
τρυχοῦται, πενίης δ ἔργ ὀδυνηρὰ πέλει·
ἄλλος δ αὖ παίδων ἐπιδεύεται ὧν τε μάλιστα
ἱμείρων κατὰ γῆς ἔρχεται εἰς 'Αΐδην·
ἄλλος νοῦσον ἔχει θυμοφθόρον· οὐδε τίς ἐστιν
ἀνθρώπων ὧι Ζεὺς μὴ κακὰ πολλὰ διδοῖ .

We are like the leaves which blossoming spring puts forth, when the sun's warmth makes them grow quickly. Like them, we enjoy the perfection of youth only for a short span, knowing neither good nor evil from the gods. But the dark Fates stand on either side of us; one holds out bitter old age as the final goal; the other holds out death. The glow of youth is brief, while the sun shines over us. But when youth outruns the end of its season, you'd do better to die than stay alive. For the soul becomes riddled with troubles. One person's livelihood is all consumed, and the pains of poverty beset him. Another misses his children, the most cherished of whom is swallowed down by Hades. Another nurses a wasting disease. We are all plagued by the numberless troubles Zeus sends.

Apollo also uses the leaf imagery when he argues that *there is no point in fighting* for the sake of mortals, nourished on grain who - φύλλοισιν ἐοίκοτες[84] - burst into bloom and then just wither.[85] Glaukos talks like a god. He assumes the perspective of an immortal.

### *Aeneas' Nomos Epeôn*

Aeneas, facing Achilles, tells him: "I too know how to utter insults", and he starts out by boasting his own illustrious descent. But Aeneas' speech, like Glaukos', soon departs from the theme of immediate challenge. Aeneas too speaks at great length: his specific talent is for genealogical narrative, which in turn falls under the more general category of catalogue poetry.[86]

Aeneas begins his speech to Achilles by contrasting two sorts of knowledge. He says that he and Achilles know each other by hearsay, through their acquaintance with the tales people tell: πρόκλυτ ἀκούοντες ἔπεα θνητῶν ἀνθρώπων (20.204). On the other hand, they have not yet seen one another on the field: ὄψει δ οὔτ ἄρ πω σὺ ἐμοὺς ἴδες οὔτ ἄρ ἐγὼ σοὺς (205). Seeing and knowing a warrior is meeting him face-to-face on the field, in a one-on-one encounter. Achilles himself insultingly reminds Aeneas of a former occasion upon which Aeneas declined to meet him face-to-face, but instead, turned and fled from him without a backward glance. Clearly, Aeneas prefers knowing Achilles by hearsay - knowing his *kleos* - to meeting him eye-to-eye, and here he gives a recitation of his own geneaology - his own *kleos* - instead of attacking Achilles' credentials and then engaging him in a face-to-face fight. In other words, Aeneas prefers poetry to fighting.

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[84]For another comparison of mortals with leaves, see Aristophanes Birds 685.

[85]It is worth noting that the Glaukos-Diomedes scene is often deemed (as it is by Kirk (1990 p. 155) as inorganic. Aristarchus notes that the lines were sometimes placed elsewhere. In my view, the scene is crucial: one of the most developed passages demonstrating the difference in characterisation between Trojans and Achaeans. It also parallels the exchange between Achilles and Aeneas in Book 20 (20.174-352).

[86]Exemplified in the Hesiodic tradition as well as in the Greek and Trojan Catalogues of Ships in Iliad 2 and the *toledot* sections of Genesis.

Aeneas' speech to Achilles is three times the length of Achilles' (Achilles has 21 lines; Aeneas, 59). This lends him a certain status in the encounter, even though he avoids fighting.[87] In addition to giving the genealogy, he makes an eloquent digression on the way men talk (στρεπτὴ δὲ γλῶσσ' ἐστὶ βροτῶν, πολέες δ' ἔνι μῦθοι / παντοῖοι ἐπέων δὲ πολὺς νομὸς ἔνθα καὶ ἔνθα - 20.248-249). This is turn develops into an explication of the nature of insults spoken in strife (20.251-255). As Aeneas says himself: "there is a wide-ranging field of types (*nomoi* ) of speech.[88] A field or pasture-land - *nomos* - is so called because it gets divided up into shares.[89] At 2.475-476 the troops, like flocks of goats at pasture (ἐπεί κε νομῷ μιγέωσιν 475) are separated into groups here and there through the field (διεκόσμεον ἔνθα καὶ ἔνθα - 476). Aeneas also uses the phrase ἔνθα καὶ ἔνθα when he talks about his "meadow of words". I believe that Aeneas is talking about the innumerable types, or genres, of speech which human-beings can engage in: when he says that the ἐπέων.....νομὸς is πολὺς.....ἔνθα καί ἔνθα, he means that speech gets divided up into a wide variety of poetic genres. As he says, there are all *kinds* of μῦθοι (248-249: πολέες.....μῦθοι/παντοῖοι) and the tongue of mortals is a pliant, flexible (στρεπτή - 248) thing. In other words, it can accomodate itself to all kinds of styles and genres.

Aeneas uses the phrase ἔνθα καὶ ἔνθα in an earlier speech, when he is describing to Pandaros his horses' ability to range all over the plain, whether in hot pursuit or in giddy flight: ἐπιστάμενοι πεδίοιο / κραιπνά μάλ' ἔνθα καὶ ἔνθα διωκέμεν ἠδὲ φέβεσθαι (5.222-223). The other time these lines are used it is also in connection with Aeneas: Diomedes also uses

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[87]Cf. Martin 1989 p.138.

[88]Ford points out that the metaphor is a traditional one (Ford 1992 pp.6-7). Cf. for example Works and Days 402-403: "The range (*nomos* ) of words will bring you no profit"; and the Hymn to Apollo (line 20) refers to the "*nomos....aoidês*" Cf. also Works and Days 721. Later, the word *nomos* is the term used for the "citharoedic nome". But before this, the word gets used to account for different types of song or speech: Alcman says "I know the *nomoi* of all the different birds that there are (Frag. 40 Page). Nagy argues that in some contexts where lyric poetry is concerned the term is aptly translated "localised melodic idiom" (Nagy 1989 p.43).

[89]See Benveniste (1969) sv.

them to describe Aeneas' horses (which he has just captured). But the application of the phrase to the horses has an additional self-referential force. The phrase captures the essential quality of Aeneas' own speech. Aeneas' ability to range in all directions over a (in his case) *poetic* pastureland matches the physical power of his horses. For Aeneas covers a range of topics. Beginning with his genealogy, he then diverges and begins again to talk about horses, in a passage about the horses of Erichthonius (221-229). His words go ἔνθα καὶ ἔνθα, just as these horses, like his own, frolic here, there and everywhere, now over the broad ridges of the sea (ἐπ' εὐρέα νῶτα θαλάσσης - 228), now over the grain-giving earth (ἐπὶ ζείδωρόν ἄρουραν - 226).[90] We also see Aeneas shift in a formal sense from genre to genre. Although he takes up genealogy for extended periods (230-240 and 215-220), he diverges from it in order to talk about the horses, and then changes the style of his speech again in the final section, in which he discourses on speech itself.

At line 230, Aeneas resumes his genealogy. The genealogical account continues for eleven more lines. We might expect the speech to end with them; the last line (241: ταύτης τοι γενεῆς τε καὶ αἵματος εὔχομαι εἶναι ) is the one with which Glaukos concludes his speech to Diomedes in 6, and the line resounds on a suitably challenging note. But Aeneas continues. Reflecting on the role of the gods in human endeavour, he qualifies his genealogical boast : Zeus can fan a mortal man's *aretê* , or he can let it dwindle [no matter what the man's lineage] - Ζεὺς δ' ἀρετὴν ἄνδρεσσιν ὀφέλλει τε μινύθει τε / ὅππως κεν ἐθελῃσιν· (242-243). Now it really looks as though the speech will end, for line 244 (ἀλλ' ἄγε μηκέτι ταῦτα λεγώμεθα νηπύτιοι ὥς ) seems to echo his opening lines: μὴ δή μ' ἐπέεσσι γε νηπύτιον ὣς ἔλπεο δειδίξεσθαι (200-201). But once again, Aeneas, struck by the thought of the quantity of insults one could unload on an enemy (cf. 247: πολλὰ μάλ' οὐδ' ἂν νῆυς ἑκατόζυγος ἄχθος ἄροιτο ) carries on - displaying a remarkable tenacity in the face of

[90]Possibly the horses' travelling over land and sea symbolises Aeneas' parallel ability to perform a range of genres: land poetry (poetry in the Hesiodic style) and sea poetry (Homeric *epos* ). For this symbolisation of poetic traditions, see Rosen 1990.

Achilles, poised with spear in hand - and persists in talking. Insults, he claims, are not manly, but are fit only for women quarrelling in the streets - a sentiment which clearly challenges the Achaean ethos, according to which, what a warrior needs is the ability to utter insults.

### *Hektor and his Philoi*

"Flyting", as I noted in the introductory remarks to this chapter, is a term used to cover not only competitive talk to the enemy, but also the kind of talk expressive of competitive in-group rivalry amongst males all from the same group; - a use of conflictual speech to express solidarity. An extended scene portrays Agamemnon "flyting" with the soldiers on his own side: chiding his troops to incite them to proper efforts in battle.[91] But we do not see Hektor going around and systematically encouraging his troops in this way.[92] Though he yells out periodically: ἀνέρες ἔστε, φίλοι, μνήσασθε δὲ θούριδος ἀλκῆς, this injunction is randomly thrown out at the whole army; we never see him go amongst the troops, addressing individual warriors in turn, as Agamemnon does (cf. Agamemnon at 5.528: Ἀτρεϊδης δ'ἀν ὅμιλον ἐφοίτα πολλὰ κελεύων); this is reflected in the fact that every time Hektor tells his men "Remember your *alkê* " he loudly shouts the exhortation to them - that is, from a distance: ἐκέκλετο μακρὸν ἀΰσας. [93]

If the Trojan army as a whole lacks κόσμος because of its linguistic diversity, Hektor does not take action in a way which would instill his own Trojan warriors with a sense of cohesion and co-operation. From time to time, other Trojan warriors remind Hektor that it is his duty and responsibility as a commander to chide and rouse his troops. Sarpedon reproaches him for his apathy, (5.472-492),[94] contrasting Hektor's slackness with his

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[91]Cf. the Aiantes at 12.269-276 and Sarpedon at 12.101.

[92]Apart from the brief occasion upon which Hektor chides Melanippus in Book 15 (545-559).

[93]12.440-441: Hektor calls out encouragement *behind* him as he leaps over the wall; his first concern is to be first, to look out for his own *kleos*.

[94]A rebuke; Hektor makes no reply: δάκε δὲ φρένας Ἕκτορι μῦθος.(5.493).

own endeavours to spur on the Lycians. In Book 6, Helenus approaches Hektor and Aeneas and tells them to range through the host and prevent the Trojans from fleeing into the arms of their women (77.101). It is a remarkable fact in itself that Hektor's warriors so frequently come up to him to give advice.[95] No-one has to tell Agamemnon to challenge and encourage his troops. Helenus, telling Hektor to spur on the troops, and Poulydamas, suggesting that he call together a deliberative council, advise Hektor to do things which he ought, as the chief commander, to be thinking of for himself.[96] Only Hektor needs to be told by his *peers* about the things which should "be his concern night and day": σοὶ δὲ χρὴ τάδε πάντα μέλειν νύκτας τε καὶ ἦμαρ (5.490) - Agamemnon gets this kind of advice only from Zeus - in his dream in Book 2.

But, as I argued in Chapter 1, Hektor often refuses to take advice from those who are qualified to advise him. In particular, he never consults a council of elders, and tyrannises the other Trojans in the assemblies, on one occasion threatening to kill Poulydamas when the latter makes a proposal that displeases him. Hektor's reluctance to flyte with and encourage his troops is consistent with his scorn of other Trojans' advice; it is another indication of his general disregard for the others fighting on his side.[97]

In Chapter 1, I argued that φιλότης does not predominate in the Trojan army as it does amongst the Achaeans. Sarpedon and Glaukos explicitly link Hektor's carelessness of his own troops' behaviour with callouslessness towards the allies: Glaukos tells Hektor (in a speech at 16.538-547): "You have utterly forgotten your allies, who are wearing

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[95]Notice that Iris fulfils the same function when she approaches the Trojan assembly (ἀγχοῦ ἰσταμένη - 2.790) and advises Hektor to muster the troops - to impose κόσμος on them: "Εκτορ, σοὶ δὲ μάλιστ' ἐπιτέλλομαι, ὧδε δὲ ῥέξαι (2. 802).

[96]At 13.726-747, when Poulydamas tells Hektor to call all the bravest to council Hektor won't do it himself; instead, he tells *Poulydamas* to call them while he himself goes to confront the war.

[97]But Cf. 6.104: (Hektor) πάλλων δ'ὀξέα δοῦρα κατὰ στρατὸν ᾤχετο πάντῃ. The line recurs at 11.212 and is proceeded in either case by the line αὐτίκα / "Εκτωρ δ' ἐξ ὀχέων σὺν τεύξεσιν ἅλτο χαμᾶζε. Also 17. 212-213: μετὰ δὲ κλειτοὺς ἐπικούρους/ βῆ ῥα μέγα ἰάχων· and 215: ὄτρυνεν δὲ ἕκαστον ἐποιχόμενος ἐπέεσσι. These passages seem to contradict the suggestion that Hektor never, or rarely "flytes" with his troops. Nevertheless, the fact remains that we never get an account of Hektor approaching his commanders one by one and making indivdual speeches to each of them in turn. We do get this kind of account for Agamemnon. In the passage from Book 17, Hektor makes just one speech, addressed to all the allies simultaneously (220-232).

themselves out for your sake, far from their *philoi* and their country" - οἳ σέθεν εἵνεκα τῆλε φίλων καὶ πατρίδος αἴης / θυμὸν ἀποφθινύθοισι (16.539-540).[98] Again, in his speech in Book 17, he threatens to take the Lycians home (154-155), and tells Hektor to save Troy alone with his Trojans (144-145). Sarpedon tells Hektor: "We are the ones who are left to fight, your allies": ἡμεῖς δὲ μαχόμεσθ' οἵ περ τ'ἐπίκουροι ἔνειμεν (5.477). Later Glaukos reproaches Hektor for leaving Sarpedon as prey and spoil (ἕλωρ καὶ κύρμα γενέσθαι - 17.151 ) for the Achaeans, even though he was Hektor's ξεῖνον καὶ ἑταῖρον (17.150).

If Hektor does not rebuke and antagonise his troops as he should, the other leaders fighting for him chide Hektor; - again, a reversal of the norm. Contrast what goes on amongst the Achaeans; in the Achaean assemblies, abusing Agamemnon results in the reimposition of discipline by Nestor. For while Sarpedon embeds in his first speech to Hektor the kind of vituperative language he thinks the Trojan troops should be hearing from Hektor - he says Hektor's men "cower like dogs round lion" - Sarpedon's whole speech to Hektor is itself a flyting-speech, and is introduced as such: ἔνθ' αὖ Σαρπηδὼν μάλα νείκεσεν Ἕκτορα δῖον (6.471). Hektor is "bitten" by the speech: Ὣς φάτο Σαρπηδών, δάκε δὲ φρένας Ἕκτορι μῦθος (5.493).[99]

Sarpedon begins with the kind of question which so often opens such attacks: "You claimed before you could save the city alone, without populace or allies"; - **φῆς που** ἄτερ λαῶν πόλιν ἐξέμεν ἠδ' ἐπικούρων / οἷος (5.473); - constructed on the same model as Hektor's own taunt to Patroklos at 16.830: "You used to claim, Patroklos, that you would sack our city"; - Πάτροκλ' , **ἦ που ἔφησθα** πόλιν κεραΐξεμεν ἁμήν.[100] Glaukos' speech in Book 17 is introduced with the words: χαλεπῷ ἠνίπαπε μύθῳ (17.141), and Glaukos repeatedly puts

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[98]See Fenik (1968) pp.49-52 on Sarpedon's rebuke as part of a typical "advice to Hektor" pattern. Fenik sees this "advice pattern" as part of the typical "rebuke pattern.

[99]Cf. Nagy (1979) p.225 on biting and blame.

[100]Compare Helen to Paris: "You used to boast before that you were better than Menelaus": ἦ μὲν δὴ πρίν γ' εὔχε' ἀρηϊφίλου Μενέλάον / σῇ τε βίῃ καὶ χερσὶ καὶ ἔγχεϊ φέρτερος εἶναι. (3.431). Also Agenor to Achilles (21.584): ἦ δή που μάλ' ἔολπας ἐνὶ φρεσί, φαίδιμ' Ἀχιλλεῦ, / ἤματι τῷσε πόλιν πέρσειν Τρώων ἀγερώχων.

down Hektor's ability as a warrior, telling him he is a "runaway" (φύξηλιν - 143), that he was too cowardly to stand his ground against Aias, (166-168), and opening his speech with the line: "Εκτορ, εἶδος ἄριστε, μάχης ἄρα πολλὸν ἐδεύεο (142). Hektor is pushed into the position of protesting, in a coaxing tone brought out by his use of πέπον , a term of endearment: ἀλλ' ἄγε δεῦρο, πέπον, παρ' ἔμ' ἵστασο καὶ ἴδε ἔργον (17.179). The Trojan speaker's capacity for detachment, to distance oneself from the immediate situation, lends itself to fine speaking and a reflective quality. Those features are the ***favourable*** manifestation of an - at other times - insidious lack of cohesion which seems to govern the representation of Hektor and his army, and Hektor's exchanges with his brother Paris.

### *Paris and Hektor*

Apart from Melanippus in Book 15, and Hektor's threats to Poulydamas, it is his brother Paris who is the sole object of Hektor's blame, and who bears the brunt of it. Hektor attacks Paris in Book 3 ( 39.57), Book 6 (325-331) and Book 13 (769-773). The first two speeches are introduced as νεῖκος : Τὸν δ' "Εκτορ νείκεσσεν ἰδὼν αἰσχροῖς ἐπέεσσιν (3.38; 6.325), the last, like these two, as the genre of blame: ἀγχοῦ δ' ἱσταμενος προσέφη αἰσχροῖς ἐπέεσσι (13.768). In the speeches to Paris, Hektor exceeds the normal limits of blame which are normal in such speeches when directed at members of one's own group. To wish death upon a fighter on your own side, especially a brother, is extraordinarily severe even when flyting.[101] In general, Hektor's speeches to Paris are piled with the language of blame poetry to an unparalleled degree.

The poem sets up a contrast between the harshness with which Hektor talks to his brother - technically, one of the closest of his φίλοι - and the speeches Agamemnon makes to his brother Menelaus: addressing him as φίλε κασίγνητε (4.155), ὦ πέπον, ὦ Μενέλαε

[101]Compare the way he threatens Poulydamas with death, in the language Sokos used to Odysseus: αὐτίκ' ἐμῷ ὑπὸ δουρὶ τυπεὶς ἀπὸ θυμὸν ὀλέσσεις (12.250).

(4.55) and φίλος ὦ Μενέλαε (4.189).[102] As always, the way Hektor talks to his φίλοι, whether his brothers or his allies, is symptomatic of the disjoined character of the Trojan army as a whole. The spirited rivalry of the Achaean army means that when Agamemnon ritually abuses his troops to shame them into fighting, they bounce back with protests and retaliatory abuse. Odysseus, accused of hanging back and cowering, tells Agamemnon: σὺ δὲ ταῦτ' ἀνεμώλια βάζεις (4.355); - similar to Sthenelus' response at 4.404-410. Other standard responses to exhortations are "Why do you urge me on when I am already eager ?": Ἀτρεΐδη κύδιστε, τί με σπεύδοντα καὶ αὐτον / ὀτρύνεις (8.298 - Teucer to Agamemnon); and, "Certainly I will stand by and endure": ἦ τοι ἐγὼ μενέω καὶ τλήσομαι (11.313 - Diomedes to Odysseus).

But Paris does not retaliate in response to Hektor's blame. A flyting match is essentially competitive, and the last thing you are supposed to do is to accept the blame thrown at you by your opponent. Yet Paris does this twice in response to Hektor, saying both times: Ἕκτορ, ἐπεί με κατ' αἶσαν ἐνείκεσας οὐδ' ὑπὲρ / αἶσαν, ( 3.59; 6.333). Only once does Paris protest that the blame is unmerited: Ἕκτορ, ἐπεί τοι θυμὸς ἀναίτιον αἰτιάασθαι (13.775). Paris is blamed by Hektor for his slackness as a fighter. At the end of 6, Hektor says in resignation: no-one right-minded would say that you can't fight; it's just that you won't steel yourself to the task: ἀλλα ἑκὼν μεθιεῖς τε καὶ οὐκ ἐθέλεις (6.523). It is this same slackness, this lack of tension which is evident in Paris' use of language, in his failure to bounce back and combat Hektor's insulting attacks.[103]

Paris' reaction when Helen scolds him creates the same effect. Helen attacks Paris like a warrior flyting with him; she tells him: "You used to boast before that you were better than Menelaus": ἦ μὲν δὴ πρίν γ' εὔχε' ἀρηϊφίλου Μενέλάον / σῇ τε βίῃ καὶ χερσὶ καὶ ἔγχεϊ φέρτερος εἶναι. (3.431). Paris says, "don't scold me" (μή με γύναι, χαλεποῖσιν ὀνείδεσι θυμὸν

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[102]Compare also Agamemnon to Menelaus at 7.108: δεξιτερῆς ἕλε χειρὸς ἔπος τ' ἔφατ' ἔκ τ' ὀνόμαζεν·

[103]In connection with the idea of Paris' slack behaviour, see Vine (1988) on the meaning of ἕπω - at 6.321 Paris is merely "handling" or "fondling" his weapons, not "busying himself with them (p.55). Leaf also understands the verb this way (Leaf (1985) pp.231-251).

ἔνιπτε , and evasively changes the subject: ἀλλ' ἄγε δὴ φιλότητ' τραπείομεν εὐνηθεντε (3.441). He talks of delaying, procrastinating, relinquishing the struggle with Menelaos: "This time Menelaos has won; another time I'll get him". Compare his words to Hektor at 6.339: νίκη δ'ἐπαμείβεται ἄνδρας - victory shifts from man to man. Delay, inconsistency and changeability combine with apathy in the characterisation of Paris, especially his conversational responses. He is *laisser faire* when he tells Hektor in 13: "No-one can fight beyond his ability" - πὰρ δύναμιν (13.787). The changeability surfaces when he speaks to Hektor in Book 6: first he is sententious; then he says: "If you want me to fight, I will". His slackness and self-indulgence are displayed again in 6, when he tells Hektor that he was just "turning" himself to grief: ἔθελον δ' ἄχεϊ προτράπεσθαι (336). Paris is always in want of distraction of some kind, and always trying to distract others. In Paris, we see the dangerous side of the typically Trojan preference for talk and reflection rather than action.

### *Other Trojan Philoi*

When Greek *hetairoi* converse with one another on the field, their speeches are usually brief and to the point, concerned only with events immediately relevant to the battle. In addition to speeches in which they spur one another on to greater exertions, they may ask one another for assistance (Eurypylos and Patroklos at 11.823-836; Menelaus and Aias at 17.120-122), or deliver news (Antilochus telling Achilles of Patroklos' death at the beginning of Book 18). The most extended exchange between two Achaean *hetairoi* is between Idomeneus and Meriones in Book 13 (249-329). Idomeneus encounters Meriones, asks him the standard question "Why are you leaving the war ?", they discuss the location of spears in their hut, Idomeneus affirms Meriones' valour[104] and then they discuss where they can best re-enter the fighting.

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[104]In response to Meriones' claim: οὐδε γὰρ οὐδ' ἐμέ φημι λελασμένον ἔμμεναι ἀλκῆς/ ἀλλὰ μετὰ πρώτοισι μάχην ἀνὰ κυδιάνειραν / ἵσταμαι, ὁππότε νεῖκος ὀρώρηται πολέμοιο (13.269-271), Idomeneus replies: οἶδ' ἀρετὴν οἷος ἐσσι· τί σε χρὴ ταῦτα λέγεσθαι; (13.275).

In general, the practical and pertinent speeches Achaean *hetairoi* make to one another differ in character and purpose from the ones Trojan *hetairoi* exchange. In Chapter 1, I described the way in which Trojan and Greek assemblies are often juxtaposed in a way which points up the differences between them. The poet uses the same technique to contrast one-on-one conversations between pairs of Trojans and pairs of Achaeans. The extended conversation between Aeneas and Pandaros in Book 5 is juxtaposed to one between Diomedes and Sthenelus, which is correspondingly short and laconic.[105] Aeneas begins with what would be a typical opening to a flyting-speech: Πάνδαρε, ποῦ τοι τόξον ἰδὲ πτερόεντες ὀϊστοι / καὶ κλέος (5.171). It is standard and formulaic to address a *hetairos* by asking him why he is out of the fighting, or where his courage has gone. Closest to Aeneas' lines (amongst the many examples of such questions) is Aias' question to his half-brother Teucer after both have heard the report of the death of a *hetairos* : ποῦ νύ τοι ἰοὶ / ὠκύμοροι καὶ τόξον, ὅ τοι πόρε Φοῖβος Ἀπόλλων; (15.440-441).[106]

But the tone of the exchange soon alters. In the parallel Achaean conversation, Diomedes and Sthenelus brusquely discuss strategy. But Aeneas permits Pandaros to tell him his regretful story of his house and his father and the horses he left behind there. At 226-238 Aeneas and Pandaros discuss who should drive the horses. In another similar scene, the participants do not take time discuss this issue - the decision is briskly made and then adhered to. Compare Automedon's words to Alcimedon at 17.479-480: ἀλλὰ σὺ μὲν μάστιγα καὶ ἡνία σιγαλόεντα / δέξαι ἐγὼ δ' ἵππων ἀποβήσομαι, ὄφρα μάχωμαι: with Aeneas' at 5.226-228: ἀλλὰ σὺ μὲν μάστιγα καὶ ἡνία σιγαλόεντα / δέξαι ἐγὼ δ' ἵππων ἀποβήσομαι,

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[105]Sthenelus and Diomedes: 243-250 and 252-273; Aeneas and Pandaros: 171-178; 180-216; 218-228; 230-238.

[106]Also Sarpedon to Hektor: Where is the *menos* you formerly had ? (5.472). 8.94 Diomedes to Odysseus: πῇ φεύγεις μετὰ νῶτα βαλὼν κακὸς ὡς ἐν ὁμίλῳ; Odysseus to Diomedes: Τυδεΐδη , τί παθόντε λελάσμεθα θούριδος ἀλκῆς; - 11.313. Answer: ἦ τοι ἐγὼ μενέω καὶ τλήσομαι. Idomeneus and Meriones: τίπτ' ἦλθες πόλεμόν τε λιπὼν καὶ δηϊοτῆτα; (13.250). Idomeneus has Aeneas' lines about lingering: ἀλλ' ἄγε, μηκέτι ταῦτα λεγώμεθα νηπύτιοι ὡς / ἑσταότες, μή πού τις ὑπερφιάλως νεμεσήσῃ. At 13.219-238 Poseidon-Thoas to Idomeneus: Ἰδομενεῦ, Κρητῶν βουληφόρε, ποῦ τοι ἀπειλαὶ / οἴχονται, τὰς Τρωσὶν ἀπείλεον υἷες Ἀχαιῶν; Agamemnon to Nestor at 14.43: τίπτε λιπὼν πόλεμον φθισήνορα δεῦρ' ἀφικάνεις; On the resemblance between questions of this type, see Fenik (1968) pp.50-51 and 128-129.

ὄφρα μάχωμαι· / ἦε σὺ τόνδε δέδεξο, μελήσουσαν δ' ἐμοὶ ἵπποι. The extra line, together with Pandaros' considered response, in which he displays as much concern for Aeneas' horses as he did for the ones he left at home, nuances Aeneas' words quite differently, so that what came from Automedon as a command turns into the stuff of friendly conversation.

### *Glaukos and Sarpedon*

Sarpedon's speech to Glaukos in Book 12 (310-328), like Pandaros' to Aeneas in Book 5, is remarkable in that the warriors' take the time to reflect on what has been left behind at home. The Lycians' abusive speeches to Hektor.are similarly noteworthy for their striking combination of chiding words with the theme of regret for a far-off homeland.[107] Sarpedon's speech shares formal features with other flyting speeches: the question with which he opens the speech: Γλαῦκε, τί ἦ δὴ νῶϊ τετιμήμεσθα μάλιστα / ἕδρῃ τε κρέασιν τε ἰδὲ πλείοις δεπάεσσιν / ἐν Λυκίῃ / πάντες δὲ θεοὺς ὣς εἰσορόωσι; (12.310-312) resembles Agamemnon's reproach to Idomeneus that he should fight eagerly because at the feast his portion is equal to the king's - an instance of the flyting-theme Richard Martin calls the "motif of sustenance". But the atmosphere his words create is unusual; the tag ἐν Λυκίῃ[108] has metonymic resonances which introduce poignant note. The effect is compounded by Sarpedon's use of a first-person pronoun - stressing the cousins' shared experience - rather than making the motif into a second-person address (which is more divisive and constitutes an attack on the other person): "Why are *we* honoured like gods?".

Moreover, the next lines of Sarpedon's speech evince a startling ambivalence about the desirability of *kleos*. Telling Glaukos, "If by fleeing from this battle we could then become immortal, I would not tell you now to enter the glory-giving battle, and I wouldn't

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[107]See Griffin (1976) for discussion of this theme in the Iliad generally.

[108]Compare Achilles' ἐν Σιπυλῳ (24.615) when he tells Niobe's story in Book 24.

fight myself", he gives a description of the myriad fates which stand about them, inevitable: νῦν δ' ἔμπης γὰρ κῆρες ἐφεστᾶσιν θανάτοιο / μυρίαι (12.326-327) - a description which would not be out of place used as a threat or a challenge, but here serving a different purpose; - it serves as the stuff of Sarpedon's bemused reflection on mortality. For in Sarpedon's speech, the thought of *kleos* is darkened by the threat of death in the face of mortal helplessness. And the *timê* men naïvely assign one another, thinking it makes them "like gods" (312) pales beside the thought of the true and unattainable immortality the gods enjoy (323-324).

Sarpedon's technique consists in tacitly questioning the values warriors assume by holding them up for scrutiny as the beliefs of others: ὄφρα τις ὧδ' εἴπῃ Λυκίων πύκα θωρηκτάων /οὐ μὰν ἀκλεέες Λυκίην κάτα κοιρανέουσιν / ἡμέτεροι βασιλῆες, (317-318) Of the Achaeans, only Achilles ever raises the question "Why fight/flyte?", and his *philoi* are nonplussed when he poses it. Sarpedon qualifies his attention to the immediate task with a shared remembrance of Lycia, and by the expression of a sentiment which shifts their perspective on the present moment. In this speech of Sarpedon's, the traditional flyting-forms stand like empty monuments to the warrior code which advocated *kleos*. Sarpedon's language is like that of Aeneas, who scornfully reduced insults - warrior talk - to the level of the bickering of women in the streets; it is like Glaukos', when he assumed the perspective of an immortal god, looking down on the pointless fighting of men, who are as transient as leaves; and it is also like that of Pandaros, who, with an air of detachment viewed the success or failure of his own spear-shot as a matter of chance - τυχή. Sarpedon's poetic skill, as well as his "Trojan" stance and attitude, is manifest in his ability subtly to manipulate the syntactic and thematic forms of warrior-talk in such a way that they draw attention to[109] and question their own meaning.

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[109]Again, Jakobson's "poetic function" emerges as especially characteristic of the speeches of the Trojans (Jakobson 1960 p.356).

# CHAPTER 3

## *THE DEATH OF HEKTOR: PERFORMANCE, KLEOS, CLOSURE*

### *Hektor and the Trojans*

This chapter is about the language of Hektor and the social organisation of the Trojan army - the sociological structure of the relationship between Hektor and his allies. In the first part of the chapter, I show that the relationships between Hektor and his allies are foregrounded in the Iliad as connections of guest-friendship - *xenia*. Relationships of this kind were typically formed by Greek (and Asiatic) aristocrats in the archaic period.[1] The most interesting aspect of this representation is that, while Agamemnon's army would technically be composed of *xenoi* and the troops they brought, the poet represents only Hektor's army, not the Achaeans, this way. Agamemnon's army is otherwise portrayed: as a more close-knit society, as if the warriors were all members of one community - although in "reality" they belong to different contingents from various Greek cities.[2]

I will then explain that to represent the commanders of the Trojan army as Hektor's *xenoi* is one aspect of a more general trend: the themes of praise poetry are the themes operative in the depiction of the Trojans. The theme of *xenia* is central to the Greek genre of praise poetry, which we know best from Pindar's epinician odes.[3] Other themes which are prominent in this kind of poetry - the themes of *kleos* , *charis* and *apoina* - are dominant in the poetry's portrayal of the relationship between Hektor and his allies. I

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[1]For discussion whether of alliances formed *between* Greeks and non-Greeks constituted *xenia*, see Gauthier (1973) pp.11-13 (who argues that they did not) and Herman (1986) pp.12ff. (who argues that they did). My analysis of the encounters between Greeks and Trojans in the Iliad (below) supports Herman's view.

[2]Cf. Chapter 1 (pp.22-24; 42-43) on the linguistic unification of the Achaeans (as opposed to the Trojans), and the organisation of the Achaean sacrifices, which make the Achaeans look like a single community.

[3]I discussed in Chapter 2 (pp.70-72) a passage in which Sarpedon is preoccupied, in a flyting situation, by thoughts about his connection of *xenia* with Hektor.

associate this with a feature of Hektor's characterisation on which scholars have commented in the past: that Hektor himself is unusally preoccupied with *kleos* - with his own fame. The theme of *kleos* is dominant in the characterisation of Hektor. It characterises his own speeches and aspirations, and it is also a function of his connection with the allies who fight for him.

I go on to suggest that Hektor's preoccupation with *kleos* blinkers and insulates him. This fact can, I think, be associated with the two most distinctive features of Hektor's linguistic style. Firstly, his speeches are exquisitely perfect in form, as though he were more attuned to his own verbal artistry than to his audience. And secondly, in his conversations with others, Hektor's behaviour conveys the impression that he is oddly detached from his interlocutors (there is some overlap between these two features). Finally, I link Hektor's detachment, attributable to his overriding wish for *kleos*, to the fact that he, rather than Achilles, achieves a "beautiful death" at the end of the poem. In so far as there is closure in the Iliad, it is Hektor's death which gives the poem closure. Closure and a *kalos thanatos* seems to befit Hektor better than Achilles, because of the static beauty of Hektor's speeches, and his tendency to occupy a closed conversational world.

### *Pindar and Homer*

Praise poetry is built upon the social institution of *xenia* , and talks of the *charis* and the obligation (*chreos* , *apoina* ) which attend a relationship of *xenia*. Leslie Kurke's discussion brings out well the implications of the poet's self-presentation as the *xenos* of the victor he celebrates.[4] The poet's connection of *xenia* with the victor obliges him to praise his *xenos* - give him *kleos* - rather than blaming and insulting him.[5] Nagy[6] also comments on the way Pindar as praise poet and *xenos* distinguishes himself from a blame

[4]Kurke (1991) Chapter 6.
[5]Kurke (1991) p.106.
[6]Nagy (1979) p.223.

poet in Nemean 7 when he says: "I am a *xenos*. Fending off dark blame, I will bring real *kleos* , like streams of water, to a man who is *philos* , and praise him" (61-62).[7]

The themes of *chreos* and *charis* are foregrounded in Pindar's odes.[8] Pindar frequently invokes the graces, the *Charites*. [9] The *Charites* are Pindar's patrons because the poems are composed as gifts for his victor, establishing a relationship of gracious goodwill between poet and his host - *xenos*.[10] A passage from the Iliad also makes explicit the assocation between *charis* and *xenia* : in Iliad 18 Thetis goes to the house of Hephaistos, where Charis, the wife of Hephaistos tells her to enter - ἀλλ' ἕπεο προτέρω, ἵνα τοι πὰρ **ξείνια** θείω (18.387). The praise poem Pindar writes is itself a *charis* . In some places it is also referred to as *apoina* - recompense.[11] With his poems, the poet grants his patron what is due to him.[12] Praise poetry celebrates aristocratic guest-friendship, which is characterised by the reciprocation of *charis* and *apoina* .

I think it highly significant that *Charis* and *apoina* are themes which also characterise some of the encounters between Trojans and Achaeans which I discussed in Chapter 2. The Trojan suppliants of Books 6 and 11 offer Menelaus and Agamemnon respectively ἀπερείσι' ἄποινα,[13] and they say that their fathers would "rejoice" - χαρίσαιτο - [14] if they heard that their sons were alive by the Achaean ships. They tempt the Atreïdai with κειμήλια[15] - in other words, *agalmata*.[16] I suggest that these Trojan warriors are

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[7]ξεῖνος εἰμι· σκοτοεινὸν ἀπέχων ψόγον
ὕδατος ὥτε ῥοὰς φίλον ἐς ἄνδρ' ἄγων
κλέος ἐτήτυμον αἰνεσω
Pindar Nemean 7 61-63.

[8]Kurke (1991) p.106.

[9]Cf. for example the opening of Olympian 14, where Pindar invokes the Χάριτες Ὀρχομενοῦ (line 4) and Olympian 4.8-9, where he asks Zeus to welcome the musicians for the sake of the Graces: δέκευ / Χαρίτων ἕκατι τόνδε κῶμον.

[10]Kurke (1991) p.104.

[11]Kurke (1991) p.112.

[12]Cf. also Isthmian 3.7: songs (χάριτες) are the ἄποινα εὐκλέων ἔργων and Pythian 2.24: τὸν εὐεργέταν ἀγανοῖς ἀμοιβαῖς / τίνεσθαι

[13]6.49; 11.134

[14]6.49; 11.134

[15]6.47; 11.132.

trying to establish a relationship of ξεινία with their Achaean opponents. And this seems to be confirmed when we consider other Trojan-Achaean encounters. Glaukos spins a yarn about his ancestors which provokes Diomedes to declare that the two of them are ξείνοι πατρωϊοι (6.215).[17] And Lycaon reminds Achilles that he has already eaten at Achilles' table and shared his hearth (21.76)[18] In contradistinction to the competitive blame these Trojans do *not* utter, the theme of praise, and the themes of praise poetry, are always present instead. For example, in Book 7 Hektor declares that he wants to exchange περικλύτα δῶρα with Aias, that all may see and know that they are friends (7.300-302). Hektor wants their friendship to be publicly recognised - celebrated, or praised.

### *Praise and Competition*

But we should not take the Trojans' attempts to become their opponents *xenoi* (or, as in the case of Glaukos and Lycaon, to remind their enemies that they are *already* guest-friends), as an indication that they seek to relinquish conflict and competition with their enemies. Just as the Trojans exercise and exploit strategically a talent for speech instead of fighting, so too they engage in a more subtle type of competitive behaviour than the Achaeans, who openly threaten and insult their enemies. The way the Trojans try to establish connections of *xenia* and offer their opponents "countless treasure" confirms this. For while *xenia* - guest-friendship - is regularly established by an exchange of precious gifts, this aristocratic system of gift-exchange is highly competitive. Gift-giving is "part of a network of *competitive*, honorific activity" ( italics mine).[19] The quantity of wealth a man can give away is a measure of his prestige.

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[16]Cf. Kurke (1991) p.139: "*Xenia* is, like recompense and marriage, a top-rank occasion at which *agalmata* are exchanged by aristocratic peers".

[17]It is also noteworthy that Antenor reminds his own friends about the *xenia* Menelaus and Odysseus enjoyed in his halls (1.207: τοὺς δ' ἐγὼ εξείνισσα καὶ ἐν μεγάροισι φίλησα).

[18]See Herman (1987) pp. 54-58 on the conceptual association between stranger, host, suppliant and friend.

[19]Finley 1977 p.120.

This is how the Trojans, who are represented *via* the themes of praise poetry, and who do not use the language of blame (flyting), compete with their enemies. Trojans press wealth upon their Achaean opponents. They offer their fathers' κειλμήλια; hoping to overcome their opponents in a competition of wealth and prestige, and to put their enemies under the obligation of a relationship based on *charis*, which requires mutual praise, not blame. The Trojan suppliants, instead of blaming the Achaeans they confront, speak to them in "honeyed tones" - μειλιχίοισι. They seek to overcome them not just with tempting rewards, but also with winning persuasion. The Achaeans for the most part resist this kind of competition with scorn and contempt - as is perhaps to be expected: the Trojan war was precipitated by one of the most famous of all breaches of *xenia* : Paris' theft of Helen - the wife of his *xenos* Menelaus.

### *Hektor's Kleitoi Epikouroi*

The themes and the ideology which appear in praise poetry dominate the representation of Hektor's army of Trojans and allies, not just in their dealings with the Achaeans, but also in relation to each other. First of all, praise poetry celebrates the *kleos* of the victor. Hektor's allies are praiseworthy: "far famed": τηλεκλείτοι. [20] They are also "called from many lands": πολυκλήτοι.[21] The roots of these two words are etymologically associated, even though they are not, strictly speaking, etymologically related. πολύκηλτοι, built on the same root we find in καλέω - "call", bears a superficial, cosmetic resemblance to τηλεκλείτοι, which is constructed from a different root, the one found in the verb κλύω, meaning "hear". The noun κλέος, meaning "that which is heard", or "fame", is derived from κλύω, as are epithets like περικλύτος, meaning "talked about all over", or "renowned".

But the formal similarity between the verbs and the close relationship between their meanings meant that the two roots tended to be associated with one another. The verbs

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[20] 6.111; 11.233; 12.108.
[21] 4.438; [10.420].

κλέω/κλείω and κλεϊζω/κληϊζω can mean not just "celebrate, praise", but also "call, name", through what Chantraine terms the analogical influence of καλέω.[22] Pindar uses a form πολῦκλειτος - "far-famed" - at Olympian 6.71 - it looks like a hybrid of τηλεκλείτοι and πολυκλήτοι. The association of the roots with one another is reflected in the epithets ascribed to the Trojans in the Iliad, which seem at times to be used ambiguously. Both ideas are relevant to the Trojan allies: in the first place, they are called from afar; compare Nestor's diction when he remembers how he was "summoned" by Theseus, Perithous and the rest to fight in the battle against the centaurs: **καλέσαντο** γὰρ αὐτοι (1.270). But they are also far-famed. Hektor has friends and connections in distant and illustrious cities. The fame of Troy surfaces as a theme, just like the theme of the fame of the allies. For Hektor relates that the wealth of Troy used to be the subject of stories (18.288-289:πρὶν μὲν γὰρ Πριάμοιο πόλιν μέροπες ἄνθρωποι / πάντες **μυθέσκοντο** πολύχρυσον πολύχαλκον). Troy itself is, or was, at least as famous as the cities of her τηλεκλείτοι ἐπικούροι.[23]

This network of ideas evidently counts as an important motif vis-à-vis the Trojans. For in the Iliad, the κλύω theme and the καλέω theme both keep coming up in connection with the Trojan allies. Hektor calls his allies τηλεκλείτοι. at 6.111; at 17.212, the poet has Hektor go into the midst of his **κλειτοὺς** ἐπικούρους. In Chapter 1, I investigated the peculiar fact that only speeches addressed to the Trojan army open with the formula **κέκλυτε**, and that it is for the most part Hektor who addresses the Trojans and the allies this way.[24] The themes also reappear in the names of individual Trojan warriors. Poulydamas' *hetairos* **Kleitos** is killed by Teucer's arrow at 15.445 (he is a son of Panthous, an ally from Lycia - 446); twenty lines earlier, Aias had cast a spear at a cousin of Hektor's (15.422) called **Kalêtor**; and Kalêtor was the son of a man named **Klutios**

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[22]Chantraine (1968) sv κλέος.

[23]See also Edwards 1991 pp. 180 on the legendary character of Troy's wealth before the war; he compares 9.401-403 and Achilles' rhetorical statement at 24.543-546.

[24]Chapter 1 pp.25-26.

(15.419). Hektor periodically *yells out from a distance* to these allies,[25] allies whom he himself has called to Troy from distant places (πολυκλήτοι), and whose own *kleos* travels far and wide (κλειτοὺς, τηλεκλείτοι), telling them to *hear* him : κέκλυτε.

### *Hektor's Calling*

On a basic narrative level, the formula ἐκέκλετο μακρὸν ἀΰσας[26] characterises Hektor as commander.[27] He is rarely to be found going close up to individual warriors and encouraging them personally - as Agamemnon does with his Achaeans in Book 4 - with words of approval or critical rebukes.[28] Instead, he stands apart from them and utters hubristic boasts and wildly confident exhortations which are addressed to the whole mass of his men. The poet repeatedly refers to Hektor as "calling out", "shouting" and "yelling". At 5.591, for example, Hektor leaps forward shouting - κεκλήγων - and the rest of the army follows after him; at 13.755, he sets off shouting - κεκλήγων - through the troops of the Trojans and allies, and these "heard Hektor's voice": Ἕκτορος ἔκλυον αὐδην (13.757). He "yells piercingly" - ὀξέα κεκληγώς (17.88 - compare ὀξὺ βοήσας in the next line); he loudly exhorts the Trojans to scorn Achilles' threats - κέκλεθ' ὁμοκλήσας (20.365); and on another occasion, more playfully, he calls out to encourage his horses: ἐκέκλετο φώνησέν τε (8.184). In other words, Hektor does not trouble himself to delay and speak with individual warriors. He never remains in the rear to round up his men. His action at 12.437-441, like the typical gesture ἐκέκλετο μακρὸν ἀΰσας - is highly characteristic: the first to leap the Achaean wall (πρῶτος ἐσήλατο τεῖχος Ἀχαιῶν - 438), Hektor turns round to call out rousing words to his men *behind* him: ἤϋσεν δὲ διαπρύσιον

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[25]I also commented on this feature in Chapter 1 (p.27).

[26]6.66; 6.110; 8.172; 11.285; 15.346; 15.424; 15.485; 17.183 - all these refer to Hektor. The formula occurs one other time in the Iliad, at 16.268 of Patroklos.

[27]Chapter 1 (p.27).

[28]Chapter 2 (pp.89-90).

Τρώεσσι γεγωνώς· (439). Presumably, this is because he wants the distinction - the ***kleos*** - of being the first to leap the wall.

### *Hektor's Xenoi*

The Trojan army is made up of contingents from distant cities. The strength of the Trojan army, such as it is, is founded on the number of Hektor's *xenoi* - his connections from other city states. Of these he has many, betokened by his address to the μυρία φῦλα of his allies at 18.220, whom he also calls a πληθὺν in the next line. The allies fight for Hektor because of the mutual obligation of *xenia.*[29] Compare Pandaros' statement at 5.211: that he came to Troy φέρων **χάριν** Ἕκτορι δίῳ. Hektor repays the allies for their service by giving away Troy's κειμήλια καλά. In other words, relations between Hektor and his allies reproduce the aristocratic model of *kleos* and *charis* which Pindar elaborates in his epinician odes. The fundamental relationship which binds the commanders of the Trojan army is that which typically occurs between wealthy ξείνοι, guest friends who visit one another in the various cities where they are powerful - the kind of relationship praise poetry celebrates. It is a relationship which connects aristocrats from far-flung places. This sociological model is central to the poet's representation of the Trojans. The frequent references to Trojan gold, the beautifully-wrought chariots and other *agalmata* of the Trojans, are a noticeable feature of the poem.

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[29] In other words, the relationship of *xenia* the Trojans try to replicate with the Achaeans is the same kind of relationship they have with one another.

### *The Rebukes of Individual Allies*

But in Book 17, Hektor ungraciously disenchants the poetic myth of reciprocal χάρις. Troy's reserves of gold and bronze, says Hektor, have been eaten away (17.225-226: τὰ φρονέων δώροισι κατατρύχω καὶ ἐδωδῇ / λαοὺς, ὑμέτερον δὲ ἑκάστου θυμὸν ἀέξω).[30] Hektor implies that he expends too much wealth draining away the city's *richesse* and resources, in the form of χάρις for the allies. The disenchantment occurs on both sides. Glaukos, in a speech in which he rebukes Hektor for neglecting the allies,[31] complains: "There is no χάρις". (17.147-148: οὐκ ἄρα τις χάρις ἦεν / μάρνασθαι δηΐοισιν ἐπ' ἀνδράσι νωλεμὲς αἰεί ).[32] In the same speech, he accuses Hektor of dishonouring Sarpedon, a ξεῖνον καὶ ἑταῖρον (17.150). The Trojans and their allies are connected by a relationship of ξεινία which malfunctions.[33] On the occasions when Trojans *do* blame one another, they refer to the break-down of a relationship of *charis* - which implies mutual praise.

Similarly, Hektor's protest that he did not summon the allies because he really needed them is both ungracious and unconvincing. As Sarpedon brutally reminds him, Hektor used to boast that he could defend the city alone, with just the Trojans and his nearest relatives: "You claimed before that you could save the city alone, without populace or allies"; - φῇς που ἄτερ λαῶν πόλιν ἐξέμεν ἠδ' ἐπικούρων / οἷος (5.473). Glaukos challenges Hektor: "Try and fight with just your Trojans when the Lycians go home and leave you". Sarpedon stresses Hektor's reliance upon the allies. He reproaches Hektor: "We are the ones who are left to fight, your allies": ἡμεῖς δὲ μαχόμεσθ' οἵ περ τ'ἐπίκουροι ἔνειμεν (5.477).

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[30]Hektor's other reference to the expense of war is at 18.290-291: νῦν δὲ δὴ ἐξαπόλωλε δόμων κειμήλια καλά,/πολλὰ δὲ δὴ Φρυγίην καὶ Μηονίην ἐρατεινὴν / κτήματα περνάμεν ἵκει, ἐπεὶ μέγας ὠδύσατο Ζεύς .

[31]For a discussion of this speech, see Moulton (1981).

[32]Amongst the Achaeans, only Achilles uses the same lines to describe the affiliation of Agamemnon's troops in terms of reciprocal *charis* : (9.316-317). I understand this as one of the ways in which Achilles expresses his alienation from the rest of the Achaeans. See Chapter 4 (pp.154-159).

[33]Fenik (1968) p.109 in a discussion of the typical scenes in which Hektor/Aeneas are rebuked by the Lycian allies or Apollo, raises the possibility of an older poetic tradition in which the theme of quarrelling between the Trojans and the allies was prominent.

### *The Praise of the Allies en masse*

Although individual allies do criticise Hektor in this way, the allies *en masse* give him the praise he craves - a fact which ultimately leads to disastrous consequences. Hektor's shouting to warriors on the field is echoed in the "unearthly din" - ἠχῇ θεσπεσίῃ - with which the Trojans and their allies respond to his speeches and his leadership.[34] The clamour - κλάγγη - of the Trojans betrays the noisy confusion which arises from their mixed provenance.[35] But the mythic *kosmos* constructed by the poet is a complex representational system. On one narrative level, Hektor is just a poor leader. But in the fictive world of the poem, the reciprocal yelling between Hektor and his allies is an icon of the sociological structure of their relationship: one of ξεινία between distant cities,[36] which rests upon the report (*kleos* ) of either side.[37]

Whereas Poulydamas and Helenus "stand close beside" Hektor to give him advice and *tentative* criticism,[38] the *poluklêtoi* allies loudly praise Hektor from a distance. On several occasions, Hektor makes a speech and the Trojans respond with an "unearthly din" - ἠχῇ θεσπεσίῃ - (12.252; 13.834; 15. 355).[39] The formula ἠχῇ θεσπεσίῃ also describes the

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[34]8.159, 12.252, 13.834, 15.355 and 15.590 of the Trojans and Hektor; also 16.769 in a simile which compares both sides to the winds making the trees in a forest crash together and 23. 213 of the North and South Winds, summoned by Iris on behalf of Achilles for Patroklos' pyre.

[35]Chapter 1 (p.21).

[36]Gauthier (1973) pp. 1-21 argues that in the archaic period, the term ξένος refers above all to someone *outside* the community. Schied-Tissinier (1990) p.10 points out the juxtaposition at Works and Days 225: ξείνοισι καὶ ἐνδήμοισι demonstrates (p.15) that the ξείνος can equally well be designated by either of the synonyms ἀλλοδαπός and τηλεδαπός. Herman (1987) shows that there is no *ambiguity* between *xenos* as "guest-friend" and *xenos* as "stranger" since a *xenos* must always have a group identity distinct from that of his partner - whether this means that he belongs to a different city, a different tribe, or a different *ethnos* (pp. 10-13).

[37]In the *ethos* of Homeric poetry distance and *kleos* go hand in hand; when he invokes the Muse at 2.285-286, the poet tells the Muse "You were present and *saw* these things; but we can only *hear* the *kleos* ". For discussion of this passage, see Nagy (1979) pp.16; 95; 271.

[38] I discuss these εἶπε παραστάς speeches in Chapter 1 (pp.13-14).

[39]Sappho's use (Frag.44.27) could suggest that it typically characterises the jubilant and celebratory noise which occurs at a festival - such as the wedding of Hektor and Andromache. It could also be that Sappho uses the phrase here because her subject is a *Trojan* wedding.

cries of Hektor and the Trojans as they shoot arrows at Antilochus when he kills Melanippus and tries to strip him of his armour (15.590); the same line is used at 8.159 when Hektor and his Trojans shoot arrows at Diomedes and Nestor.[40] When the Trojans are amassed round Hektor noisily shouting, their behaviour tends to be described in terms which in Greek poetry traditionally describe celebrations: situations in which praise poetry, not blame, is appropriate.

The Trojans twice erupt into noisy and ecstatic praise in response to a speech Hektor makes in front of them: Ὣς Ἕκτωρ ἀγόρευ' ἐπὶ δὲ Τρῶες **κελάδησαν**. The verb κελαδέω has the καλέω root. Pindar uses the word when he talks of singing loudly to celebrate a victor: Ἀναξιφόρμιγγες ὕμνοι, / τίνα θεόν, τίν' ἥρωα, τίνα δ' ἄνδρα **κελαδήσομεν;** (Olympian 2.1-2).[41] He uses the term in association with the idea of χάρις at Pythian 9.89, talking of the καθαρὸν φέγγος (90) of the **Χαρίτων κελαδεννᾶν** - asking the *Charites* not to let their pure voice desert him, so that he can sing a song of praise.

Certainly, the Achaeans on various occasions approve or praise each others' words and decisions. But their praise never has the noisy, festive connotations of κελάδησαν.[42] There are other ways of signifying praise. The verb ἐπαινέω is used in accounts of both Greek and Trojan assemblies to describe the audience's favourable response to a speech containing a proposal or decision. The Achaeans approve Diomedes' counsel at 9.710: Ὣς ἔφατ' οἱ δ'ἄρα πάντες **ἐπήνησαν** βασιλῆες / μῦθον ἀγάσσαμενοι Διομήδεος ἱπποδάμοιο, and they praise Nestor in the same way at 7.344.

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[40]Other occurrences of ἠχῇ θεσπεσίῃ are at 16. 769 (*both* sides join in conflict and an unearthly din arises like the cracking and breaking of branches in a forest when the East and South winds are locked in conflict); and at 23. 213 (Achilles has asked for the North Wind and the Ζέφυρον **κελαδεινὸν** so that Patroklos' pyre can be burnt; Iris goes to the palace of the West Wind to summon them and they leave ἠχῇ θεσπεσίῃ, driving the clouds before them in tumult.

[41]Compare also Olympian 1.9; Olympian 6. 88 and Pythian 2.63.

[42]The form κελάδησαν is used only once to describe Achaean behaviour (23.869), in a situation where vociferous praise is obviously called for: a victory in Patroklos' funeral games clearly demands applause. The Trojan uses are at 8.542 and at 8.310.

While the verb κελαδέω stresses the actual noise an expression of praise makes, the verb ἐπήνησαν performs the lesser task of signifying the act of approval itself. κελαδέω is the "marked" term; ἐπαινέω the "unmarked". In Pindar's Odes, both ἐπαινέω and κελαδέω can be used to describe the poet's activity of praising the victor.[43] But the uses of κελαδέω (and the related substantives ) are to be distinguished on the grounds that in these cases, there is always a reference to poetry, song, the Graces, Muses or music in the immediate context.[44] ἐπαινέω can also have a more specialised usage, in reference to proposals made in a civic contex. For example, at Olympian 13.2 the *oikos* of Xenophon of Corinth is praised (ἐπαινέων, line 2) because *Eunomia, Dikâ* and *Eirêne* reside there. At Pythian 4.168, Jason's decision to sail in quest of the golden fleece is agreed upon and approved (σύνθεσιν ταύταν ἐπαινήσαντες οἱ μὲν κρίθεν ). At Pythian 10. 69, the host is to be praised (ἐπαινήσομεν ) on the grounds of his νόος ὀρθος (68). And at Nemean 11.17, Hagesilaus, though mortal, should be praised (αἰνεῖσθαι χρεών ) "in the talk of good citizens": λόγοις δ' ἀστων ἀγαθοῖσί.[45]

Praise in the right place is correct; social organisation depends on the proper and proportionate distribution of praise and blame.[46] But the Trojans dispense praise misguidedly, to the wrong people. The poet takes a critical perspective on the Trojans' praise of Hektor in Book 18. He calls them νήπιοι because "they praised Hektor, though his counsel was bad" - Ἕκτορι μὲν γὰρ ἐπήνησαν κακὰ μητιόωντι - and ignored

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[43]ἐπαινέω is thus used at Pythian 2.17; 5.107; 10.69; Nemean 5.19.

[44]In addition to Olympian 2.2, which I have already cited, see: Olympian 1.8; 6.87; 10.79; 11.14; Pythian 1.58; 2.15; 3.112; 9.89; 11.10; Nemean 3.66; 4.16; 9.54; Isthmian 5.42; 8.62. There some other uses of κελαδέω and related forms in the Epinicia which lack an explicit reference to music. These are: Pythian 3.60, where the notion of sound itself, as opposed to a specifically musical/poetic sound, seems to be paramount - the reference is to the voice of the Pythia; Isthmian 1.54, when the poet urges his audience to celebrate Poseidon, god of race-horses; and Nemean 4.26; here again, the idea of sound is prevalent: the poet is referring to "noisy *hubris* " - κελαδεννᾶς...../ὕβριος (26-27). I think these three examples can all be grouped together since the conceptual association between Poseidon, racing (pounding) horses and noise or sound is easily made.

[45]See also: Pythian 2.67; Pythian 5.107; Nemean 5.19.

[46]See Nagy (1979) p.222 on Dumézil (1943) and (1969): the counterbalancing of praise and blame through poetry was an operatonal principle of Indo-European society.

Poulydamas' wise advice (18.310-312). This is on one of the occasions upon which the Trojans' approval of Hektor's speech is represented as noisy clamorous enthusiasm: κελάδησαν. Trojan praise is erroneous; it arises out of enthusiastic excitement, or mass-hysteria.

***The Scarcity of Blame at Troy***

Hektor's observation that by paying honour to his allies, he is wearing down the city's resources, letting his own people waste away (δώροισι κατατρύχω καὶ ἐδωδῇ - 17.225-226) tells us something else about the dynamics of praise at blame at Troy. It is an indication that the Trojans are missing a much-needed figure - the blame poet. Hektor's observation that his people are being starved by his expenditure invites blame poetry's favourite criticism of the "gift-devouring kings" who eat away their subjects' substance. A king who gives enviable gifts will receive them from others too, creating a circle of mutual flattery among the few which starves the *demos*. Hektor's situation suggests that the king's aristocratic connections are not good for the city as a whole. They do not work for good social organisation within the community. In contexts other than the Iliad's representaton of the Trojans, disorder of this kind - the fleecing of the *dêmos* by the king - results in blame and criticism. In the Iliad, on the Achaean side, Achilles attacks Agamemnon publicly and humiliates him by accusing him of being a "devourer of the *demos*" - δημοβόρος[47] - and taking more goods than his due. In Hesiod's Works and Days,[48] Hesiod and Perses are quarrelling over an allegedly unfair distribution of inherited goods, and the poetry incorporates warnings both to the kings not to be "gift-devouring" - δωροφάγοι (221)- and to potential toadies not to curry favour with the kings by running to them with gifts (37-39).

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[47]1.23.

[48]The Works and Days is not, strictly speaking, blame poetry. But it is non-aristocratic poetry, and it does contain salient pieces of social criticism. For discussion of the relationship between the two traditions, see Puelma (1972).

Hektor 's position is anomalous in that he does not have any such critics within the Trojan community. In fact the Trojans have no resident blame poet, no Thersites. Paris corresponds to Thersites in some ways. He is the one who gets the brunt of Hektor's blame, and is the resident scapegoat - the one whom all the Trojans love to hate.[49] But he is not a shrill and ugly critic like Thersites. Quite the contrary, he is ingratiating, always flattering people, even more so when they attack and blame him. For example, when Helen scolds Paris and calls him a coward in comparison with her former husband Menelaus, Paris tries to flatter her with talk of her beauty (3.441-446). At the end of 6, when Paris decides to leave the company of the Trojan women and go back and fight (6.518-519), he apologises to Hektor for "delaying" - δηθύνων.[50] This is an insidious attack, but subtly expressed in a very deferential tone; - Paris has overtaken Hektor, the latter being about to turn back from the place where he had "dallied" with his wife. Once, Paris expresses resentment at a verbal attack Hektor makes on him. But he does so in mild tones, pointing out: "my mother did not bear me wholly ἀνάλκιδα".

Often, Hektor's displays a predilection for being flattered, to which Paris panders when he talks to his brother. When others stand by Hektor and cautiously advise him, Hektor will flare up or be content, depending on whether the advice given "pleases" him or not. Compare the two alternative reactions on Hektor's part to Poulydamas' speeches: ὡς φάτο Πουλυδάμας, **ἄδε** δ'Ἕκτορι μῦθος ἀπήμων (12.80; 13.748), as opposed to: Πουλυδάμα, σὺ μεν οὐκέτ' ἐμοί **φίλα** ταῦτ' / ἀγορεύεις (12.231; 18.285).[51] In other words, Poulydamas does try to correct Hektor, but his reward is to be threatened with death. Others who speak to Hektor are less daring, adopting wheedling tones. Helenus approaches Hektor and asks: "Won't you listen to me ? - I am your brother" (7.48).[52] Wheedling tones, like the

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[49]Cf. 3.50; 56-7, and Thalmann (1988) for an account of Thersites as scapegoat on the Achaean side.

[50]For the irony of this apology, cf. 6.503: Οὐδὲ Πάρις δήθυνεν ἐν ὑψηλαῖσι δόμοισιν.

[51] Paris reacts this way to Antenor's speech in Book 7 (7.360).

[52] The phrase he uses - ἦ ῥα νύ μοί τι πίθοιο; - is exactly that employed by Athena when she coaxes Pandaros to shoot at Menelaus, promising him *splendid gifts* if he will do so. The way she talks to Diomedes a little later is rather rather more brisk: θαρσῶν νῦν.....ἐπὶ Τρώεσσι μάχεσθαι (5.124-132).

μειλιχίοισ' ἐπέεσσιν of the Trojan suppliants who offer *apereisi' apoina*, are the persuasive mode preferred by the Trojans.

### *Wine and Women*

The Trojans are more apt to use, and more susceptible to, wheedling tones than to blame and criticism. Disorderly, clamorous, excitable and undisciplined, the Trojans lack an *ethos* of male rivalry like the one that holds together the Achaean forces. Instead of provoking and encouraging one another with insulting and challenging talk, Trojan men are prone to the persuasion of domineering women, who enervate them and delay and distract them from fighting. At 6.238-240 Hektor is delayed by a bevy of Trojan wives and daughters, all questioning him and wanting to find out about their male relatives. This is followed up by attempts by Helen, Andromache and Hekabe to prevail on him to stay out of the fighting, at least for a short while. Helen, at 6.354, encourages Hektor to sit down on a chair in the bedroom - the θάλαμος, but he refuses with the words: οὐδέ με πείσεις. Priam uses this same phrase when speaking to Hekabe in 24, resisting her discouraging response to his plan to ransom Hektor's body from Achilles.[53]

When Hekabe tries to keep Hektor from fighting, she offers him wine, and he refuses it, saying that it will make him forget his vigour : ἀλκῆς τε λάθωμαι (265). In 22, her attempt to persuade him is more urgent, and, begging him to respect the fact that she fed him as an infant, she shows him her breast, describing it as λαθικηδέα[54] - something which soothes by creating a sensuous distraction from, or forgetfulness of, pain. Similarly, when he resist the wine, he calls it οἶνον.....μελίφρονα (264). The more common epithet for wine, both in the Iliad and in the Odyssey, is αἴθοπα.[55] But μελίφρονα

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[53]Achilles says the same to Thetis (18.126), like Hektor, in a assertion that she will not dissuade him from fighting.

[54]22.83

[55]μελίφρονα used as an epithet for wine occurs four times in the Iliad (4.264; 8.506; 8.546; 24.284) and four times in the Odyssey (7.182; 10.356; 13.53; 15.148); αἴθοπα οἶνον occurs nine times in the Iliad

and the very similar μελιηδέα[56] enjoy a more specialised usage, to convey wine's sensual properties. μελίφρονα means, literally, "sweet to the mind". Bacchylides (frag. 3.10) and Iliad 2.34 have the adjective as an epithet of sleep (μελίφρονος ὕπνου ; μελίφρων ὕπνος ἄνῆκε ). The verb in the Iliadic passage (ἀνῆκε - release) brings out one of the essential qualities of sleep which is connected with its being μελίφρων - the fact that it overpowers the mind and makes it forget whatever cares immediately surround it. Pindar calls song μελίφρων in Nemean 7 (lines 11-12: "if someone has good fortune, he provides the Muses with a sweet excuse for song" - μελίφρον αἰτίαν / ῥοαῖσι Μοισᾶν ἐνέβαλε). Song is a recompense for toil here (cf.16: ἄποινα μόχθων).

In the Iliad, μελιηδέα and μελίφρονα are used in passages where the principal idea is that of pleasure and relaxation from toil.[57] (In 10, Diomedes' horses, resting after the exploits of Odysseus and Diomedes, eat "honey-sweet corn" (μελιηδέα πυρὸν) - 10.569; in the same passage, Odysseus and Diomedes, having bathed and anointed themselves (10.572-576), sit down to eat and draw off μελιηδέα οἶνον for a libation to Athena). When she brings the wine to Hektor, Hekabe says: "I am bringing you μελιηδέα οἶνον , so that you can pour a libation, and yourself enjoy it (καὐτὸς ὀνήσεαι); it will increase your strength, now when you are tired (paraphrase of 6.261-262). Similarly, at 4.346, Agamemnon reproaches Mnestheus and Odysseus: "Why are you reluctant to fight now, when at the feast, you gladly drink μελιηδέα οἶνον "? And at 8.188, Hektor reproaches his horses in the same way: they *should* be willing to fight now because Andromache gives them μελίφρονα πυρὸν. At 12.320 Sarpedon talks of what the other Lycians will say of him and Glaukos: "Our kings are not ἀκλεέες (318); they eat fat sheep, and draw off honey-sweet wine (319-320: ἔδουσι τε πίονα μῆλα / οἶνον τ ἔξαιτον μελιηδέα ). The kings'

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(1.462; 4.259 5.341; 6.266; 11.775; 14.5; 16.226; 16.230; 24.641) and nine times in the Odyssey (2.57; 3.459; 7.295; 9.360; 12.19; 13.8; 14.447; 15.500; 16.14; 17.536; 19.197; 24.364).

[56]Five times in the Odyssey and eight times in the Iliad

[57]In the Iliad, αἴθοπα οἶνον is used in many of the same kinds of context as is μελίφρονα οἶνον.

enjoyment of meat and wine is deserved because of their admirable strength (ἀλλ ἄρα καὶ ἵς / ἐσθλή 320-321)- they fight in the forefront of the Lycians.

Another aspect of Sarpedon's use of the epithet is the creation of an aura of luxury. This is also true of the two places where the epithet occurs in the account of Achilles' Shield. At 18.541-547, one of the peaceful scenes of abundance and plenty is described. Ploughers are ploughing a rich, wide, fertile field (πίειραν ἄρουραν / εὐρειαν τρίπολον· 541-542). So fortunate is their situation that each time they turn and reach the headland of the field, a man comes forward and puts a cup of honey-sweet wine (μελιηδέος οἴνου) into their hands (545-546). Bounty and sensual pleasure are also the order of the day in the Shield's vineyard scene (561-572). Again, the surrounding scene is one of pleasure and plenty: the vineyard is laden with clustered grapes (σταφυλῇσι μέγα βρίθουσαν ἀλωὴν 561). Young girls and boys are gleefully carrying off honey-sweet fruit (μελιηδέα καρπόν) in wicker baskets (568). [58] In the middle of all the activity, a boy is playing a lyre and singing the Linos-song while others dance and shout around him.

It is significant that while Agamemnon on one occasion calls wine μελιηδέα (4.346), Hektor is the only speaker who uses the epithet μελίφρονα, and he does so several times (6.264; 8.188; 8.504). When he uses it of the wine, he does so because he is afraid that μελίφρονα οἶνον will *distract* him from toil and make him *forget* how to struggle and endure (265). By talking about the wine this way, Hektor draws attention to the relaxing and lightening effect wine has on the mind; most speakers, who simply call wine αἴθοπα, do not. Hektor's speech thus betrays his awareness of the potential sensual pleasures have to distract.[59] In this respect, the end of Hektor's speech picks up the beginning. ἀλκῆς τε

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[58]Odysseus calls the wine he gives the Cyclops μελιηδέα οἶνον in a passage in which he discusses the wine's sweetness and fragrance (cf. line 205: ἡδὺν ἀκηράσιον θεῖον ποτόν· ). When the wine is added to water, the fragrance arises: ὀδμὴ δ ἡδεῖα ἀπὸ κρητῆρος ὀδώδει / θεσπεσίη. Otherwise in the Odyssey, there does not seem to be a clear distinction between contexts which use μελίφρονα or μελιηδέα and contexts which use αἴθοπα of wine.

[59]Similarly, a Trojan soldier, Euphorbus, (but never an Achaean) will refer to life as μελιηδέα: ἀπὸ δὲ μελιηδέα θυμὸν ἔλωμαι (17.17). The poet uses the expression at 10.495. The only other speaker in the Homeric corpus who uses it is Anticleia when she speaks to Odysseus in the underworld (Odyssey 11. 203).

λάθωμαι is echoed in φρέν ἀτέρπου ὀϊζύος ἐκλελαθέσθαι. ἀτερπου contains an echo of the meaning of μελίφρονα. Words with the τερπ- root are predominantly connected with song in this poem (cf. Apollo enjoying the Achaeans' singing of the paean in 1:τέρπετ ἀκούων - 473; Achilles with his lyre in 9: τῇ ὅ γε θυμὸν ἔτερπεν, ἄειδε δ ἄρα κλέα ἀνδρῶν - 189). They are also connected with food, sleep and sexual pleasure in the Iliad and elsewhere. Forgetfulness here means the kind of distraction which pleasures of these kinds induce (cf. Theogony 102=1-3: αἶψ' ὅ γε δυσφρονέων ἐπιλήθεται οὐδέ τι κηδέων / μέμνηται). To sum up, when Hektor talks of the importance of *remembering* one's *alke* , it is because he is constantly thinking of the other dangerous distractions life presents.

But though he resists his mother and her offer of wine, Hektor *does* fall a victim to Helen's seductiveness. Helen intervenes in the contentious talk between Hektor and Paris in Book 6. The tense and quarrelsome atmosphere of the scene changes when Helen enters the conversation between the brothers; Helen speaks to Hektor in honeyed tones: μύθοισι.....μειλιχίοισι (6.343). She enters the conversation at an especially tense moment. Hektor is infuriated by Paris' speech about "indulging his grief" and "thinking that perhaps he should return to the fighting. He makes no reply: Ὣς φάτο, **τὸν δ' οὔ τι προσέφη** κορυθαίολος Ἕκτωρ (6.342). But after Helen's intervention, Hektor does not bother with Paris any further and addresses himself to her instead, saying: "I leave it to you; you get this man to hurry back to the fighting, while I go to my house to see my wife and child" (363-366). Hektor leaves; Helen's soothing words have diffused the contention between the brothers. In this scene, Hektor seems to confide in Helen: "I do not know whether I will return home to them [his wife and child] again, or whether now the gods will finish me at the hands of the Achaeans" (οὐ γὰρ οἶδ' εὐ ἔτι σφιν ὑπότροπος ἵξομαι αὖτις,/ ἦ ἤδη μ' ὑπὸ χερσὶ θεοὶ δαμόωσιν Ἀχαιῶν - 6.367-368). With his own wife, Andromache, he is much more guarded and cagey: "....*one* day, Troy and Priam and his people will be destroyed.": εὖ

γὰρ ἐγὼ τόδε οἶδα κατὰ φρένα καὶ κατὰ θυμόν· ἔσσεται ἦμαρ ὅτ ἄν ποτ' ὀλώλῃ Ἴλιος ἰρη / καὶ Πρίαμος καὶ λαὸς ἐϋμμελίω Πριάμοιο (6.456-459).[60]

After he has finished talking to Helen in Book 6, Hektor goes next to his house, and from there to the walls of Troy, where the tears of his wife distract him, causing him to delay further his return to the fighting. An examination of formulas clarifies the way Andromache gains power over Hektor through her tears. She stands in front of him: παρίστατο δάκρυ χέουσα.[61] The form παρίστατο ( in this position) tends to be used of someone in a position of dominance; it is used, for example, of Machaon when the Achaean kings cluster round him in 4 (and where he is called ἰσόθεος φώς), and of Antilochus when he scares Aeneas away from the bodies of Gethon and Orsilochus in 5.542. Thetis (δῖα θεάων[62]) comes to the ships and stands (παρίστατο ) in the midst of the lamenting Myrmidons. In one other place in the poem it is conjoined with a formula similar to δάκρυ χέουσα; Patroklos appears at the beginning of 16: παρίστατο ...../ δάκρυα θερμὰ χέων,[63] where his role is similar to Andromache's: his tears will be part of his method of persuading Achilles to let him fight.

Hektor, who scornfully spits out the insulting epithet γυναιμανές - "women-crazy" (3.39)- at his brother Paris, turns out not to be untouched by this weakness himself. By the end of Book 6, Hektor is no longer in a position to criticise Paris. Paris overtakes him at the spot where Hektor had "dallied" with his wife. It is at this point that Hektor ceases to criticise his brother. He says instead: "no-one could fault your calibre; but you are lazy and a reluctant fighter". But, he goes on, "we'll make this all up later" - ταῦτα δ' ὄπιθεν

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[60]In her lament for Hektor, Helen makes the point that only Hektor and his father Priam spoke gently to her and showed her kindness. This is interesting, for a the things which Helen says in Hektor's presence suggest that she carefully chooses her themes with a view to pleasing him. For example, angling for Hektor's approval, she declares that Zeus has brought κακὸν μόρον on all of them, that they may be "a song for men to come": ὡς καὶ ὀπίσσω / ἀνθρώποισι πελώμεθ' **ἀοίδιμοι ἐσσομένοισι** (6.357-358); compare Hektor's wish to die: μέγα ῥεξας τι καὶ **ἐσσομένοισι πυθέσθαι** (22.305).

[61]6.405

[62]4.21

[63]16.2-3

ἀρεσσόμεθ' (6.526) - this is conciliatory; Agamemnon says the same thing to Odysseus when the latter protests his rebuke: τὰ δ' ὄπιθεν ἀρεσσόμεθ' (4.362) - it is as though, after delaying with Andromache, Hektor recognises that he is in no position to comment on Paris' spending time with Helen - especially when Paris has overtaken him.

Hektor's language elsewhere hints at the significant role which women play in his conception of the world. Hektor is unusual in that he *twice* [64] describes negotiations with the enemy in war by means of the analogy of amorous "dalliance" (ὀαριστύς)[65]. The idea that Hektor's choice of image in these two places is significant in his characterisation is confirmed by the poet's use of similar diction at 6.615 to refer to the place where Hektor "had dallied with his wife" : ἐκ χώρης ὅθι ἥ **ὀάριζε** γυναικί. Hektor is also the only character who uses the epithet ἑλκεσιπέπλους when speaking about the Trojan women; - the visual detail betrays the way Hektor's attention lingers on the way women look; [66] Hektor also speaks of his εἰνατέρων ἐϋπέπλων at 6.378. At 5.424, Athena mocks Aphrodite's affection for the Ἀχαιϊάδων ἐϋπέπλων; Zeus immediately defends Aphrodite, making a distinction between πολεμήϊα ἔργα and ἔργα γάμοιο. "The business of marriage" is wholly separate from "The deeds of war"; Aphrodite, a goddess who loves Ἀχαιϊάδων ἐϋπέπλων, is thereby marked as having nothing to do with deeds of war. In other words, women, not war, are the overriding concern of the Trojans, and especially Hektor's.[67]

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[64] 17.228 and 22.127.

[65] Although Idomeneus does also do so at 13.291.

[66] 6.441-442: αἰδέομαι Τρῶας καὶ Τρῳάδας ἑλκεσιπέπλους; = 7.297 and 22.105.

[67] Despite Hektor's words to Andromache at 6.492-493. The rule-proving exception occurs towards the end of the poem (24.239-246). Priam determines to retrieve his son's body. He consults Hekabe about his decision to drive to the Achaean camp and fetch Hektor. But when she tries to stop him, he resists her, telling her not to be a "bird of ill-omen" (ὄρνις.....κακὸς - 219). Then he turns to the Trojans around him and tells them to go and do their mourning at home, rebuking them (ἔπεσσ' αἰσχροῖσιν ἐνίσσων - 238) and calling them λωβητῆρες, ἐλεγχέες (239). Then he turns to his sons, whom he calls κατηφόνες, thieves, cheats and dancers (253) before telling them to prepare a wagon (261-262) so that he can get to the Achaean camp. This practical deployment of blame, unusual amongst the Trojans, is directly linked with a refusal, for once, to listen to the persuasion of women. And it comes at a crucial juncture, precipitating Achilles' return of Hektor's body.

### *Hektor's Kleos*

Hektor eventually tears himself away from the women of Troy and back to the battle because he fears losing the respect of the Trojan women as well as the Trojan men. For Hektor is, as others have noticed, "more preoccupied with the winning of renown [***kleos*** ] than any other warrior".[68] The theme of praise, associated with the Trojans in general, is paramount in the characterisation of Hektor. The themes of καλέω and κλύω continue to be in play. Hektor's yearning for fame balances the more critical attitude of his Achaean counterpart Achilles, who weighs up the merits of *kleos aphthiton* against human life, which cannot be got by raiding or sacking (λεϊστὴ or ἐλετή 9.408), and never returns once it has crossed the barrier of a man's teeth (9.409). Hektor, counseling himself when he realises death is near, resolves not to die "without effort and glory" - ἀσπουδί καὶ **ἀκλειῶς** (22.304-305); at 22.110, imagining what the Trojans will say about him as he debates whether to stay and fight Achilles, or retreat back to the city, he counts perishing **ἐϋκλειῶς** amongst his better options. In Book 17, challenging one of the other Trojans to drag off the body of Patroklos, he promises that the successful warrior's *kleos* will equal his own: ἥμισυ τῷ ἐνάρων ἀποδάσσομαι, ἥμισυ δ' αὐτος / ἔξω ἐγώ· τὸ δὲ οἱ **κλέος** ἔσσεται ὅσσον ἐμοί περ. (17. 231-232). But even when he makes this offer, the positioning of the words retains Hektor's focus on his own glory: **ἔξω ἐγώ**· τὸ δὲ οἱ κλέος ἔσσεται ὅσσον **ἐμοί περ.** Taken in the context of Hektor's obsession with *kleos*, the ἠχῇ θεσπεσίῃ and the jubilant praise - Ὣς Ἕκτωρ ἀγόρευ' ἐπὶ δὲ Τρῶες κελάδησαν - with which the Trojans misguidedly greet Hektor's ill-formed proposals make sense. The Trojans and their allies pander blindly and unrestrainedly to Hektor's wish for praise and recognition.

Along the same lines, Hektor is blinkered by his preoccupation with what people say and think about him.[69] Rather than listen to the criticisms from Poulydamas, Paris, Glaukos and Saperdon, made in the here and now of the present, he speculates all the time

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[68]Martin (1989) p.133.

[69]Cf. Martin 1989 p.133 for Hektor as, not blinkered, but *constrained* by what people think.

about what people will say of him in the future. For example, at 7.300 he pictures someone commenting on the proposed gift-exchange between himself and Aias: "And perhaps someone will say: 'these two fought in strife, but departed in friendship'". He wants to exchange δῶρα.....περικλυτὰ (7.299) - ones that will be worth talking about - with Aias. The formula which Hektor uses here - ὄφρα τις ὧδ' εἴπῃσιν - appears at other places in the text (as καὶ ποτέ τις εἴπῃσιν[70] and μή ποτέ τις εἴπῃσιν[71]). On several occasions it introduces a self-contained vignette, brought in due course to a ring-compositional with the phrase ὥς ποτέ τις ἐρέει[72] - "Just so will someone say".

All but one of these vignettes occur in speeches made by Hektor.[73] The self-contained quality of the vignettes reflects Hektor's narrowed outlook; he insulates himself from the criticism and potential blame surrounding him with visions of his future glory; he tends to drift off into daydreams in which he figures as hero and as the object of illustrious praise. He imagines Andromache's enslavement, and composes some lines which he thinks would fittingly be uttered by a bystander: "Εκτορος ἥδε γυνή ὃς ἀριστεύεσκε μάχεσθαι / Τρώων ἱπποδάμων, ὅτε "Ιλιον ἀμφεμάχοντο - the sight of Andromache, dragged away weeping, will provoke an onlooker to remember Hektor's achievement (6.460-461). In his second speech to Andromache, Hektor visualises the future *kleos* of his son, as yet an infant: καὶ ποτέ τις εἴποι πατρός γ' ὅδε πολλὸν ἀμείνων (6.479); the son will fight amongst the foremost Trojans, ἀρνύμενος πατρὸς τε μέγα κλέος ἠδ' ἐμὸν αὐτοῦ. (6.446).

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[70]6.459; 7.87. Cf. Sarpedon to Glaukos at 12.317: ὄφρα τις ὧδ' εἴπῃ.

[71]23.575; 22.106.

[72]4.182; 6.462; 7.91.

[73]Kirk 1990 p.274 also notes Hektor's predilection for this type of statement. Agamemnon's use of the technique is strikingly pessimistic in comparison with Hektor's: he imagines that someone will criticse him for letting Menelaus die at Troy, far from his homeland. In other words, Agamemnon expects mockery and blame, whereas Hektor is confident of getting praise.

***Kleos and Death***

Hektor's self-involvement in the instances I have been discussing shows that his preoccupation with *kleos* is coextensive with his habit of visualising death. For Hektor is looking beyond occasional praise. He is preoccupied with the "unwithering" *kleos* heroes get after their death. The theme of the *kleos* associated with the relationship between Hektor and his allies forms a nice backdrop to this, but a backdrop which constrasts with the foreground, which is Hektor's desire for *undying* praise after his death. It is a striking fact that in these passages which I have been describing as "vignettes" the focus is always on death. In two out of the four examples, the theme is introduced to fabricate something an anonymous bystander might say upon sighting another's tomb. In Book 4 (176-182), Agamemnon envisages with dread a Trojan arrogantly leaping on his brother's funeral mound and uttering a taunt: "Agamemnon led a fruitless expedition, and left his worthy brother here behind him". In Book 7, Hektor is constructing the kind of speech he thinks would be made by an Achaean soldier when he sights the tomb of Hektor's victim on the shore of the Hellespont; in Book 6, Hektor speculates upon the *kleos* another will accord to him when provoked to remembrance by the sight of Andromache, suffering her husband's absence - χήτεϊ τοιοῦδ' ἀνδρος (6.463). Thoughts of "what someone will say of us in the future"[74] are linked to thoughts of death. The themes of *kleos* and death are inextricable.

Hektor yearns above all for poetry of praise - *kleos* ; *kleos* is what a warrior has after death; Hektor is in love with his own death. Andromache's grief looms large in the scene he constructs in Book 6, in which the hypothetical spectator gives Hektor a short epitaph. On this occasion, he goes on to wish that the earth should be heaped over his dead body before he witness her enslavement (ἀλλά με τεθνηῶτα χυτὴ κατὰ γαῖα καλύπτοι - 6.464). Hektor's fantasy in his second speech to Andromache is about the *kleos* of his

[74]Cf. Sappho frag 147: μνάσεθαι τινά φαιμι καὶ ἔτερον ἀμμέων.

*son* (cf. 6.479: καὶ ποτέ τις εἴποι πατρός γ ὅδε πολλὸν ἀμείνων ) because as he sees it, his own *kleos* will be to be remembered for his family's having lost him; - a curious thing for Hektor to be thinking, because it is the thought with which warriors usually threaten their opponents (cf. Diomedes to Paris 11.394; Dione, speaking of Diomedes, to Aphrodite 5.412-415). Hektor displays a tendency to picture imaginatively the experience of dying; the tendency surfaces in lines like 15.251-252: "I thought that on this day I would reach / see[75] the corpses of the dead and the palace of Hades" (καὶ δὴ ἔγωγ' ἐφάμην νέκυασ' καὶ δῶμ' Ἀΐδαο / ἤματι τῷδ' ἴξεσθαι ἐπεὶ φίλον ἄϊον ἦτορ ) and 6.284: "if only I might see him [Paris] descending down into Hades" (εἰ κεῖνον γε ἴδοιμι κατελθόντ' Ἄιδος εἴσω).

Hektor is also readier than most to inspire his own troops with a lust for death; it is a fine thing to die for one's country:

> ὃς δέ κεν ὑμέων
> βλήμενος ἠὲ τυπεὶς **θάνατον** καὶ πότμον ἐπίσπῃ,
> **τεθνάτω**· οὔ οἱ ἀεικὲς ἀμυνομένῳ περὶ πάτρης
> **τεθνάμεν**·
>
> 15.494-497

Hektor's speech should be compared with the one Aias makes simultaneously to encourage the Achaeans (15.502-513). Aias tells the army: "either death *or* living is better than being for ever locked in conflict" (511-513); he opens his speech with the admonishment that two options remain open: destruction (ἀπολέσθαι ) or deliverance through driving back the Trojans from the ships. The emphasis is strikingly different from Hektor's.

Hektor's speeches also evince an interest in the technical proprieties of death-rites. He is almost the only speaker [76] who uses the formula of 7.79-80 and 22.342-343: ὄφρα πυρός με / Τρῶες καὶ Τρώων ἄλοχοι λελάχωσι θανόντα (compare 15.350: anyone caught "holding aloof from the ships on the other side" won't "get his share of fire when dead" -

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[75] ἴξεσθαι is Aristarchus' emendation; the vulgate has ὄψεσθαι which is I think to be preferred, given the general tendecy I am uncovering in Hektor to speculate about death.

[76] The only other is Patroklos (just once) at 23.76: ἐπήν με πυρός λελάχητε (spoken to Achilles).

πυρὸς λελάχωσι θανόντα). And while the other Trojans supplicate Achaean soldiers out of a misguided conviction that they can thus buy back their lives, Hektor's request is merely for a decent burial, the "proper share of fire" to which the formula refers. At 7.85-86 he describes the tomb the Achaeans will heap up (ὄφρα ἐ ταρχύσωσι κάρη κομόωντες Ἀχαιοί, / σῆμα τε οἱ χεύωσιν ) for his nameless victim, and locates the tomb conspicuously on the shore of the Hellespont - ἐπὶ πλατεῖ Ἑλλησπίοντῳ. The description of the tomb and the impression it will make upon a passing sailor forms a self-contained scene. And the description of the tomb here could be seen as a development of the one-line sketch which he draws up when, talking to Andromache, he is thinking of his own future death: "and let the heaped-up earth cover me" - ἀλλὰ με τεθνηῶτα χυτὴ κατὰ γαῖα καλύπτοι.

Hektor's preoccupation with death is only fitting, in terms of the poetic design of the Iliad, and in relation to the function of the character of Hektor in its design. It is surely significant that the last line of the poem reads: Ὣς οἵ ἀμφίεπον τάφον Ἕκτορος ἱπποδάμοιο - "and so they were busy about the tomb of Hektor the tamer of horses". For while Nagy observes: "The conceit of Homeric poetry is that even a Trojan warrior will fight and die in pursuit of *kleos*..... ",[77] we have to realise that the only *kleos* Hektor *can* achieve in Homeric poetry is as the one distinguished by his death at the hands of his Achaean opponent Achilles. Although Duban is right to comment: "Mais il n'y a pas d'autre exemple où Homère parle d'une mort glorieuse.....quand celle-ci est imminente comme si l'on pouvait participer à la gloire en mourant bien", I think he is on the wrong track when he compares the Odyssey's assertion that *kleos* persists after death.[78] This is irrelevant to the position of the Trojan hero in the Iliad. Hektor's *kleos* , as far as this poem is concerned, is inextricably bound up with the proper and fitting celebration *of* his death. The "beautiful death" which Priam describes at Iliad 22. 71-73 is pertinent because of the imminent death of his son, and Priam's account should be taken together with the fact that

[77]Nagy 1979 pp.16-17.
[78]Odyssey 1.228-241=14.368-371.

Hekabe makes a point of thanking the gods for preserving Hektor's beautiful form even in death.[79] Vernant traces the Athenian concept of a "beautiful death" back from Simonides to the Iliad and Tyrtaeus.[80] In the Iliad Hektor - not Achilles - is singled out as the prime candidate for such a death.

Hektor's frequent thoughts of fate - μοῖρα or αἶσα - belong with his thoughts about death and *kleos*. Both refer to the "portion" of life allotted a person. He tells Andromache: "no-one will send me to Hades *before my time* " - **ὑπερ αἶσαν**. When he sees that Athena has tricked him and that Achilles will kill him, he says:"now my fate is approaching" - νῦν αὖτε με μοῖρα κιχάνει (22.303). On two of the occasions when Hektor verbally attacks Paris, the latter replies pacifically: "You chide me properly - κατ' αἶσαν - and not beyond the right measure - **ὑπερ αἶσαν** (3.59; 6.333).[81] Paris is mocking Hektor's obsession with the proper share, the allotted measure - with μοῖρα and αἶσα. This crops up in another conversation between Hektor and Paris. At the end of 6, Hektor tells Paris, with an air of resignation: no-one who was right-thinking - **ἐναίσιμος** - could disparage your work in battle (6.521-522). The preoccupation also comes out in Hektor's use of phrases containing the word ἦμαρ, apparently to refer to pre-ordained days. Hektor is constantly talking of "a day of recompense", "a day of freedom" , "a day of doom" - ἄξιον **ἦμαρ** (15.719); ἐλεύθερον **ἦμαρ** (6.455; 16.831); **ἦμαρ** ἀναγκαῖον (16.835). This trait is picked up by his spouse Andromache when she predicts their son's **ἦμαρ** δ' ὀρφανικὸν - "day of orphanhood" at 22.490.[82] She too talks of their common μοῖρα - the

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[79]24.757-759.

[80]Vernant 1991 pp.50-74; 84-91.

[81]Apart from these uses by Hektor and Paris, the formula ὑπερ αἶσαν occurs once only, when the poet says at 16.780 that the Achaeans were powerful (φέρτεροι ) beyond their due.

[82]There are twenty-three of these phrases in the Iliad. Eight of them are spoken in the poet's own voice. Only Achilles and Hektor have more than one apiece; Achilles has three and Hektor has five. Hektor's display some unique uses: δούλιον ἦμαρ (6.463); ἄξιον ἦμαρ (15.719) and ἦμαρ ἀναγκαῖον (16.836).

two of them were born to one αἴσῃ (22.477 ); she was reared by an ill-fated father: **δύσμορος αἰνόμορον** (22.481); they have produced their child **δυσάμμοροι** (22.485).[83]

Hektor's part, his μοῖρα, in the Iliad, is death and *kleos*. Knowing this, he wants nothing more than to be the subject of songs and praise; he wants his story to belong to the κλέα ἀνδρῶν. He wants to die μέγα ῥεξας τι καὶ **ἐσσομένοισι πυθέσθαι** (22.305). Hektor's one burning desire is that he himself should die in such a way as to be retained in poetic memory, not forgotten. His speeches are full of the language of remembering and forgetting - themes associated in archaic Greek thought with poetry. His characteristic "flyting" formula exhorts his men to "remember" their *alkê*. The formula ἀνέρες ἔστε, φίλοι, **μνήσασθε** δὲ θούριδος ἀλκῆς.[84] - remember your *alke* - is virtually Hektor's own in the Iliad.[85] Twice Hektor voices a fear of "forgetting" his *alke* and *menos*: once when Hekabe tries to give him wine: μὴ μ ἀπογυιώσῃς **μένεος ἀλκῆς τε λάθωμαι**[86] and once when he accuses Achilles of trying to undo him with deft and deceitful words: ὄφρα σ ὑποδείσας **μένεος ἀλκῆς τε λάθωμαι.**[87] Hektor is also furious when Glaukos tries (as Hektor claims) to make him *forget* the counsels of Zeus[88] and implicitly resists Hekabe's indirect suggestion in Book 22 that he forget grief and pain.[89]

As Duban notes, Hektor also talks a a lot about "knowing" how to fight. This is actually just one aspect of a general trend in Hektor's speech: that of using the language of memory and forgetting to talk about his and others' ability or inability to fight - an intellectualisation of warfare. He assures his wife: **μάθον** ἔμμεναι ἐσθλος - "I have *learnt* to be a good fighter". Hektor's repeated insistence about what he "knows" ultimately fails

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[83]There is a parallel for this at 22.428, where Priam describes Hekabe as having borne Hektor δυσάμμορος. Such phrases are typical of lament - see Alexiou (1974) pp.110-118 on the association between *moîra* and death.

[84]6.112; 8.174; 11.287; 17.185.

[85]Hektor: 6.112; 8.174; 11.287; 15.487; 17.185. Aias: 15.734. Patroklos: 16.270.

[86]6.265

[87]22.282

[88]17.180: λαθέσθαι

[89]22.82-83: τάδε τ αἰδεο καὶ μ ἐλέησον / αὐτην εἴ ποτέ τοι **λαθικηδέα** μαζὸν ἐπέσχον.

to have a genuine ring. One of Poulydamas' complaints in a speech he addressed to Hektor in Book 12 is that he thinks he surpasses everyone else in knowledge about everything: he always wants to περιίδμεναι ἄλλων (13.728). Hektor specialises in an abstraction and refinement of what warfare requires, akin to his distillation of the warrior's function to remembrance and a κάλος θάνατος. His preoccupation and his resistance to the criticism which would displease him, mean that he abstracts himself from what his allies say. There is an analogue for this in his detached and abstract conception of what is required of a warrior.

Duban notes that Hektor's repeated and insistent claims that he "knows" *polemeia erga* do not convince.[90] Duban discusses especially Hektor's speech to Aias at 7.234-243. The other claims which Hektor makes under duress - whether the duress be due to the criticism of his friends or to the threats of his enemies - could also only serve to undermine an audience's confidence in their author. At 17.175 he says to Glaukos, in response to the latters scolding for cowardice: "I do not shudder at battle or the pounding of horses", and at 20.431-433, preparing to meet Achilles: "I too know how to utter deadly insults". Other warriors (especially not Achaean warriors) are not in the habit of making such claims and protests, and consequently Hektor's speeches in these cases have effects which are the reverse of that he intended. The fact that his confidence was falsely advertised is confirmed by his behaviour too: he is the one to break off and postpone the fighting in the duel with Aias, and who later has to talk himself out of approaching Achilles "*gumnos*, like a woman" (22.124-125) and plead with him in attempt to avoid fighting. There some distance between Hektor's talk and his action. In several instances repetitions of phrase and rhythm seem to betray a hesitation in Hektor's manner, even as he is resolving to meet his enemy and fight: 20.371-372: τοῦ δ' ἐγὼ ἀντίος εἶμι, καὶ εἰ πυρὶ χεῖρασ' ἔοικεν, / εἰ πυρὶ χεῖρασ' ἔοικε ; 22.127-128: τῷ ὀαριζέμεναι, ἅ τε παρθένος ἠΐθεος τε, παρθένος

90 "on sent qu'il en dit trop.....Ces accents rhétoriques et stylistiques constituent un système de défense.....". Duban (1981) pp.106-107.

ἠΐθεος τ' ὀαρίζετον ἀλλήλοιν. Hektor's speeches are his acts, rather than things that complement his actions.

In their self-containedness, Hektor's speeches resembles the death he envisages for himself. A beautiful death has a static quality; "At death, when the body is deserted by these [competing impulses], it acquires its formal unity".[91] This paralysis is Hektor's final goal. Hektor's poetic status and function in the poem is that of a warrior who will be remembered for his beautiful form in death, and for the formalities of his funeral, rather than for combative action.

### *Hektor's Perfection*

Thersites is a character whose hideous appearance is matched by the ugliness of his speech.[92] Hektor's beautiful form in death is matched by his speeches, which are beautifully formed, but as ineffective as his actions.[93] His speeches are too perfect. They are not communicative; they are not effective utterances. They have the same static nature as his beautiful death.

If poetry consists in mere originality, Hektor is certainly a poet. Hektor's talent as a speaker seems at times to reside in a deviant uniqueness. Many warriors talk of αἰπὺς ὄλέθρος - "sheer destruction"; but only Hektor sarcastically applies the adjective σῶς, meaning "safe", to the phrase and makes an oxymoron of it; - he is advising Paris that because of his slack attitude, sheer destruction is ensured (13.773). ταλαύρινον is an epithet of Ares; only Hektor uses it to talk about his own shield (7.239).[94] And only

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[91]Vernant (1991) p.62.

[92]Martin (1989) pp.109-113.

[93]Bassett has written that Hektor "uses language more picturesquely than any other of Homer's characters except perhaps Achilles. Bassett (1938) pp.78-79.

[94]But Kirk 1990 pp.267-268 cites other usages to suggest that this phrase is not as untypical as it might at first sight seem.

Hektor uses the curious phrase δαίμονα δώσω[95] (8.166). As Leaf concludes, Hektor must mean "I will give you your death"; but the means of expression is undeniably strange.[96]

Innovation can be striking, but it isn't clear that Hektor's deviations from traditional language are rhetorically effective. It is, for example, regular usage to end a line with a form of the verb πέσσειν. The literal meaning of the verb is "to digest"; it also comes to have the metaphorical meaning "to brood over". It is regularly used in the poem to describe the activity of characters who are nursing the emotions of anger or grief; see, for instance 4.513: χόλον θυμαλγέα πέσσει; 9.565: χόλον θυμαλγέα πέσσων; 24.617: κήδεα πέσσει. Ancient theories of the emotions make talk about "digesting anger/grief" come close to the literal meaning of *pessein* . The use of the verb at a line-end is evidently formulaic.[97] But only Hektor uses the formula to talk about someone "nursing an arrow" - βέλος καὶ οἴκοθι πέσσῃ - 8.513. Hektor is using the noun *belos* as a metonymn for the wound the arrow will inflict. Hektor's use of the metonym has a distancing effect. It takes the grit out of the metaphor of "digestion".[98] Similarly in Book 18, Hektor uses this type of metaphor for a second time. At 18.287 Hektor asks Polydamas: "are you not *sated* with being within the walls ?" (ἦ οὔ πω κεκόρησθε ἐελμένοι ἔνδοθι πύργων; ). Here again, Hektor re-uses a traditional "digestive" metaphor: to speak about being glutted with war is traditional (Menelaus does so at 13.639 (speaking of the Trojans: Τρῶες δὲ μάχης ἀκόρητοι ἔασιν ). Hektor's version, which uses the idea of κόρος for *staying out of* the fighting, is innovative. Finally, in a speech in Book 8 (161-166), Hektor taunts Diomedes in an

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[95]As Walter Leaf remarks (Leaf 1971 p.343): "a strange expression, not elsewhere found". Zenodotus read πότμον ἐφήσω; we have no reason to think this other than pure conjecture. Other uses of δαίμονα are at 1.222; 2.581; 17.98; 17.104. Kirk (1990 ad. loc.) notes that δαίμων meaning "destiny" is post-Homeric.

[96]Other uses of δαίμων refer to the will of heaven; Walter Leaf compares the phrases δόμεν θάνατον (1.571) and δαίμονος αἶσα.

[97]Cf. Hainsworth 1968 p.60.

[98] It is true Thersites also uses the formula in a relatively abstract way when he talks in Book 2 of Agamemnon "digesting his prizes" (γέρα πεσσέμεν - 237). But the relevance of the traditional metaphor of the "*demos*-devouring king" - δημοβόρος (cf. 1.23) - means that *pessein* retains its effectiveness when Thersites uses it.

unusual way, calling him a κακὴ γλήνη - a "doll", or "puppet".[99] This is not familiar language of blame, in which the taunter often calls his opponent a "dog" - κύον - or compares him to some other kind of animal. The Trojans never call their enemies dogs. The language of blame poetry often includes images of dogs tearing and devouring meat - another "digestive" theme. Perhaps these three deviations on Hektor's part indicate either that (as I suggested before) the Trojans have no language of blame; or alternatively, that if there is a Trojan tradition of blame, it is different in its style and themes from that of the Achaeans - far less visceral.

In general, Hektor's deviant or unique uses display an engagement with verbal artistry *per se*. His prior aim is not necessarily the social end of terrifying an enemy or bringing a friend up to the mark. Hektor is akin to his kin; the Trojan elders of the *teikhoskopia*, whom I discussed in Chapter 1. He is a highly skilled linguistic technician. Hektor's highly crafted speeches are constructed on a framework of rhetorical figures which give them an air of balance and symmetry, and make the listener hyper-aware of the care with which they have been wrought. At 22.253, declaring his resolve to confront Achilles, he concludes with the thought: ἕλοιμι κεν, ἤ κεν ἁλοίην - "whether I take or be taken". This kind of disjunction is common enough, particularly associated with this theme; Sokos tells Odysseus at 11.431-433: "either will you today boast, having killed and stripped two sons of Hippasus; or you will forfeit your life, hit by my spear: ἤ κεν ἐμῳ ὑπὸ δουρὶ τυπεὶς ἀπὸ θυμὸν ὀλέσσῃς (11.433).[100] But the antithesis is usually much more loosely expressed. Idomeneus' exhortation of Meriones : ὄφρα τάχιστα εἴδομεν ἠέ τῳ εὖχος ὀρεξομεν, ἦε τις ἡμιν (13.326-327) is quite regular.[101] In Hektor's characteristic diction, the construction expressing the thought is tighter, and contrived with far more precision,

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[99]See Leaf 1971 p. 343 on the translation of this phrase. Aristarchus and Aristophanes athetise 8.164-166, considering it artistically inferior and unsuited to the characters.

[100]For other examples of this disjunctive construction see: 5.484; 8.533; 9.701; 11.433; 13.743; 20.311; 21.226; 22.246.

[101]Compare 12.328: ἠέ τῳ εὖχος ὀρέξομεν, ἠέ τις ἡμῖν.

economy and symmetry than it is elsewhere. Hektor makes a pair of clauses like Idomeneus' or Sokos' closer parallels by using the same verb in both clauses, creating a chiastic effect; with ἕλοιμι κεν, ἤ κεν **ἄλοίην** compare: ἤ κε **φέρῃσι** μέγα κράτος, ἦ κε **φεροίμην**.[102] Instead of chiasmus in the second example, we have anaphora; a figure also used by Hektor at 17.231: **ἥμισυ** τῷ ἐνάρων ἀποδάσσομαι, **ἥμισυ** δ' αὐτος / ἔξω ἐγώ· For further evidence of Hektor's love of parallel constructions expressing disjunctions, see 6.456-457: **καί κεν** ἐν Ἄργει ἐοῦσα πρὸς ἄλλης ἰστὸν ὑφαίνοις,/ **καί κεν** ὕδωρ φορέοις Μεσσηΐδος ἢ Ὑπερείης and 12.239-240: **εἴτ ἐπὶ δεξί** ἴωσι πρὸς ἠῶ τ ἠέλιον τε, / **εἴτ ἐπ ἀριστερὰ** τοί γε ποτὶ ζόφον ἠερόεντα. The latter closely resembles his words at 7. 238: οἶδ' ἐπὶ δεξιά, οἶδ' ἐπ' ἀριστερα νωμῆσαι βῶν / ἀζαλέην .

Hektor's speeches are peppered with alliteration, assonance and other small parallelisms. He will conclude a speech with καί τε **κτανέοντα κατέκτα** (18.309), or an idea with καὶ οἶκος καὶ **κλῆρος ἀκήρατος** (15.498), or an indignant protest with κτύπον ἵππων (17.175). The last case is especially unusual: κτύπον appears elswhere in Homer and in Hesiod, but never again in this metrical position;[103] its unusual position in Hektor's line is somewhat awkward, and causes the speaker to pause before the final foot; thus a rhythmic component is added to the onomatopoeic description of the galloping horses. See also 14.489: ἀνδρὸς ἀριστῆος Διόθεν βλαφθέντα βέλεμνα and 13.772-773: νῦν ὄλετο πᾶσα κατ' ἄκρης / Ἴλιος **αἰπεινή**· νῦν τοι σῶς **αἶπυς** ὄλεθρος. Hektor's speeches are rhetorically perfect - in an abstract and narrow sense of "rhetorical". But when it comes to the question of rhetorical *effect* - whether the speeches affect a listener, his speeches look less good. Poetic uniqueness does not guarantee persusasiveness. Consider Hektor's use of the adjective *elaphros* to describe war: "war would be less of a burden for the Trojans if you were dead" - καί κεν ἐλαφρότερος πόλεμος Τρώεσσι γένοιτο / σείο καταφθιμένοιο (22.287-288).

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[102]Edwards (1991 pp.182-183) comments at 22.253: "Hektor likes the kind of word-play seen in these lines".

[103][10.532]; 15.379. Theogony 456; Shield 61; 98.

The adjective is reserved in other places and by other speakers for animals or the limbs of human-beings, referring to their ability to move swiftly and nimbly. Hektor's description combines notions of swiftness and lightness and does do justice to the notion of war as a process and an activity rather than just a static condition. But how can this description help him to threaten the enemy he is addressing? What he says is more likely to *encourage* the enemy. Striking linguistic variations do not always challenge your opponent.

Hektor's self-preoccupation extends to his own speeches as well as to his fantasies about his death and *kleos*. Hektor's speeches are so "poetic" that they suggest their author is involved in his own words even more than in his audience.[104] The aesthetic precision of Hektor's form distracts an audience from the content and from their ultimate purpose - bringing about some kind of action. Hektor's concern with the perfection of his speeches, like his concern with the perfection of his reputation and his death, cut him off from his audience. He seems to be detached from the real purpose of his speeches - persuading another to act. For Hektor, death is the end, not action. Speeches, too, count for more than actions. Hektor's final achievement reflects his own peculiar aesthetic, which is reflected in a rigid perfection in speeches and the static beauty of the warrior's death.

### *Flyting and Overkill*

Hektor's flyting speeches are constructed according to the same aesthetic which dominates the rest of his language. They are reflexive and non-interactive in much the same way as his other speeches. Even in his flyting speeches, the passages of "flyting" are intrinsically works of art, but fall flat as contextualised fighter's speeches; they fail when

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[104] Martin (1989) writes of Hektor: "the concentration on his own performance is like that of the dancer so concerned with the criticism of the audience that he or she limits expressiveness by paying too much attention to footwork"(p.132). Edwards (1991) refers to 22.100-110 and comments that Hektor is preoccupied with honour and shame rather than with the safety of his people (p.180).

called upon to fulfill their ritual social function.[105] Analogous to his claims to "know" about fighting, they are well-formed speeches in themselves, but do not bestir Hektor himself or others to action.

At 8.185-197, Hektor makes a novel use of the whole genre of flyting. Other characters use the formula εὔχομαι εἶναι in flyting speeches, to boast about their genealogical descent; it is associated with boasts about excelling (ἀριστεύειν ) in battle (cf. Glaukos 6.208-211). Only Hektor uses it to boast about his spouse rather than about his male ancestors (ὅ πέρ θαλερὸς πόσις εὔχομαι εἶναι 8.190), and he does so in a speech addressed to his horses.

As Richard Martin points out, Hektor's account of Andromache's feeding the horses wine (189) playfully reuses one of the traditional strategies of a warrior exhorting his troops to fight. But Hektor is reshaping not only the "motif of sustenance earned"[106], but the very genre of flyting itself. It is not usual to make flyting speeches to horses. Furthermore, in so doing, Hektor makes his speech an exercise in poetic creativity which is its own end: Hektor's horses (unlike Achilles' ) cannot speak or understand human speech. While it is necessary for Hektor to perform the action of speaking to his horses in order to urge them on, the work he puts into reforming the flyting genre for the occasion is extraneous to the task of encouraging them. This becomes clear when we consider the use to which the εὔχομαι formula is being put in his innovative speech: to boast of being Andromache's spouse is effective *only* in that it is playful and artistically creative; it cannot achieve the boast's usual effects of threatening an enemy or provoking a friend.

Even though Hektor repeatedly attacks Paris, who bears the brunt of his brother's blame, Hektor's blaming speeches to Paris are so complex that they miss the mark. At

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[105] For a different view, see Martin (1989) p.134. Martin encourages us to see Hektor at last achieving in his flyting-speeches a kind of creative release which he cannot attain the rest of the time, constrained as he is by the opinions of his audience.

[106] Martin 1989 p.135.

3.39-57, Hektor scolds Paris in such a speech. He opens the speech with the wish that Paris had never been born,[107] or that he had perished unwed. Hektor introduces the wish about Paris with the phrase αἴθ' ὄφελες - a phrase which other speakers use to introduce wishes formally expressed within the context of a lament, or in a speech modelled on a lament. Thetis says of Achilles in Book 1: αἴθ' ὄφελες παρὰ νηυσὶν ἀδάκρυτος καὶ ἀπήμων / ἧσθαι - would that you could have sat by the ships *without* grief. She goes on to lament the shortness of his life and the bleak fate assigned him (1.414-415). Achilles, in turn, says of Thetis in Book 18: αἴθ' ὄφελες σὺ μὲν αὖθι μετ' ἀθανάτης ἁλίῃσι / ναίειν, Πηλεὺς δὲ θνητὴν ἀγαγέσθαι ἄκοιτιν : would that you had stayed among the other sea-goddesses, and that Peleus had taken a mortal wife. Again, the context is one of anticipatory mourning for Achilles' death: Achilles now goes on to say that Thetis will never welcome him back home from Troy (this is a recurrent theme in the poem's lament passages) and Thetis responds by bewailing (as she does in the passage from Book 1) the fact that Achilles is ὠκύμορος : swift-fated (18.86-96).

Others also use the formula in the context of mourning, not flyting. Priam uses the wish formula in the middle of a lament when he is mourning for Hektor in Book 22 (cf. 22.429: Ὣς ἔφατο κλαίων, ἐπὶ δὲ στενάχοντο πολῖται ): "would that he (Hektor) had died in my arms, and Helen uses it in a speech which is in the nature of a lament for her former life (cf. the fact that she says at 176: τὸ καὶ κλαίουσα τέτηκα). Agamemnon uses the formula to express a wish uttered in the course of a regretful reflection upon mortality: he wishes that Nestor could exchange his own seniority for youthful vigour of some other Achaean warrior present: ὡς ὄφελεν τις / ἀνδρῶν ἄλλος ἔχειν, σὺ δὲ κουροτέροισι μετεῖναι (4.315-316). Nestor replies: ἀλλ οὔ πως ἅμα πάντα θεοὶ δόσαν ἀνθρώποισιν· εἰ τότε κοῦρος ἔα, αὖτε με γῆρας ὀπάζε (320-321). These other uses, which parallel one another, show up Hektor's use of the formula as relatively unusual (but cf. Helen 3.173-174: ὡς ὄφελεν θάνατος μοι

[107]But for the disputed meaning of ἄγονος see Kirk 1990 p.271.

ἀδεῖν κακὸς ὀππότε δεῦρο / υἱέϊ σῳ ἐπόμην, ). Rather than using it to express ***regret*** for someone's death, or for the *way* in which someone has died, Hektor uses it (as Helen uses it against herself) to wish death *upon* someone. So although this speech is introduced as a flyting speech (cf. line 38: τὸν δ' Ἕκτωρ νείκεσσεν ἰδών αἰσχροίς ἐπέεσσιν ), and although in the first line Hektor hurls a string of abusive titles at Paris, so far it is the language of lament and regret which is employed in Hektor's threat. Hektor's style is, as always, creative and innovative.

When other speakers express a wish in this way, they tend to make just the single expression of it. Only Hektor piles up his wish formulas, introducing two more in line 41: καί κε τὸ βουλοίμην .....and πολὺ κέρδιον ἦεν: the line is pleonastic and hyperbolic in expression. This continues through the speech. In lines 54-55 Hektor again displays a tendency to pile up the elements in his speech in high numbers. The phrase δῶρ' Ἀφροδίτης is formulaic, although it usually appears in a less condensed form. Compare line 102 of the Homeric Hymn to Demeter: δώρων τε φιλοστεφάνου Ἀφροδίτης, line 47 of the Hesiodic Shield: τερπόμενος δώροισι πολυχρύσου Ἀφροδίτης ; also Hesiod fragment 195.47 (= Shield 47), fragment 76.6: δῶρα χρυσῆς Ἀφροδίτης and 76.10: δ]έξο τάδ ἀγλα[ὰ] δῶρα θε[ὰ χρυσῆς Ἀφροδίτης]. Hektor has condensed the formula so that he can make it part of a list including other items: Paris' κίθαρις and his κόμη and εἶδος (54-55). The list is somewhat pleonastic, like lines 40-41.

At 51 Hektor scornfully designates Paris a joy to his enemies (δυσμενέσιν μὲν χάρμα) but a reproach to himself (κατηφείην δὲ σοι αὐτῳ). The first half of this gnome is used quite regularly in the poem: Helenus tells Aeneas and Hektor to take action rather than let their fellow-soldiers fall into the hands of their wives, and become a joy to their enemies (δηΐοισι δὲ χάρμα γενέσθαι). At 10.193 Nestor, encouraging Diomedes to act, says to him: "let sleep not seize any man, lest we become a cause of rejoicing to our foes (μὴ χάρμα γενώμεθα δυσμενέεσσιν ). In these two cases, the speaker does not use the second arm of the aphorism, in a third case, Nestor does. At 23.342, encouraging and administering

advice to his son Antilochus, he tries to divert him from the pitfall of becoming a χάρμα δὲ τοῖς ἄλλοισι, ἐλεγχείη δὲ σοι αὐτῳ. Clearly this gnome is as common in a form which is an inversion of the present one. Sappho says of her brother: καὶ φίλοισ]ι ϝοῖσι χάραν γένεσθαι / κώνιαν ἔχθροισι.[108] In these other cases, the gnome always follows a particular piece of advice, and is issued as a warning against what might happen if the advice is not taken. Only Hektor uses it as an insulting *label*, an extra piece of abuse to be cast at his brother.

He uses it to follow up another formulaic line at 50: πατρί τε σῳ μέγα πῆμα πόληί τε παντί τε δήμῳ (compare Cassandra, who says the opposite of Hektor himself at 24. :μέγα χάρμα πόλει τ ἦν παντί τε δήμῳ). Hektor is combining a number of formulaic lines here just as he did at 40-41(other speakers uses such lines one at a time; cf. Zeus to Prometheus at Works and Days 56: σοί τ αὐτῷ μέγα πῆμα καὶ ἀνδρᾶσιν ἐσσομένοισιν ). The speech has a highly stylised quality. Hektor's flyting-speech to Paris in Book 3 is original, containing as it does out elements from the ritual of lament as well as abusive language. And in my view, the most unusual feature of the speech is the dense quantity of intricately arranged traditional formulas. But the speech seems to backfire: Paris says to Hektor in reply: Ἕκτορ, ἐπεί με κατ' αἶσαν ἐνείκεσας οὐδ' ὑπὲρ αἶσαν. Consdering the sheer quantity of traditional expressions which Hektor has dredged up and put together in his speech to blame Paris, like heavy irony. Furthermore, the way in which Paris thus accepts Hektor's attack, rather than fighting back whole-heartedly in a proper "battle of words", makes Hektor's criticism seem ineffective: the unruffled and ironic reaction of his target deflects the force of Hektor's attack, so that it looks like a highly stylistic exercise in poetic recombinations.

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[108]Frag. 5 (Voigt) 6-7.

### *Hektor's Closed Conversational World*

If Hektor's speech doesn't provoke much of a reaction in Paris, we should remember that Hektor's focus is generally not on his audience. Hektor is an isolated performer. Looking inward, he constructs imaginary worlds. He cannot hear the *kleos* - any reports, good or bad, which others make of him. His vision of where he stands in relation to others is perpetually skewed. This emerges in his hubristic claims to be the son of Zeus, as it does in Poulydamas' accusation that Hektor wishes to surpass everyone in knowledge - περιίδμεναι ἄλλων (13.728). We never see him engaged in a genuine linguistic exchange with anyone. Hektor's concentrated artistry forces speech to lose its social function. Hektor too is socially dysfunctional: he perpetually inhabits a world of his own, and is abstracted, never "conversationally involved" in the exchanges others try to have with him. Hektor uses words to construct self-contained, imaginary worlds. He is abstracted in conversations - this is clear from the way he behaves when people talk to him. Hektor often doesn't answer when others speak to him. This is made explicit at 5.689: Sarpedon sees Hektor and entreats him: "Do not leave me here as prey for the Achaeans"; Hektor makes no reply, but hurries past him: Ὣς φάτο, τὸν δ' οὔ τι προσέφη[109] κορυθαίολος Ἕκτωρ. This same line appears at 6.342, where Hektor is exasperated and frustrated by Paris' response to one of his attacks.

When his parents plead with him not to fight (22.37-91) he remains wordless; the poet comments: "They did not persuade Hektor": πολλὰ λισσομένω· οὐδ' Ἕκτορι θυμὸν ἔπειθον (22.91). Instead, Hektor proceeds to conduct an introspective debate with himself as to whether he should try and fight Achilles, or should make some other kind of settlement (22.98-130). When Iris gives Zeus' instructions about ordering the troops in Book 2, Hektor doesn't say anything in return, although he proceeds to carry the directions out (2.807-808). In Book 5, bitten by Sarpedon's rebuke, Hektor leaps down from his

[109]Cf. the use of the phrase at 4.401 of Diomedes, stung by Agamemnon's rebuke. See Martin (1989) p.71 for discussion of Diomedes' reaction. The phrase is applied to Hera at 8.484, cowed by Zeus.

chariot and starts to go through the troops as Sarpedon had said he should (Ὣς φάτο Σαρπηδών, δάκε δὲ φρένας Ἕκτορι μῦθος· / αὐτικα δ' ἐξ ὀχέων σὺν τεύχεσιν ἅλτο χαμᾶζε - 5.493-494). He responds in the same way in Book 12 (Ὣς φάτο Πουλυδάμας, ἄδε δ' Ἕκτορι μῦθος ἀπήμων / αὐτικα δ' ἐξ ὀχέων σὺν τεύχεσιν ἅλτο χαμᾶζε - 12.80-81), even though he is pleased by the proposal Poulydamas has just made. In Book 11, Iris is again sent by Zeus; again, Hektor says nothing in reply but leaps from his chariot and goes about brandishing his spears (11.210-211). Hektor's tendency not to respond when others speak to him, whether their speeches please him or not, is an another indication of his solitary stance and his self-absorption.

There is some irony in the fact that although Hektor is always shouting, he often does not succeed in making himself heard. In Book 3, Hektor goes forward to announce Paris' proposal to the Achaean troops. But the Achaeans keep on shooting arrows and throwing stones at him until Agamemnon says: "I think Hektor is trying to say something": στεῦται γάρ τι ἔπος ἐρέειν κορυθαίολος Ἕκτορ (3.83). In Book 13, he steps forward and tries to threaten the Greek phalanxes, but cannot make them give way or frighten them (13.806-807) - ἀλλ' οὐ συγχει θυμὸν ἐνὶ στήθεσσιν Ἀχαιῶν (808).

His solitary stance in conversation resembles the way he likes to fight alone in battle. Andromache complains that Hektor would never fight ἐνὶ πληθῦι; he would always run in front of the others (πολὺ προθέεσκε - 22.459), and she is afraid Achilles may have cut him off alone - μοῦνον ἀποτμήξας - and driven him onto the plain. I have already discussed the lines which describe Hektor leaping the Achaean wall first, ahead of his men, briefly turning backwards to shout some orders behind him.[110] This fits with Hektor's professed desire for his son to be ἀριπρεπέα Τρώεσσιν (6.477), and his own belief that he

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[110]Compare Apollo's advice to Hektor at 20.376: don't challenge Achilles by going out ahead - μηκέτι πάμπαν Ἀχιλλῆϊ προμάχιζε . Kirk (1985) argues that προμάχιζειν refers to more than being a πρόμαχος (a fighter in the front rank), but means going out *in front of the others* (p.266). There are exceptions to Hektor's behaving this way. See, for example, 17. 484-490, where Hektor fights as a pair with Aeneas to get Achilles' borses.

himself stands out amongst the rest: μεταπρέπω (16.835). The verb means to stand out head and shoulders above the other members of a group.[111] He often talks about wanting to be like the gods, and his talk often focusses on himself. In addition to the example I have quoted above - **ἔξω ἐγώ**· τὸ δὲ οἱ κλέος ἔσσεται ὅσσον **ἐμοί περ** - consider the way he focusses on his own speech and his own commands, and the emphatic position of **αὐτος** at 16.834.

Hektor's abstraction is associated with an ability to lose himself in imaginary scenes. He has an especial talent for constructing small scenes by the deployment of visual details. While other characters (like Phoenix and Glaukos ) can produce long, picturesque and engaging narratives with minimal prompting, Hektor's specialty is the drawing-up of miniature scenes or vignetters in three or four lines, as he does at 6.454-475, picturing what Andromache will *look* like (cf. 459: καὶ ποτέ τις εἴπῃσιν **ἰδὼν** ), as a slave weaving at the loom of some Argive woman, or carrying water, after some Achaean soldier has dragged her away (δακρόεσσαν ἄγηται). The details - for example, the observation that Andromache will be weeping as she is led away, so that the unknown speaker in the future will *see* her κατὰ δάκρυ χέουσαν (459) - bear witness to Hektor's ability to construct a scene from words, as does the fact that he has the imaginative scope to think up and describe the *alternative* details when he describes her new situation: sometimes she will be weaving, sometimes carrying water. Another of Hektor's vignettes occurs at 22.126-128, in the much-discussed section in which Hektor compares meeting with Achilles (and asking him to consider accepting Helen and all the treasure Paris brought to Troy with her, and a division of all the treasure in the city, instead of the two of them fighting), to a meeting between a young man and a girl whispering sweet nothings (ὀαρίζετον - 128) to one another.

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[111]For other uses of the verb, see 2.481; 16.835; 8.370, and in the Odyssey, 10.525; 11.33..

Hektor frequently employs details for stylistic ends:[112] at 12.240-241, talking of his rejection of signs given by birds "long of wing" (τανυπτερύγεσσι 237) he says that he has no regard for them whatsoever, whether they fly towards the right ( εἴτ' ἐπὶ δεξί' ἴωσι - 239), towards the dawn and the sun ( πρὸς ἠῶ τ' ἠέλιον τε ), or whether they fly to the left, towards the clouded darkness (εἴτ ἐπ' ἀριστερὰ τοί γε ποτὶ ζόφον ἠερόεντα - 240). There is in a sense no need for the inclusion of the alternatives εἴτ' ἐπὶ δεξί / εἴτ' ἐπ' ἀριστερά, nor for the details qualifying the alternatives, which themselves consist of a neat antithesis constrasting brightness and darkness, which Hektor adds on to qualify left and right, or east and west. These details may have "rhetorical effect", but only in a reduced, aesthetic sense: there is nothing intrinsic to them which increases the persuasiveness of what Hektor is saying. In this respect they can be contrasted with Achilles' words at 9.385; Achilles, like Hektor, is voicing a rejection: οὐδ' εἴ μοι τόσα δοίη ὅσα ψάμαθος τε κόνις τε. The details in Achilles' comparison are an apt means of expressing the correspondence between increase in number and decrease in worth, since sand and dust truly are worthless. For Hektor, the details exist for the sake of Hektor's love of language and its constructions.

### *Hektor and Andromache*

The same spirit of detachment and reflection, a tendency to absorption in himself and his own language, also dominates Hektor's encounter with Andromache in Book 6. Later, it is as though Andromache reproaches him for this detachment. At 24.744, in her lament for Hektor, Andromache reproaches him: οὐδέ τι μοι εἶπες πυκίνον ἔπος, οὗ τέ κεν αἰει / μεμνῄμην νύκτας τε καὶ ἤματα δάκρυ χέουσα : if Hektor had died in bed he would have extended some tender word she could have cherished for the rest of her days. Alexiou

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[112]Cf. Tannen 1989 p.135: "details create images, images create scenes, and scenes spark off emotions, making possible both understanding and involvement.....Through images created in part by details, a hearer or reader imagines a scene". Tannen includes this amongst the ways in which speakers create connections and involvements with other speakers. The difference in Hektor's case is that he constructs miniature worlds which he alone inhabits. His failure to be "conversationally involved" with the people he speaks to is a marked feature of his style.

notes that Andromache's lament for Hektor at the wake is slightly different from Hekabe's and Helen's: all three women praise Hektor, but only Andromache "opens and closes with a faint note of reproach".[113] As Alexiou's study shows, the reproach is a common conventional feature of lament which can be traced throughout the history of the genre and survives in modern examples.[114] The specific complaint Andromache makes - that her husband, by dying, has fallen permanently silent, crops up in a Cretan tragedy of 1600,[115] and in a modern Cretan lament.[116] But even though the sentiment is evidently conventional and traditional, it is part of the characterisation of Andromache that this particular traditional expression, from a range of possible ones, has been assigned her at this point in the poem. Why would Andromache complain specifically about what her husband had left permanently unsaid ?

The answer lies in Hektor's conversational abstraction. Hektor is certainly much less direct when he speaks to his wife than when he speaks to Helen. He almost *confides* in Helen, as I noted above. We can explain this in terms of consideration for his wife's feelings. But there are other indications that in his exchange with Andromache, Hektor remains aloof and in his own world. This is clear even from the beginning of his speech (6.441-465).[117] Andromache has just made a speech (407-439) which she opens with the direct accusation that Hektor has no pity for his wife and infant child - instead he is letting his courage kill him (407-409). She goes on to describe - incident by incident - the way in which she has been bereft of all her relatives, with the result that Hektor is mother, father

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[113]Alexiou (1974) p.183.

[114]Alexiou (1974) p.43, citing Laografia 1934 p.400; - modern laments by a mother,wife or sister: "They are taking you away, my child! Who will look after your mother, my son ?"; "Who are you leaving me to, husband ? You are ruining your household, dear husband. Who are you leaving your children to? O, my support is gone !" Other examples include passages from the Lives of Saints and the vernacular laments of the fourteenth and fifteenth centuries.

[115] Erofile 5.463-464 (Alexiou's translation):"Why are you silent at my grief ? Why do you not speak /two small words of comfort to me in my weeping ?" - Γιάντα σωπᾶς στὸν πόνο μου; γιάντα στὰ κλάηματα μου / δὲ συντυχαίνεις δυὸ μικρὰ λόγια παρηγορία μου;

[116](Alexiou's translation):"Ahi, why don't you speak to me, to give me comfort ?" - "Αχι, καὶ γιὰ δὲ μοῦ μιλεῖς , νὰ μὲ παρηγορησης;

[117]Kirk 1990:"the style is melancholy, rather than impassioned" (p.219).

and brother to her as well as husband (429-430: Ἕκτορ, ἀταρ σύ μοί ἐσσι πατὴρ καὶ πότνια μήτηρ / ἠδε κασίγνητος, σὺ δὲ μοι θαλερὸς παρακοίτης ). She concludes the speech by begging him again not to leave her a widow and the child an orphan, and urges him to stay on the wall and not fight (431).

Hektor's response is of a kind we could call conversationally inadequate. As an answer to Andromache's request for pity, he says (opening his speech): ἦ καὶ ἐμοὶ τάδε πάντα μέλει, γύναι(441). The construction with μέλει is often used in the poem to account for a commander's sense of responsibility, either with respect to the conducting of the war itself, or for the troops in his charge. Sarpedon says to Hektor, telling him that he must urge his own soldiers to fight: σοὶ δὲ χρὴ τάδε πάντα **μέλειν** νύκτας τε καὶ ἦμαρ.[118] Agamemnon tells Nestor: "I never sleep because I am concerned about the war and the burdens of the Achaeans": **μέλει** πόλεμος καὶ κήδε' Ἀχαίων.[119] At 22.11 Apollo (taunting Achilles after he has led him away from the wall) says: "have you no *care* for your toil against the Trojans ?" (that is, "have you forgotten your task ?"): ἦ νύ τοι οὔ τι **μέλει** Τρώων πόνος. And Hektor uses the verb this way himself when he ends his second speech to Andromache with the statement: "War will be the concern of men, and my concern especially": πόλεμος δ' ἄνδρεσσ' **μελήσει** / πᾶσι, μάλιστα δ' ἐμοί (6.492-493). The use of the construction when he talks about his concern for the Trojans is quite appropriate, and matches Agamemnon's use at 10.92 (6.450: ἀλλ' οὔ μοι Τρώων τόσσον μέλει ἄλγος ὀπίσσω). It is curious, however, that he should put his concern for his wife's distress in the same category as his sense of responsibility for his warriors.

This is just one of the signs that Hektor is confined to a world of his own for much of this encounter, lost in speculation about his *kleos* (cf. 459-465 and 476-481). The situtation is represented clearly from the way the beginning of the encounter is portrayed. Andromache comes running up to Hektor (6.394). Hektor smiles at his child and remains

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[118] 5.490.
[119] 10.91-92.

silent ( ἦτοι ὁ μὲν μείδησεν ἰδὼν ἐς παῖδα σιωπῇ· - 404) until Andromache comes closer and takes the initiative in speaking (405-406: Ἀνδρομάχη δέ οἱ ἄγχι παρίστατο δάκρυ χέουσα,/ ἔν τ' ἄρα οἱ φῦ χειρὶ ἔπος τ' ἔφατ' ἔκ τ' ὀνόμαζε). What are we to make of Hektor's silence ? Is it a "positive" silence ? We hope that it is what Tannen calls "the silence of perfect rapport between intimates who do not have to exchange words".[120] But Andromache breaks the silence to reproach Hektor. As Tannen explains, the benefits of silence lie either in "rapport" or in "defensiveness". The benefit from silence located in rapport is that one can be understood without stating one's meaning: "the greater understanding of shared perspective, experience and intimacy, the deeper sense of 'speaking the same language'".[121] But Hektor and Andromache are not speaking the same language. Marilyn Arthur analyses the scene by arguing that Hektor's and Andromache's viewpoints can be identified with the poem's masculine and feminine values - the scene represents a "divided world".[122] Hektor thinks he must fight for the sake of his *kleos*, and to ward off shame; Andromache thinks that he should not fight, out of pity for his family. Hektor's silence in the end looks more like a "defensive" silence, which arises from "omitting to say something negative - not confronting potentially divisive information".[123]

Hektor pays lip-service to an expression of sympathy for Andromache in his first speech; and yet there is something studied and artificial about the build-up in lines 450-455, even though it gives us yet another chance to observe his polished rhetorical style. Even the portrait he paints of Andromache as a slave woman seems to be designed mostly for his own benefit, as a scene in his own closed world; for while she is present in front of him, he persists in constructing a vision of her elsewhere and at some future time, and uses the vision as foil for his speculation about what will be said of him by others in the future. There is also something strangely distant and distancing in the sequence of thought in the

[120]Tannen (1985 B) p.94.
[121]ibid. p.95.
[122]Arthur (1981).
[123]Tannen (1985 B) p.97. See Saunders (1985).

last two lines: "You will have fresh grief because of the *lack* of such a man (463: χήτεϊ τοιοῦδ' ἀνδρὸς ).....but let the heaped-up earth cover me before I hear your screams as they carry you away (464-465).[124]

It is possible to compare the contrasting emotional attitudes of Hektor and Andromache by paying attention to rhythm and metrics in this first pair of speeches. Most of Hektor's sentences are at least two lines long, and their ends almost always coincide with line-endings. Andromache, by constrast, gives vent to sentiments expressed briefly, directly and emphatically in a line or less at a time; her speech has many more broken lines than Hektor's, and the breaks come in different places in a sequence of lines. Consider lines 407-413:

> δαιμόνιε φθίσει σε τὸ σὸν μένος, **οὐδ' ἐλεαίρεις**
> παῖδά τε νηπίαχον καὶ ἔμ' ἄμμορον, **ἢ τάχα χήρη**
> σεῦ ἔσομαι· **τάχα γάρ** σε κατακτανέουσιν Ἀχαιοὶ
> πάντες ἐφορμηθέντες· **ἐμοὶ δέ κε** κέρδιον εἴη
> σεῦ ἀφαμαρτούσῃ χθόνα δύμεναι· **οὐ γὰρ ἔτ' ἄλλη**
> ἔσται θαλπωρὴ ἐπεὶ ἂν σύ γε πότμον ἐπίσπῃς
> ἀλλ' ἄχε'· **οὐδέ μοι ἔστι πατὴρ** καὶ πότνια μήτηρ.

Not only does this represent an emotional outburst on Andromache's part; it also makes her speech sound more like natural or conversational speech. The balance and control in Hektor's, on the other hand, almost give the impression that he is reciting a speech he has rehearsed.[125] This is also apparent in the opening forms of address the two use. Andromache tries to seize Hektor's attention by placing the endearment δαιμόνιε first word in her first sentence (407). Hektor, by contrast, delays the vocative γύναι until the second half of the line in order not to interrupt the even metrical flow of his opening words: ἦ καὶ ἐμοὶ τάδε πάντα μέλει, γύναι· - four perfect dactyls (441). And he uses the term γύναι,

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[124]Kirk 1990 acknowledges that this thought might seem "strangely self-centred" (p.222).

[125]Cf. Kirk 1990 p.110 on Sarpedon's rebuke to Hektor in Book 5; Kirk refers to Hektor's "stolid and spondaic non-involvement".

which, unlike δαιμόνιε, serves only to indicate his formal relationship to her, and does not function as a term of endearment.

Things change somewhat in Hektor's second speech to Andromache. Finally noticing that she is upset (πόσις δ ἐλέησε **νοήσας** - 484), he now addresses her as she first addressed him: δαιμονίη (486). He finally makes a direct command which corresponds to the directness of Andromache's accusation at the beginning of her speech, and introduces it with the emotionally involved μή μοί (486). Nevertheless, it is almost as though Andromache "replies" to Hektor's aloofness when she later uses the lament as a vehicle for voicing her resentment that he did not leave her with a πυκίνον ἔπος to remember. Her reproach to him for not dying in bed corresponds psychologically to his failure to admit that he might not return from the fighting that day. In a similar way, she seems to "reply" to his blinkered vision of Astyanax's glory when she says, in the same passage of lament,: παῖς δ' ἔτι νήπιος αὖτως,/ ὃν τέκομεν σύ τ' ἐγώ τε δυσάμμοροι, οὐδὲ μιν οἴω / ἥβην ἵξεσθαι· (24.726-728).

### *Kleos and Closure*

Hektor stands out amongst both Greeks and Trojans because he is so preoccupied with praise. His relentless preoccupation with his own *kleos* - "fame" or "praise" - is represented psychologically in his conversational style, and he is the character who best illustrates the high social cost of *kleos* . For thoughts of his own *kleos* he neglects to reciprocate the *charis* of the "far-famed" allies. And in his obsession with praise and *kleos* lies the significance of the surprising truth - frequently remarked upon - that he, and not Achilles, attains death, *kleos* and closure within the Iliad. The last line of the Iliad reads: "And so the Trojans made themselves busy about the tomb of horse-taming Hektor" (24.85: Ὣς οἵ γ'ἀμφίεπον τάφον Ἕκτορος ἱπποδάμοιο). Hektor's death *is* celebrated, within

the Iliad. Of the heroes in the Iliad, he alone attains closure in the form of *kleos* and death, and with the celebration of his death, the poem closes - in some respects.[126]

There is a rightness about that: the idea of closure epitomises Hektor's characterisation, locked into solipsistic visions of his own death and *kleos*. Closed off from others, he never really converses with them. Calling out loudly to the allies he summoned all over the field, he has difficulty engaging genuinely in the most private and intimate conversations. There is a final irony in that as his death approaches, Hektor is tricked by the voice of Athena, disguised as his brother Deïphobus. Athena deceives him by adopting the form *and voice* (22.226) of his brother. A little later, when Hektor is losing the final duel with Achilles and in need of a spear, he calls out loudly (as is his wont) to Deïphobus - Δηϊφοβον δ' **ἐκάλει** λευκάσπιδα **μακρὸν ἀΰσας** (22.294), but Deïphobus is nowhere near him. Given the manner in which the themes of **κλύω** and **καλέω** predominate in the depiction of Hektor and his relations with others, it is surely significant and highly ironic that at this final moment he is said to hear (instead of the answering voice of Deïphobus) only the voices of the gods, **calling** him towards death: πόποι, ἦ μάλα δή με θεοὶ θάνατόνδε **κάλεσσαν**· (22.297).

[126]But see Chapter 4 (pp.189-192).

# CHAPTER 4

## *ἀλλοδαπῷ ἐνι δήμῳ: STRIFE AND THE LANGUAGE OF ACHILLES*

### *Achilles and the Achaeans*

Hektor and the Trojans are characterised in the Iliad by the multiplicity and complexity of their connections with the themes of *kleos* and praise poetry. An excess of praise, addressed to the wrong people, in the wrong places and at the wrong times, dominates and will ultimately destroy Trojan culture and the army of Hektor and his allies. In this chapter, I argue that the rather different social organisation of the Achaean army is linked to the prevalence amongst the Achaeans of an ethic of blame and criticism. Hektor's opposite number amongst the Achaeans, Achilles, is the spokesman for strife - *eris* - and poetry of blame.

Achilles' role as a kind of emblem or representative of his community is somewhat paradoxical. For I shall be arguing that Achilles remains estranged from the rest of the Achaeans right up to the end of the poem.[1] But I hope that it will become clear that only by posing as an outsider can Achilles present himself as the blame poet or social critic who is the main spokesperson for the organisational ethic of the Achaeans. In connection with this, I shall be considering the language of Achilles.[2] I find that Achilles has a

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[1]For discussion of Achilles' situation, see Claus 1975, MacCary 1983, Lee 1981, Parry 1956, Schein 1980 and Redfield 1975. Redfield maintains that there never is a reconciliation between Achilles and his community, although Achilles is secretly reconciled with Priam. Lee says that Achilles relinquishes the old heroic code based on κλέος, for the sake of valuing personal relationships, while Claus views Achilles' alienation from his community as the result of an attempt to remain true to the code which it originally taught him. Schein describes Achilles as possessed of an "absolute brilliance and excellence trying to come to moral and intellectual terms with a world that is not commensurate with it". Ever since Adam Parry first argued that Achilles can only express his disillusionment with his society by "misusing the language he disposes of", scholars have argued about Achilles' relationship to his society by considering his relationship to the language of that society. Recently, MacCary has deployed a combination of Freudian and post-Freudian psychoanalytic theory to demonstrate that Achilles (who is like a child at Lacan's mirror-stage) uses language in such a way as to create himself in his own image, not to communicate with others, but to define himself to himself; his view has some similarity to Parry's.

[2]Since Adam Parry's seminal article on the Language of Achilles (Parry 1956), there have been numerous studies and attempts to establish definitively various aspects of the uniqueness of Achilles' style, which was

performative versatility which enables him to use certain poetic genres in unique and deviant ways. In fact, when he does this, Achilles can be said to "misuse" genre. For he speaks in two particular genres - that of blame poetry, and that of wisom poetry - which are conventionally the prerogative of speakers of an age and status not his own. His use of these speech-genres constitute misapplications of genre to context.[3]

Next, I associate Achilles' misuse of genre with the way he systematically represents himself as an alien amongst the Achaeans. This self-representation is both explicit and tacit in Achilles' speeches. He explicitly refers to having been treated as an outsider, a *metanastês* , and he frequently talks of being "far from his fatherland". Moreover, the genres he "misuses" - blame poetry and wisdom poetry - are conventionally performed by social outsiders of one kind or another. Using these forms of speech, Achilles refuses to acknowledge the *timê* the Achaeans, except for Odysseus and Agamemnon - honour him with. Speaking as a blame poet and as a wisdom poet, Achilles models himself upon types of verbal performer who lack *timê*. This reflects Achilles' recurrent complaint that he has been treated among the Achaeans like "an alien without *timê*." Achilles speaks in these styles as a sign that the Achaeans (or at least Agamemnon)

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noticed in antiquity too (Cf. Martin 1989 pp.147-148). Parry's argument was that Achilles attempts to break through the formulaic system of heroic language. Claus 1975 (in a way, similar to Parry) argues that Achilles uses traditional language to make statements which subvert the heroic code. Others have pointed out that Achilles puts certain traditional formulas to unique uses (eg. Scully 1984 on the ὀχθήσας formulas). Friedrich and Redfield 1978 investigate Achilles' rhetoric and conclude that there are a number of features which make his use of language distinctive, such as "poetic directness" in his word choice, use of similes and detail. Most recently, Martin (1989 pp.167-230) has undertaken a comprehensive examination of the innumerable subtle deviations in formula use which make Achilles' speech different from that of other heroes. He discovers that Achilles' language is characterised by an "expansion aesthetic" which resembles most closely the voice of the poet himself - Homer's voice is the voice of Achilles. But my own investigation examines Achilles' style and use of formulas from the perspective of poetic genre.

[3]Todorov 1978 p.51 defines genre thus: "Genre is an institution of society, "la codification historiquement attestée de propriétés discursives" - discursive properties being the variables of any speech-act. Cf. Bakhtin 1986: "Language is realised in the form of individual concrete utterances (oral and written) by participants in the various areas of human activity.....each sphere in which language is used develops its own relatively stable types of utterances. These we may call "speech genres". In Todorov's terms, Achilles "misuses" speech-genres because he makes speech-acts in the absence of certain variables pertaining to the context of the act. In Bakhtin's terms, he makes the language unstable by doing this. On the relationship between context and genre, see Raible 1980 pp.335-343: the communication-situation is included in the definition of genre.

have abused him. The implied tacit claim is that *they*, and not Achilles himself, are casting him in this role.

At the end of the chapter, I raise as a possibility the notion that Achilles' "exile" from the Achaean community, whether it be self-imposed or enforced, might enable him to have a perspective on the Trojan War, and especially on the Trojans, which other Achaeans do not share. The end of the Iliad has an air of suspension, and of a lack of resolution which mirrors the hero's ambivalence - about the Achaeans, about the Trojans and about whether to choose *kleos* over life.[4] Further, Achilles' subversions of genre and self-imposed "exile from the arena of speech"[5] can be taken together with his acknowledgement that he is not good at conventional speech, in the *agora*.[6] Like the Trojans, Achilles speaks a "language" which is anomalous from the viewpoint of conventional and ritualised Achaean discourse. In this respect there is a tacit parallel between Achilles and the Trojans. Their use of language reveals them both as "others" - both are alien to, and yet locked in contention with, the social mechanism of Achaean culture.

### *Praise and Blame*

There are still societies in which the social and political function of poetry is acknowledged, as in archaic Greece, and where poets are regarded as having a special kind of authority. In these cultures, the social function of poetry can usually be accounted for in terms of two basic functions: praising the noble and blaming the base.[7] In Greece, these two functions of poetry generated two separate poetic traditions. This can be seen from

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[4]9.412-416.

[5]Martin (1989 p.147)

[6]18.106: [ἐν πολέμῳ·] ἀγορῇ δέ τ'ἀμείνονες εἰσι καὶ ἄλλοι

[7]For an overview of the function and character of blame poetry in early Greece and other Indo-European societies (Vedic, Roman Irish and Germanic), see Ward (1973). In the early Irish tradition, there are references to rulers who unleash the power of their blame poets against their enemies. Blame poets often constitute a professional class whose task is the public shaming of ill-doers. Poetry of blame supposedly has the magical power of a charm; the effects on its victims range from the raising of welts and blisters to blinding, self-mutilation, death and suicide (pp.139-140).

theoretical discussions of poetry in the Greek texts. In the Poetics, Aristotle says that early on, poetry became split into two types according to the natural character of the poet (διεσπάθη δὲ κατὰ τὰ οἰκεῖα ἤθη ἡ ποιήσις ).[8] The first group of poets (the σεμνότεροι )[9] imitated fine *praxeis* and wrote hymns and encomia - genres of poetry which praise their subjects. The second group wrote ψόγους - blame poems; archaic poets thus came to be divided into two groups: the heroic poets and the iambic (καὶ ἐγένοντο τῶν παλαιῶν οἱ μὲν ἡρωικῶν οἱ δὲ ἰάμβων ποιηταί).[10] From heroic poetry - epic - evolved tragedy; comedy emerged from the tradition of iambos. In the Rhetoric too, Aristotle divides the category of epideictic oratory into two genres: encomiastic speeches, and speeches which censure, blame or criticise the person to whom they are addressed.[11] The opposed characterisations of Hektor and Achilles are constructed in terms of a poetic opposition which already existed in the archaic period and continued to be central to literary typology in the classical.

Greek poets on various occasions use the antithesis between the tradition of poetry of praise and the tradition of blame poetry in a programmatic way. In Pindar's second Pythian ode, the epinician poet takes Archilochus' bitter blame (ψογερὸν Ἀρχίλοχον βαρυλόγοις ἔχθεσιν / πιαινόμεν - 55-56) and holds it up as an example of what he himself will avoid (ἐμὲ δὲ χρεὼν / φεύγειν δάκος ἀδινὸν κακαγορίαν - 52-53).[12] I believe that the Iliad in a similar kind of way exploits the programmatic antagonism between the poetic genres of praise and blame to characterise the opposition between Greek and Trojan culture. Hektor and Achilles, who stand for praise and blame respectively, are representantives of the poetic *ethos* of either culture. According to the poet's stylised portrayal of the two opposed armies, a different ethic obtains on either side, which emerges in its use of poetry.

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[8]Poetics 1448B 24.

[9]Poetics 1448B 25.

[10]Poetics 1448B 32-34.

[11]Rhetoric 1385B 12-13: ἐπιδεικτικοῦ δὲ τὸ μὲν ἔπαινος τὸ δὲ ψόγος.

[12]Cf. Nemean 7.61-63: σκοτεινὸν ἀπέχων ψόγον /.....κλέος ἐτήτυμον αἰνέσω. The examples are Nagy's (Nagy 1979 pp.222-225).

Achaean culture thrives on strife and blame. But the poetic construction of Trojan society characterises it as foundering on a surfeit of praise, unchecked by criticism and insulting invective. The fight to the death between Achilles and Hektor pits a Trojan culture of praise against an Achaean blame-culture.

### *The Base Argives*

As I argued in the last chapter, Hektor's army is built up mainly from ***kleitoi epikouroi*** - illustrious, far-famed allies, obliged to fight for Hektor because they are bound to him by a relationship built on the reciprocation of χάρις. But the Achaean army, the members of which Agamemnon addresses as "base Argives" - ἐλεγχέες (4.242)[13] are not obliged to fight for him in return for past gifts and favours - χάρις. Agamemnon does not bestow gold and bronze on his men. The elaboration of the Achaean Catalogue, which I discussed in Chapter 1, conveys an impression of the Panhellenic unity of the Greek forces.[14] The implication is that all came because this was a *Greek* expedition, with a personal relevance for all involved - not because of a mere obligation to Agamemnon.

The solidarity of the Achaean commanders is established when they sit as companions at Agamemnon's feast. In the *epipolêsis* in Book 4, Agamemnon reproaches Idomeneus, reminding him: "I show you honour in war, in other tasks, and at the feast. The other Argives drink an allotted portion, but your cup is kept full as my own is." (4.257-264). But he does not refer to this as *charis*, or call the Achaeans his ξείνοι. The *timê* he gives his *philoi* is not displayed in gifts of precious artefacts, but in portions of food at a *daïs*. Each man's portion represents the share he is allotted by and within *that community*. The table is not the "friendly table" of a luxurious and festive symposium, such as might be celebrated in Pindar's poetry,[15] but the sacrificial meal made at a

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[13]Contrast the way Hektor "praises" his allies by calling them τηλεκλείτοι (6.111).

[14]Chapter 1 (pp.22-25).

[15]Cf. Pindar Olympian 1. 16-17: οἷα παίζομεν φίλαν / ἄνδρες ἀμφὶθαμὰ τράπεζαν.

warriors' mess. An important difference between Greeks and Trojans emerges here: the Achaean commanders function as one community, eating under the same roof; whereas Hektor's allied warriors are drawn from other, distant, nations, bound to him by the χάρις which characterises friendship between aristocrats who *visit* one another.[16]

Relevant to this point is my discussion in Chapter 1 of the significance, in terms of the social organisation and cohesion of the Achaeans, of the fact that Agamemnon, encouraged by Nestor, regularly holds sacrifices for his leaders. As I indicated there, we never see Hektor do this. Instead, as I demonstrated in Chapter 3, Hektor repays his allies with precious gifts (cf. his statement - δώροισι κατατρύχω at 17.225), and has drained away Troy's gold and bronze (cf. 18.228-289) to swell their pride and energy (θυμὸν ἀέξω).[17] Hektor's allies are characterised as warriors from other cities, from *outside* his own community, while Agamemnon's are portrayed *as if* they were all members of a single community, of Agamemnon's community of Achaeans. For *agalmata* are gifts given to a stranger, while the *timê* which Agamemnon assigns his men severally, is apportioned within a community to its individual members. A *geras*, not *dôra*, is the kind of prize which outwardly manifests the honour assigned a person by the members of his own community.[18]

The fact that the Achaeans live at close quarters, and, unlike Hektor's army, are regarded as constituting a single community, is to be connected with the spirit of strife which reigns among them. For the "base Argives" are held together by strife - a spirit of rivalry and competition. It is no accident that the Iliad opens with an extended scene of

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[16]Chapter 3 (p.105).

[17]This phrase is found only here in the Homeric corpus.

[18]Achilles says of Agamemnon's proffered gifts in Book 9: ἐχθρὰ δέ μοι τοῦ δῶρα (9.378) and complains that Agamemnon has treated him like an ἀτίμητον μετανάστην (9.648) - an outsider who does not qualify for *timê*. In connection with the issue of *dôra* and outsiders, Kurke's observation that (cross-culturally), gifts are often linked to the *past* (i.e., a different world) seems worth taking into consideration; "precious objects form a chain through time" just as "gift-exchange creates community by forging a bond between exchange-partners" (Kurke 1991 pp.96-97). However, while Achilles and Agamemnon quarrel about *geras* at 1.161; 167; 185 etc., Achilles does complain at 1.230 that Agamemnon takes his men's *dôra* .

verbal violence and dissension in the Greek camp; this example of *eris* is instigated by Achilles, and the motive is a therapeutic one: to set right Agamemnon's social transgression and eliminate Apollo's plague. The Achaeans are unlike the Trojans in that they repeatedly challenge one another, as well as their enemies, with insults. In Book 4, the taunts issued and exchanged in Agamemnon's *epipolêsis* - bring out the extent to which the Greek warriors live at close quarters with one another. The insults and the competitive talk are an indication, rather than a contradiction, of the fact that the Achaeans are comrades: they address one another as φίλοι on the field.[19] In fact, one could say that the Achaeans differ from the Trojans in that they behave in ways some sociologists, anthropologists and sociolinguists encourage us to think of as typical of male groups - held together not by favours - χάρις - but by peer-group competition - ἔρις.[20]

### *Eris and Agôn*

The use of the assembly as a forum for Achaean *eris* distinguishes Achaeans from Trojans. Real public abuse is rare amongst the Trojans. Sarpedon and Glaukos attack Hektor not in an assembly, but privately; Poulydamas makes an attempt at correcting Hektor in an assembly, but it is a feeble one: full of pleading language and opened with an apology. Moreover, Poulydamas makes his chastening speech not as a declaration to all present, but confidingly, standing close by Hektor's side.[21] When his men take Hektor aside and blame him in this way, they are not aiming at the kind of social correction Achilles seems to be fighting for when he criticises Agamemnon's behaviour in public.

On some occasions, criticisms and objections do arise in the Trojan assemblies; but they never provoke an extended debate like the ones we see in the Achaean asemblies of

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[19]Chapter 1 (pp.26-27).

[20]In the Iliad, the goddes Eris displays an affinity for the Achaeans, not for the Trojans. At 20.48, Eris calls out to the Achaeans on one side, but Ares calls out to the Trojans, on the other. And at 11. 3ff., Eris is sent by Zeus to the ships of the Achaeans.

[21]Chapter 1 (pp.13-14).

Books 1, 2 and 9.[22] In Book 18, in the assembly at which Hektor dismisses Poulydamas' advice in favour of his own plan, the Trojans simply erupt into ecstatic praise and follow Hektor. In general, when Poulydamas makes suggestions, they either "please Hektor" - ὡς φάτο Πουλυδάμας, ἄδε δ'Ἕκτορι μῦθος ἀπήμων (12.80; 13.748) - or displease him - Πουλυδάμα, σὺ μεν οὐκέτ' ἐμοί φίλα ταῦτ' / ἀγορεύεις (12.231; 18.285). In 12, when Hektor is pleased, the advice is simply follwed without comment. In 12 and 18, when Poulydamas' suggestion is not to Hektor's taste, he attacks his advisor, but still no quarrel ensues, because Poulydamas does not retaliate.

In other words, in the Trojan assemblies, there is no *agôn*. In fact, very few individuals speak at any one meeting - the debate is not relayed from speaker to speaker. By way of contrast, Greek assemblies are structured round the concept of *agôn* - public contention for the final word. As I argued in Chapter 1, the *agôn* gives rise to upheaval which harbingers the re-institution of *kosmos*. According to the Achaean model, contention is fruitful and provokes discussion or re-establishment of authority and *kosmos*. A decision is made about who is entitled to have the last word. In the Trojan assemblies, actions and decisions are never explained in these terms.

In the assemblies of the Achaeans, as in the assemblies of the gods, there is a figure who brings the ritual *agôn* to some kind of resolution. Nestor is important in his role as conciliator; his wisdom and authority sanctify or realign the positions arrived at; but reconciliation is always preceded by disagreement. Nestor's honeyed tones soothe the quarrel in Book 1 - he is introduced by the poet as ἡδυεπὴς (1.248), and it is said that his voice "drips more sweetly than honey from his tongue" - τοῦ καὶ ἀπὸ γλώσσης μέλιτος γλυκίων ῥέεν αὐδή (1.249). So too, at 9.173, when Nestor has determined that they should appease Achilles with sweet words and gifts, it is said: Ὣς φάτο, τοῖσι δὲ πᾶσιν ἐαδότα μῦθον ἔειπεν (9.173) - Nestor's words already are soothing the Achaean warriors

[22]Chapter 1.

themselves. Amongst the gods, Hephaistos plays Nestor's role when Hera and Zeus quarrel at the end of Book 1. He too, says: "Let there be no νεῖκος (1.579), and stresses the need for mild words - ἐπέεσσι.....μαλακοῖσιν (1.582) that Zeus may be appeased. But, unlike the Achaeans and the gods, the Trojans do not have a conciliator, because they do not have the proper *agôn* to begin with.[23]

### *Achilles' Stance as Other*

Achilles' *eris* with his community is long-lived, however, despite Nestor's intervention. It causes him to remain quite apart from the rest of the community. Technically, Achilles is a member of the in-group. But from the time of his quarrel with Agamemnon, he resolutely and systematically refuses to acknowledge that he belongs to it.[24] He will not fight for his φίλοι, eat with them,[25] or receive gifts from them.[26] He will not participate in group activities, arguing that he has been treated as an outsider, not as a member of the group. This bewilders the other Greek heroes, who accuse him of having no thought for his *philtatoi hetairoi* , who have honoured him above all (Cf. Aias' words to Achilles at 9.630-631: σχέτλιος, οὐδὲ μετατρέπεται φιλότητος ἑταίρων / τῆς ἦ μιν παρὰ νηυσὶν **ἐτίομεν** ἔξοχον ἄλλων ). Aias interprets Achilles' behaviour specifically as a betrayal of male in-group loyalty when he accuses him of being "upset over just one girl" (εἵνεκα κούρης / οἵης· - 9.637-638). Achilles fails to abide by the rules agreed upon amongst males in such a group: others would accept compensation for the killing of a male kinsman, a brother or a son (9.631-636). Apollo judges Achilles' behaviour in a similar way at

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[23]Cf. Martin (1984 p.43) on Nestor's honeyed tones as the characteristic feature of the "ideal Homeric speaker", comparing Theogony 84 on the speech of kings. He connects Nestor's role as conciliator with his role as instructor. The Trojans, then, having no such honey-toned instructors, have, from an Achaean perspective, no "ideal speakers".

[24]Cf. his determination fo protect Calchas, an ἀνδρὶ χέρηϊ , in Book 1 (1.80).

[25]19.199-214.

[26]9.378. Even in Book 19, when the reconciliation between Achilles and Agamemnon has ostensibly been concluded, Achilles seems to resist the gifts which would confirm the reconciliation. At this point, Achilles tells Agamemnon: "As for the gifts, it is up to you whether you give them or leave them": δῶρα μὲν αἴ κ' ἐθέλεσθαι παρασχέμεναι, ὡς ἐπιεικές, / ἤ τ' ἔχέμεν, παρὰ σοί (19.147-148).

24.33-54: a man who loses a brother or son mourns him and then is done with it. Achilles' unceasing grief for Patroklos is particularly offensive because he is less closely connected with Achilles than a brother or son would be: μέλλει μέν πού τις καὶ **φίλτερον ἄλλον** ὀλέσσαι, / ἠε κασίγνητον ὁμογάστριον ἠε καὶ υἱόν· (46-47). Both Aias and Apollo are implying that Achilles acts as though he does not know the codes of behaviour agreed upon by male groups. Achilles behaves like a man who refuses to conform to the expectations of the group.

### *Achilles' Perspective on the Other Achaeans*

Certain passages suggest that Achilles characterises the rest of the Achaeans as alien to, or "other" than himself. In two respects Achilles characterises Agamemnon and the Achaeans in a way which parallels the Iliad poet's depiction of the Trojans. First, Achilles claims that the operational principle of Agamemnon's army is *charis*, not *eris*. Secondly, he on several occasions accuses Agamemnon of being too cowardly to endure a face-to-face confrontation.[27] I think this suggests to an audience that Achilles is constructing an image of the Achaeans as "others", just as the poet creates an analogous portrait of the Trojans as "others" in the eyes of a putatively Greek / pro-Achaean audience. And Achilles' view of the Achaeans achieves a striking corroboration in their behaviour towards him. When the Achaeans try to negotiate with Achilles in Book 9, their modes of persuasion replicate those which Trojan soldiers deploy when they encounter Achaeans in the battle. When the embassy is sent to Achilles in Book 9, we see that the envoys do in two respects behave "like Trojans": they proffer precious gifts, and they try to sway Achilles by weeping.

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[27]For this as typical of the Trojans, see Chapter 2 (pp.51-57).

*1. Charis*

Amongst the Achaeans, Achilles is unusual in that he alone conceptualises the obligation of the Greek warriors to Agamemnon in terms of χάρις. Moreover, in Achilles' use of the term, χάρις has negative connotations. For example, Achilles sarcastically warns Phoenix: "Don't go ferrying χάρις to Agamemnon the hero" (9.613: Ἀτρεΐδη ἥρωϊ φέρων χάριν),[28] and he accuses Agamemnon: the Greek forces have followed you to Troy to gratify you: ὄφρα σὺ **χαίρῃς** (1.158). He refers to the excessive *timê* (that is, the wealth in war spoils ) the Atreïdai are getting, fleecing the rest of the Achaeans who are fighting the Trojans on their behalf. Achilles in this way conceptualises the behaviour of his fellow Achaeans as "Panhellenic" poetry conceptualises the Trojans - as strangers. For Achilles, the rest of the Achaeans are like the "others". Achilles denigrates the χάρις Agamemnon gets from his subjects, viewing it as flattery and bribes. Agamemnon, as Achilles would have it, thrives on flattery. When displeased, he takes others' goods: "Whenever anyone stands up to speak and oppose you - ἀντίον εἴπῃ -, you take his possessions (1.230). Scorning the other Achaeans for a weak and wretched group, helplessly plundered by their king - οὐτιδανοῖσιν ἀνάσσεις (1.293), he marks himself off from them: "If I yield, let me be called of no account" - οὐτιδανὸς καλεοίμην (1.293). Achilles, characterising the Achaean army as one held together by χάρις, claims that there is a fault in the social mechanism - a fault from which he dissociates himself. But at the same time as as he dissociates himself from the Achaeans, he criticises them, and instructs them as to putting it right.

*2. Indirect Discourse*

Achilles is contemptuous and critical of Agamemnon's use of χάρις. He is similarly scornful about another aspect of Agamemnon's behaviour which is for the most part associated with Trojans, not Achaeans. Trojan warriors, as I argued in Chapter 2, are

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[28]The phrase resembles Pandaros' in Book 5: φέρων χάριν Ἕκτορι δίῳ (211).

indisposed to assault and insult their opponents openly. They do not look their enemies straight in the eye, avoiding face-to-face, eye-to-eye confrontations. Achilles accuses Agamemnon of similar evasion. Agamemnon, "cloaked in shamelessness", doesn't dare meet his eyes: αἰὲν ἀναιδείην ἐπιειμένος. οὐδ' ἂν ἐμοί γε / τετλαίη κύνεος περ ἐὼν εἰς ὦπα ἰδέσθαι (9. 372-373). Moreover, Agamemnon's own behaviour validates Achilles' account. He himself puts into words his horror at the possibility that another, like Achilles, should liken himself to him *to his face* - ὁμοιωθήμεναι **ἄντην** ( 1.187). And in the assembly at which Agamemnon makes his formal apology to Achilles, he does not stand up and address him directly as proper convention requires (19.76-77:τοῖσι δὲ καὶ μετέειπεν ἄναξ ἀνδρῶν Ἀγαμέμνων / αὐτόθεν ἐξ ἕδρης, **οὐδ' ἐν μέσσοισιν ἀναστάς**).[29]

*3.Competitive Gift-Exchange*

The Achaeans, faced with the necessity of persuading Achilles to fight, deliberate about how best to accomplish this. At Nestor's suggestion, they plan to bring Achilles round by means of "lovely gifts and honeyed words": δώροισίν τ' ἀγανοῖσιν ἔπεσσί τε μειλιχίοισι (9.113 - ; he is offered ἀπερείσι' ἄποινα - exactly what the Trojan suppliants

[29]For discussion of these lines, the implications of which are not always understood as I understand them, see Edwards 1991 pp.243ff. The words αὐτόθεν ἐξ ἕδρης, **οὐδ' ἐν μέσσοισιν ἀναστάς** are variously interpreted. Scholium A (according to Erbse, repeating the view of Aristonicus) explains that Agamemnon remains seated because of the pain from his wound. Thornton (1984 pp.128-129) thinks that Agamemnon adopts a humble, suppliant posture. The commoner view now is that Agamemnon does stand up, but does not go into the middle of the assembly to speak (for references, see Edwards). Epaphroditus b/T thought that Agamemnon did not want his humble words to be heard by the other speakers. Edwards (p.244) suggests that Agamemnon, by remaining seated, pointed and scornfully contrasts his own wounded condition with Achilles' unscathed physique. I prefer the simple interpretation that Agamemnon chooses not to face Achilles in an exchange and apologise to him. This coincides with Lohmann's observations that Agamemnon over and over again does not address Achilles in person, but persistently refers to him obliquely as "τοῦτον" (Lohmann 1970 pp.76-77). I do not find suggestions which refer to Agamemnon's "humility" convincing. Agamemnon declares at the beginning of his paradigm about *Atê* (19.91-136) that he was not to blame for quarrelling with Achilles: ἐγὼ δ οὐκ αἴτιος εἰμι (19.86). Comparison with the parallel statement made by Achilles' horse Xanthos at 19.409-410 (οὐδέ τοι ἡμεῖς / αἴτιοι ) in a speech protesting Achilles' accusation that they "left Patroklos behind" and warning him to beware his own fate suggests that the phrase indicates a defiant tone, not a humble one.

offer Achaeans from their fathers' treasure-houses, and περικλυτὰ δῶρ'[30](9.120-121). The gifts might at first glance look like a recognition of Achilles *timê*. But it is clear that Agamemnon has a competitive agenda, like that of the Trojans I discussed in Chapter 3. For, as Agamemnon tells Odysseus and the other Achaeans, he is really offering the gifts with a view to impressing his own superior status (in terms of age and kingliness ) on the recipient: καί μοι ὑποστήτω, ὅσσον βασιλεύτερος εἰμι / ἠδ ὅσσον γενεῇ προγενέστερος εὔχομαι εἶναι (9.160-161).[31] That Agamemnon is trying to engage Achilles in a form of competitive gift-exchange is clear from the exchange between Agamemnon and Nestor before the embassy is sent. First, Nestor advises Agamemnon to hold a sacrifice for his counsellors. He tells him, "Since you rule many, you have a great capacity (ὑποδεξίη - 9.73) to entertain your friends". This constitutes a turning-point for Agamemnon, who apparently now understands that by giving Achilles *dôra*, instead of taking his *geras*, he can assert his greater *timê* , pressing gifts on Achilles as an assertion of his wealth, kingship and nobility. That is, in Book 9 Agamemnon competes with Achilles according to the principle of aristocratic gift-exchange which governs the way Trojans contend with Achaeans. [32]

Achilles resists Agamemnon's gifts, but he does retaliate in kind. When the ambassadors arrive, he instructs Patroklos to mix stronger wine in a larger bowl (202-204), and Patroklos carves a sheep, a goat and a boar so that the visitor can share meat and wine with them. This prompts Odysseus to remark, pointedly: "I see that we aren't stinted of the equal feast in your hut any more than in the hut of Agamemnon": χαῖρ' Ἀχιλεῦ· δαιτὸς μὲν ἐΐσης οὐκ ἐπιδευεῖς/ ἠμὲν ἐνὶ κλισίῃ Ἀγαμέμνονος Ἀτρεΐδαο / ἠδὲ καὶ ἐνθάδε νῦν· (9.225-226). Achilles is displaying his own capacity to entertain guests, - ὑποδεξίη - and implies that it is just as great as Agamemnon's.

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[30]Tellingly, Hektor uses this same phrase - περικλυτὰ δῶρ' - when he tries to establish a a relationship between himself and Aias at the end of their duel (7.299).

[31]Odysseus' reply to Achilles in Book 9 is notorious because he leaves this part of Agamemnon's speech out, but repeats the rest *verbatim*. Achilles seems to be alluding to this when he declares his hatred of the person who "conceals one thing in his heart while he says another" (9.312-313).

[32] Chapter 3 (pp.101-102).

*4.Tears*

In the embassy to Achilles in Book 9 other Achaeans also try to persuade Achilles in Trojan style. Phoenix, the oldest of the three ambassadors, sheds tears (9.433: δάκρυ' ἀναπρήσας), like the ones Trojan suppliants hope will move their victors,[33] and like the tears Andromache (6.405), Hekabe and Priam (22.90) deploy to keep Hektor from fighting. Achilles expresses a distaste for this type of persuasion (9.612: "Don't try and stir me up by weeping and wailing": μή μοι σύγχει θυμὸν ὀδυρόμενος καὶ ἀχεύων). Phoenix also dwells on pictures of tearful women when he makes his persuasive speeches. He digresses while telling Meleager's tale to allude to the story of Kleopatra, named Halcyon by her parents because the mother wept like the halcyon bird (πολυπενθέος οἶτον ἔχουσα / κλαῖεν 9.562-563) over her daughter's rape by Apollo. And he describes how Meleager's mother's garments were drenched with tears on the death of her brother (δεύοντο δὲ δάκρυσι κόλποι - 9.570). All in all, Phoenix's tale about Meleager holds up as an example a hero who was persuaded his dear ones' prayers and tears, especially the tears of his female relatives. Meleager is persuaded by his male *hetairoi*, but before that, by the pleas of his sisters and his mother (πολλὰ δὲ τόν γε κασίγνηται καὶ πότνια μήτηρ / ἐλλίσσονθ' - 9.584). Another of Achilles' *philoi*, Patroklos, in a later scene also approaches Achilles weeping, in an effort to make him change his mind about the fighting.[34]

Whatever we make of Phoenix's contention that the heroes of old were "susceptible to bribes and ready to be persuaded" (δωρητοί τε πέλοντο παράρρητοί τ' ἐπέεσσι - 9.526), Phoenix's autobiography should suffice to undermine what he implies about persuasion,

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[33] 11.136 (the sons of Antimachus, supplicating Agamemnon): Ὣς τώ γε **κλαίοντε** προσαυδήτην βασιλῆα.

[34] 16.2-3: Πάτροκλος δ' Ἀχιλῆϊ παρίστατο, ποιμένι λαῶν / δάκρυα θερμὰ χέων ὥς κρήνη μελάνυδρος. The same image is used of Agamemnon at 9.14 when he calls the assembly at which the embassy to Achilles is deliberated: ἵστατο δάκρυ χέων ὥς τε κρήνη μελάνυδρος. Martin (1989 p.62) interprets Agamemnon's weeping stance as a sign of his rhetorical ineffectiveness. I agree that it would be viewed as weak, and as bad rhetoric, among the Achaeans. The imminence of the attempt to persuade Achilles seems to be adumbrated by Agamemnon's "Trojan" behaviour.

particularly the persuasion of women. There is a real irony in the fact that Phoenix himself did follow the kind of advice he is giving Achilles, with disastrous consequences for himself. His autobiography suggests that is only too true that, as he says, he "always remembers" the *exemplum* of Meleager, who gave in to the pleas of his friends": μέμνημαι τόδε ἔργον ἐγὼ πάλαι, οὔ τι νέον γε - 9.527). For Phoenix, by giving into the prayers of his mother (ἡ δ' αἰὲν ἐμὲ λισσέσκετο γούνων - 9.451), quarrelled with his father, nearly killed him and became a πατροφόνος (9.461) and was forced to flee his native land, labouring under his father's curse. The unfortunate role played by the persuasion and tears of women in Phoenix's own story alert an audience to the strangeness of his approving and trying to perpetuate persuasion of this kind.

### *Achilles as Thersites*

It is perhaps something of a paradox that the hero who best represents the Achaeans' habitual harsh blame and insults, both characterises the Achaeans as Trojans and provokes them to uncharacteristic modes of behaviour which are through most of the poem confined to the Trojans. But I think we can understand this if we see Achilles re-enacting within his own community the kind of conflict which is played out in the confrontation between Greeks and Trojans: a conflict of cultural styles. While the other Achaeans try to press gifts on him, and overcome his resistance with gifts and flattering words, Achilles only responds with more insults. For, as Agamemnon complains in Book 1, Achilles loves to make free with insulting language (ὀνείδεα μυθήσασθαι - 1.291); and has a great gusto for strife - *eris* (αἰεὶ γάρ τοι ἔρις τε φίλη πόλεμοί τε μάχαι τε - 1.177).[35] His attack on Agamemnon is described with the terms which encode blame poetry in the Greek tradition. At 1.211, Athena urges him to continute to *blame* Agamemnon: ἔπεσιν μὲν **ὀνείδισον.** Nestor

[35]Cf. Odysseus' allegation that Peleus advised Achilles, as he sent him to Troy, to leave off strife in favour of *philophrosyne* (9.257).

reproves Achilles (as Thersites, Odysseus and Diomedes were also reproved in Books 2 and 9): "Don't engage in strife with the king" (ἐριζέμεναι βασιλῆϊ - 1.277).[36] Achilles is thus characterised as diametrically opposed to Hektor, for poetry of blame is the social and poetic antithesis of praise poetry. In the first assembly scene, he insults Agamemnon, the king, using the traditional language of blame poetry (κυνῶπα 1.159; κυνὸς ὄμματ' ἔχων 1.225).[37] Agamemnon later, when his apology is due, tells all the Achaeans: "You rebuked me, but I did not deserve blame" - νεικείεσκον· ἐγὼ δ' οὐκ αἴτιος εἰμι (19.86).[38] Antagonistic from start to finish, Achilles makes an oblique and provocative remark in Agamemnon's presence, but in a speech addressed to Calchas, about "Agamemnon, who boasts now that he is the best of the Achaeans" (1.91). His activity mirrors that of Thersites, the Achaean who is continually "wrangling with kings" (2.214; 2.247). Compare Nestor's words to Achilles - μήτε συ Πηλεϊδη, ἔθελ' ἐριζέμεναι βασιλῆϊ (1.277) - with Odysseus' to Thersites: ἴσχεο, μηδ ἔθελ' οἷος ἐριζέμεναι βασιλεῦσιν (2.247).

### *The Role of the Blame Poet*

Thersites, with his shrill critical voice, is a crucial character in the Achaean camp. Lowrie's study of the traditional nature of such scenes demonstrates that the demise of the blame figure is an essential part of the process by which good social order is installed.[39] The blame poet is crucially integral to the community's social organisation.

At Thersites' first appearance in the narrative, the poet gives an account of him which seems to represent him as the resident or local blame poet of the Achaean army (2.211-224). He is full of disorderly insults which he directs against the kings (2.213-214:

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[36]Cf. also Patroklos' words to Nestor at 11.654, reminding him that Achilles is "quick to blame even the blameless": δεινὸς ἀνήρ· τάχα κεν καὶ ἀναίτιον αἰτιόωτο. Griffin (1986 p.52) says that Achilles has "a battery of abuse unrivalled in the Homeric poems".

[37]Nagy 1979 p.226.

[38]Achilles' horse Xanthos says exactly the same thing to him at 19.409-410: οὐδέ τοι ἡμεῖς / αἴτιοι

[39]Lowrie 1991 pp. 118-129.

ὃς ἔπεα φρεσὶ ἧσιν ἄκοσμα τε πολλά τε ἤδη, / μάψ, ἀταρ οὐ κατὰ κόσμον, ἐριζέμεναι βασιλεῦσιν ); he tends to target the most public or the most prominent kings - Odysseus, Achilles and Agamemnon (2.220-222), with a view to stirring up waves of trouble and mutinous laughter among the troops. Thersites' favourite targets are Achilles and Odysseus (τὼ γὰρ νεικείεσκε - 2.221), but in Book 2 he lampoons Agamemnon (νεικεών 'Αγαμέμνονα - 2.243; λέγ' ὀνείδεα - 2.222; νείκεε μύθῳ - 2.224).

Some have argued that Thersites is a rebel and an innovator, heroically speaking out for the people against the aristocratic leaders; or that he is a representative of "other voices" in the Iliad.[40] But the situation is quite the reverse. Thersites is an important figure precisely because he is part of the social mechanism which preserves the *status quo*. He is integral because he serves as the Achaeans' scapegoat - a repository for abuse and social discontent. As the scene in Iliad 2 shows, Thersites is the focal point of the *demos*; his mocking performance gives the troops an opportunity to vent their anger and resentment of the leaders as vicious laughter; but in the second stage of the process, the mockery, abuse and ridicule rebound on him. Odysseus easily redirects the rowdy laughter of the troops back against Thersites by humiliating him in front of all. In this way, social tensions and potential rebellions are contained and dispelled. Thersites remains the figure who both exudes and absorbs the community's criticism and abuse.[41] Thus, it never reaches the Achaean kings or threatens the social hierarchy. Thersites is no heroic revolutionary; he is merely a cog in the machinery which maintains the *kosmos* - the hierarchy.

The stereotyping of the blame poet reflects his function as a target and focus for all the abuse a community generates. Thersites is the worst of the Achaean warriors at Troy - αἴσχιστος[42] - a term the aesthetic and moral aspects of which cannot be separated out in Greek thought. The description of Thersites' hideous exterior (2.217-219), which follows

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[40]For example, Josserand 1977.

[41]See Thalmann (1988) p.14-26 on Thersites, scapegoats and social tensions.

[42] 2.216: [ἔμμεναι·]αἴσχιστος δὲ ἀνὴρ ὑπὸ Ἴλιον ἦλθε

closely upon his designation as αἴσχιστος, is a sign of his lowly and wretched character. Because he is αἴσχιστος - lowest of the low - Thersites can be publicly subjected to physical abuse and humiliation. Thersites gets the same treatment Odysseus gave the rabble, the men from the *demos*, to bring them to heel - different from the even-tempered words with which he addressed the kings. Clubbing him with the sceptre, in full view of the troops, Odysseus disfigures Thersites with a bloody weal, making him even more αἰσχρός - ugly, shameful and γελοῖον. The troops break out into mirth as they look on (2.264-270). The representation of Thersites in this scene thus explains a commonplace *topos* of Greek poetry: that shameful words come from the base. The poet who issues blame has the very same qualities which would objectify him as the victim of blame. This is because he himself is the ultimate recipient of the blame he dispenses.[43]

### *Achilles The Blame Poet*

The representation of Thersites suggests that when Achilles poses as a blame poet, we see him speak language quite inappropriate for a hero. It suggests that Achilles is misusing the language of blame. Achilles' violent attack on Agamemnon is shocking because it is so inappropriate, coming from another king. Achilles is not only a king, but the Achaeans' best fighter, who competes with others for the title "best of the Achaeans". It would not be κατὰ κόσμον for Odysseus to subject Achilles to the type of public abuse and disfigurement he inflicts on Thersites. Against Thersites' ungainly demeanour, Achilles has the κάλον εἶδος of which he boasts to Lycaon in Book 21 (21.108). Thus, when he adopts the stance and the language of a blame poet, he adopts an incongruous pose.[44]

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[43]Cf. the way in the Theogony poets are characterised as ποιμένες ἄγραυλοι, κάκ' ἐλέγχεα, γαστέρες οἶον - 26, and Aristotle's statement in the Poetics that blame is not a noble genre, unheroic and lowly compared with encomia.

[44]The phrase ἄριστος Ἀχαιῶν - "the best of the Achaeans" is used of Achilles at points in the narrative when he is dishonoured by Agamenon (Nagy 1979 p.26). At 1.91, Achilles jeers at Agamemnon's boast that *he* is "best of the Achaeans". Nagy argues (1979 pp.23-61) that it is an overall theme of the Iliad that Achilles is "best of the Achaeans". This makes the incongruous juxtaposition of Achilles and Thersites -

But Achilles is assuming the role of a Thersites to make an emphatic statement. Achilles' violent objection to the workings of Achaean society, the objection that sets the plot of the Iliad in motion, is that his *timê* , his status amongst the Achaeans, is dishonoured and abused. In fact, he complains of being treated as if he held no position in the community at all, like a person without τιμή. Twice, Achilles alleges Agamemnon has dealt with him as if he were an "an alien owed no honour". In Book 9, Achilles tells Aias that his heart swells with anger when he remembers how Agamemnon dishonoured him ὡς εἴ τιν' ἀτίμητον μετανάστην (9.648). Again in 16, he tells Patroklos: "Agamemnon son of Atreus took the girl from my arms as though I were an alien without *timê* - ὡς εἴ τιν' ἀτίμητον μετανάστην (16.58-59). Therefore, Achilles responds by posing as a social non-entity and, true to the type, hurling invective at the community from which he received the abuse.

### *Uncloaked Blame*

Achilles' love of *eris* makes him a stickler for open talk. He declares that he himself will speak out bluntly - ἀπηλεγέως[45] ἀποειπεῖν (9.309) - in response to the embassy of Book 9; furthermore, he says that he wants his own reply to be reported to Agamemnon "openly" - ἀμφαδόν (9.370; cf. 9.422: ἀγγελίην ἀπόφασθε ); he "hates like the Gates of Hades that man who says one thing, concealing, the while, another in his heart" (313: ὅς χ' ἕτερον **μὲν κεύθῃ ἐνὶ φρεσίν**, ἄλλο δὲ εἴπῃ). Echoing his own mother's words to him in Book 1, he urges Patroklos: "Tell me and share it; don't bury it in your heart" - ἐξαύδα, **μὴ κεῦθε νόῳ**, ἵνα εἴδομεν ἄμφω (16.19 = Thetis' words to Achilles at 1.363; compare Thetis at 18.74: ἐξαύδα, **μὴ κεῦθε** · ).

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described at 2.216 as "worst of the Achaeans" - particularly pointed. The "best of the Achaeans" is modelling his language on that of the "worst of the Achaeans".

[45]Griffin 1976 p.52 comments on this phrase, noting that only Achilles in the Iliad talks of speaking "bluntly, straight out".

Achilles apparently is as good as his word. This is evident from the time of Calchas' speech in Book 1. Calchas stands to speak in the first assembly, upon Achilles' suggestion that a seer or priest (μάντιν.....ἢ ἱερῆα - 62) be consulted about Apollo's plague. Obliquely, he alludes to his fear of Agamemnon; he will explain Apollo's wrath only on condition that Achilles defend him from the man who will become incensed at his interpretation. He speaks generally: "A king has the advantage, when he rails at a humbler man" (80: κρείσσων γὰρ βασιλεύς, ὅτε χώσεται ἀνδρὶ χέρηϊ ), and does not name Agamemnon openly: "For I think I will be vexing a powerful man who reigns over all the Argives, whom the Achaeans heed" (78-79: ἦ γὰρ ὀΐομαι ἄνδρα χολωσέμεν, ὃς μέγα πάντων / Ἀργείων κρατέει καί οἱ πείθονται Ἀχαιοί ). His speech closes with an abrupt transition from the general: an angry king "can digest his wrath for the time being, but will continue to foster it inside him until fulfills it" (81-83: εἴ περ γὰρ τε χόλον γε καὶ αὐτῆμαρ καταπέψῃ, / ἀλλά τε καὶ μετόπισθεν ἔχει κότον, ὄφρα τελέσσῃ / ἐν στήθεσσιν ἑοῖσι), to the immediate and particular: "Decide whether you will protect me": σὺ δὲ φράσαι εἴ με σαώσεις (83). But Achilles will have none of this defensive vagueness: "No-one will lay heavy hands on you by the hollow ships, **not even if the person you mean** is Agamemnon, who now boasts of being the best of the Achaeans" (οὐδ' ἢν Ἀγαμέμνονα εἴπῃς - 90).

But it is Agamemnon himself whom Achilles despises most of all for his evasive tactics. Accusing Agamemnon of practising stealthy deception - κλέπτε νόῳ (1.131); ἐξαπάφοιτ' ἐπέεσσιν (9.376), he twice calls him "cloaked in shamelessness" - ἀναιδείην ἐπιειμένε (1.149); ἀναιδείην ἐπιειμένος (9.371).[46] At 9. 371-372 he warns that Agamemnon, "cloaked in shamelessness" as he is, might in future try to deceive (ἐξαπατήσειν - 371) others.[47] A nice detail in the poet's characterisation of Achilles' and

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[46]Cf. 1.158: ὦ μέγ' ἀναιδές.

[47]Lohmann (1970), in a discussion of this section and Achilles' complaint, notes that all Achilles' later speeches to Agamemnon go unanswered. Agamemnon does not address Achilles, but refers to him in the third person. Lohmann compares Agamemnon's habit in 9 of not using Achilles' name, but calling him τοῦτον (pp.76-77).

Agamemnon's interaction comes at 19.83, when Agamemnon, having decided to apologise to Achilles, says that he will "*reveal* his thought to him" - Πηλεΐδῃ μὲν ἐγὼν **ἐνδείξομαι**.[48]

Achilles' preference for open talk is consistent with his affinity for blame, even though he is more direct even than Thersites. Pindar, on the other hand, addresses his praise poems to a narrow audience of "the wise".[49] Praise is addressed to a select circle; invective is an *exposé* ; it should be public, open to all.

### *Achilles and Hektor*

Therefore, while Hektor inhabits a closed conversational world,[50] Achilles craves open talk, and quarrelsome interaction with others. There are many superficial features of Achilles' style, associated with his affinity for strife and blame, which make his conversation of an antithetical character to Hektor's. While Hektor imagines projected scenes of *kleos*, and *epainos*, and allows his daydreams to abstract him from his talks with others, Achilles revels in *oneidos* ; his chacterisation as a lover of *eris* means that he is conversationally interactive: explosive, and an inciter and initiator of quarrels.[51] Hektor cannot make himself heard or attack other people effectively with his speeches; Achilles attacks, antagonises and provokes others only too well.

As against Hektor's perfectly balanced, seemingly highly rehearsed phrases, Achilles' are full of anacolouthon, suggestive of spontaneous, *extempore* speaking (19.324-325:ὁ δ' ἀλλοδαπῷ ἐνὶ δήμῳ / εἵνεκα ῥιγεδανῆς Ἑλένης Τρωσὶν **πολεμίζω**·).[52]

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[48]Edwards 1991 p.245 notes that ἐνδείξομαι is a *hapax* in Homer, but compares Herodotus 8.141: ἐνδεικνύμενοι τοῖσι Λακεδαιμονίοισι τὴν ἑωυτῶν γνώμην.

[49]Cf. Olympian 2.85: φωνάεντα συνετοῖσιν and Pythian 5.107: ἐπαινέοντι συνετοί. For a discussion of these passages see Nagy (1979) p.239, who also discusses the *ainos* in the Works and Days as a passage which "encodes" a message for kings - the *phroneontes* (202).

[50]Chapter 3 (pp.135-138).

[51]Edwards 1991 p.157 notes Achilles' propensity for interruption, and cites the bT scholiast at 1.292 on the word ὑποβλήδην - used of Achilles during the quarrel with Agamemnon: "It is a sign of anger not to tolerate a detailed accusation.

[52]Edwards 1991 p.157 notes other examples of anacolouthon in Achilles' speeches at 1.234ff. and 18.181ff. He also comments (p.154) on the way Achilles tends to use long successions of subjunctive clauses and enjambment.

Hektor is often impervious to what even his nearest and dearest say to him.[53] But Achilles is always affected by others' remarks. On a number of occasions, Iris is sent from Zeus to give Hektor instructions. Hektor never speaks in response to her suggestions. But when Athena appears to stay Achilles' hand from killing Agamemnon, Achilles, who does not balk at the terrifying flashing of her eyes (δεινὼ δέ οἱ ὄσσε φάανθεν - 1.200), gets his word in *before* she addresses him ( τίπτ' αὖτ' αἰγιόχοιο Διὸς τέκος, εἰλήλουθας - 1.201), and volunteers his own verdict on the situation, not giving her the chance to instruct him first: ἀλλ' ἔκ τοι ἐρέω (1.204)[54] Achilles never responds to what others say with silence.[55] He always has a answer, a trait which sometimes seems to rebound on him in startling ways: Hektor can playfully address a flyting-speech to his horses with no consequence save incurring the wrath of Hera (8.184-207). But when Achilles addresses his horses, they talk back (19.399-423).[56]

While Hektor perceives nothing if not his own projected *kleos* , Achilles acts as though he received only abuse from his fellow Achaeans - although the other Achaeans, as distinct from Agamemnon, honour him with *timê* above all the rest, as Aias asserts in Book 9 (631: ἐτίομεν ἔξοχον ἄλλων ). Achilles' misperception is antithetical to Hektor's. He cannot, or will not, hear the praise which others give him. His interactive and quarrelsome style reflects this, just as Hektor's solipsistic detachment insulates him from criticism.

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[53]Chapter 3 (p.135).

[54]Edwards 1991 pp.180-181 notes that this is unlike the usual visit type-scene, in which it is conventional to see what the visitor has to say first.

[55] Contrast, as specific examples, Hektor with Andromache against Achilles and Patroklos, and Athena and Achilles in Book 1 with Hektor and Iris (two examples here). Achilles tends to speak first in encounters. Like Agamemnon, his horses respond to Achilles by telling him: "We are not to blame" - οὐδέ τοι ἡμεῖς αἴτιοι (19.409-410).

[56]Edwards 1991 p.282 notes that Antilokhos also addresses his horses, without getting a response, at 23.401-417.

### *Persona and Front*

Achilles' interactive conversational behaviour makes us particularly aware of the importance of "front" in a shame culture. Achilles' public and private *personae* can look very different. With Patroklos, he adopts the tender tones in which Thetis addresses him (16.19); - very unlike his violent protests in the first assembly. And before the embassy arrives in Book 9, when he is alone with Patroklos, we catch sight of Achilles indulging in poetry which is quite the reverse of the blame and insults he dispenses in front of the whole army; he is singing the *klea andrôn*, accompanying himself on an inlaid lyre (9.186-189).

The poet goes to some lengths to contrast Achilles' talk and behaviour with intimates in private, with the verbal performances he makes in public. This contributes to Achilles' characterisation as a hero who deliberately plays incongruous or innovative roles, and is adept at projecting different *personae*. Presenting himself as a blame poet is one example of this; when alone, his enjoyment of heroic songs, the *klea andrôn*, contrasts with the blame poet's *persona* he habitually deploys in public. In the sections which follow, I demonstrate that Achilles at other times projects the *persona* of the wisdom poet or instructor.[57]

### *Achilles' Deeds and Days*

I have been tracing in Achilles' linguistic behaviour a certain versatility, and an ability to distance himself from the members of his own community by adopting poetic *personae* which are inappropriate to his status. The implication of Achilles' anomalous use of language in these cases seems to be that Achilles himself construes the *personae* he assumes as accurately reflecting the status, that is, the *timê* , which the other Achaeans have

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[57] For a comparison of blame poetry and wisdom poetry, see Puelma 1972. There is some overlap between the two; like Thersites (and Achilles) in the Iliad, the poet of the Works and Days sees it as his task to criticise and admonish the kings. The difference is that wisdom poetry does not rely on violent and open blame; the poet uses techniques like the *ainos* or animal fable, which deflects and cloaks his criticism. See Nagy (1979) pp.239-240.

assigned to him. The role of the blame poet is only one of the incongruous *personae* adopted by Achilles in the Iliad. In addition to poetry of blame, we also find in Achilles' language many of the trademarks of a wisdom poet, or instructor. Achilles is frequently to be found making sententious remarks like the one at 1.218; "He who listens to the gods is heard by them" (ὅς κε θεοῖς ἐπιπείθηται, μάλα τ'ἔκλυον αὐτοῦ ). And Achilles' marked affinity for strife - *eris* - has a formal counterpart in "Hesiod's" recognition of good *eris* - competition and struggle - as the backbone of a healthy society (Works and Days 17-26).[58]

Very early on in the poem, Achilles makes an objection to the way τιμή is apportioned amongst the Achaeans: the one who fights hardest (Achilles himself) does not get the greatest remuneration in war spoils. Instead, Agamemnon the insatiable -φιλοκτεανώτατε -, gets the lion's share, while Achilles is just made weary by making war. In the first assembly he tells the gathering: I don't want to stay here ἄτιμος (1.171); I grow tired from fighting (κάμω πολεμίζων - 1.168); the division of spoils is unequal in comparison with the labour each man has expended (1.161-171). But in the Works and Days, the advisory voice of "Hesiod" dictates that compensation in return for work (this time, agricultural work, not war) will be proportionate. Achilles is criticising Agamemnon because amongst the Achaeans, the relationship between work and material rewards is not as "Hesiod" says it should be.

The community suffers when kings fleece their subjects and take the largest share. "Hesiod" in the Works and Days has some words on the social damage done by those who, like Perses, run to the kings with gifts and flattering words (Works and Days; 37-41; 263-264). This theme is a favourite of Achilles' too. When Achilles blames Agamemnon, he calls him a "gift-devouring king" - a δημοβόρος βασιλεύς. And he warns Phoenix not to confound him by weeping and wailing, in order to gratify "Agamemnon the hero": Ἀτρεΐδη

[58]There are, however, two types of strife. The *eris* Achilles represents is not the "good strife" of the Works and Days , but war and fighting - what Hesiod calls "cruel strife". This difference will be explored below (p.166).

ἥρωϊ φέρων χάριν (9.613). Compare "Hesiod" when he waxes critical of the βασιλῆς...../δωροφάγοι (Works and Days 264; cf. 39). Achilles is taking up a theme from Greek wisdom poetry and showing that the moral is perverted amongst the community of the Achaeans.

Achilles' criticism continues in the same Works and Days-style vein in Book 9. Accordng to Hesiod in the Works and Days , "There's no shame in working; idleness is shameful" - ἔργον δ'οὐδὲν ὄνειδος, ἀεργίη τ' ὄνειδος (311). "Hesiod's" poem exalts work: the man who works hard is soon envied by the lazy drone - the ἀεργὸς (Works and Days 311-312: εἰ δέ κε ἐργάχῃ, τάχα σε ζηλῶσει ἀεργὸς πλουτεῦντα· ). In Iliad 9, Achilles once again finds fault - not so much, this time, with the Achaeans *per se*; he is now thinking more generally of the whole situation at Troy: "The lazy drone and the man who labours hard both die - there is no difference" κάτθαν' ὁμῶς ὅ τ' ἀεργὸς ἀνὴρ ὅ τε πολλὰ ἐοργώς. - (320), and:"The man who makes war and the one who stays out of the battle both get the same share: ἴση μοῖρα μένοντι καὶ εἰ μάλα τις πολεμίζοι - (9.318). In war, drones and industrious warriors get the same portion - μοῖρα - and work does not guarantee βίος or life: the fighter and the lazy man both die.[59]

In this passage of Book 9, Achilles is putting the ethic of agricultural instruction poetry, the themes of which are familiar to us from poems like the Works and Days , to an odd use.[60] "Hesiod's" poem propagates the socially valuable truth that hard work brings "life" - βίος - that is, rewards in the shape of "livelihood, sustenance". βίος as it is used in that poem, refers to the grain which is seasonably piled up plentifully in the barn of the industrious harvester: ...ὡραῖος, γὸν γαῖα φέρει, Δημήτερος ἀκτήν (WD 31-32). In poetry of the Works and Days type, work brings about βίος in the sense of food, sustenance for life (306-307: σοὶ δ ἔργα φίλ ἔστω, μέτρια κοσμεῖν, / ὥς κέ τοι ὡραίου βιότου πλήθωσι καλιαί etc.).

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[59]ἄεργος appears in Griffin's (Griffin 1976) list of words which are used in the Iliad only by Achilles. I suggest that the term was probably instantly recognisable to a contemporary audience as Hesiodic. Achilles' "agricultural" style would consequently stand out quite obviously.

[60]On the agricultural wisdom poetry of cultures other than Greece, see West 1978 pp.5ff.

You should work because you need to worry about your livelihood (μελετᾷς βίου - 316). If you work, βίος - grain - will be laid up for you within - ἔνδον 31-32). βίος refers to food, the substantial grain produced. But when Achilles complains that at Troy, ἔργον does not bring βίος, βίος - not explicitly mentioned here - is the tacit contrary of death. At 410-416, where he says that staying at Troy will bring on an early death for him, "life" - ψυχή - has to do with mortality, not with material sustenance; a preoccupation with mortality emerges in Achilles' words at 406-409: ἀνδρὸς τε ψυχὴ πάλιν ἐλθειν οὔτε λεϊστὴ / οὔθ ἑλετή. In this heroic context, however, the term βίος has been replaced by the concept of the soul: cf. ψυχὴν παραβαλλόμενος (9.322).

The case of βίος shows how Achilles' application of the diction and themes of the Works and Days to the context of the Trojan War is incongruous and forced. In the different contexts of war and agriculture, the term has different referents. But we should take account of the poetic aspect too. In heroic poetry, which takes topics like the Trojan War as its subject-matter, the idea of "life" will have different associations from those it has in non-heroic, agricultural poetry.[61] The same goes for the other term Achilles uses, ἔργον. Achilles is identifying ἔργον with πολεμίζειν. In the Works and Days it means agricultural labour; but for Achilles, ἔργον means making war. As Phoenix reminds Achilles, Peleus sent him to Troy to instruct Achilles and make him into a "speaker of words and a performer of *deeds* " (9.443: μύθων τε ῥητῆρ' ἔμμεναι πρηκτῆρα τε **ἔργων**) - where ἔργα refers to warlike deeds.

Finally, there is the case of *eris*. Though he term *eris* does not appear in Achilles' speeches in Book 9, his Works and Days language befits his association with strife. In the language of Achilles and in the language of the Works and Days there is a direct connection between ἔργον and ἔρις. A passage in the Works and Days (11-26) sets out an account of the two types of strife (13;15) which supposedly permeate human relations. The strife of

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[61]For an account of the distinction between these types of poetry, see Rosen (1990).

war is ἐπιμωμητή and σχετλίη - blameworthy and cruel. But there is a good version of strife - a competitive spirit amongst labourers. This good strife is the main subject-matter of "Hesiod's" poem. It is associated with agricultural ἔργα. The second type of strife - war (πολεμίζειν) is cruel and bad. Cruel strife is not discussed beyond its definition in this passage; the subject is not germane to the theme of the Works and Days. Hesiod does not refer to this cruel strife when he talks about ἔργον. But Achilles does. In fact, Achilles persists in demanding from *cruel* strife the kinds of rewards "Hesiod" says can be got from good strife - "life", and material recompense.[62] In other words, Achilles borrows themes from the instructional poem's account of good strife, and talks as if they should apply to cruel strife too. Achilles is here distorting the terms and the *ethos* of the instructional genre to try and make them fit his situation in the context of the war at Troy. Or, taking into account the poetics of the situation, he distorts the themes and diction of non-heroic, agricultural wisdom poetry, incongruously grafting them to the context of heroic, epic poetry.

The incongruity of the distorted language mirrors the incongruity of Achilles' position amongst the Achaeans at Troy - albeit the incongruity, like the language, may be assumed and self-imposed. In other words, Achilles' use of a Hesiodic style is as incongruous as his blame poet pose. And in addition to the inappropriateness of the performative context, his assumption of the *persona* of an agricultural wisdom poet is equally ill-befitting of his own τιμή amongst the Achaeans. Like the blame poet's abuse, the Hesiodic advice and criticisms come from a person of relatively low social standing. The tone of the Works and Days poet is not that of one king admonshing an equal.[63] In

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[62]Works and Days 11-24: ἀγαθὴ δ "Ερις ἥδε βροτοῖσιν - one kind of eris is good; but compare 14-15: ἣ μὲν γὰρ πόλεμον τε κακὸν καὶ δῆριν ὀφέλλει, / σχετλίη on cruel strife.

[63]The incongruity of what Achilles is doing is brought out well if we consider Ralph Rosen's argument that the Nautilia passage of the Works and Days (618-194) introductes a programmatic distinction between heroic poetry (poetry of the sea - Homeric poetry), and non-heroic, agricultural poetry - poetry of the same type as the Works and Days itself (Rosen 1990). Rosen's differentiation, in these terms, of Homeric from Hesiodic poetry develops Nagy's view (Nagy 1982 p.66) of the programmatic nature of the Nautilia. In

some places, "Hesiod" issues issues warnings from the humble and base to the prosperous and fortunate; in others, he gives advice to poor craftsmen and farmers, speaking as one of them.[64] This is a paradoxical pose for the poet whose *kleos* the Iliad embodies.

Adam Parry was the first to claim that there was something ill-fitting or inappropriate about Achilles use of language in the Iliad.[65] He thought that speaking formulaic language confined one to the expression of the formulaic, heroic values to which heroic language refers, but that Achilles succeeded in driving a wedge between such language and its referents - by asking questions without answers, and by making demands which could not be met, in terms of the heroic code. Adam Parry thought that Achilles was misusing heroic language. But I think the incongruity lies in Achilles' misuse of *non-heroic* language. Arguing that he is not treated as a hero, he abandons heroic language for the abuse of the wretched, and the agricultural advice of the Hesiodic tradition.

### *Parables and Paradeigmata*

Achilles misuses genre. He does not speak as a young hero should. He shrieks at Agamemnon like the worst of the Achaeans; he gives advice from a farmer's perspective about the fighting at Troy. He continues this kind of performance right up to the end of the poem. Achilles, when he talks to Priam in Book 24, again talks in a Hesiodic, instructional style. When he tells Priam the tale of Niobe in Book 24 (24.602-620), he presents the myth as a mythological paradigm.[66] Priam should imitate Niobe's decision to eat, after the

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other words, Achilles would be attempting to do violence to the structure of heroic ethics by fitting it into the talk of the ethics represented in non-heroic texts like the Works and Days.

[64]The genre of instruction should, I think be subdivided; in addition to texts which share the themes of the Works and Days, and seem to be spoken in the *persona* of a peasant farmer, there are "heroic" examples of instructional poetry, in the form of advice from kings to their princely sons. The form and the style of the poetry, however (excluding the themes and content) remain the same across the whole genre. See Martin 1984.

[65]Parry (1956).

[66]See Willcock 1964 for a description of the type. A speaker will shape the material of the myth which forms the basis of the paradigm so that it reflects or resembles a present situation, and present the listener with an example he or she should follow. At other places in the narrative, older men attempt to teach Achilles by presenting him with mythological *paradeigmata*, telling him tales which present him with the

burial of her dead children. Niobe's tale is very reminiscent of those in the Hesiodic text, the Catalogue of Women, and the parable about the *pithoi* of Zeus (24.527-548) is thematically reminscent of the Pandora story told in both the Theogony and the Works and Days. In the first case, Achilles recasts the comparison Priam urged between himself and Peleus in the terms of a paradigm: Zeus has two *pithoi* , from which he dispenses boons and troubles respectively: δοιοὶ γάρ τε πίθοι κατακείαται ἐν Διὸς οὔδει / δώρων οἷα δίδωσι, κακῶν, ἕτερος δὲ ἐάων (24.535-537). The gods gave Peleus ἀγλαὰ δῶρα - they made him a king and gave him much wealth and a goddess wife (24.535-537); but he only had one son: ἀλλ' ἕνα παῖδα τέκεν παναώριον (24.540). Priam had both wealth and sons, but his city is beset by battles in which his sons get killed (αἰεί τοι περὶ ἄστυ μάχαι τ'ἀνδροκτασίαι - 24.548); more trouble will come on top of what he already suffers (24.551: πρὶν καὶ κακὸν ἄλλο πάθῃσθα). All three *paradeigmata* are the kind of tale which occurs in wisdom poetry; the last two offer a theogonic explanation of the vagaries of the human condition.

The incongruity is accentuated in this case by the fact that Achilles is reversing the relationship between himself and Priam as the rest of the scene presents it. The most frequently attested form of presentation for the precepts of wisdom poetry, cross-culturally, is as the advice of a father to his son.[67] In the exchange in Book 24 it is heavily implied that the relationship between Priam and Achilles is like that of father to son. When Priam first enters and supplicates Achilles, he urges him to consider he and Achilles' own father Peleus are alike "on the bitter threshold of old age". Yet Achilles reverses the model when

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example of heroes past. Phoenix, sent Troy by Peleus as Achilles' instructor, tells Achilles the story of Meleager, hoping Achilles will follow Meleager's example, and return to battle at the persuasion of his friends. Nestor casts his younger self as central hero in the *exemplum* he intends for Achilles ears in Book 11 - he tells an autobiographical tale about his youthful heroic exploits during the cattle raids between Pylos and Elis, designed to spark in Achilles the desire for emulation (11.670-762). Pedrick (1983) analyses the way in which Patroklos fails to pass on Nestor's *paradeigma* - designed by Nestor to remind the angry young Achilles of his responsibilities - to his friend. Instead, Paroklos attempts his own *aristeia*, with terrible consequences.

[67]See Martin 1984; also West 1978 pp.5;7;16.

he tries to teach Priam with mythological paradigms, assuming for himself the role of father, and casting Priam in the role of son.[68]

### *Achilles and Patroklos*

The reversal of the teacher-pupil model also colours Achilles' exchanges with his *hetairos* Patroklos, to whom he talks as though he, and not Patroklos, were the older and the more authoritative of the pair - a state of affairs which contradicts what Nestor relates in Book 11. Nestor reminds Patroklos that Peleus sent him to Troy to give Achilles advice, and to instruct - σημαίνειν - him. Peleus, Nestor says, told Patroklos at the time: "you are older - πρεσβύτερος - than Achilles; instruct him and speak words of stout advice to him" (ἀλλ' ἐῦ οἱ φάσθαι πυκινὸν ἔπος ἠδ' ὑποθέσθαι / καί οἱ σημαίνειν - 11.788-789).

Once again, Achilles turns the teacher-pupil relationship on its head. Peleus expected Patroklos to teach and instruct - σημαίνειν - Achilles - which would be the conventional model, given Patroklos' superiority in years. Instead, Achilles instructs and directs Patroklos. In Book 9, Achilles sits and sings songs from the *klea andrôn*, accompanying himself on his lyre. Patroklos stands silently by, waiting; (Πάτροκλος δέ οἱ οἶος ἐναντίος ἧστο **σιωπῇ** - 9.190). Five hundred lines later, when the lengthy emotional exchanges of the embassy scene have come to an end, Patroklos, who has uttered not a word during all the proceedings, is still ready and waiting to receive Achilles' silent signal; Achilles raises an eyebrow to indicate that Patroklos should now pile up a thick bed for Phoenix (Ἦ καὶ Πατρόκλῳ ὅ γ' ἐπ' Ὀφρύσι νεῦσε **σιωπῇ** / Φοίνικι στορέσαι πυκινὸν λέχος - 9.620-621). These silent gestures and movements between Achilles and Patroklos form a backdrop to the embassy scene. The fact that the exchanges can be made in silence is

[68]While I maintain that Achilles' use of *paradeigmata* is a misuse and an inversion, Held 1987, who notices that the speeches of Phoenix in Book 9, Agamemnon in Book 19 and Achilles in Book 24 are alike in that all three contain a parable in addition to a paradigm, thinks that Achilles has simply become more mature by the end of the poem, and is thus able to present others with paradigms of the kind which have previously been presented to him. However, I think the case can be made that Achilles' use of the parable and paradigm here is part of a consistent pattern of reversing the role models of teacher and pupil, father and son, in his exchanges with others.

significant: the deep understanding between the two means that communication can operate on a minimum of signs. It signals to an audience that they should regard this kind of exchange as habitual between the two heroes. On several other occasions, the formula "And Patroklos obeyed his dear *hetairos* (φίλῳ ἐπεπείθετ' ἑταίρῳ - 1.345;[69] 9.205;[70] 11.616[71]) occurs. [72]

Sending Patroklos as Achilles' teacher and advisor, Peleus sends him with the implication that he will in some ways stand in for Achilles' father, Peleus himself. By instructing Patroklos, Achilles inverts the model as he does with Priam, and behaves as though he were the elder of the two, analogous to the father rather than the son. Achilles' parental stance is illustrated in Book 16, with an added dimension. When Patroklos comes and stands before Achilles, weeping "like a black-watered spring", Achilles likens his *hetairos* to a little girl, and himself not to a father, but to the small girl's mother (16.7-11).[73] In this context, he speaks to Patroklos exactly the same words his own mother addresses to him in Book 1. The different way in which this encounter is nuanced enhances further an audience's impression of Achilles' ability to play subversively with different styles of speech - Achilles talks here as a mother talks to a child.

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[69]Achilles tells Patroklos to bring Briseis out of the hut and give her over to the heralds.

[70]Achilles tells Patroklos to give the members of the embassy something to drink.

[71]Achilles sends Patroklos to ask Nestor who it is who has just come wounded from the war.

[72]In Book 1 Agammenon complains that Achilles is always issuing instructions to everyone (1.287-289: ἀλλ ὅδ ἀνὴρ ἐθέλει περὶ πάντων ἔμμεναι ἄλλων, / πάντων μὲν κρατέειν ἐθέλει, πάντεσσι δ ἀνάσσειν / πᾶσι δὲ σημαίνειν, ἅ τιν οὐ πείσεθαι οἴω.) - perhaps in response to Achilles' "wisdom" in exposing Agamemnon as a "gift-devouring" king (1.231) of the kind Hesiod warns and criticises in the Works and Days.

[73]Compare 9.323-327, where Achilles compares himself to a weak mother bird. Edwards (1991 ad loc.) notes that the parent-child theme often crops up in similes illustrating the relationship between Achilles and Patroklos. He also compares the parallel of Gilgamesh and Enkidu.

### *Fathers and Sons*

To return to Achilles' paternal, as opposed to maternal, style, Achilles' *persona* as a teacher/father is a front.[74] He puts up this front in situations where his *timê* is contested, and ones in which people try to persuade him by employing emotional strategies. In Achilles' case, all these situations have to do with paternity. Agamemnon and Odysseus compete with Achilles for *timê* with words and actions which imply that Achilles is a disinherited son without a father. Phoenix and Priam both resort to emotional strategies. Phoenix tells Achilles that he regards him as his own son, the son he can never have. Priam reminds Achilles of Peleus, and arouses Achilles' grief for Peleus. In one way or another, all four of these characters attempt to pose as Achilles' substitute father. In short, Achilles adopts the *persona* of a father when talking with a particular group of characters - potential "father-figures". I suggest that when Achilles assumes the *persona* of a wisdom poet, teacher and father, it is as a symbolic form of resistance to their common strategy. When Achilles talks to these characters, he practises a technique of inversion; he turns the conventions of language upside down in a symbolic reversal of the roles and status of the characters involved.[75] In the four sections which follow, I shall set out the various ways in which four characters in the poem make attempts at persuading Achilles which involve standing in for Peleus.

#### *1. Odysseus*

Odysseus is the first member of the embassy of Book 9 to try to persuade Achilles to be reconciled with Achilles and fight. His tactics are covert. He starts out by addressing

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[74]For the concept of "front", see Goffman 1959.

[75]Finlay (1980) discusses the role of Patroklos as Achilles' father-figure. He notes that Achilles inverts the relationship at certain places in the poem. For example, at 23.221-225 Achilles laments Patroklos "as a father mourns as he burns the bones of his son" (p.273), and at 24.511-512 Achilles weeps "now for his own father, now again for Patroklos" (p.273). Finlay interprets these inversions as coming from Achilles' "recognition of the disorderly nature of Patroklos' death". He does not consider the issues of status and inheritance, which are bound up with the theme of paternity, and which I shall be arguing are themes highly relevant to the theme of Achilles and Peleus in the Iliad.

Achilles as one would a colleague and an equal: ὦ πέπον. But he proceeds to repeat the injunction Peleus - he alleges - made to Achilles before the latter left for Troy: curb your aggression (κάρτος) , your temper (μεγαλήτορα θυμὸν) and leave off quarrelling (ἔρις) ; friendliness (φιλοφροσύνη) is better, and that way you will get more τιμή (9.252-259).[76] Repeating Peleus' words as direct speech, Odysseus is in effect impersonating Achilles' father. Odysseus prefaces the instructions he alleges Peleus gave Achilles with "τέκνον ἐμόν"[77] - quite different from the ὦ πέπον of 9.252. Standing in for his father in this way, Odysseus presents himself as someone fit to give Achilles fatherly advice. Gently reproaching him for having forgotten his father's instructions (ὣς ἐπέτελλ' ὁ γέρων, σὺ δὲ λῆθεαι - 259), he insults Achilles by repeating a speech he attributes to Peleus, and by addressing Achilles τέκνον ἐμόν (9.254), where before he had called him "πέπον". The overall effect is that Odysseus does not talk to Achilles as to an equal, but as a father talks to a child. This strategy continues when he passes on to the subject of the gifts of appeasement Agamemnon offers. Adopting the tone of an adult coaxing a recalcitrant child, Odysseus says to Achilles: "If you will listen, I will tell you about all the gifts Agamemnon has promised": εἰ δὲ σὺ μέν μεύ ἄκουσον, ἐγὼ δέ κέ τοι καταλέξω / ὅσσα τοι ἐν κλισίῃσιν ὑπέσχετο δῶρ' Ἀγαμέμνων· (262-263). Odysseus' stance is patronising and insulting.

### *2. Agamemnon*

Agamemnon tries to bribe Achilles by offering him a *de facto* adoption. He says that he will give Achilles *timê* equal to that of his own son, Orestes (9.284 : τίσει δέ σε ἶσον Ὀρέστῃ). He will give Achilles one of his daughters in marriage (286-289), making Achilles his son-in-law: γαμβρός κέν μοι ἔοι (9.142). In addition, Agamemnon offers to make Achilles king of seven cities. Just so, Peleus gave Phoenix a kingdom in Phthia, letting

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[76] 9.257: λῃγέμεναι δ'ἔριδος κακμχήνον.
[77] 9.254

him rule over the Dolopians (9.483-484: καί μ' ἀφνειὸν ἔθηκε, πολὺν δέ μοι ὤπασε λαόν· / ναῖον δ' ἐσχατιὴν Φθίης, Δολόπεσσιν ἀνάσσων). The context is Phoenix's account of how Peleus adopted him "and cared for him as a father cares for a cherished only son, rearing him in luxury": καί μ' ἐφίλησ' ὡς εἴ τε πατὴρ, ὃν παῖδα φιλήσῃ / μοῦνον τηλύγετον, πολλοῖσιν ἐπὶ κτεάτεσσι (9.481-482). Similarly, Agamemnon offers to care for Achilles as for Orestes (his only son) who is also referred to as τηλύγετος - "cherished", and is also being reared in luxury - ὅς οἱ τηλύγετος τρέφεται θαλίῃ ἔνι πολλῇ (9.285).

Achilles' violent refusal indicates that he understands Agamemnon's offer as a threat to his *timê*. Specifically, he picks up on the implication that he has no country, no inheritance and no father of his own. Why, for example, should Agamemnon offer his daughter to Achilles without bride-gifts - ἀνάεδνον (9.146),[78] if not to imply that Achilles does not have the material wherewithal to woo a chieftain's daughter ? Insisting that he will not marry Agamemnon's daughter (388-391), he declares his intention to return to Phthia, where his real father Peleus will find him a bride, and both of them will enjoy Peleus' possessions (394-400). The essence of his refusal is that he has his own country, father and inheritance. He does not need to be received by Agamemnon as a son.

### *1. Priam*

In Book 24 Priam steals unseen into the enemy Greek camp; Hermes lets him into the hut of Achilles, who is still harbouring the body of Hektor. Priam comes close to Achilles, grasps his knees and kisses his "man-slaughtering hands" - hands which have destroyed so many of Priam's own sons (τοὺς δ'ἔλαθ' εἰσελθὼν Πρίαμος μέγας, ἄγχι δ' ἄρα στὰς / χερσὶν Ἀχιλλῆος λάβε γούνατα καὶ κύσε χεῖρας / δεινὰς ἀνδροφόνους, αἳ οἱ πολέας κτάνον υἱας - 24.477-479) . The others present exchange shocked glances; Achilles stares at Priam in astonishment and horror (θάμβος δ'ἔχει εἰσορόωντας, /ὣς Ἀχιλεὺς θάμβησεν ἰδὼν Πρίαμον

[78]For discussion of whether this refers to the practice of bride-gifts, dowry or indirect dowry, see Snodgrass (1974).

θεοειδέα· θάμβησαν δὲ καὶ ἄλλοι, ἐς ἀλλήλους δὲ ἴδοντο - 24.482-484). Priam now tells Achilles: "Remember your father. He is like me, on the bitter threshold of old age" (μνῆσαι πατρὸς σοῖο, θεοῖς ἐπιείκελ' Ἀχιλλεῦ / τηλίκου ὡς περ ἐγών, ὀλοῷ ἐπὶ γήραος οὐδῷ - 24.486-487). Priam's speech arouses in Achilles the desire to mourn his father (πατρὸς ὑφ' ἵμερον ὦρσε γόοιο - 24.507). The two of them bewail their dead together; the sound of their mourning rises to the roof (τῶν δὲ στοναχὴ κατὰ δώματ' ὀρώρει - 24.512). Priam's unexpected entrance and reference to Peleus instantly provoke Achilles to join Priam in mourning.

For a while, Priam's strategy seems to succeed. Priam and Achilles gaze admiringly on one another, and listen to each other's words with pleasure: ἦ τοι Δαρδανίδηςκ Πρίαμος θαύμαζ ' Ἀχιλῆα, / ὅσσος ἔην οἷος τε· θεοῖσι γὰρ ἄντα ἐῴκει· / αὐτὰρ ὁ Δαρδανίδην Πρίαμον θαύμαζεν Ἀχιλλεύς, / εἰσορόων ὄψιν τ' ἀγαθὴν καὶ μῦθον ἀκούων. /αὐτὰρ ἐπεὶ τάρπησαν ἐς ἀλλήλους ὀρόωντες, (24.629-633). But then Achilles abruptly changes his tune. When he flares up at 560ff., he tells Priam: "Don't try any more to play havoc with my *thumos*, stirring up grief in me" (τῷ νῦν μή μοι μᾶλλον ἐν ἄλγεσι θυμὸν ὀρίνῃς - 24.568). He says: "I was going to give you the body anyway on Zeus' instructions", and "you don't fool me; - you would never have come to the Achaean ships, or into my hut, without some god to guide you". This is wholly different in tone from what he said at 518-521: "Poor man,..... how did you steel yourself to come alone to the Achaean ships, into the view of the man who killed so many of your stalwart sons ?" ( ἆ δείλ' ...../πῶς ἔτλης ἐπὶ νῆας Ἀχαιῶν ἐλθέμεν οἷος, / ἀνδρὸς ἐς ὀφθαλμοὺς ὅς τοι πολέας τε καὶ ἐσθλοὺς/ υἱέας ἐξενάριξα; σιδήρειον νύ τοι ἦτορ. ). Achilles' warning - "don't stir up any more grief in my *thumos*" - τῷ νῦν μή μοι μᾶλλον ἐν ἄλγεσι θυμὸν ὀρίνῃς (24.568) - is paralleled by his keenness to leave aside the grieving at 523-524 and 550-551. This feature is important in Achilles' characterisation. Achilles knows that Priam has touched him at a weak point. He tries to resist Priam's attempt to get a hold over him by talking about his father.

The audience can recognise that this is Achilles' vulnerable spot from his speech and behaviour at other places in the poem. Achilles' grief for Peleus surfaces not just in response to Priam's calculated speech (οὐδέ νυ τόν γε / γηράσκοντα κομίζω - 24.540-541), but earlier too, when he mourns Patroklos in Book 19. Achilles' comment on Patroklos' death is: "I could suffer nothing worse than this, not even if I heard that my father had died" (οὐ μὲν γάρ τι κακώτερον ἄλλο πάθοιμι, / οὐδ' εἴ κεν τοῦ πατρὸς ἀποφθιμένοιο πυθοίμην - 19.321-322). Achilles then inverts the sentiment, envisaging his father's grieving over his son's absence (19.323-324); the same sequence is repeated at 334-337, where Achilles first says "I think that by now Peleus is dead", and then "or that he is distressed by hateful old age, and always waiting for the bitter news that *I* am dead". ἀποφθιμένοιο πύθηται at 19.337, where the subject is Peleus, hearing of Achilles' death, picks up ἀποφθιμένοιο πυθοίμην at 19.322, where the subject is Achilles hearing about Peleus'.

### *4. Phoenix*

Phoenix responds to Achilles' passionate and eloquent refusal of Agamemnon's offer bursting into tears (433) and asking: "My dear child, how could I stay here alone without you ?": πῶς ἂν ἔπειτ' ἀπὸ σεῖο, φίλον τέκος, αὖθι λιποίμην / οἷος ; (437-438; cf. 444-445: ὡς ἂν ἔπειτ; ἀπὸ σεῖο, φίλον τέκος, οὐκ ἐθέλοιμι / λείπεσθ' ). Phoenix says explicitly that he regards Achilles as a substitute for his own son (492-495); he can have no son of his own because of the curse of his father Amyntor (455-456). He reminds Achilles that Peleus sent him to Troy as Achilles instructor - to teach him to be a speaker of words and a doer of deeds - (τοὔνεκα με προέηκε διδασκέμεναι τάδε πάντα, / μύθων τε ῥητῆρ' ἔμεναι πρηκτῆρά τε ἔργων - 442-443). And he goes on to remind Achilles of the times when, as a small child, he would go into the feast with no-one but Phoenix, who would take Achilles on his knees and cut his meat and hold the wine-cup to his lips (486-491). Like Odysseus' speech, Phoenix's reminiscences reduce Achilles to a child, "spluttering out wine in his infant helplessness": οἴνου ἀποβλύζων ἐν νηπιέῃ ἀλεγεινῇ (491). Phoenix explains that he

took all this trouble over Achilles because he regarded him as his own son: ἀλλὰ σὲ παῖδα, θεοῖς ἐπιείκελ' Ἀχιλλεῦ, / ποιεύμην (494-495). Phoenix thus parallels Agamemnon's offer of adoption, though the tone seems different.

Again, Achilles resists, but this time his resistance is qualified. He addresses Phoenix "ἄττα γεραιέ " - "Father" (607), and although he does not give in and agree to stay at Troy, he offers Phoenix the opportunity of leaving with him. But again, he expresses resentment of this kind of persuasion. He admonishes Phoenix as he does Priam, "don't stir up my *thumos* with your weeping and wailing" (μή μοι συγχεῖ θυμὸν ὀδυρόμενος καὶ ἀχεύων - 612)[79], and accuses Phoenix of indulging his grief for the sake of Agamemnon, as a ploy to get Achilles to relent.

The role-playing in this scene is complemented by the indirect and misdirected communications. Nestor had chosen Phoenix as the first member of the embassy (Φοῖνιξ μὲν πρώτιστα - 9.168), then Aias, *and also* Odysseus, but Odysseus is the first to speak at the embassy. Achilles sits down confronting Odysseus: αὐτὸς δ' ἀντίον ἷξεν Ὀδυσσῆος θείοιο / τοίχου τοῦ ἑτέροιο - 9.218. Aias nods to Phoenix, indicating that he should begin the speeches (νεῦσ' Αἴας Φοίνικι· 9.223) but it is *Odysseus* who intercepts the signal (νόησε δὲ δῖος Ὀδυσσεύς - 9.223) and starts speaking, with disastrous consequences.[80] At the end of the scene, as the envoys are leaving, Aias makes a speech (9.624-642) about Achilles' *timê* and the way his *philoi* honour him (9.631: τῆς ἦ μιν παρὰ νηυσὶν **ἐτίομεν ἔξοχον ἄλλων**). Aias' speech would have had more sway with Achilles than those of the other two speakers;[81] - compare Achilles response to Aias at 9.645: πάντα τί μοι κατὰ θυμὸν ἐείσαο μυθήσασθαι. But although the speech is indirectly aimed at Achilles, it is formally

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[79]Cf. 24.568, to Priam: τῷ νῦν μή μοι μᾶλλον ἐν ἄλγεσι θυμὸν ὀρίνῃς

[80]These are Nagy's observations (Nagy (1979), which he uses as part of an explanation of the notoriously problematic dual constructions, used, curiously, to refer to the *three* envoys at 9.182 and 192 (τὼ δὲ βάτην) as at 196 (τὼ καὶ δεικνύμενος ) and 197 (χαίρετον.....ἱκάνετον). He explains them by pointing out that Odysseus is characterised as an intruder in this scene ( pp.49-56). For discussion of the problem and bibliography, see Page (1959) pp.324-325.

[81]Although Phoenix also mentions *timê*, (9.603: [ἔρχεο·] ἶσον γάρ σε θεῷ τίσουσιν Ἀχαιοί) it takes second place to his talk of women and tears.

addressed to Odysseus (9.624-625: διογενὲς Λαερτιάδη, πολυμηχαν Ὀδυσσεῦ, / ἴομεν·). This oblique address brings out the way the ineffective persuasion in this scene is bound up with the role-playing indulged in by the characters involved, and their use of indirect strategies both to persuade and to resist persuasion.

### *Achilles and Peleus*

Achilles talks like a blame poet both as an outward protest and also as an enactment of the abuse and outrage inflicted on him by Achaean society, which treats him as an outsider. Is Achilles "right" ? Or are we meant to understand his protests as coming from a skewed perspective and an insatiable appetite for *timê* and quarrels both ? I think not. The preponderance of Achilles' father-figures reflects the curious absence, within the Iliad of Achilles' real father, Peleus, whose absence and distance are often lamented by Achilles himself. In one of the laments for Patroklos Achilles says that he does not know whether Peleus is alive or dead.[82]

Possibly Achilles tongue betrays him on this point. At a certain point in Achilles' answer to Odysseus' speech, his tone and style become particuarly charged. At 388 he declares: "I will not marry his daughter" - κούρην δ' οὐ γαμέω - and he insists on this, repeating it still more emphatically only three lines later: "No, I will not marry her" - οὐδέ μιν ὣς γαμέω - (9.391). The refusal is followed by a tricolon crescendo of passionate rhetorical questions (9.336-341). Agamemnon sets out to adopt Achilles, giving the same *time* as his real son, Orestes, gets. Achilles' passionate refusal centres on the statement: "I do not need this *time* " But the highly impassioned tone of the speech makes us wonder whether what Achilles says really is true - whether he really does have a father and a native country he can go back to. An audience knows, after all, that Achilles will *not* leave Troy and return to Phthia; Achilles' own reference to the *kleos aphthiton* which the Iliad itself

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[82] 19.334-337.

represents only draws attention to the gap between the rest of the Achilles myth and the defiant claims, subversive of the heroic ethic, he makes in Book 9. Moreover, the myth of Achilles, at least as it appears in the Iliad, represents Achilles as a hero whose paternal rights of inheritance have been oddly misplaced or displaced - as I shall now demonstrate.

### *Achilles as Metanastês*

In response to Aias' declaration that the Achaeans honour (ἐτίομεν ) Achilles ἔξοχον ἄλλων, Achilles replies that he cannot forget that Agamemnon treated him like an ἀτίμητον μετανάστην (9.648; cf.16.58-59). The curious thing about this remark is that both times Achilles makes it, he does so in front of a *metanastês* - Phoenix in Book 9, Patroklos in Book 16. Phoenix was forced to flee through "Greece of the wide dancing-plains" (Ἑλλάδος εὐρυχόροιο - 9.468), to escape a quarrel with his father Amyntor (9.448); Patroklos fled *with* his father, after he lost his temper and killed another boy at dice (23. 85-90: Patroklos' soul, like Phoenix, recounts Patroklos' own story). Peleus allegedly appointed both *metanastai* as Achilles' instructors.[83] Phoenix was told to teach Achilles to be "a speaker of words and a doer of deeds" (τοὔνεκα με προέηκε διδασκέμεναι τάδε πάντα, / μύθων τε ῥητῆρ' ἔμεναι πρηκτῆρά τε ἔργων - 9.442-443); Patroklos was told by Peleus: instruct him and speak words of stout advice to him" (ἀλλ' ἐῦ οἱ φάσθαι πυκινὸν ἔπος ἠδ' ὑποθέσθαι / καί οἱ σημαίνειν - 11.788-789). These two *metanastai* and Achilles form a curious configuration. Achilles remarks in front of each of them that he himself has been treated like an ἀτίμητον μετανάστην. He styles himself as a *metanastês*. And Achilles perpetually tries to teach and instruct others, and speaks the language of wisdom poetry, as

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[83]Achilles is repeatedly associated with instructor-figures. Cf. Pindar Pythian 6 22-23, where we have an account ofCheiron the centaur (elsewhere the teacher of Jason too) dispensing advice to Achilles: Φιλύρας υἱον ὀρφανιζομένῳ / Πηλείδᾳ παραινεῖν. Nagy (1979 p. 238) links Phoenix's speech to Achilles in Book 9 with Cheiron's in Pythian 6 as an example of *parainesis* - "advice, instruction", noting that the designation *parainesis* applies to the Hesiodic tradition in general (Cf. Pythian 1. 66-70: Lampron, patron and father of the athlete advises - παραινεῖ - his son (69), honouring the Ἡσιὸδου.....ἔπος ).

though modelling his own language on theirs.[84] Achilles' *persona* as wisdom poet is the *persona* of a *metanastês*, modelled on Patroklos and Phoenix. Compare his *persona* as a blame poet, which was the *persona* of the "worst of the Achaeans", modelled on Thersites.

Achilles' *persona* as wisdom poet is consistent with his habit of talking constantly as though he were in exile. Lamenting Phthia as a place he will never return to, Achilles insists, even amongst the other Achaeans, on calling himself an alien; someone who spends his life (perhaps permanently) in a strange land. He complains of spending his life fighting ἀλλοδαπῳ ἐνὶ δήμῳ (19.324) .[85] No other Achaean warrior talks like that. And of the Achaeans, Achilles alone talks of the vast expanses of sea which lie between Troy and his native land in Book 1. He talks in 24 of fighting the Trojans τηλόθι πάτρης.[86] Only Achilles styles himself an alien within the cohesive community formed by the Achaean army.

### *Achilles and Phoenix, Hesiod and Perses*

But if Achilles styles himself a *metanastês*, this is also to style himself as a son who has lost his inheritance from his father. We have seen that Achilles' protests against Agamemnon's "adoption" turn on the insistence that he has, as well as his own country, a father and possessions. A *metanastês* typically does not have these, as the examples of Phoenix and Patroklos show. One of the curious aspects of the nexus formed by Achilles Patroklos and Phoenix is that Achilles' real father, Peleus, took in both the *metanastai* and cared for them as for his own sons. (Cf. Phoenix's account at 9.480: ἐς Πηλῆα ἄναχθ· ὁ δέ

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[84]See, further, Martin 1993, on "Hesiod's Metanastic Poetics", for the argument that the traditional and typical instructor is a *metanastês*.

[85]See Schied-Tissinier (1990) p.15 on ἀλλοδαπός and τηλεδαπός as synonyms for ξείνος.

[86]Griffin (1976) in his study of this theme, does not make explict something which his findings show: that Achilles utters the phrase more often than other characters (seven times), while others use the theme of Achilles and Patroklos. Griffin prefers to see the theme as having a levelling effect on all characters, an instance of the pathos and objectivity of Homeric poetry.

με πρόφρων **ὑπέδεκτο** with Patroklos' at 23.89-90: ἔνθα με **δεξάμενος** ἐν δώμασιν ἱππότα Πηλεὺς ) Even Patroklos, though his real father Menoitios fled his homeland with him, relies on his adoption by Peleus for status and a kingdom in Phthia.

But there is an important different between the two cases. Whereas Patroklos says that he and Achilles "were reared together in your house" (ἀλλ ὁμου, ὡς τράφομεν περ ἐν ὑμετέροισι δόμοισι - 91-92), Phoenix claims that Peleus treated him "as if he were an *only* son" (καί μ ἐφίλησ ὡς εἴ τε πατὴρ, ὃν παῖδα φιλήσῃ / μοῦνον τηλύγετον, πολλοῖσιν ἐπὶ κτεάτεσσι - 9.481-482). In other words, wherease Achilles and Patroklos shared Peleus possessions and (presumably) would have shared the inheritance, Phoenix implicitly claims to have caused Peleus to disinherit Achilles. This aligns Phoenix's persuasion more closely with the assault of Agamemnon, through Odysseus, on Achilles' *time*. For what Phoenix says also tacitly implies that Achilles has no inheritance from Peleus.

The theme of Achilles as disinherited son comes through in the way he (mis)[87]uses the Hesiodic language in this scene. At 616 Achilles makes Phoenix an offer: ἶσον ἐμοὶ βασίλευε καὶ ἥμισυ μείρεο τιμῆς. In the next couple of lines comes a phrase - εὐνῇ ἔνι μαλάκῃ - which resembles phonetically one from the Works and Days - an echo to which the ears of a contemporary audience would have been attuned. εὐνῇ ἔνι μαλάκῃ *sounds* like οὐδ' ὅσον ἐν μαλάχῃ although the meaning is different. The phrase from the Works and Days is part of an attack on the δωροφάγοι βασιλῆες, who do not know the value of mallow and asphodel. It precedes a criticism of Hesiod's brother, Perses, for running to these kings and flattering them with gifts. The immediate context in Iliad 9 is the same. Achilles has just warned Phoenix not to be a friend to Agamemnon, who is Achilles' enemy, and whom Achilles called δημοβόρος βασιλεύς in 1 (231). Achilles invites Phoenix to sleep near him instead, on a soft bed - εὐνῇ ἔνι μαλάκῃ .

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[87]A misuse and a distortion analogous to those I discussed in the section ***Achilles Deeds and Days***, because Achilles uses a Homeric (heroic) phrase - ἔνι μαλάκῃ , also used by Andromache in an account of the princely and luxurious childhood of her son Astyanax at 22.504 - as though it were a Hesiodic (agricultural ) one - ἐν μαλάχῃ

When we turn to the more general context of the Hesiodic passage we can see that it suggests that in the Iliadic one, Achilles is viewing and characterising Phoenix as someone who has deprived him of the inheritance due to him from Peleus. For this is the passage in which Hesiod raises the subject of the dispute between himself and his brother Perses. Hesiod tells Perses "We had divided the inheritance, but you ran off with the greater part of it " - ἤδη μὲν γὰρ κλῆρον ἐδασσαμεθ, ἀλλα τὰ πολλὰ / ἁρπάζων ἐφορεις μέγα κυδαίνων βασιλῆας Works and Days 37-38). Hesiod accuses Perses of using his unfair share of the inheritance to bribe to kings who will then side with him, rather than Hesiod, in the inheritance dispute. Hesiod says that the kings are foolish because they do not know "by how much the half exceeds the whole" - παντὸς ἴσασιν ὅσῳ πλέον ἥμισυ / οὐδ ὅσον ἐν μαλαχῃ τε καὶ ἀσφοδελῳ μέγ ὄνειαρ. This looks like a veiled reference to Perses' having seized *more* than half the inheritance. Now consider again the offer Achilles makes to Phoenix at the beginning of the Iliadic passage: ἶσον ἐμοὶ βασίλευε καὶ ἥμισυ μείρεο τιμῆς - have half my *timê* and my kingdon. Achilles is offering Phoenix, just as Hesiod offers Perses, the opportunity to divide an inheritance in half, rather than taking all the goods and running to make defensive alliances with "bribe-swallowing" kings like Agamemnon. In other words, Achilles' position mirrors that of Hesiod, the wisdom poet, social critic and disinherited son,[88] and Achilles chooses his language accordingly, albeit the shift from εὐνῇ ἔνι μαλάκῃ to οὐδ' ὅσον ἐν μαλάχῃ reflects the usual disparity of context.[89]

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[88]And also, *metanastês* - Martin 1993.

[89]Notice also that the theme of the problematics of inheritance arises on two other occasions in Achilles' speech. At 20.183 it surfaces in his mockery of Aeneas. He asks Aeneas: Do you hope to rule (ἀνάξειν) the τιμῆς τῆς Πριάμου amongst the Trojans (180-181), and taunts him: Priam won't put that γέρας in your hands (182), for he has sons of his own and is not flighty of mind (183). Then he continues, "or have the Trojans marked out a piece of land for you, if you kill me ?" ( ἦ νύ τί τοιν Τρῶες τέμενος τάμον ἔξοχον ἄλλων 184-186). Compare also 20.392, where Achilles taunts the Trojan warrior Iphition, son of Otrynteus: "Lie there.....though your birth was by the Gygean lake, there where is your **τέμενος πατρώϊόν**.

### *Teaching Trojan: The Competing Instructional Models of Achilles and Phoenix*

True to the role of the instructor, Phoenix tells Achilles a parable about *Litai* - prayers. The form of the parable makes it look like wisdom literature. And yet, Phoenix's Λιταί are unlike anything in the Works and Days : goddesses who don't look their addressee straight in the eye, they are παραβλῶπες, and they bend things: their τίμη, according to Phoenix, bends the intentions of good men: ἥ τ'ἄλλων περ ἐπιγνάμπτει νόον ἐσθλῶν (514); Achilles should yield because even the gods are flexible, can be turned from their resolve: στρεπτοὶ τε καὶ θεοὶ αὐτοί (497). Phoenix's account of how Ἀτή rushes on ahead while the Λίται come behind and soften things actually contradicts themes in the Works and Days; one part of Phoenix's account is like a perversion of a formally similar passage in that poem (219-224). In the Works and Days Ὅρκος, son of Ἔρις, runs after *crooked* Dikai, punishing the perjured; and the constantly reiterated requirement of the Works and Days is that δίκαι should be straight, not bent or capable of being bent (cf. 261ff. which recommends punishment for those who παρακλίνωσι the δίκαι; the imperative addressed to kings: ἰθύνετε μύθους; and the reference to gift-glutted kings who must forget σκολιέων δὲ δικέων ἐπὶ πάγχυ. But a city flourishes when its king gives straight *dikai* - δίκαι...../ ἰθείας - both to the ξείνοι and to the inhabitants. σκολιῆς δὲ δίκης is alluded to at 211; cf. σκολιέων δὲ δικέων. I interpret the nature of Phoenix's parable as another nice feature of the way the relationship between Achilles and Phoenix is characterised. Achilles, who resists Phoenix's persuasion, adheres to the straight ethic of the Works and Days. Phoenix has a different model. In fact one wonders whether Phoenix is not purveying a "Trojan" language and ideology of instruction, typified by the themes of bending and tearfulness.

### *Hektor and Achilles on Death*

When Achilles conceives of death, he envisages dying on alien soil, rather than withering in his native earth in Phthia. When he first mentions his native land, Phthia, he calls it Φθίῃ ἐριβώλακι βωτιανείρῃ[90] - "Phthia, deep-soiled nurturer of men" (1.55). The name Phthia - "the withering place" punningly captures the theme of "vegetal decay"[91] and the natural process of decay. Achilles conceives of death as being taken back into the earth; he says first of Patroklos that "the earth will hold him" - γαῖα καθέξει (19.332), and then that he himself will "go down under the earth" later in time than Patroklos - σεῦ ὕστερος εἶμ' ὑπὸ γαῖαν (19.333). The tragedy of "withering" far from your native land (τηλόθι πάτρης / ἔφθιτ' - 19.99-100) is that its nurturing soil (Cf.Φθίῃ ἐριβώλακι βωτιανείρῃ ) will not receive you back again.[92]

The warrior's compensation for death is *kleos* that will never decay - as Hektor says: τὸ δ' ἐμὸν κλέος οὔ ποτ' ὀλεῖται (7.91). The body will perish, but *kleos* never withers (*kleos aphthiton* ). Hektor is preoccupied with his "beautiful death";[93] For Hektor, death is "unwithering fame";[94] but when Achilles thinks of death he talks about decay.[95] He grows anxious lest Patroklos' body should rot in the days before he can be buried (σαπήῃ - 19.27). The play on πύθω/ πυνθάνομαι was a pun Greek poets liked, and which Achilles exploits at 19.337 (ἀποφθιμένοιο πύθηται - cf.322). He is constantly using the theme of "vegetal death" when he laments his own, Patroklos' and Peleus' deaths. Patroklos has perished (**ἔφθιτ'** ) far from his country (18.99-100); compare: **ἀποφθιμένοιο** πυθοίμην (19.321-322); **ἀποφθιμένοιο** πύθηται (19.337).

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[90]Another word used in the Iliad only by Achilles. Cf. Griffin (1976) p.57.

[91]Nagy (1979) pp.105; 185.

[92]Possibly the theme of the earth in Achilles' speeches can be linked with his preference for agricultural themes. At 18.104, Achilles calls himself a "useless burden on the soil " (ἄχθος ἀρούρης ).

[93]Cf.Vernant 1991 p.57 on the imperishable quality of such a death.

[94]Martin (1989) p.133.

[95]Nagy 1979 p.185, with reference to the name Phthia, explains how the natural vegetal cycle is Achilles' alternative to "permanent existence within the cultural medium of epic".

***Priam and Achilles***

For Hektor, death means imperishable fame, whereas for Achilles, it means withering in foreign soil. Hektor's famously beautiful death brings the poem to a partial closure. But on Achilles' side of the story, the poem seems to be beset by a distinct lack of closure. The Iliad ends with a suspension: Achilles' armistice,[96] far from bringing to an end the war between the armies, will simply prolong the unresolved condition of the enmity between them; his reflective telling of the Niobe-*muthos* [97] hints at similarity between the state of things at Troy and the way in which Zeus immobilises the city of Niobe when he turns the people into stone. The stone people are just like the λαός of Achilles when he restrains them from fighting for eleven days, allowing for the burial of Hektor.[98] In both situations, the burial occurs on the tenth day, after a nine day interval, and parallel diction brings out the similarity; compare 24.610-612: οἱ μὲν ἄρ' **ἐννῆμαρ** κέατ' ἐν φόνῳ, οὐδέ τις ἦεν / **κατθάψαι, λαοὺς** δὲ λίθους ποίησε Κρονίων· / τοὺς δ' ἄρα **τῇ δεκάτῃ θάψαν** θεοὶ Οὐρανίωες with 24.665-667: **ἐννῆμαρ** μέν' αὐτον αὐτον ἐνὶ μεγάροις γοάοιμεν / **τῇ δεκάτῃ** δέ κε **θάπτοιμεν** δαινῦτο τε **λαός**. The poem ends with an air of contained pessimism, rather than of conclusion and resolution.[99]

Some have tried to find closure in the form of resolution and relief from hostilities in the encounter and exchange between Achilles and Priam. But I think this attempt is misguided; for one thing, to look for *lusis* and a reconciliation in the Iliad's last book is to suppose that the whole poem must have the unified *schema* Aristotle prescribes for a tragedy.[100] And even this final encounter, which balances the "failed supplication" of the first book, has a tension running through it which continually threatens to upset the whole

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[96] 24.670: σχήσω γὰρ πόλεμον τόσσον χρόνον ὅσσον ἄνωγας (Achilles to Priam).
[97] 24.602-617
[98] Cf. 24.658
[99] Cf. Lynn-George 1988 p.255: the Iliad is " a story which ends before the end, ends without ending" and which "combines a sense of finality with the awareness of what is still to come".
[100] Aristotle himself assumes this: Poetics 26.1462B

arrangement.[101] At one moment, Priam and Achilles gaze admiringly on one another and listen to each other's words with pleasure, Achilles taking Priam's hand to reassure him. But the situation is unstable: when Priam asks Achilles for a bed he meets with a rejoinder sharper than he had expected (ἐπικερτομέων)[102] and is told: "Go and sleep outside" - ἐκτὸς μὲν δὴ λέξο (24.650).[103] Achilles' unexpectedly sharp rejoinder to Priam's request reflects a tension which runs right through the scene. At one point, Achilles tries to make Priam stop grieving and sit down quietly (ἀλλ' ἄγε δὴ κατ' ἄρ' ἔζευ ἐπὶ θρόνου, ἄλγεα δ' ἔμπης / ἐν θυμῷ κατακεῖσθαι ἐάσομεν ἀχνύμενοι περ· - 24.521-523). Priam resists, because he wants to make sure of getting Hektor's body first: μή πώ μ' ἐς θρόνον ἵζε, διοτρεφές, ὄφρα κεν Ἕκτωρ / κεῖται ἐνὶ κλισίῃσιν ἀκηδής, ἀλλὰ τάχιστα / λῦσον, ἵνα ὀφθαλμοῖσιν ἴδω· (552-555). Achilles then shoots Priam a dark look, gives him an angry warning: "Don't provoke me" - μηκέτι νῦν μ' ἐρέθιζε, γέρον (24.560), and threatens to kill him, suppliant though he be (24.569-570); Priam takes in Achilles' *mûthos* and falls into a fearful silence (Ὣς ἔφατ' ἔδδεισεν δ' ὁ γέρων καὶ ἐπείθετο μύθῳ - 24.571).

The same instability is manifest in the way the poet "blocks" the scene. It is when Priam and Achilles sit opposite one another exchanging talk and glances that they seem most attuned to one another. But for most of the scene, they do not succeed in sitting down this way together. At the very beginning of their encounter, Priam grovels at Achilles' feet like a subordinate (προπάροιθε ποδῶν Ἀχιλῆος ἐλυσθείς - 24.510). The diction impresses upon us the *separateness* of their grieving experiences: **τὼ δὲ μνησαμένω, ὁ μὲν Ἕκτορος** ἀνδροφόνοιο κλαῖ' ἀδινὰ ...../ **αὐτὰρ Ἀχιλλεὺς** κλαῖεν **ἑὸν πατέρ'** ἄλλοτε δ' αὖτε / **Πάτροκλον**· (24.509-512). The clause with the dual τὼ δὲ μνησαμένω

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[101]Scully 1990 (p.127) comments on the symmetry of the first and last books: "this thematic closure masks a much deeper failure of closure". In his view, while a *social* order is implied by the reversal of the failed supplication, the instability of the world is such that the sacred order of the city is exposed as vulnerable to death and destruction.

[102]24.649. For a discussion of the meaning of this verb, see Jones 1989.

[103]Some have tried to explain away Achilles' "change of mood" earlier, in lines 560-570, by appealing to the constraints of oral composition. See Minchin 1986.

encloses a μέν and δέ construction which suggests the separate worlds Priam and Achilles inhabit within what looks from the outside like a mutual experience of grief. When Priam refuses the chair Achilles wants him to sit on, Achilles himself leaps up (λέων ὣς ἅλτο θύραζε - 24.572) and goes outside to fetch the body. When he comes back in, Achilles sits down again briefly across the room from Priam (Ἦ ῥα, καὶ ἐς κλισίην πάλιν ἦϊε δῖος Ἀχιλλεύς, / ἕζετο δ' ἐν κλισμῷ πολυδαιδάλῳ , ἔνθεν ἀνέστη, / τοίχου τοῦ ἑτέρου, ποτὶ δὲ Πρίαμου φάτο μῦθον· - 24.596-598), and suggests that they eat, recounting the Niobe paradigm. After his speech, he springs up a second time to kill a sheep: Ἦ, καὶ ἀναΐξας ὄϊν ἄργυφον ὠκὺς Ἀχιλλεὺς / σφάξ'· (24.621-622). Achilles' restless behaviour is suggestive of perpetual instability,[104] even after the agreement with Priam has been formally achieved.[105]

This air of alternating suspension and instability may be the most fitting way for a poem like the Iliad to end. It corresponds to the mood captured in the final image of Niobe,[106] whose petrification, in countertension to the fluidity of her grief, nevertheless ensures that her grief will be eternally prolonged. The image of Niobe seems like a fit representation of what closure might mean in oral epic.[107] Paul Zumthor, in an article suggesting that for oral poems, closure in the conventional sense is impossible, urges us to think of the principal characteristic of an oral poem as "an illusion of repeatability";[108] to remember that its unity resides in its movements, and not in measurements or

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[104]In this interpretation of Book 24, I resist what I consider to be exaggeratedly optimistic readings - ones which suggest that the book is suffused with a redemptive sense of compassion, and that the ransoming of Hektor constitutes a turning-point which replaces the strife governing the rest of the poem with harmony. See, for example, Macleod's (1982) reading of this book.

[105]It is also a consistent feature of the characterisation of Achilles. Compare the description of his movements in the passage at the beginning of Book 24 describing his insomnia (24.3-12): ἀλλ' ἐστρέφετ' ἔνθα καὶ ἔνθα (24.5); ἄλλοτ' ἐπὶ πλευρὰς κατακείμενος, ἄλλοτε δ' αὖτε / ὕπτιος, ἄλλοτε δὲ πρηνής· τοτὲ δ' ὀρθὸς ἀνατὰς (24.11-12).

[106]24.617: ἔνθα λιθὸς περ ἐοῦσα θεῶν ἐκ κήδεα πέσσει. Lynn-George (1988) p.251 writes: "In this image of final fixity, there is an indefinitely prolonged, never yet completed process".

[107]For a discussion of various modes of poetic closure, see Herrnstein-Smith 1968.

[108]Zumthor 1992 p.26.

proportions;[109] and that a culture's oral tradition is constantly changing, even as it maintains a "homeostatic equilibrium" with the society which produces it .[110]

### *Achilles and the Trojans*

Nevertheless, even the most pessimistic reading of Achilles' encounter with Priam must acknowledge that it contains at least a moment of compassion, a moment not paralleled in Achilles' negotiations with his own side. Moreover, Achilles here agrees to form the kind of *xenia* - style connection with Priam which he refused to form with Agamemnon, and which other Achaean soldiers refuse to form with Trojan suppliants. Achilles, who talks as though an alien amongst the Achaeans, and will not even make alliances with them which resemble relationships of *xenia*, is, on the other hand, prepared to enter into such alliances with Trojans. Interesting in the light of this are three comments, made by Achilles at moments scattered through the narrative of the poem, to the effect that he sees no reason why he, personally, should fight the Trojans (the notion is, of course, that he refuses to recognise any obligation to Agamemnon). At 1.153, in the middle of the quarrel in which he blames Agamemnon, he declares "I do not blame the Trojans" - οὔ τί μοι αἴτιοι εἰσιν - and goes on to explain that the Trojans have not touched his property, have not raided his cattle, harried his horses, or devastated his fields.[111] Similarly, at 9.341, he asks: "Why should we fight the Trojans ?" - τί δὲ δεῖ πολεμιζέμεναι Τρώεσσι, and proceeds to answer the question for himself in a series of further rhetorical questions: the Achaeans fight the Trojans for the sake of the Atreïdai, because the Trojans have stolen Menelaus' wife; but Agamemnon, taking Achilles *geras* Briseis, has shown no respect for "other men's wives" (9.338-341). Finally, in response to Lycaon's supplication in Book 21, Achilles says that before the death of Patroklos, he preferred to spare the Trojans, and take

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[109]Zumthor 1992 p.27.
[110]Zumthor 1992 p.32.
[111]1.154-156.

them alive (πρὶν μὲν γὰρ Πάτροκλον ἐπεσπεῖν αἴσιμον ἦμαρ, / τόφρα τί μοι πεφιδέσθαι ἐνὶφρεσὶ φίλτερον ἦεν / Τρῶων, καὶ πολλοὺς ζωοὺς ἔλον ἠ δὲ πέρασσα· - 21.100-102). And even as he prepares to kill Lycaon, there is a strange familiarity, even intimacy, in the tone in which he speaks to him: ἀλλά, **φίλος**, θάνε καὶ σύ· / **οὐχ ὁράᾳς** οἷος καὶ ἐγὼ καλός τε μέγας τε. / πατρὸς δ εἴμ' ἀγαθοῖο, θεὰ δέ με γείνατο μήτηρ· / ἀλλ ἔπι τοι καὶ ἐμοὶ θάνατος **καὶ** μοῖρα κραταίη · [112] Achilles is more sympathetic to the Trojans than the others who fight on the Achaean side.

Achilles and the Trojans are formally aligned in the poem. Both Achilles and the Trojans "misuse" poetic styles and genre, from the pro-Achaean point of view. At one point Achilles, who is adept at the misuse of conventional modes of speech, says that "in the assembly, others are better" (18.106: ἀγορῇ δέ τ' ἀμείνονες εἰσι καὶ ἄλλοι ) Achilles' perspective of neutrality at the end of the poem - or perhaps, right through the poem, in view of the examples I discussed in the previous paragraph - can be aligned with this formal parallelism between him and the Trojans - both are styled as out of place in an Achaean community, and both employ styles and genres of speech which are unexpected in situations in which Achaean discursive practices are the norm.

A final point, which captures the essence of of the Trojans' "different" use of language, is suggestive of a strange familiarity, or intimacy, on the part of Achilles, with the Trojans and their way of talking. In Book 21, when Achilles faces Asteropaeus, he puts to him the question Diomedes asked of Glaukos in Book 6, but words it differently. Demanding to know Asteropaeus' identity, he asks: τίς πόθεν εἰς ἀνδρῶν ὅ μευ ἔτλης ἀντίος ἐλθειν;[113] Diomedes had asked the same question in a different form, asking Glaukos: τίς δὲ σύ ἐσσι , φέρίστε, καταθνητῶν ἀνθρώπων[114] The formulation τίς πόθεν εἰς ἀνδρῶν; , occurring nowhere else in the Iliad, either in the exchanges between warriors or elsewhere,

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[112]Thornton (1984) describes Achilles as drawing Lycaon into a "community of death" (Thornton 1984 p.139).
[113]21.150
[114]6.123

is, on the other hand, ubiquitous in the Odyssey, where it is regularly asked of strangers visiting foreign places, almost always followed by an elaboration of the question - πόθι τοι πόλις ἠδὲ τοκῆες - "What city are you from, and who were your parents?".[115] The kind of visit depicted in these Odyssean scenes, the setting for the exchange of *agalmata* to establish a relationship of *xenia*, is associated in the Iliad with Trojan themes, and Trojan modes of behaviour.[116] But Achilles in his exchange with Asteropaeus is using, in conversation with a Trojan, the style of language typical of such a visit. Perhaps Achilles' tone is one of mockery; but even then his use of the phrase is an interesting touch of characterisation. It suggests that Achilles - expert in the language of blame and vile abuse, itinerant teacher of agricultural wisdom and closet singer of the *klea andrôn* - also knows how to "talk Trojan".

[115]Odyssey 1.170; 7.238; 10.325; 14.187; 15.264; 19. 105.24.298.

[116]Twice in the occurrences of the formula in the Odyssey, the stranger is addressed with the vocative ξεῖνε in the preceding line: 7.238; 19.105.

# CONCLUSION

## *THE ACHAEANS AND TROY: A TALE OF TWO CITIES ?*

I began with a hypothesis: that the Iliad, a putatively Panhellenic poem, is likely to represent the Trojans as "other" than, and culturally different from the Achaeans. I suggested that a representation of this kind was likely to manifest itself in the Trojans' use of language - this because of the value accorded to verbal performance in Greek culture, and the probability that an oral poem would foreground the performances its heroes make, as well as the details of the surroundings of their performances: the contexts and situations in which they make their speeches. I also hinted at the possibility that the "Panhellenic" ethos of the Iliad might manifest itself as a pro-Achaean, anti-Trojan bias. I have discovered that there is a significant difference, or set of differences, in the way the Trojans of the Iliad, as opposed to the Achaeans, make use of language. Moreover, the differences are related to a set of themes which represent a generalised cultural contrast between the Achaean army encamped on the shore, and Hektor and his allies at the city of Troy. However, the question of whether we can construe this as an anti-Trojan bias has become clouded and problematic. Trojan language, and the organisation of speech in Trojan society, is different from Achaean discourse in a complex set of ways that are not readily accomodated to a simplistic analysis in terms of a pro-Achaean, anti-Trojan bias.

### *The Trojans en masse*

From the evidence I discussed in Chapter 1 there emerges a portrait of the Trojans and their allies, when Homer's poetry represents them impersonally and *en masse*, as a noisy, disorderly and undisciplined horde. Because the allies come from various cities in scattered lands, the army lacks cohesion. The absence of linguistic unity means that their voices are reduced to inarticulate, undifferentiated sound, like the screaming of cranes, or

the bleating of sheep. In Book 18, Hektor makes a rousing speech. The Trojans and the allies shout aloud in enthusiastic approval - and are called witless - *nêpioi* - by the poet, because they should have listened instead to the more cautious, prudent advice of Poulydamas (Chapter 3). The lack of cohesion between Hektor and his allies is also conveyed by the poem's focus on the fact that Hektor's army is composed of Hektor and his *xenoi*. The emphasis on Hektor's allies as *xenoi* reinforces the suggestion that the troops come from a multitude of *different* city states, and that they fight for Hektor out of obligation, in return for gifts and favours, rather than from a personal motivation to save the city of Troy. The structure of the relationship is iconically reflected in the periodic motif of Hektor on the battlefield, calling aloud to his contingents from a distance (Chapter 3). There is a like disjunction between the social groups within the city of Troy. This is clear in the Trojan assemblies. Young men hubristically scorn and chastise the elders. Seers and advisers are publicly humiliated by the ruler (Chapter 1).

The sociological structure of the Achaean army is made to look quite different (Chapters 1,3 and 4). It is heavily implied - and only Achilles contradicts it - that all the Greek states go to Troy because the quest to retrieve Helen was a Panhellenic expedition, and not just because they owed *charis* to Agamemnon. The Achaean army, though composed, like Hektor's, of troops from numerous city states, is represented as if the Achaeans were one cohesive community. This comes through in the organisation of sacrificial feasts and in the Achaean assemblies. In the assemblies, argument and strife are part of a ritualised procedure. They bring about the relief of social tensions and the periodic reimposition of hierarchy and order - *kosmos* (Chapter 1).

### *Trojan Individuals*

The depiction of the Trojans *en masse* is not very flattering. But this is counterbalanced by a more favourable representation of individual Trojans, and individual allies, like the Lycian cousins Glaukos and Sarpedon. In Chapter 2, I argued that the

Trojans' performances in one-on-one conversations are certainly unconventional, if we take the Achaean warrior mode as the norm. Trojans tend to avoid face-to-face encounters with the enemy. They make speeches which are unwarrior-like: less aggressive and less threatening than those of their Achaean opponents. But it is not clear that this is a negative representation. Trojans are more apt to question their ability to succeed in hitting their enemies, making tentative statements like Pandaros' at 5.279, to Diomedes: "I will see if I can hit you with my spear": αἴ κε τυχώμι.[1] This is "weak" according to warrior discourse, but not necessarily so from a different perspective. Perhaps Pandaros should be credited for his appreciation of the role chance plays in mortal endeavour. Similarly, the Trojans' repeated assertions that they "know how to fight" and "know how to utter insults" suggest that the Trojans are not typical warriors. They seem to indicate hesitation and uncertainty. But this gives us more of an insight into the internal psychology of the Trojan warriors than we ever get in the case of the Achaeans. Perhaps it turns them into more sympathetic characters. Only if we assume that the Achaean warrior mode is the desirable model do the Trojans appear to speak less well. In flyting-situations, the Trojans, though they do not issue threats and boasts as violently and aggressively as the Achaeans do, nevertheless frequently display an eloquence which by far surpasses the more predictable, ritualised, warrior-talk of the Achaeans. This is true of Glaukos' speech to Diomedes in Book 6,[2] and Aeneas' to Achilles in Book 20.[3] Glaukos combines lyrical expertise with the ability to tell wonder-tales. Aeneas displays an ability to generate lengthy passages of poetry describing his own descent. Poseidon is apparently so impressed by Aeneas' genealogy that he urges the other gods not to let the race of Dardanos die without seed (ἄσπερμος) and unseen (ἄφαντος - 20.303-305), and goes to rescue Aeneas from death at Achilles' hands by covering Achilles' eyes with mist and whisking Aeneas away from the fighting.[4] Some

[1]Hektor uses the same phrase at 7.243.
[2]6.145-211.
[3]20.200-258.
[4]20.321-325.

of the finest passages of poetry in the Iliad, like Aeneas' speech, and the speech Sarpedon delivers to Glaukos in Book 12, are assigned by the poet to Trojan speakers.

In general, the speeches of individual Trojans give us the impression that Trojans are more reflective and expansive of thought. This goes hand-in-hand with the fact that they take the time to raise subjects on the battlefield which are never raised there by Achaean soldiers. Pandaros, for example, expresses regret that he did not follow his father's advice, but left his horses at home for fear they should go hungry at Troy (6.5.197-201). Similarly, Sarpedon, in the middle of rebuking Hektor for his inefficient leadership,[5] mentions his wife and infant son, far away by the river Xanthos (5.479-480). Sarpedon's speech in Book 12, which I discussed in Chapter 2, displays an ability to shift, temporarily, his perspective from that of the warrior on the field, and to reflect upon mortality.[6]

### *Reflection and Defence*

At times, the "reflective" style of individual Trojan speakers could equally well be described as "reflexive" - inward looking, turning back on itself. The speeches of individual Trojans tend to be more introspective than those of Achaeans. Trojan warriors talk about themselves, assessing their own ability to fight, or to utter insults. Frequently, they do not focus on their opponents. Their speech is not "conative"[7]. It tends rather towards the "poetic" (Chapter 2).[8] In this respect, the speech of individual Trojan warriors on the battlefield resembles that of the Trojan elders of the *teikhoskopia*, exiled from the political arena by the young men, and discussing the aesthetics of speech as they watch the war from the walls of Troy (Chapter 1). In the language of Hektor, this introspective

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[5]5.472-492.
[6]Cf. Moulton 1981 p.5: "The pair of warriors [the Lycians, Glaukos and Sarpedon] shares some of the starkest philosophical moments of reflection in the poem".
[7]Jakobson 1960.
[8]For definition of "conative" versus "poetic", see Jakobson 1960 pp.355-356.

quality appears in its most highly stylised, "poetic" form. Stephen Scully encourages us to think of the Iliad's depiction of the Trojan War in terms of a conflict between those who are "defenders of the city", led by Hektor, whose name means "holder of the city", and those who are "attackers of the city" - the Achaeans.[9] I suggest that the inwardly-directed, reflexive and reflective, speech of the Trojans and their allies is a symbolic representation of their role as defenders of the city. As I noted in Chapter 2, the self-focussed words of the Trojan warriors in flyting-contexts at times merit the description "defensive".

### *The Trojan Aesthetic: Oikos and Artefacts*

As defenders of the city, the Trojans look inward. Other Trojans beside Sarpedon talk about their homes, and the possessions - the treasure and the fine artefacts - which lie therein. Pandaros talks with regret of the chariots he left at home, "eleven chariots, beautiful ones, freshly put together, newly wrought" (ἀλλά που ἐν μεγάροισι Λυκάονος ἕνδεκα δίφροι / καλοὶ πρωτοπαγεῖς νεοτευχέες - 5.193-194). The Trojan suppliants, who plead with the Achaeans to let their fathers ransom them alive, describe the treasure which lies in their father's houses: πολλὰ δ' ἐν Ἀντιμάχοιο δόμοισ' κειμήλια κεῖται (11.132 - the sons of Antimachus). The Trojans, whose "poetic" speeches can equally well be described as using language in its "aesthetic function",[10] are associated in the poem with the aesthetic side of life. Their love of finely-wrought artefacts is an expression of this. Nastês goes to war wearing golden armour, "like a girl" (ὃς καὶ χρυσὸν ἔχων πόλεμον δ' ἴεν ἠύτε κούρη - 2.872). Euphorbus' hair, drenched in blood when Menealus kills him, "is dressed with gold and silver, like the graces" (αἵματι οἱ δεύοντο κόμαι χαρίτεσσιν ὁμοῖαι / πλοχμοί δ οἵ χρυσῷ τε καὶ ἀργύρῳ ἐσφήκωντο - 17.51-52). Hektor resists with difficulty the "honey-sweet wine" (μελίφρονα οἶνον ) his mother presses on him (Chapter 3), and Euphorbus conceives

[9]Scully 1990 pp.59-60.
[10]Cf. Jakobson's well-known definition of poetry as "language in its aesthetic function". Cf. also Jakobson 1968 p.89: poetry is "the most formalised manifestation of language".

of life itself as "honey-sweet". In Book 17, urging Menelaus to move from Patroklos' corpse so he can despoil it and get *kleos* amongst the Trojans, Euphorbus threatens to rob Menelaus of his "honey-sweet life": μή σε βάλω, ἀπὸ δὲ **μελιηδέα θυμὸν** ἕλωμαι (17.17).[11]

In the Iliad the Trojans are represented as having a particular kind of perspective on life, and this is associated, moreover, with their having a particular style of life. The Trojans in the Iliad provide us, not merely with a view of domestic life,[12] but with a *locus* for the same themes, centred on the aristocratic *oikos* and the instituion of *xenia,* which also occur as a nexus in Pindar's praise poetry[13] (Chapter 3). Consequently, it should be no surprise that, as a symbolic and formal feature of characterisation, the language of the Trojans does not comprise the ritual blame and insults which are of a tradition antithetical to that of of praise poetry. The Achaeans, by way of contrast, excell at threats and insults (Chapter 2). The Achaeans keep one another in line and up to the mark through by means of taunts and critical exchanges (Chapters 1 and 2). And this seems to be associated with the representation of an non-aristocratic style of life (Chapter 4). The Achaeans are motivated by allegiance to the members of their own community, rather than obligations to return *charis* to their *xenoi*.

### *Poetics and Politics*

In other words, two antithetical poetic traditions represent two opposed lifestyles associated with Trojans and Achaeans respectively (Chapters 3 and 4). Even if the issue of bias is hard to establish, one may still ask what kind of political and social context might lie behind a representation of this type. In an examination of the concept of *habrosyne* as

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[11] μελιηδέα θυμὸν is almost unique in the extant Homeric corpus. No other character in the Iliad uses the phrase (it occurs in the poet's voice at 10.495). But in the Odyssey the phrase is used by the shade of Anticleia, mourning the life she lost for longing (πόθος ) for Odysseus (Odyssey 11.203).

[12] So Hall 1989 pp.30-31.
[13] Kurke 1991.

represented by lyric poets and others in the sixth and fifth centuries, Leslie Kurke finds a telling split between two trends. One set of poets, which includes Sappho, celebrates *habrosyne* - an aristocratic lifestyle enjoyed by an élite which had many connections and much traffic with the East. On the other hand, this same luxurious lifestyle was severely criticised by poets such as Semonides and Xenophanes. The representation of the Trojan lifestyle in the Iliad shares elements with the lyric poets' conception of ***habrosyne*** - consider, for example, the emphasis in both cases on gold ornaments, wine, sensuality and fine poetry. Trojans and Achaeans in the Iliad seem to embody an opposition analogous to the competing ideologies of the lyric poets Kurke analyses. The geographical location of a sixth century rhapsodic guild known as the Homeridai of Chios makes the comparison the more alluring. The difference is that, as I have been suggesting, it is much harder to establish that the Iliad either promotes or denigrates such a lifestyle.

Nevertheless, a few related observations may be made, albeit speculatively. At the beginning of the fifth century, the construction of *habrosyne* came to be almost universally negative, since the luxurious lifestyle it advocated was opposed to the ideology of the *polis*.[14] The testimony of the Attic orators informs us of the approving attitude taken towards the rich when they expended their wealth on the state, as opposed to the criticisms of rich men who put their wealth towards their own aristocractic lifestyle.[15] One point which is interesting in this connection is that the Achaean culture of the Iliad , and not the Trojan, does seem to represent something more like the developed city-state, in which.citizens were encouraged to value allegiance to the polis over their connections with

[14]Ian Morris sees the opposed trends Kurke discovers as an indication of early "democratic" movements or attitudes - this point was made in a paper delivered in Washington on April 16th 1993, as part of the conference *Democracy Ancient and Modern* Possibly there are some "democratic" influences on the representation of the Achaeans. Certainly the "linguistic hierarchy" (Chapter 1) of the Achaean assemblies is not very democratic - although they might exemplify *isêgoria* amongst the élite (cf. Raaflaub 1980). The situation in the Achaean assemblies is still very different from that of the Trojan ones (Chapters 1 and 4), which are tyrannised over by Hektor (Chapter 1).
[15]Ober 1989 pp.206-208.

foreign *xenoi*.[16] Once again, I would not wish to suggest that the Iliad necessarily *promotes* the ideology of the polis, as opposed to the old aristocratic lifestyle of the Trojans. But I think that the contrast between the portraits of Achaean and Trojan cultures in the Iliad might raise some interesting questions, deserving of further investigation, about the dating of the poem amongst other matters. It will be noticed that this potentially undercuts my original working hypothesis - that the representation of the Trojans in the Iliad is influenced by eighth century Panhellenism.

### *Hektor and Achilles: The Polis and the Hero*

But even supposing that we could arrive at a plausible political and historical context for the antithetical representations of Achaean and Trojan culture in the Iliad, a fundamental question would remain. That question has to do with the role of the hero vis-à-vis the *polis*. For it is a remarkable feature of the poem that Hektor and Achilles both resist identification with the cultures they represent. Hektor, as I have already observed, takes to an extreme the Trojan tendency towards introspection, manifested in his "poetic" language (Chapter 3). Nevertheless, he resists this "defensive", inward policy in his actions, if not in his words. Hence Andromache's complaint that Hektor will never fight ἐν πλήθυι , but must always go out ahead of the other warriors.[17] Hektor twice resists the defensive policy of Poulydamas, once in Book 12, when Poulydamas urges Hektor and the Trojans not to go out to the Achaean ships,[18] and once in Book 18, when Poulydamas urgently exhorts them to withdraw into the city for the night.[19] Finally, Hektor insists,

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[16]Cf. Herman 1987 for discussion of the tension between loyalty to *xenoi* and loyalty to the polis. It could be problematic to stress simultaneously the Panhellenic nature of the Greek expedition to Troy, involving many city-states, *and* the fact that its members behave like the members of *one* polis , divided into tribes and phratries. On the other hand, perhaps this is a legitimate way of evoking the concept of Panhellenism.
[17]22.458.
[18]12.210-229.
[19]18. 254-283.

though "defensively", that he will fight Achilles "face-to-face".[20]

Amongst the Achaeans, Achilles refuses to speak the heroic language which is expected of him. Instead he adopts the language of blame, distorts the language of instruction, and adopts the alternating *personae* of the blame and the wisdom poet. He does not accept the *timê* with which the other Achaeans honour him. Styling himself an alien, or *metanastês*, he displays a sympathy for the Trojans, rather than allegiance towards the members of his own side, his "fellow-citizens". He seems to place connections of *xenia* with the Trojans higher than loyalty to Aias and the other Achaean heroes (Chapter 4). In short, Achilles leans more towards the "aristocratic" style of the Trojans, even though, as an outsider in the midst of the Achaeans, he speaks the language of blame.

In Book 22, Hektor wrestles with his Trojan tendencies, debating with himself whether to negotiate with Achilles, or whether to fight with him in front of the city (22.99.-107). He is afraid that he will earn the reproaches of Poulydamas, and lose the respect (*aidôs* ) of the Trojans for ruining the *laos* by fighting Achilles in front of the city (22.100). In other words, Hektor quite rightly expects to earn the reproach of the Trojans by abandoning the Trojan defensive policy. Nevertheless he does so. He does so because as a hero, he wishes to stand outside of, over and above his army and his community. He wants to die not ἀσπουδί γε καὶ ἀκλεΐως (22.304), but μέγα ῥέξας τι καὶ ἐσσομένοισι πυθέσθαι (22.305). In other words, the *kleos* he gets within Troy, which he fears he will *lose* by fighting Achilles in front of the city, is not enough. He is in quest of something greater; - namely the universal *kleos* of Homeric poetry.[21]

Similarly with Achilles. Achilles rejects the *timê* of the Achaeans in favour of something better. In Book 9 he tells Phoenix "I have no need of this *timê* , and refers instead to his *timê* from Zeus (9.608). Within the context of the Achaean community as it

[20]22.307.

[21]Compare the distinction Nagy draws between the occasional *kleos* of Pindaric poetry, and the *kleos* of Homeric epic (Nagy 1990 pp.146-198)

is set up, there is no room for Achilles' superior force as a warrior. Achilles does not fight for the Achaeans, but to avenge Patroklos, whose name refers to the "glory of the ancestors"[22] - an aristocratic conception.[23] He uses non-heroic language, Hesiodic style instead of Homeric style poetry, to signify that Achaean culture literally and figuratively "cramps his style" because it makes no room for the hero. But in private, he sings the *klea andrôn*[24] - taken by some to depict Achilles singing his own *kleos*.

In other words, when Hektor and Achilles contend for *kleos* outside the city of Troy, they contend - as *heroes* - for something longer lasting than either of the cultural systems they respectively reject. To return to the words which I quoted in my beginning, Hektor does *not* "appear all the more deeply *human*[25] just because he dies fighting for Troy". And the ethos of Homeric poetry is not one of universal ***humanity***; - its transcendent quality is of another nature.[26] For in the last analysis, Homeric epic programmatically reasserts its authority to transcend individual cultural systems and the occasional, culture-specific poetic traditions of praise and blame. Ultimately, Achilles and Hektor fight neither for humanity, *nor* for the Achaeans or for the Trojans, but because they desire their deeds to become the stuff of the songs of heroes, the *klea andrôn* , which are - to use the words of Hektor - things ἐσσομένοισι πυθέσθαι[27]- " to be told to the men to come".

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[22]Nagy 1979 p.102.
[23]Cf. Ober 1989 p.262 on Hyperides 6.6-7. Under the democracy, Athenian citizens were encouraged to subordinate individual nobility of birth to the communal noble inheritance of fallen soldiers, the representatives of the Athenian *demos*.
[24]9.189.
[25]Italics mine.

[26] For the references, see my *Introduction* p.1.
[27]22.305.

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